

A GRAMMAR
OF
COLLOQUIAL CHINESE,
AS EXHIBITED IN THE
SHANGHAI DIALECT,

BY
J. EDKINS, B.A., Univ. Coll. Lond.

Of the London Missionary Society.

SECOND EDITION, CORRECTED.

SHANGHAI:
PRESBYTERIAN MISSION PRESS.

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Title: A Grammar of Colloquial Chinese, as Exhibited in the Shanghai Dialect

Author: Joseph Edkins

Release date: May 14, 2020 [eBook #62128]

Most recently updated: October 18, 2024

Language: English

Other information and formats: www.gutenberg.org/ebooks/62128

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PREFACE

TO FIRST EDITION 1853.

Among works on Chinese Grammar, that of Prémare, written a century and a half ago, still stands preeminent. Besides a more extended knowledge, he possessed a better appreciation of the peculiar beauties of Chinese style, than any other writer on the subject. But it has been justly remarked that his work, abounding in good examples, is deficient in order, and the exhibition of principles. Remusat, in his accurate and learned work, has made great use of Prémare, but he has given less attention than his predecessor, to those numerous groups, in which ideas or sounds are repeated, and he says nothing on propositions. The deficiency that the reader of these works feels in the treatment of groups of words, has been pointed out by Bazin in his clever Essay on Colloquial Mandarin. He quotes the section on words, in Gutzlaff's Notices on Chinese Grammar, containing a classification of compound words. Partly from the suggestion of that work, and more from his own researches, he has constructed a comprehensive system of grouped words (*mots composés*).

The little work now in the hands of the reader, is an attempt to elucidate colloquial Chinese, by taking a limited field of enquiry, that of the dialect of a single district. By this means it has been hoped, something might be done to help the causes of Chinese philology, by collecting facts, which writers having a wider scope, have overlooked.

There are aids for the study of the southern dialects of China, but no one has yet written on the speech of the rich and populous province of Kiáng-nán. On Missionary and Commercial grounds, it is time that some attempt should be made to supply this want.

The mandarin student will meet with scarcely any new idioms here. Of words, there are a few tens not used in the fashionable colloquial. It is in sounds that the greatest variation exists, and an attempt has therefore been

made to form a correct nomenclature for tones, and for the alphabetic elements of spoken words. For the latter, Sir W. Jones' system, as introduced by J. R. Morrison in the Chinese Repository, has, with a few necessary modifications, been adopted as by far the best.

For the tones, a new nomenclature is here proposed, based on their real character, as distinct from the arbitrary names, which, though they doubtless represented exactly the tones used by their author, are not applicable, except for convenience sake, to those of other dialects.

Upwards of twenty natural tones, from which each dialect chooses its own set, varying from four to eight, are here described. The early Roman Catholic Missionaries wrote much on this singular characteristic of spoken Chinese, but Bayer in his abstract of their system, in the Museum Sinicum, has not given a very intelligible account of it.

Attention has been paid throughout to the mode of grouping words, as a subject second to none in interest and importance. Some similarity, though an independent one, will be found here to the system adopted by M. Bazin.

The grammars of Morrison and Marshman, beside the excellent works already alluded to, have been of occasional service, especially the latter, which with all its diffuseness, is a useful and suggestive book.

The assistance of friends has been kindly afforded. To Dr. Medhurst special thanks are due, for revising the sheets as they passed through the press, thus adding much to the correctness of the work; and to Rev. T. M'Clatchie, for material assistance in regard to the laws of Shanghai tones.

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RULES FOR USING THE ORTHOGRAPHY HERE ADOPTED.

1. The accent marks long vowels í, é, á, ó, ú, pronounced as the vowel in feel, fail, father, foal, fool.
2. Vowels not accented are the five short vowels corresponding to these; e.g. in fin, fen, fan, fop, fun.
3. The remaining vowels are ö, ü, au, û, eu, pronounced as in könig, une, auburn, , .
4. The initial consonants k, t, p, f, s, are pronounced high and with the English and Scotch sound. When k, t, p, take an aspirate as in the pronunciation of some parts of Ireland and the United States, they are written k', t', p'. These with the vowels and h' a strong aspirate, constitute the upper series.
5. The initials g, d, b, y, z with ng, n, m, l, rh, a soft aspirate *h*, and vowel initials form the lower series. The italic k, t, etc., are to be

pronounced two full musical notes lower than the roman k, t, etc., and are counted as the same with g, d, &c.

6. The nasals m, ng, n, without a vowel are italicised.
7. Final n when italicised is pronounced very indistinctly.
8. The superior commas on the left and right of a word, mark the second and third tones. Final h, k and g, indicate the short tone. Words not thus marked are all in the first tone.

The series is known by the initial as in the native mode of spelling, Fan-t'sih. The capital letters denote dialects as—

S. Shánghái sound.

M. Mandarin „

C. Colloquial „

R. Reading „

A GRAMMAR
OF THE
SHANGHAI DIALECT,

PART 1. ON SOUND.

Section 1. Alphabet.

1. The alphabetical symbols we shall need to employ are the following:—

Symbols.	Pronunciation and Examples.
á	as <i>a</i> in father; k'á, wipe; pá', worship.
a	as <i>a</i> in sand, or in hat; k'an, lead; lah, wax.
au	as in Paul, or as <i>a</i> in fall, or <i>o</i> in gone; 'lau, old. Aú expresses the mandarin sound.
b or p	as in ping', sickness; sáng bing', to be sick.
d or t	as in tau', doctrine; zun dau', men canonized for their virtues.
dz	a compound of <i>d</i> and <i>z</i> ; dzing', exhaust.
dzz	do. as <i>dze</i> in adze. The second <i>z</i> marks a peculiar vowel sound which is sometimes between <i>i</i> and <i>e</i> , dzz, to leave.
é	as <i>ai</i> in fail, or <i>a</i> in male; lé, come.
e	as <i>e</i> in led or let; seh, ten.
eu	nearly as <i>ou</i> in cousin lengthened; 'seu, hand. Eú expresses the mandarin sound, as <i>ow</i> in cow.
f	as in fú, or kiau' fû, chair-bearer.
g or k	as in kí, he, before <i>i</i> , <i>ü</i> often heard like <i>j</i> ; kóng' tsóng', altogether.
h	a feeble aspirate, often lost; heh, combine; hwong, emperor. When quite lost, as in the latter word, it will be omitted.
h and h'	a strong guttural aspirate, nearly equivalent to <i>sh</i> when occurring before <i>í</i> and <i>ü</i> ; 'hé, sea; 'h'í, glad. Before <i>í</i> and <i>ü</i> , the superior comma will be used.
í	as <i>i</i> in marine; sí, west.
i	as <i>i</i> in sing or sit; sing, heart.
dj	nearly as <i>j</i> in June; djü', preface. This sound may also be read <i>z</i> . The natives use either.

Symbols.	Pronunciation and Examples.
k	'kú kiun, <i>ancient and modern</i> .
k'	a strongly aspirated sound k'ung, <i>empty</i> . It is often mistaken by foreign ears when occurring before i and ü, for the aspirated c'h but should be separated from that sound in careful pronunciation; k'í', <i>go</i> ; usually heard chi' aspirated. [1]
l	'li, <i>propriety</i> .
m or m	'mí, <i>rice</i> ; m méh, <i>there is no more</i> .
n	, 'nü, <i>woman</i> .
ng or ng	a nasal consonant used at the beginning or close of a syllable. When no distinct vowel sound accompanies it, it is marked ng; kong, <i>river</i> ; 'ngú I; 'ng, <i>five</i>
au, en, ün	a slight nasal, best heard before another word; tan', <i>but</i> ; 'kén, <i>dare</i> ; kûn, <i>dry</i> ; sün', <i>count</i> ; pèn 'tsén, <i>to whirl round</i> .
ó	as o in go; p'ô', <i>fear</i> .
o	as o in gong and got; tong, <i>ought, bear</i> ; loh, <i>fall</i> .
ö	as ö in Göthe; tön, <i>correct</i> ; k'ön', <i>see</i> ; töh, <i>rob</i> .
p	pí, <i>compare</i> .
p'	as p with a strong aspirate; p'í', <i>like</i> .
rh	a peculiar Chinese sound, the same as in mandarin; rh, <i>and</i> .
s	'sú, <i>which, therefore</i> .
sz	a peculiar Chinese sibilant, [2] pronounced as in mandarin, and nearly as <i>se</i> in <i>castle</i> , <i>whistle</i> , t, l, being supposed omitted; sz, <i>poetry</i> .
t	tú, <i>many</i> .
t'	as t with a strong aspirate; t'ú <i>to draw</i> .
ts	tsú', <i>do</i> .
ts'	the last strongly aspirated; ts'ieu, <i>Autumn</i> .
tsz	a peculiar Chinese sibilant, pronounced as in mandarin, as <i>ts</i> in <i>hats</i> ; 'tsz, <i>a son</i> ; tsz, <i>know</i> .
ts'z	the above with a strong aspirate ts'z, <i>female</i> .
ú	as u in rule; sú', <i>common, plain</i> .

Symbols.	Pronunciation and Examples.
u	as <i>u</i> in <i>run</i> ; <i>mun</i> , <i>door</i> ; 'tung, <i>wait</i> .
ü	French <i>u</i> as in <i>vertu</i> ; German <i>ü</i> as in <i>Tübingen</i> ; <i>hü</i> <i>empty</i> .
û	ts'û' <i>place</i> . This vowel is between <i>ó</i> and <i>ú</i> .
v or f	<i>feh</i> , <i>Buddha</i> ; <i>fong</i> , <i>house</i> . More of <i>v</i> than <i>f</i> .
w	<i>kwong</i> , <i>light</i> ; <i>wong</i> , <i>king</i> .
y	<i>yeu'</i> , <i>right-hand</i> ; <i>yau'</i> , <i>to want</i> .
z or s	<i>siáng'</i> , <i>elephant</i> ; <i>zú'</i> , <i>sit</i> .

An apostrophe ' preceding the word, denotes the second tone.

A comma ' following the word, denotes the third tone.

The fourth tone will be written with *h*, *k* or *g* final.

Words left unmarked are in the first tone. ^[3]

[1] When a native is asked whether k'i' or c'hi' is the more correct pronunciation of he replies the former. Yet the orthography by c'hi' seems to the foreigner more like the true sound. The fact is that the sound is in a state of transition from k'i to c'hi.

[2] This sound is better described as *s* and a peculiar vowel *ï* or *t*, *s*, and *ï*. The mark *ï* denotes a vowel peculiar to China but like *e* in *castle*.

[3] The further subdivision into upper and lower tones needs no mark, being indicated uniformly by the initial letter. Thus, *b*, *g*, *d*, *z*, *l*, *m*, *n*, *r*, and any letters italicized are in the lower tones; other initial letters denote upper tones. There are a few exceptions which will be noted afterwards. A *final* italic letter denotes a nasal.

2. Mandarin pronunciation wants several of these sounds. Among the vowels, the short *a* and *e* together with *û* are omitted, and *au*, *eu*, are lengthened into *aú*, *eú*. Among the consonants, *b*, *d*, *g*, *dj*, *m ng*, *n*, *dz*, *dzz*, *v* and *z* are wanting.

3. The Shánghái dialect is deficient in the *sh*, *ch* and soft *j* of mandarin and of Sú-cheú pronunciation.

4. Of the above sounds, those foreign to the English, language, and therefore needing particular attention, are the following:—

Of vowels, *eu* as in 'k'eu, *mouth*; *ö* as in ön, *rest*. *û* as in tsûn, *to bore*. A final *r* should be carefully avoided in these three sounds. *Oe* is not so common in this dialect as in that of Sú-cheú, where it occurs in jön, *boat*, 'mön, *full*, etc., etc. The vowel *ü*, (French *u*), is often convertible with *û*. Thus sû, *book* is pronounced *sü* at Súng-kiáng and to the east of the Hwáng-p'ú, while it becomes *sz* in Paú-shán district.

Of consonants, note well the sibilants sz, tsz, dzz, with rh, and the nasals *m, n, ng*, also the strong aspirate *h'*; also the three aspirated mutes *p', k', t'*, and *ng* at the beginning of a syllable.

5. The native arrangement of the alphabet, as found in the tables prefixed to K'áng-hí's Dictionary, is borrowed from the Sanscrit.^[1] The natural order of the letters as formed by the organs of speech, is as far as possible preserved, and the system adopted contrasts advantageously with the irregularity of the English and other alphabets. The pronunciation there registered is what Chinese authors call the Nán yin, *Southern pronunciation*, as it was early in the Christian era. It probably agrees in the main with the modern speech of Sú-cheú, Háng-chú and the surrounding cities. That the pronunciation of Sháng-hiá is one of its dialects, appears from the slightest examination of the tables in question. It is characterized by the same division into Yin and Yáng, i.e. hard and soft, or thin and broad consonants, which form the basis of arrangement, in those tables, and agrees in many of the details. Vide Appendix on K'áng-hí's tables of Initials and Finals.

[1] Vide Preface to Morrison's Dictionary, and Marshman's Clavis Sinica. None of the western alphabets appear to have been so scientifically arranged as the Sanscrit.

6. In the native system, while the consonants are accurately distinguished, the initial vowels are placed together, under only two heads. In this respect therefore, we depart from it in the following table. The initials *sh, zh, ch, f'*, and some others are also omitted as not applicable to our dialect. The imperfect nasal consonants are inserted, though as local variations they have no place in the native tables. In naming the classes, western terms have been adopted.

Tabular view of the alphabetic sounds of the Shánghái dialect.

Fifteen vowels.	
Quantity of syll.	Value.
long or short.	á father
do.	a hand, back
long	au Paul
do.	é May

Fifteen vowels.	
short	e let
long	eu cousin
do.	í marine
long or short.	i sing
do.	ó go
do.	o long, lock
do.	ö Göthe
long	ú rule
long or short.	u sun, suck
long	ü Tübingen
do.	û as in s û

Thirty three consonants.					
	High		Low		
	Thin	Asperated	Broad	Nasals & Liquids	Imperfect nasals
Mutes	k, t, p	k', t', p'	g, d, b	ng, n, m	<i>ng, n, m</i>
Labio-dentals	f		v		
Sibilants and aspirates	s, sz, tz, tsz, h'	ts', ts'z	z, zz, dz, dj, dzz, h	ni	
Semi-vocals				l, rh	

If from these consonants, we subtract the combinations of t and d, with s and z, the aspirated mutes, and ní, as capable of resolution, there remain twenty three in all. Of those that are left, sz and zz may also be supposed to be made up of s, z, and an indistinct vowel ĭ, heard in English after the l of beetle, needle, etc.

Section 2. On the Tones.

7. In order to determine the position of the Shánghái *patois* among the dialects of China, something must be said on tones generally. Chinese

pronunciation may for our present purpose, be considered in three or more general divisions, according to the number of tones.

(1.) The first of these is the Northern mandarin. Pih yin, where four or five tones are in use. It is the pronunciation of the Emperor's court, and professedly of the government officers throughout the empire. It is also spoken in considerable purity in the parts north of the Yáng tsz Kiáng (hence its name), and in the provinces of Sz-ch'uen, Kwei-cheú, Yün-nán, and parts of Kwangsi and Hunan.

(2.) The second in the Southern pronunciation, Nán yin, spoken in the part of Kiáng-sú, that is south of the Yáng-tsz'-kiáng, in Cheh-kiáng and part of Kiáng-sí. This is mainly the pronunciation out of which the mandarin grew and which is followed in the Dictionaries, from K'áng-hí upwards, nearly to the Hán dynasty.^[1] The tones are four in number, each subdivided into kaú and tí, upper and lower, or as they are also denominated yin and yáng, feminine and masculine. These upper and lower series of tones are also distinguished, by different initial consonants, the one taking g, d, b, v, z, etc., and the other k, t, p, f, s, etc. The variations that exist even between contiguous districts, are very numerous, a circumstance which furnishes a mark of distinction between this part of China and the mandarin provinces, where orthographical differences are few.

(3.) The pronunciation of the other provinces presents many extensive departures from the true mandarin. The tones are seven or eight in number, and are often found inverted in position, as well as contradictory in nature to the names they bear. The Fúh-kien and Canton dialects have long been the subject of foreign study, and have received abundant illustration. Ngán-hwei and Kiangsi have also many eccentricities of pronunciation.

[1] Vide in K'áng-hí, the Fán-ts'eih spelling, quoted from the previously existing Dictionaries. In K'áng-hí's table of sounds, the former model is to some extent departed from, in favour of the Northern mandarin. The terms are common both in books, and in the conversation of the natives. Mandarin pronunciation has also its dictionaries, such as , but it is the old tonic dictionaries and new works founded on them to which reference is here made.

8. The tones may be partially described according to their natural character. In attempting this, we intentionally avoid for the present, the usual Chinese terms *ping, even, záng, rising, k'ü', going, zeh, entering*, because, being the same in all dialects, they do not in the majority of cases, represent the actual effect of the sounds on the ear. When first

adopted in the reign of Liang wu ti, A.D. 402 to 450, they must have represented the tones of the dialect, spoken by Shen yoh^[1] the writer who selected them a native of Hu cheu only 100 miles from Sháng-hái. But when applied according to universal practice, to the sounds given to the same characters in other parts of the empire, these four names convey no idea of the actual pronunciation. The descriptions given of the tones by native authors, are consequently often incomprehensible.

A. *Upper acute tone*. We pronounce monosyllabic words, when speaking with moderate emphasis, in a quick descending tone. It is heard in commands as Gó, Fíre, Go at ônce. In naming any object, English speakers usually adopt this intonation for a monosyllable, or the penultimate of a dissyllable. It might be called the affirmative tone. It represents the záng' bing, or upper first tone at Sháng-hái and Sú-cheú, as t'íen *heaven*; while in the dialect of Amoy, it is the second, and in the mandarin of Pe-king, the first tone.

B. *Upper even tone*. This is a sound without deflection like a long note in music, and is not so common in English conversation as the former. When high in key, it is in Sháng-hái the upper second tone, as in sz; *water*; hú, *fire*, t'ú, *earth*. In Sz-ch'uen mandarin, and in the Fúh-kien of Amoy, it is the upper first tone.

C. *Upper quick rising tone*. This is nearly like the *staccato* of musical notation, and is usually heard in interjections of surprise and indignation, and frequently in questions. If quick and high, it is in Sháng-hái the upper third tone, as sing, *a letter*, ts'é, *vegetables*. In Pe-king mandarin. It is the lower first tone.

D. *Upper slow rising tone*. This is a prolonged intonation rising more slowly than the last, and is not needed for the Sháng-hái dialect.

E. *Upper short tone*. This is the intonation of syllables short in quantity. Long and short quantity may be predicated of vowels or of syllables. In Latin, the short *ă* of *m-ă-gis*, becomes long by position in *magnus*. The converse of this example takes place in Sháng-hái pronunciation, where the long and short *a* and *o* are all found in a short tone.^[2] In such cases, we write them all with a final *h*; the presence or absence of the accent marking the quantity of the vowel, while that of *h* marks the quantity of the syllable; as in sáh, *wet*; sah, in Pú sah, *disciple of Buddha*; k'óh *weep*; oh, *wicked*. This tone might be divided into two, as it ascends or descends; but

as only the former occurs in Sháng-hái sounds, we count but one of these, to avoid too great subdivision.

F. *Lower acute tone*. In proceeding to tones in a lower pitch of voice, we enumerate them in an order corresponding to that followed above; thus the same natural description, except as regards key, will readily apply to them. The lower acute tone is not needed for the Shánghái sounds, except in cases of combination. In the Sú-cheú dialect, it represents the lower second tone, while in Fúh-kien, if set very low, it will be the upper third tone.

G. *Lower even tone*. A low musical sound without deflection. It is the lower first tone at Sháng-hái, as in nung, *can*. , má, *bury*. In the mandarin of Nán-king, it is the upper first tone, while in the dialect of Amoy, it is the lower third tone.

H. *Lower quick rising tone*. This intonation is nearly that of any common word, when spoken interrogatively, as I? Yes? Indeed? It is the lower third tone of Sháng-hái, and the lower first of Nán-king and Amoy.

I. *Lower slow rising tone*. This is the intonation of remonstrance as in “Et tù Brute,” if tù were spoken in a deep and rather lengthened tone. So in many antithetical sentences, as “We seek not yòurs but yóú,” the former accented word is in a low slow rising tone, and the latter in a quick falling tone. Writers on Elocution mark them with the grave and acute, accents respectively.

J. *Lower short tone*. The remarks appended to the corresponding upper tone apply also to this. hoh dzih, *to learn and practice*.

K. *Upper circumflex*. This is an intonation high in key and having two deflections, apparently ascending and descending. It may be quick or slow in time. It is not used in Sháng-hái pronunciation. When slow it is the second tone of Nán-king.

L. *Lower circumflex*. This corresponds to the preceding in character and time, but differs from it in key. When, quick, it is the lower first tone of the district east of Sú-cheú.

[1] Shen yoh was high in favour with the emperor Liang wu ti whose capital was Nanking. Nan shí c. 57.

[2] If different symbols were invented for the long and short vowels, so that syllables only should be considered long and short, this anomaly would disappear. All alphabets are deficient in vowel marks.

9. While selecting most of their tones from those thus described, some dialects would require a more minute subdivision, and perhaps two high and two low divisions of each series might be found necessary. The preceding arrangement however, will be sufficient to give some conception of the variety of tonic effects, whether harmonious or discordant the listener must judge, existing in the speech of China. If it be recollected that independently of these differences in tones, there are also numberless variations in the alphabetic form of the sounds, an accurate knowledge of so Protean a language might seem unattainable, were it not that the characters are everywhere the same. What one pronounces in a high shrill accent, and another in a prolonged whine, and another in a low musical intonation, they all write in the same form; and if asked what is its tone, they give the same reply.

The Chinese have themselves described the tones according to their natural character. We quote the following translation of some verses in K'áng-hí's Dictionary, from Medhurst's Hok-kien Dictionary.

“The even tone travels on a level road, neither elevated nor depressed.

“The high tone exclaims aloud, being fierce, violent, and strong.

“The departing tone is distinct and clear, gruffly travelling to a distance.

“The entering tone is short and contracted, being hastily gathered up.”^[1]

This description must be taken as answering to the tones spoken by the native writer from whom it is taken.

^[1]

10. The terms used by the Chinese to describe sounds in reference to tones, are such as—

, kau tí, *high and low (key of the tone)*.

, yun yáng, *high and low (key of the tone)*.

, wén' kih, *slow and quick (time of the tone)*.

ping tsáh, *even, deflected*. is further divided into záng',
k'ü', zeh, *rising, departing, entering*.

To these we add to express quantity apart from tone:—

dzáng, 'dön,^[1] *long and short (time in reference to the syllables)*.

These terms include all the principles, on which our arrangement of natural tones has been made: thus—

The first two pairs define the upper and lower tones.

The third pair embraces differences in time, the quick and slow tones.

The fourth pair includes even tones and those having deflections, which may rise or fall, and be one or two in number.

The fifth pair distinguishes the three first tones from the fourth.

In an article in the Chinese Repository on the Birmese and Shán languages (Vol. V. page 71), there are some facts respecting tones as employed in those countries. The Sháns, inhabiting the country that separates Birmah from China, have two deflected tones rising and falling respectively, two tones short in quantity also rising and falling, and a low even tone.

The Birmese have the two deflected tones, and one short tone.

The Shán language is fundamentally the same as the Siamese, which also has tones.

[1] This is one of the words where d is heard in the upper series instead of t. Other cases of departures from the usual law will be subsequently pointed out.

11. TABLE OF TONES IN SEVERAL DIALECTS. [1]

i. MANDARIN TONES.

Tones	Nan-King	Pe-king	Hó-nan K'ai-fung	Sz-ch'uen
Upper First,	l, e,	u, e, or u, q, f,	u, q, e,	u, e,
Second,	l, s, r,	l, q, r,	l, q, r,	q, f,
Third,	q, f,	l, q, f,	l, q, f,	l, s, r,
Fourth,	sh,	u, e, l, q, r, l, q, f, &c.	u, q, e, l, q, r, l, q, r,	l, q, e, or l, q, f,
Lower first,	l, q, r,	l, q, r,	u, q, r,	l, q, e, or l, q, f

ii. KIANG-NAN AND CHEH-KIANG.

	Tones	Sú-cheú	Sháng-hái	Ning-pó
Upper Series	First,	u, q, f,	u, q, f,	u, q, f,

Lower Series	Second,	u, e,	u, e,	u, s, r,
	Third,	u, s, r,	u, q, r,	u, e,
	Fourth,	u, sh,	u, sh,	u, sh,
	First,	l, q, r,	l, e,	l, s, c, q, f,
	Second,	l, q, f,	l, s, r,	l, s, r,
	Third,	l, s, r,	l, q, r,	l, s, r, or e,
	Fourth,	l, sh,	l, sh,	l, sh,

iii. FUH-KIEN.

Tones		Amoy and Cháng-cheú
Upper,	first,	u, e,
do.	second,	u, q, f,
do.	third,	l, f,
do.	fouth.	u, sh, f,
Lower,	first,	l, q, r,
do.	second,	u, q, f,
do.	third,	l, e,
do.	fouth.	u, sh, f,

[1] u, upper. l, lower. r, rising. f, falling. q, quick. s, slow. e, even. c, circumflex. sh, short.

12. Nán-king is here placed among those that belong to the or Northern Mandarin division. A native author^[1] says, that this city and two others Hwái yáng and Sū hái use the northern pronunciation.

The large Dictionaries are uniform in the adoption of the pronunciation in our (ii.) division, as their basis of spelling. They usually speak of only four tones, distinguishing the upper from the lower by the initial letter. This is also the universal practice among the educated class *vivâ voce*. They do not speak of *tí' emperor* and *dí' earth*, as different in tone, the one the upper third tone, the other the lower, but as different in the alphabetical form *tí, dí*.

The division into eight tones is preferable for a foreign reader, because (1) there is a difference in elevation of voice, *tí'* being at an interval of a fourth in the musical scale more or less, higher than *dí'*. (2) Although the third and fourth tones, upper and lower, are deflected at Sháng-hái in a similar way, so that they may be regarded as the same tones, this is not the case with the first and second, which differ decidedly in character.

The fourth tone in the Póh yun, class (i.) is in the Northern provinces, long in quantity. The words included under it are distributed among the other tones, and must be learnt separately, in order that they may be correctly pronounced; e.g. of words written *chúh*, some such as , , are at K'ai-fóng-fú in the upper first tone, while , , are in the lower first tone.^[2]

[1] Vide . The author was a native of Peking.

[2] The analogy between the Chinese tones and the Greek accents probably led the Catholic Missionaries to call the former *accentus*. The distinction between accent and quantity which existed in Greek, has been found also in Sanscrit in the Vedas. (Vide Bopp's Sanscrit Grammar, section 80.) In both, there were three accents, acute, grave and circumflex. The grave is described as the negation of the acute and to be understood where that mark is not written. The acute was a rising in tone; while the circumflex is said to have raised and depressed the tone on the same syllable. (Vide Valpy's, Greek Grammar.) Taking accent and quantity together, we obtain four distinctions of sound, which is the nominal number of tones in Chinese. The fundamental difference in the structure of polysyllabic and monosyllabic languages prevents the analogy from being carried far; the tones in one case being fixed to syllables, and in the other to words. But when it is remembered that those two branches of the great Indo-European stem are among the most ancient of languages, not much later in origin than the Chinese itself, and one of them its geographical neighbour, the fact of these delicate differences of sound existing till now in that language, becomes interesting as throwing light on some of the most precious remains of the literature of the past. Grammarians would not speak with such hesitation, as they do, when describing these peculiar intonations of the civilized races of the old world, if they had heard and could discriminate the Chinese tones. Late speculations on the change in language-forming power that has taken place in modern times, have referred to the gradual diminution of inflexions in new languages, and to other circumstances, as instances of it. From these has been argued the decay of a certain faculty once possessed by the human race. The limited use of accents fixed to words in newly-formed languages, may be viewed as another illustration of it. Clearly-marked alphabetical differences, as now preferred to those nicer distinctions of sounds, which perhaps were familiar alike to the most cultivated branches of the Great Arian family, and to the ancient and modern Chinese. It may be added that the use of many of the Hebrew accents is but imperfectly known in modern times.

Section 3. On the Shanghai tones.

13. We shall illustrate the tones one by one with numerous examples, adding a translation for the use of those who wish to acquire at the same time, a vocabulary of common phrases. We have hitherto regarded tones as they are heard, when the sound is enunciated emphatically and single. But there are certain changes which occur in combinations of two or more

words in rapid conversation, which can be only explained by examples of such groups arranged in separate columns. In the observations appended to each table, the more prominent of these variations will be pointed out, and the place of the accent determined.^[1]

The vowel marks employed in this work are repeated here, that the eye of the reader may be familiarized with them:—

Long vowels.		Short vowels.		Other vowels.	
á	rather.	a	sang.	au	au Paul.
é	ray.	e	set.	eu	eu as in teu.
í	read.	i	sing.	ö	Göthe.
ó	road.	o	song.	ü	vertu.
ú	rude.	u	sung.	û	as in sû.

In writing mandarin, the following will also be used:—

aú á, ú, combined. Prolongation of au.

eú cow. Prolongation of eu.

ei kine. The Greek, ei.

The accents denote long vowels, and a symbol is never used for more than one sound. This is the principle of the orthography usually called Sir W. Jones' system. It was proposed by the Hon. J. R. Morrison in 1836, in the Chinese Repository, (vol, 5, page 22), for application to the Chinese language. For this part of China, modifications are needed in the details, and hence the differences in the system here adopted, from that described by the writer of that article, and in Williams' Chinese Vocabulary, etc.

The long vowels all have, what is called in England, the Italian pronunciation.

The sound eu is something like the French *eu* in *douleur*, or the common short English u as in *bun* prolonged 'or the corresponding mandarin sound eú as in 'k'eú, Premare uses *eou*, and Klaproth *eu*; from them we have borrowed it. In the lengthened form, it is a diphthong eú or uú, as in English *cloud*. The shorter form eu has no exact English equivalent.

^[1] In an Essay on the Hok-kien tones by the Rev. S. Dyer of Malacca, descriptions of them with a musical notation are given. Tables of examples for groups of two like those we now give, but without the Chinese characters, are annexed.

14. *The upper first tone.* This is the common quick falling sound, usually given in. English pronunciation, to any monosyllable when standing alone, and spoken with emphasis.

kwó, <i>melon.</i>	tsúng, <i>bell.</i>
fóng, <i>wind.</i>	tú, <i>many.</i>
k'iung, <i>light.</i>	fí, <i>to fly.</i>

That it may be readily compared with the other tones, by such as have a native assistant at hand, some examples are here given of the same alphabetical sound, varied according to the four upper tones.

hí 'hí hí' hih
tú 'tú tú' tóh,
k'ú 'k'ú k'ú' k'óh,

In the fourth word of each series, the vowels change, í into i, and ú into ó. The Chinese regard them as different only in tone; to a foreign ear, the difference is one both of time, as the syllables are long and short, and of vowels sound, as the long *i* becomes short *i*, and long *u* becomes long *o*.

15. As examples of combination, take first those which have the upper first tone in the penultimate, (p, s, k, j, in roman type, represent the four upper tones in their order; in italic type, the lower).

Tones.	Place of the Accent.	
p.p.	kiun tsau, <i>to-day,</i>	ult.
	siáng kóng, <i>sir, husband,</i>	„
	kúng fú, <i>work,</i>	pen.
	tong tsóng, <i>in the middle,</i>	ult.
p.s.	t'ien ting, <i>the zenith,</i>	„
	tú sau, <i>how many?</i>	„
	un tsû, <i>benefactor,</i>	„
p.k.	tsun tsung, <i>truly,</i>	„
	siang sing, <i>believe, be fond of,</i>	„
	sáng kí, (c'h) <i>sound of voice,</i>	pen.
p.j.	tsúng kóh, <i>China,</i>	„
	wan k'ióh, (c'h) <i>winding, crooked,</i>	ult.
p.p.	tsóng niön, <i>China,</i>	„

Tones.	Place of the Accent.	
	t'ien dong, <i>heaven</i> ,	„
	ts'á niun, <i>a messenger</i> ,	pen.
p.s.	t'ien lí, <i>heavenly reason</i> ,	ult.
	tsong mén, <i>to pack full</i> ,	„
	sing mí, <i>new rice</i> ,	pen.
p.k.	t'ien dí, <i>heaven and earth</i> ,	ult.
	t'ien liáng, <i>daybreak</i> ,	„
	h'íang au, <i>in the country</i> ,	pen.
p.j.	fóng zóh, <i>custom</i> ,	ult.
	sing zah, <i>village near Shanghai</i> ,	„

Obs. In this table, the tone preserves its natural character throughout, but when followed by the quick rising tones, as in p, k, and p, k, or by the short tones, or by a word hurried over without emphasis on account of its unimportance, it is heard with a more distinct accent than in other cases. When the accent is upon the other word, this tone needs to have the voice rest upon it for a time, to prevent its becoming the third tone.

The tone which is the same as this in the Amoy dialect, undergoes a regular change, in combinations such as those in this table. When standing first of two words, it becomes an upper quick rising tone. Thus though a tone be identical when pronounced alone in two dialects, it does not follow that its laws of combination are also the same. For much important information on the Hok-kien tones, and the laws of combination in that dialect, the writer is indebted to Rev. J. Stronach of Amoy.

16. Examples of the upper first tone in the antepenultimate or when first in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.p.p.	Sú-tseu niun, <i>a Sú-cheú man</i> ,	ult.
p.s.p.	t'ien-tsû dong, <i>Roman Catholic Chapel</i> ,	„
p.k.k.	t'iau kú-k'í, <i>carry it past</i> ,	ant.
p.j.k.	tong tuh-dzû, <i>able to stand against</i> ,	„
p.p.p.	tsau-zun deu, <i>in the morning</i> ,	„
p.s.k.	ts'ien-lí kiung, <i>telescope</i> ,	ult.
p.k.p.	san-zz' kiung, <i>the Three Character Classic</i> ,	„

Tones.		Accent.
p.j.k.	tsûi veh-zong, <i>cannot overtake him</i> ,	ant.
p.s.s.	tú-hau keu, <i>a number of dogs</i> ,	„

Obs. i. In the example standing last but two, if is accented, it preserves its proper character, but if, as is often the case, is accented, becomes even and falls in pitch.

Obs. ii. The accent often varies between the first and the last syllable. In regard to position, it is the latter that should receive it. But in reference to tone, that now under illustration admitting emphasis freely, overbears the accent of position.

17. Examples of upper first tone standing last in a combination of two or three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.p.	tong sing, <i>take care</i> ,	pen.
	sau h'íáng, <i>burn incense</i> ,	ult.
s.p.	tsú tsóng, <i>ancestors</i> ,	pen.
	ting tú, <i>greatest number of</i> ,	„
	kong sũ, <i>explain books</i> ,	„
	sz tsing, <i>rock crystal</i> ,	ult.
k.p.	kwé káng, <i>your honourable age?</i>	„
	fong sing, <i>be content</i> ,	„
j.p.	ts'ah hwó, <i>insert flowers</i> ,	„
	t'uk tú, <i>too many</i> ,	„
p.p.	míng tsau, <i>to-morrow</i> ,	pen.
	liáng sing, <i>good heart, conscience</i> ,	„
k.p.p.	sá zun-kwong, <i>what time</i> ,	ant.
s.p.	mú ts'ing, <i>mother</i> ,	ult.
	lau hiúng, <i>venerated brother</i> ,	„
k.p.	tí fong, <i>a place</i> ,	„
	nian kiung, <i>chant sacred books</i> ,	„
j.p.	niuh fóng, <i>contrary wind</i> ,	„

Obs. In the groups p.p., s.p., and p.p. in this table, the tone of the last word falls and becomes even. In such cases, the initial consonants remain

unaffected. Thus, kúng fú cannot become kúng vú, though, fú falls in key. The same change may sometimes be observed after the third and fourth tones.

18. Examples of this tone, as the second in a group, of three.

Tones.		Accent.
s.p.k.	siau sàng-í, <i>small retail trade</i> ,	pen.
k.p.p.	kú-kóng niun, <i>workman</i> ,	„
j.p.k.	sóh-yan tá, <i>waist-band</i> ,	„
p.p.k.	vun-ts'áng díen, <i>temple of the patron of Literature</i> ,	„
s.p.p.	niön sing-dzáng, <i>merciful heart</i> ,	ult.
k.p.j.	ta-yung kóh, <i>England</i> ,	ant.
j.p.p.	tók-sû niun, <i>educated man</i> ,	ult.

Obs. i. There is a secondary accent on some other syllable in groups of three, which sometimes predominates over the other. We have not attempted to record more than one. E.g. the antepenultimate of the last example is often heard with a decided accent.

Obs. ii. An inspection of these tables will shew that the first tone attracts the accent to itself in many instances, and that through rapidity of pronunciation, or from the accent being placed on the word before, it tends to fall in key and become even.

Obs. iii. In regard to position the accent prefers the last syllable.

19. *The upper second tone.* It is a high even tone without deflection, and forms a principal element in producing that curious singing effect in many dialects, which the foreigner notices in first listening to Chinese pronunciation.

Ex.	sz, <i>water</i> .	hau, <i>good</i> .
	hú, <i>fire</i> .	t'au, <i>beg</i> .
	hé, <i>promise</i> .	tíen, <i>point</i> (verb or subs.)

20. Examples of the upper second tone standing last in a group of two or three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.s.	un tíen, <i>favour</i> ,	pen.
	h'íung tsieu, <i>intoxicated</i> ,	„

Tones.		Accent.
s.s.	kwun sz, <i>boiling water</i> ,	pen.
	ting hau, <i>the best possible</i> ,	„
k.s.	kieu' hú, <i>save from fire</i> ,	ult.
	yau kiun, <i>important</i> ,	„
j.s.	tsok tsû, <i>to be master</i> ,	„
	ts'eh seu, <i>accuser</i> ,	„
p.s.	mun k'eu, <i>door-way</i> ,	„
	dzé tsû, <i>rich man</i> ,	„
s.s.	mien k'íang, <i>by compulsion</i> , (c'h)	„
	ní tú, <i>ears</i> ,	„
k.s.	mien k'óng, <i>face</i> ,	„
j.s.	zeh seu, <i>maimed hand</i> ,	„
	lih pun, <i>almanac</i> ,	„
p.j.s.	sau nyih sz, <i>prepare hot water</i> ,	„
p.k.s.	m yau kiun, <i>not important</i> ,	ant.
j.j.s.	veh k'ïöh sau, <i>not deficient</i> , (c'h)	ult.
j.j.s.	seh kweh tsz, <i>in reality</i> ,	pen.

Obs. i. The last syllable, when preceded by a word in the upper first tone, is usually heard to fall in key, as in the first two of the above examples.

Obs. ii. In some examples, the tone under illustration often changes into a quick falling tone, as in kieu' 'hú, pronounced kieu' hú, and pronounced mien' k'íang.

21. Examples of the upper second tone in the antepenultimate.

Tones.		Accent.
s.p.p.	ts'ing sien-sáng, <i>engage a teacher</i> ,	ant.
s.s.p.	k'au kü-niun, <i>be examined for Master of Arts decree</i> ,	pen.
s.s.k.	seu tí-au, <i>under (my) control</i> ,	ant.
s.j.k.	táng k'eh-ts'óng, <i>nod the head when sleeping</i> ,	ult.
s.p.p.	hú-lun zén, <i>steamer</i> ,	„
s.k.k.	t'ú-dí miao, <i>temple of the Lares arvaes</i> ,	„
s.j.s.	k'au-veh-k'í, <i>cannot venture to be examined</i> ,	„

Obs. For purposes of accentuation , , and in the above examples may be called *enclitics* or *proclitics*. As such they leave the emphasis to rest on the *significant* words.

22. Examples of the second tone in the penultimate of a group of two.

Tones.		Accent.
s.p.	siau kûn, <i>a boy</i> ,	ult.
	h'í hwén, <i>glad</i> ,	„
j.s.s.	páh kwun-sz, <i>simply boiling water</i> (weak tea),	„
	táng tiau, <i>shoot birds</i> ,	„
	sz seu, <i>sailors</i> ,	„
s.k.	pau pé, <i>precious</i> ,	„
	ts'ing kiau, <i>will you inform me?</i>	„
	siau ts'é, <i>vegetables</i> ,	„
s.j.	k'ó sih, <i>alas!</i>	pen.
	h'iau tuh, <i>understand</i> ,	„
	táng t'ih, <i>work in iron</i> ,	ult.
s.p.	sz nieu, <i>water buffalo</i> ,	„
	pau dzíen, <i>preserve</i> ,	„
	sz dóng, <i>water bucket</i> ,	„
s.s.	k'ú nau, <i>unfortunate</i> ,	„
	tau mén, <i>pour full</i> ,	„
s.k.	tan dú, <i>courageous</i> ,	„
	t'í mien, <i>respectable</i> ,	„
	ts'ing zú, <i>please sit down</i> ,	„
s.j.	ts'íang dö, <i>rob and plunder</i> ,	„
	pau záh, <i>precious stone</i> ,	„

Obs. The accent is usually on the last word, and it is especially marked when that word is in the first or third tone. When the penultimate assumes the accent, it frequently changes to the upper rising tone, but this is apparently nothing more than an occasional irregularity, produced by rapid pronunciation. Native assistants generally deny the existence of these and all such changes; but on having their attention drawn more closely to the subject, they admit that there are exceptional cases.

23. Examples of the same tone standing second in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.s.p.	tsá tsú-tsóng, <i>sacrifice to ancestors</i> ,	ult.
s.s.k.	pí-pí k'ön, <i>compare them</i> ,	„
k.s.j.	tsú hau-nyih, <i>keep a wedding</i> ,	pen.
j.s.p.	ih-pun deu, <i>just one volume</i> ,	ult.
p.s.p.	dzing sz wong, <i>the emperor who burnt the books</i> ,	„
k.s.j.	zz-tsz lóh, <i>written-paper basket</i> ,	„
j.s.p.	lók k'í-lé, <i>stand up</i> ,	„

Obs. i. The penultimate is heard higher in key than the others. The last falls, but retains the principal accent more or less distinctly.

Obs. ii. The secondary accent is usually on the first word, except in the example , where the penultimate word changes into an upper rising tone, and receives the accent.

24. *The upper third tone.* This tone being both high in key and deflected upwards, is difficult to imitate correctly.

Ex.	tsong, <i>bury</i> .	píen, <i>change</i> .	sz, <i>four</i> .
	ts'un, <i>inch</i> .	sing, <i>family name</i> .	tíen, <i>shop</i> .

Examples of this tone in the penultimate of a combination of two.

Tones.		Accent.
k. p.	í sz, <i>object, idea</i> ,	pen.
	k'ön sù, <i>to read</i> ,	ult.
	tsóng hwó, <i>plant cotton or flowers</i> ,	„
k.s.	fong hú, <i>set on fire</i> ,	pen.
	kiung tsz, <i>forbid</i> ,	„
k.k.	fú kwé, <i>rich and honourable</i> ,	ult.
	kiau h'iün, <i>instruct</i> ,	„
k.j.	é sih, <i>love and pity</i> ,	„
	kú h'ih, <i>at present</i> ,	„
k.p.	sün bén, <i>Chinese abacus</i> ,	„
	kiau mun, <i>form of instruction</i> ,	„
k.s.	p'ó lán, <i>afraid of cold</i> ,	„
	k'wá mó, <i>a swift horse</i> ,	„
k.k.	dé mien, <i>the opposite</i> ,	ult.

Tones.		Accent.
	sûn ming, <i>to calculate destiny</i> ,	„
k.j.	k'í lih, <i>strength</i> ,	pen.
	tsú zuh, <i>be a thief</i> ,	ult.

Obs. i. It may be useful as an aid to memory, to notice that verbs are very numerous in this tone. The majority of the above examples will illustrate this remark.

Obs. ii. In the first example í is irregular, and is pronounced in the first tone.

Obs. iii. When the accent is decidedly on the last word, as in most of the examples, the penultimate is very short and pronounced with the least possible emphasis.

Obs. iv. In the examples, k, k, penultimate word is in rapid pronunciation, heard even, like the second tone. Thus ' ' is pronounced 'tsau yung'.

25. Examples of the same tone, as the antepenultimate of three words.

Tones.		Accent.
k.p.s.	tsau kwé-kü, <i>follow the custom</i> ,	pen.
k.s.k.	tsóng siau-ts'é, <i>plant vegetables</i> ,	„
k.k.k.	sz-ká long, <i>in the world</i> ,	ult.
k.j.p.	p'á ts'eh-lé, <i>place in divisions</i> ,	ant.
k.p.k.	sá zz-eu, <i>what time?</i> ,	„
k.p.p.	tsú zung-kóng, <i>to complete</i> ,	ult.
k.s.s	kiung 'vú-mú, <i>reverence parents</i> ,	„
k.j.k.	tá veh-dóng, <i>cannot carry</i> ,	ant.

Obs. To keep the first word short in time, and deflected upwards, is the chief requisite in examples of this kind, If the voice were allowed to rest on it, it would necessarily become the first or second tone.

26. Examples of the upper third tone standing last of two or three words.

Tones.		Accent.
p.k.	sáng í, <i>trade</i> ,	pen.
	tóng han, <i>eastwards</i> ,	„
	song k'wá, <i>in good health</i> ,	„
s.k.	siá sing, <i>write a letter</i> ,	ult.

Tones.		Accent.
	táng sùh, <i>consider, plan,</i>	pen.
k.k.	tsung p'á, <i>correct conduct,</i>	ult.
	tsú h'í, <i>act a play,</i>	,,
j.k.	tuh í, <i>obtain one's wishes,</i>	,,
	seh sing, <i>be unfaithful,</i>	,,
p.k.	wong tí, <i>emperor,</i>	,,
	wé sing, <i>letter in answer,</i>	,,
s.k.	lí pá, <i>worship,</i>	,,
	mo kwó <i>jacket,</i>	,,
k.k.	'zau hwó, <i>fortunately, to create,</i>	,,
	tí ká, <i>boundary of land,</i>	,,
	zé kú, <i>sin, an impropriety,</i>	pen.
k.j.k.	k'ön veh-kíen, <i>do not see,</i>	ant.
p.j.k.	yau veh-kú, <i>cannot row past,</i>	,,
j.k.k.	veh-yau p'ó, <i>do not fear,</i>	pen.
j.j.k.	veh suh-í, <i>not in health,</i>	ult.
s.s.k.	láng siau ts'é, <i>cold vegetables,</i>	,,

Obs. i. The almost unbroken regularity of the accent in these examples, arises partly from the last word being the proper place for it, and partly from the tone under illustration being naturally adapted to receive it.

Obs. ii. In the examples p, k, the last word falls in key, and its upward deflection and initial consonant remain unaffected.

Obs. iii. The examples k, k, follow the same law as in [Art. 24. Obs. iv.](#) In the former word being merely an auxiliary particle, is short in time as if it were táng'.

27. Examples of the upper third tone as the penultimate in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.k.p.	tan kú-lé, <i>bring it over,</i>	ant.
s.k.k.	siá-sing k'í, <i>send a letter,</i>	,,
k.k.s.	sí-sí lí, <i>accurately,</i>	,,
j.k.k.	t'uk kú-vun, <i>excessive,</i>	ult.

Tones.		Accent.
p.k.j.	nan kú-h'ih, <i>at present</i> ,	„
s.k.k.	lí-sing long, <i>according to reason</i> ,	ant.
k.k.p.	yeu pén ban, <i>right-hand side</i> ,	ult.
j.k.j.	veh kíen tuh, <i>it is not likely</i> ,	pen.

Obs. i. The middle word is always carefully shortened in tone.

Obs. ii. When the last word is one of less significance than the others, it frequently loses the accent.

28. *The upper fourth tone.* This tone is a short syllable, high and bent upwards. It has k final after the vowels á, ó, o, u, after other vowels k is not heard.

Ex. kok, *horn*; k'uk, *quarter of an hour*; fah, *method*.

Examples in which it is the first of a group of two.

Tones.		Accent.
j.p.	ts'eh sun, <i>rank or profession</i> ,	ult.
	fah fóng, <i>wind rising</i> ,	„
j.s.	hok h'ien, <i>lightning</i> ,	„
	ts'eh ts'an, <i>field productions</i> ,	„
j.k.	pák sing, <i>people</i> (hundred names,)	„
j.j.	fah tsuh, <i>method</i> ,	„
j.p.	ts'eh mun, <i>to go from home</i> ,	„
	k'áh niun, <i>stranger, guest</i> ,	pen.
	k'eh deu, <i>to make a prostration</i> ,	ult.
j.s.	hah ngan, <i>blind eyes</i> ,	„
j.k.	suh zz, <i>able to read</i> ,	„
	tseh dí, <i>natural powers</i> ,	„
k.j.	k'weh ah, <i>width</i> , (broad, narrow,)	pen.
	kweh nióh, <i>blood relations</i> ,	„

Words of the fourth tone naturally short, are here in a position unfavourable for the accent. Even the few cases of exception marked, do not take it exclusively on the penultimate.

29. Examples of the same tone in the antepenultimate.

Tones.		Accent.
j.p.s.	t'eh-í liáng, <i>with him</i> ,	ult.
j.s.p.	sók tsén-lé, <i>return</i> ,	„
j.k.j.	peh-kú-h'ih, <i>given</i> ,	ant.
j.k.p.	tih 'au-lé, <i>fall down</i> ,	ult.
j.p.p.	tsuh zung-kóng, <i>completely woven</i> ,	ult.
j.s.j.	t'ah gnan suh, <i>paint on colours</i> ,	pen.
j.j.p.	koh-loh deu, <i>corner</i> ,	ult.

The secondary accent is on the first syllable in these examples.

30. Examples of this tone standing last of two or three words.

Tones.		Accent.
p.j.	t'ien suh, <i>weather</i> ,	pen.
	fun pih, <i>difference</i> ,	„
s.j.	seu pih, <i>hand-writing</i> ,	ult.
	pau t'ah, <i>pagoda</i> ,	„
k.j.	sûn fah, <i>method of calculation</i> ,	„
j.j.	k'íuk tsóh, <i>eat rice water</i> ,	„
p.j.	teu fah, <i>hair</i> ,	pen.
	dzun sah, <i>be drowned</i> ,	„
s.j.	gnan suh, <i>colour</i> ,	„
	ng seh, ^[1] <i>fifty</i> ,	„
k.j.	ní seh <i>twenty</i> ,	„
	ling sih <i>parsimonious</i> ,	„
j.j.	meh sah <i>be drowned</i> ,	ult.
	lih k'uh <i>immediately</i> ,	„
p.p.j.	kú leu kweh <i>scull</i> ,	„
p.p.j.	lúng hwó t'ah <i>Lúng-hwá pagoda</i> ,	„

In the first two examples, the penultimate being in the upper first tone, the last word may be heard to fall in key.

In those marked *k*, *j*, the first word is lengthened in pronunciation, and thus passes into the lower second tone.

[1] The character is read zeh The sound seh as heard in conversation is irregular.

31. Examples of the upper fourth tone standing second in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.j.p.	t'é t'seh-lé, <i>investigate</i> ,	ult.
s.j.p.	pau kók-kiá, <i>defend one's country</i> ,	„
k.j.j.	pé-tsih kweh, <i>back-bone</i> ,	„
j.j.p.	kiák tsih-deu, <i>toes</i> ,	„
p.j.k.	pau tuh-dóng, <i>able to walk</i> ,	ant.
k.j.s.	wó tuh-hau, <i>well spoken</i> ,	„
j.j.p.	ngák koh-deu, <i>forehead</i> ,	ult.

The secondary accent may often be distinctly heard on the first word in these examples.

32. A few examples of large groups are here appended.

Tones.	
p.p.s.s.	ts'ing-ts'ing song-song, <i>distinct</i> ,
p.k.j.k.	tsóng-hiau tsih ní, <i>fidelity, filial piety, chastity and uprightness</i> ,
j.k.j.k.	kok-tau-lok-ts'û, <i>everywhere</i> ,
s.s.p.p.	h'í-h'í hwén-hwén, <i>glad</i> ,
k.k.k.k.	tsung-tsung p'á-p'á, <i>good conduct</i> ,
j.j.j.j.	hah-t'sih hah-pah, <i>all in confusion</i> ,
j.j.j.s.	ts'ih-k'íóh pah-niau, <i>winding about</i> ,
p.j.s.s.s.	kiun mók sùi hú t'ú, <i>metal, wood, water, fire and earth</i> ,
k.k.j.k.s.	k'ön-kú-h'ih-k'ú-tsé, <i>have seen it</i> ,
p.p.j.j.j.	t'sing wong t'suh huh pah, <i>blue, yellow, red, black, and white</i>
p.p.p.j.p.	tung sí nén póh tsóng, <i>east, west, south, north and middle</i> ,
p.k.j.s.s.	t'ing-kú-h'ih-lá-tsé, <i>I have heard it</i> ,

For analysing such groups as these, all that would seem to be necessary, is to divide them into smaller combinations. Dissyllables and trisyllables may thus be formed, and linked together by the hyphen as above. They then

fall under the same laws as preceding examples, and the accent of position will be usually on the last word.

When a number of particles are collected, as in k'ön'-kú'-h'ih-kú-'tsé, they are heard like a word of five syllables with an accent in the first and last syllables. The English words *acceptableness*, *peremptorily*, *necessarily*, may be compared with examples of this kind; without the last two words, the accent would be on the first and third.

In the last example, the first accent is on t'ing, the second on lá, which being in a long tone, attracts it.

When there is a string of substantives together, as in enumerating the five colours, the five elements, the five constant virtues, etc. more time is allowed for the pronunciation of each. The hyphen has therefore been omitted in such cases.

33. Collecting these results, the following general remarks may be made on the upper tones.

I. The principal accent prefers the last syllable, but enclitic particles often reject it, while it is attracted most readily by the first and third tones.

The reverse of this is true at Ch'á-p'ú and Hái-ning to the South-west of Sháng-hái, where the penultimate takes the accent.

II. A secondary accent occurs in groups of three, which rests on the most significant word, or on the tones naturally requiring most stress of voice, the first and third.

III. An interchange takes places between the second and third tones, when either of them stands before a word which is the same in tone.

IV. The first tone becomes the lower first, i e. even, low and rising at the end, when standing last, if the word preceding takes the accent. After the third tone, upper and lower, it does not vary.

V. The first tone is lengthened in time in the penultimate, when the stress of the voice is on the last word, and the third, when in that position, shortened.

VI. The upper tones tend to fall in key, where they come after the first tone, and when they do so, always preserve their initial consonants. After any other tone, they usually keep their proper elevation.

34. In entering on the lower tones we meet with new consonants, G, D, B, NG, N, M, L, R. The exceptions will be found noticed in [Art. 56](#).

Lower first tone. This is a long low tone deflected upwards at the end. East of the Hwáng-p'ú river and in the city of Sháng-hái, this tone is as here described. But to the westward of that river, the quick low circumflex very soon takes its place, and is met with to the immediate neighbourhood of Sú-cheú and Háng-cheú. It appears to consist of a quick rising and quick falling tone pronounced rapidly together.

Ex. *póng, sail; lóng, dragon; mun, door.*

35. Examples of this tone in the penultimate of a combination of two.

Tones.	Accent.
<i>p.p.</i>	<i>tóng sz', poetry of Táng dynasty, pen.</i>
	<i>vun tsáng, essays composed by rule, „</i>
<i>p.s.</i>	<i>ngá ts'z, teeth, „</i>
	<i>dzáng kieu, long time, „</i>
<i>p.k.</i>	<i>píng kü, evidence, ult.</i>
	<i>tóng síng, of the same name, „</i>
<i>p.j.</i>	<i>teu fah, hair, „</i>
<i>p.p.</i>	<i>ting zén, stop a boat, „</i>
<i>p.p.</i>	<i>kióng niun, poor man, pen.</i>
<i>p.s.</i>	<i>vun lí, elegance in style, „</i>
	<i>kí mó, to ride, ult.</i>
<i>p.k.</i>	<i>u zong, priest, „</i>
	<i>kiáng dau, robber, „</i>
<i>p.j.</i>	<i>tí móh, a theme, pen.</i>
	<i>nieu nióh, beef, „</i>

Obs. i. The accent is predominantly on the penultimate word, and the lower first tone is thus seen to be one of those, that attracts to itself the stress of the voice. In this combination the penultimate is always carefully enunciated in a low key.

Obs. ii. Where we have written *t, k, p*, the corresponding soft consonants *d, g, b*, if the ear only were consulted, might sometime be employed; but an orthography ought to be consistent, and it appears to us that the best imitation on the whole of the native sounds, will be secured by writing the

latter symbols in the last word of a combination, and the former in the penultimate. The only case it is believed, where this method does not fully represent the true pronunciation, is in such words as , , *kióng, kiáng*, and others whose initial is in mandarin *k'* and which are in the lower first tone. There could be no objection to the use of *g* in those cases, except the want of uniformity among the mute consonants; keeping the letter *k*, it will be enough to inform the reader, that there is a peculiar thickness of sound, and a consonant difficult to write with any of our alphabetic symbols.

36. Examples of the lower first tone, as the antepenultimate in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
<i>p.p.p.</i>	wong-hwun sing, <i>evening star</i> ,	ult.
<i>p.s.p.</i>	zun-tsû bá, <i>ancestral table</i> ,	„
<i>p.k.p.</i>	dzíen-sz' yŏn, <i>enemy of a former life</i> ,	„
<i>p.p.j.</i>	mu tau záh, <i>grinding hone</i> ,	„
<i>p.p.j.</i>	zû-lé veh, <i>title of Buddha</i> ,	„
<i>p.s.j.</i>	zíen liáng-nyih, <i>two days ago</i> ,	ant.
<i>p.k.p.</i>	dong tí-hiúng, <i>cousin on father's side</i> ,	„
<i>p.j.p.</i>	dé veh-lé, <i>cannot carry it</i> ,	ult.

Obs. The first word in this table, as in the preceding, needs to be studiously kept low, even, and undeflected.

37. Examples of the lower first tone standing last in a group of two or three.

Tones.		Accent.
<i>p.p.</i>	kiung zung, <i>metropolis</i> ,	ult.
	kúng lau, <i>merit</i> ,	„
<i>s.p.</i>	song deu, <i>reward</i> ,	„
<i>k.p.</i>	tsing dzung, <i>enter the city</i> ,	„
	sing dzing, <i>disposition</i> ,	„
<i>j.p.</i>	póh mun, <i>north gate</i> ,	„
<i>p.p.</i>	dzung deu, <i>city wall</i> ,	„
	ngá mun, <i>mandarin's office</i> ,	„
<i>s.p.</i>	lau yá, <i>a title of respect</i> ,	„
<i>k.p.</i>	yáng nieu, <i>keep buffaloes</i> ,	„

Tones.		Accent.
<i>k.p.</i>	<i>zû bí, bark of trees,</i>	ult.
<i>j.p.</i>	<i>niöh ngá, moon's horns,</i>	„
	<i>móh deu, wood,</i>	„
<i>j.p.p.</i>	<i>huh-sing niun, black-hearted man,</i>	ant.
<i>k.k.p.</i>	<i>ké tí-bí, possess land,</i>	ult.
<i>k.p.p.</i>	<i>sûn hí-gí, regard as remarkable,</i>	„
<i>j.p.p.</i>	<i>móh-deu niun, wooden image,</i>	ant.
<i>k.j.p.</i>	<i>kieu móh-deu, old wood,</i>	ult.

Obs. In the groups not marked *p, p*, and *p, p*, the last word changes to the upper quick falling tone. In the remaining instances it preserves its even character. The way is prepared for reciprocal changes between the upper and lower series, by the initial consonants being different. The alphabetical distinction prevents the confusion, that would arise from this intermingling of sounds.

38. Examples of the lower first tone, as the penultimate of three.

Tones.		Accent.
<i>p.p.s.</i>	<i>sing vong-tsz, a new house,</i>	pen.
<i>s.p.p.</i>	<i>tsû niun-ká, master of family,</i>	ult.
<i>k.p.p.</i>	<i>tsú niun ká, to be economical,</i>	„
<i>k.p.p.</i>	<i>yau dóng-dien, he wants money,</i>	ant.
<i>s.p.p.</i>	<i>lau niun-ká, an old man,</i>	ult.
<i>s.p.p.</i>	<i>tóng-ding san, island in the Great Lake,</i>	„
<i>j.p.k.</i>	<i>seh-wong dien, temple of the ten kings.</i>	„

Obs. After the deep deflected tone preceding it in *s, p, p*, the penultimate in these examples is usually raised to the upper falling tone.

39. *Lower second tone.* This tone properly a low protracted tone rising at its close, contains in it a number of words whose pronunciation is not fixed. These words, sometimes counted in this tone, and at other times in the next in order, are in other parts of China in the third tone. It will be better to consider them under the heading to which they belong in other dialects, and present here such examples as are free from this uncertainty in tone.

Ex. *yeu, have; ng, five; lí, Chinese mile.*

40. Examples of the lower second tone in the penultimate of two words.

Tones.		Accent.
s.p.	ngan tsing, <i>eyes</i> ,	ult.
	lau kiün, <i>founder of Taúism</i> ,	„
s.s.	láng sz, <i>cold water</i> ,	pen.
	nieu tsz, <i>button</i> ,	„
s.k.	lí sing, <i>reason</i> ,	ult.
	má ts'û, <i>means of buying</i> ,	„
s.j.	míen t'eh, <i>forgive</i> ,	„
s.p.	ling deu, <i>neckband</i> ,	„
	nü niun, <i>woman</i> ,	„
s.s.	yúng yön, <i>very long time</i> ,	„
s.k.	yun yeu', <i>to tempt</i> ,	„
	ling lú, <i>lead the way</i> ,	„
s.j.	lú liáh, <i>rob</i> ,	„

Obs. i. The tone under illustration, keeps its natural character throughout. No initial letters occur but l, m, ng, n, r, and the vowels. Words beginning with mutes and sibilants that were originally in this tone, are in course of transition to the lower third tone. V from w in mandarin, remains in the second tone.

Obs. ii. The low deflected tone in the penultimate of s.p. and s.s. so affects the last words, that they are heard in the quick falling tone.

Obs. iii. This tone is difficult to describe as distinct from the preceding, from the fact that both tend upwards; the former deviates slightly, after beginning even; the latter begins low and ascends through its whole time. The first is in its general character even, but when compared with the pure monotone in the Amoy dialect, to which it is most nearly allied, there is a difference perceptible that needs to be specified. It is heard we believe with this peculiarity when pronounced alone, and when standing last in a binary combination, if it does not then change to the upper first tone. When first in order, it is even. It was before observed, that the first upper tone, when last in order, changes to the first lower. In the sound then heard, when enunciated with the true native drawl, the same may be noticed.

Obs. iv. There is nothing even in the second tone when alone, except when enunciated in a high key. When last in order it often rises to the upper second tone, and is then heard even.

For ready comparison of the sounds, a few examples of words in the lower tones are here appended:—

, ,	liáng, in the tones <i>p.s.k.</i>	
, ,	má,	„
, ,	ní,	„
, ,	niun, (R. ZUN),	„
, ,	yeu,	„
, ,	dí,	„
, ,	zûe,	„

The last two words here marked as in the second tone will be shewn immediately to be so for this district.

41. Examples of the same tone as the antepenultimate in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
s.p.j.	láng t'ien-suh, <i>cold weather</i> ,	ult.
s.s.s.	ní-tú kwén, <i>ear cavity</i> ,	„
s.k.p.	lau t'á bú, <i>aged dame</i> ,	„
s.k.p.	má tsing-lé, <i>to buy</i> ,	„
s.k.s.	vú-ní tsz, <i>capacity for an art or business</i> ,	pen.
s.k.p.	ling-zz kwén, <i>foreign consul</i> ,	ult.

42. Examples of this tone as the last in a group of two or three words.

Tones.		Accent.
p.s.	k'ien mí, <i>grind rice</i> ,	ult.
s.s.	siau ü, <i>small rain</i> ,	„
k.s.	k'ong lóng, <i>to hide</i> ,	„
j.s.	tah nieu, <i>an iron hook</i> ,	„
j.s.	hah ngan, <i>blind</i> ,	ult.
p.s.	dzing lí, <i>reasonable, reason</i> ,	„
s.s.	mé nü, <i>beautiful woman</i> ,	„
k.s.	dzing lí, <i>do everything properly</i> ,	„

Tones.		Accent.
j.s.	loh ü, <i>it rains</i> ,	„
	dzáh lánġ <i>catch cold</i> ,	„
p.p.s.	tsun-tsû mí, <i>Indian corn</i> ,	„
k.s.s.	tsûe k'ú nau, <i>very miserable</i> ,	„
s.k.s.	yeu 'dau-lí, <i>virtue</i> ,	ant.
j.j.s.	veh leh-lí, <i>not at home</i> ,	„
k.j.s.	wó veh-lí, <i>will not listen</i> ,	„

Obs. In and where a difference of accent might have been expected, the distinction is kept in the native pronunciation, entirely by means of the tones. In many of these cases, the last word rises and becomes even, i.e. passes into the upper second tone. Thus, ngan and lí, become high and even.

43. Examples of the same tone, as the penultimate in a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.s.p.	tsong-mén tsz, <i>having packed full</i> ,	ant.
k.s.k.	k'ön lánġ p'ú, <i>despise others</i> ,	pen.
p.s.s.	dzing-lí tíen, <i>be more reasonable</i> ,	ant.
k.s.s.	nian-ng lí, <i>twenty-five Chinese miles</i> .	„
j.s.k.	loh ngan-lí, <i>to weep</i> ,	ult.
s.s.k.	ng-lí lú, <i>five Chinese miles</i> ,	„

44. Before proceeding to those words whose tone is undecided, it may be first observed, that in the Tonic Dictionaries,^[1] there is a large class of characters ranged under the second tone, not found there, either in the dialects of the Southern provinces, or in the Northern mandarin as registered by Prémare. These words have for their initials, only the sibilant and mute consonants z, dz, zh, b, d, g, with the vowels, and v from f. In the modern pronunciation of Háng-cheú and Sú-cheú, they are also found as in other parts of the empire in the third tone. It follows that they must have made the transition, since the Dictionary system was completed. The earliest works containing it, quoted in K'áng-hí, are said in the preface to have been written in the Liáng and Táng dynasties,^[2] and must consequently be regarded as the tradition of at least a thousand years. While this change has taken place in the sound of a large class of very common words, through the greater part of China, it is curious to notice, that the

older pronunciation still lingers in the colloquial practice of one part at least of central China.

Even if the inventors of the syllabic spelling confined themselves in the first instance to the usage of the Kiáng provinces, whik north and south of them a different pronunciation prevailed, still this change has taken place in the large cities of Cheh-kiáng and Kiáng-nán, which are now one with their neighbours. In our own dialect it has not yet been completed. After a sufficient time perhaps, this anomaly will have its term, and the boundaries of the tones be as sharply defined, as according to the laws of Chinese pronunciation they ought to be. There are moreover other illustrations that may be drawn from the Dictionaries, of secular changes (to adopt the phraseology employed in sciences of higher mark) occurring in the tones of China.

[1] The names of some of the most commonly used are , .

[2] , , , . “From the Shwóh-wun downward, the best Dictionaries, were Yúh-p’ien in the Liáng, and Kwáng Yün in the Táng dynasties,” etc. Liáng A.D. 502 to 560, T’áng 617 to 917.

45. *Lower third tone.* The words that were primarily in this tone, are always heard with the quick rising pronunciation that properly belongs to it. It is like “the tone given to some words, when spoken ironically, or to the word ‘indeed!’ when used as an exclamation.” (Medhurst’s Hok-kien Dictionary.)

The words referred to in the last article, are placed here rather than in the second tone, because the other dialects are unanimous in doing so. In fact, however, they are in Sháng-hái usage more in the last tone than in this. The following words for example, when pronounced alone, have the long sound.

’heu,	’záng,	’tóng,	’vóng	’zú,	’pú,
’hú,	’zz,	’tí,	’vú,	dzùi,	’hwén,
’hyung,	’zz,	’tau,	’vú,	’zau,	’pó,
’kwè	’dzü,	’tong,	’van,	’dzóng,	’hiá,
’kiun,	’zén,		’dzáng,	’dzé	

* In the department of Ka-hiung, occupying the space between those of Háng-cheú and Súng-kiáng, these words are never in the third tone.

Any of these words that occasionally become verbs in the books, being commonly in other parts of speech, are in that case always marked as belonging to the third tone in good editions of native works. E.e.

when they become verbs, change from the second to the third tone and are so marked. All the authorities are uniform in these matters; and the Dictionaries specify the

tones by name, assigning the primary sense to the second tone, and the secondary sense, in all these cases a verb, to the third tone.

46. These words though when standing isolated, they keep the old dictionary tone, are liable to such frequent changes in combination, that teachers who have not studied the subject, are at a loss to affix their true tone. In the following examples, these variations will be indicated as they occur, by the apostrophe on the left, and inverted comma on the right, for the second and third tones respectively.

Tones.		Accent.
k.k.	'zú zú', <i>sit down</i> ,	ult.
s.k.	ts'ing 'zú, <i>please sit down</i> ,	pen.
k.p.	'zong deu, <i>above</i> ,	ult.
p.k.	wong záng', <i>emperor</i> ,	,,
p.k.	h'iúng dí', <i>younger brother</i> ,	pen.
k.p.	'tí h'iúng, <i>brothers</i> ,	ult.
k.k.	mí dau', <i>taste</i> ,	,,
k.p.	'tau dé, <i>Revenue Commissioner</i> ,	,,
k.p.	tau' yá, <i>Revenue Commissioner</i> ,	,,
k.k.	zé' kú, <i>sin</i> ,	pen.
k.k.	ting 'dzûe, <i>to condemn</i> ,	,,
k.k.	zz' kú, <i>it is so</i> ,	,,
j.k.	veh 'zz, <i>it is not so</i> ,	ult.
j.k.	weh 'dóng, <i>living and moving</i> ,	,,
k.p.	'tóng sun, <i>move one's-self</i> ,	,,
s.k.	kwó 'vú, <i>a widow</i> ,	pen.
p.k.	fu vú', <i>husband and wife</i> ,	ult.
p.k.	wé 'zén, <i>be virtuous</i> ,	pen.
k.k.	'zén pau, <i>reward of virtue</i> ,	ult.
p.p.k.k.	ming tsz kú 'van, <i>wilfully transgress</i> ,	,,
k.j.	van' fah, <i>break the law</i> ,	,,
k.j.k.	zz' veh zz, <i>is it so or not?</i>	,,
k.j.k.	ping veh zz, <i>certainly not</i> ,	ant.
k.j.	'zau óh, <i>build a house</i> ,	ult.
k.p.s.	zau' wén tsé, <i>finished building</i> ,	pen.
p.k.p.k.	ká 'zz deu long, <i>in the streets</i> ,	ult.

Tones.		Accent.
k.p.	zz' deu, <i>the street</i> ,	„
k.s.k.	'tóng lau dóng', <i>moving</i> ,	„
k.p.s.	dzóng' lé sí, <i>very heavy</i> ,	„
k.k.	k'ön 'dzóng, <i>value highly</i> ,	„

Obs. It will be seen that among these examples, there are nearly as many of the quick or third tone, as of the longer one. Taking the usage all in all, the balance in cases of grouping is however, in favour of the quicker form. When alone the original tone is used almost exclusively. In reading there is about the same amount of variation as in colloquial usage. The quicker tone usually, but not exclusively, prefers to stand last, leaving the penultimate of a combination to the longer tone.

47. In regard to the words that have always been in the lower third tone, there is as much regularity of pronunciation as in any other tone.

Ex. ping, *disease*; wó, *words, to speak*; tú, *great*.

The following are examples where this tone occurs in the penultimate of a group of two.

Tones.		Accent.
k.p.	zun fóng, <i>fair wind</i> ,	ult.
k.s.	níen tsz, <i>ink stone</i> ,	pen.
k.k.	ting tong, <i>to fix</i> ,	ult.
k.j.	ngá kóh, <i>foreign state</i> ,	„
	má teh, <i>to sell off</i> ,	pen.
k.p.	long deu, <i>waves</i> ,	ult.
k.k.	míen mau, <i>countenance</i> ,	„
k.k.	siá ziá, <i>I thank you</i> ,	„
k.j.	nian veh, <i>chant Buddhist classics</i> ,	„

48. Examples of this tone in the antepenultimate of three.

Tones.		Accent.
k.p.p.	ngáng sing-dzáng, <i>hard heart</i> ,	ult.
k.j.p.	ngá-koh niun, <i>foreigner</i> ,	ant.
k.j.j.	zing' t'seh t'seh, <i>quiet and empty</i> ,	„
k.p.j.	ngáng zû t'ih, <i>hard as iron</i> ,	ult.
k.p.s.	tú niáng-tsz, <i>wife</i> ,	pen.
k.j.j.	vaun lih-sih, <i>rice crumbs</i> ,	ant.

Obs. In the fourth example being an enclitic, throws back the accent on the penultimate. In the last, the accent is on the first word for a similar reason.

49. Examples of the lower third tone standing last in a group of two or three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.k.	ká long, <i>in the streets</i> ,	pen.
	tú ziá, <i>many thanks</i> ,	ult.
	sau van, <i>cook rice</i> ,	„
s.k.	h'íáng liáng, <i>distinct in sound</i> ,	„
k.k.	ting dú, <i>the greatest</i> ,	„
	sing ming, <i>life</i>	„
j.k.	k'ön bing, <i>cure diseases</i> ,	„
p.k.	kóh dú, <i>a kingdom</i> ,	„
	dzung 'ngá, <i>outside the city wall</i> ,	„
s.k.	dzûe bien, <i>as you please</i> ,	„
k.k.	zun (or niun) né, <i>patient</i> ,	„
	wó wá, <i>speak ill of</i> ,	„
	ming ling, <i>a command</i> ,	„
j.k.	niöh liáng, <i>moonlight</i> ,	„
s.s.k.	kú tsz zû, <i>fruit-bearing tree</i> ,	„
k.p.k.	sóng káng van, <i>give away food</i> ,	pen.
j.s.k.	ngok (R. niák) tsz bing, <i>fever and ague</i> ,	ult.

In the first example, *long* is always in the third tone. With *ká long* or *san long*, compare the English *convict*, *wisdom*, *darkness*. If the last words however, were not a mere enclitic, the comparison of pronunciation would fail, the accent being on the ultimate.

50. Examples of the same tone in the penultimate of a group of three.

Tones.		Accent.
p.k.s.	h'ü-zz ngan, <i>particles</i> ,	ant.
p.k.k.	tú ziá nóng, <i>many thanks to you</i> ,	„
j.k.p.	tseh-ding tsz, <i>obstinate</i> ,	„
p.k.p.	dzung ngá-deu, <i>outside the city</i> ,	ult.
s.k.k.	liáng-yáng kú, <i>different</i> ,	pen.
k.k.k.	'nian-nian k'ön, <i>read a little aloud</i> ,	ant.

Tones.		Accent.
j.k.k	veh-ngé sá, <i>no matter</i> ,	pen.
p.k.p.	m-yúng niun, <i>a useless man</i> ,	„

Obs. When an enclitic stands last, as in the 3rd, 5th, and 7th examples, the lower third tone preceding it takes the accent.

51. *Lower fourth tone.* While this may be described as the lower short rising tone, and represented as short in *quantity*, it should be observed, that two long vowels, and several diphthongs are also admitted to it. The same is true of the short tone in the upper scale. These vowels and diphthongs are á, ó, (vide art. 6,), and iák, iah, iók, iöh, iuk, wák, wah, weh, wok.

Ex. zuk, *thief*; káh, *to press*; kiöh, *to dig*.

52. Examples of this tone when standing last of two words.

Tones.		Accent.
p.j.	tsó meh, <i>cover over</i> ,	ult.
s.j.	t'ú báh, <i>local dialect</i> ,	„
k.j.	dé dih, <i>oppose enemies</i> ,	„
j.j.	koh (g) záh, <i>become aware of</i> ,	pen.
	t'seh lih (liuk), <i>exert strength</i> ,	„
p.j.	ming báh, <i>clear, to understand</i> ,	ult.
	dzóng deh, <i>tautology</i> ,	„
s.j.	nön nyih, <i>warm</i> ,	„
k.j.	zû móm, <i>trees</i> ,	„
j.j.	tóh (g) yáh, <i>poison</i> ,	pen.

Obs. The long tones preserve their character before the short tone with great accuracy.

53. Examples of this tone in the penultimate of two words.

Tones.		Accent.
j.p.	mák sáŋ, <i>strange, unknown</i> ,	ult.
j.p.	liák sü, <i>a little</i> ,	ult.
j.s.	lok sz, <i>ebb tide</i> ,	„
j.k.	peh siáng, <i>amusement, do nothing</i> ,	„
j.j.	hah tsah, <i>narrow-minded</i> ,	„
	lok t'eh, <i>let fall</i> ,	pen.
j.p.	pih niun, <i>another man</i> ,	ult.

Tones.		Accent.
<i>j.k.</i>	<i>seh zé, truly,</i>	„
<i>j.j.</i>	<i>móh (g) lóh, table of contents,</i>	„

Obs. The terminating consonants of the fourth tone, in some dialects are three, k, t, p, corresponding to the final ng, n, m, of words in the other tones. Only the first of these is audible in Shánghái pronunciation. It occurs after á, ó, o, u. It is heard k before consonants of the upper series, particularly s, t; and g before those of the lower series, particularly z, d. Both will be found exemplified in these two tables.

54. Examples of combinations of three.

Tones.		Accent.
<i>j.p.s.</i>	<i>hok-sáng tsz, scholar,</i>	pen.
<i>j.j.k.</i>	<i>veh ih dīng, not necessarily,</i>	ant.
<i>j.k.p.</i>	<i>loh 'au-lé, fall down,</i>	„
<i>j.k.j.</i>	<i>páh (g) wó-t'eh, speak to no purpose,</i>	pen.
<i>p.j.s.</i>	<i>tan veh-k'í, cannot lift,</i>	ant.
<i>p.j.j.</i>	<i>dzing-veh-dzáh, cannot find,</i>	ult.

Obs. The first of these may be compared to a trissyllable with an accent on the penultimate, as “convicted,” i.e. if *sáng* be pronounced high. The syllables adjacent to the accent in English are so contracted in time as to sound more like words in short tones or enclitics, than in long tones. Should fall to the lower first tone as it often does, the similarity would not hold.

55. Examples of larger groups in the lower tones.

nén-nén 'nü-'nü, men and women
ming-ming báh-báh, perfectly clear.
ling-lú dön' p'ih, silks and satins.
fóng diau 'ü zun', wind and rain favourable.
zeh, yöh, sing, dzun, sun, moon, and stars.
zun ní' 'lí tsz' sing', five cardinal virtues.
t'ien-dí' van'-veh, heaven and earth and all things.
sû-'lí yeu-wong-kiun, there is gold in books.
ká-dzáng páh-wó', household words
ih-'ngan-dú ih-'ngan, increase little by little.
meu-í meu-zuh, seek food and clothing.

56. General remarks on the lower tones.

I. The initial consonant is a test for any word being in the upper or lower series. Thus, all the broad mutes and sibilants, the weak aspirate, with the

liquids and nasals are in the lower tones. The other consonants with the strong aspirate are in the upper series. The following in the higher tones are exceptions.

Ex. , , , , , , , dön, 'dön, dön', dé', deh, deu', dén. , , lá, lóh. Yet is heard té' in té' deu, *adversary*. This is caused by the accent falling on deu.

This furnishes the principle of the orthography adopted in the present work. The initial letter being an index to the tone, it is needless to employ distinct tonal marks for the upper and lower series. In the same way, the Fan t'sieh or native syllabic spelling marks the series by the first word, and the particular tone by the sound. Thus fú is spelt with fang dú. The initial F of the first word combined with the U final of the second, gives the sound fu in the first tone. We add an example or two from K'áng-hí:—

is spelt with	cháng ping', giving ching'.
is spelt with	hing chóh, giving hióh.

The first word tells us, whether the sound required is high or low, and the second to which of the four tones it belongs. The pronunciation of the words borrowed for this purpose is supposed known.

II. The orthography is in many instances not fixed. Words sometimes heard g, d, b, are at other times heard *k, t, p*. The sounds g, d, b, occur after a word in combination; while *k, t, p* occur when no word precedes. To indicate that they are always low in pitch, they are printed in italics. V, z, come partially under the same rule. The rest dz, dzz, are scarcely heard in the thin form at all, and are therefore spelt with d in this work. Another peculiarity is that z and dz are interchangeable. Z is more common in conversation; dz in reading.

III. There are many words having sibilants or mutes, or the weak aspirate for their initial consonants, of which the tone is uncertain, being sometimes in the second, and at other times in the third. The liquids and vowels have not this peculiarity, and it only belongs to words that were originally in the second tone.

IV. The first tone, when last in a binary combination, rises to the upper first, except when preceded by the first tone, upper or lower. The initial consonant remains broad as in other cases.

V. The other tones also frequently rise to the upper series when standing last, each to its corresponding tone, and the initial consonant is unaffected.

VI. The laws of accent are the same as in the upper tones. The last word of a combination being usually accented, affords the best opportunity for the discrimination of the tones.

57. *Relation of Tones to Music.* It is only when they are even, that a musical notation can fully and correctly represent the tones. For deflection, so essential to the latter, is not allowed in music, being destructive of harmony. The short and quick tones may however be described as *staccato* notes, and the violin may be made in passing from one note to another, to produce a continuous sound, which has been adduced in “The Chinese as they are,” to illustrate the deflections. In regard to time, so minutely subdivided in music, there do not appear be more than two classes of tones, the quick and the slow. Kircher supposed that the five tones were the first five notes in an octave do, re, mi, fa, sol; but in reality, differences of elevation are usually not more than two for one dialect. The interval between the two series varies, it being greater for example, in some parts of the north of China, than in Kíáng-nán, where it is about half an octave.

58. *Relation of Tones to Accents in other languages.* So far as accent only means the distinction of loud and soft, there seems no analogy. For the Chinese tones may be pronounced as gently or sonorously as the speaker pleases, and loudness in this language also constitutes accent as distinct from tone. In the common accents of English conversation however, there is usually a difference in deflection, or as it is called by some writers, modulation. There is one tone (1) for assertion and determination, and another (2) for asking questions; and these differ not in time, or in loudness, but in the fact that they are deflected downwards and upwards respectively. Again, the tone of interrogation (2) is commonly quick, while that of sarcasm (3) is often slow. Those who read aloud, too often confine themselves almost exclusively to the monotone, a fourth variation (4). Now it is these very distinctions of deflection and time that form the essence of the Chinese tones, and they are in daily use in our own language, as aids in expressing the feelings, as marks of emphasis, and as a means of relieving the voice by interchange. All that a foreigner has to do then in imitating the Chinese tones is to apply forms of utterance, to which he is already accustomed, to those words in which the Chinese employ them, and to treat the tone thus individualized, whichever it may be, as a part of the word, to be learned contemporaneously with the vowels and consonants. With regard to the doubly deflected tones, and those that are less familiar to us, the ancient Greeks would have had an advantage we do not possess. Their circumflex was made up of two tones, the acute and grave combined. (Buttman Gr. Gram. Sect. 9.) Every syllable had a tone, and the tones were

placed on either long or short vowels. There seem also to have been dialectic and secular varieties. These four facts are all suggestive of a similarity in their enunciation to that of China. Mr. Lay in the work alluded to above, has pointed out to what tones the Greek accents appeared to him to correspond. But our data are so scanty on the subject of classical pronunciation, that nothing certain can be said, when we attempt to detail their individual differences.

59. Examples are here annexed of words, which differing slightly, as in a tone or an aspirate, may be mistaken for each other if mispronounced.

kiung' 'tsz, *a mirror*.
'kiung tsz', *beautiful scenery*.
long' deu, *waves*.
'long deu, *a hammer*.
't'sz dí', *here*.
t'sz' dí', *regularity*.
tsing' kiau', *enter a religious order*.
't'sing kiau', *please inform me*.
tí' deu, *here*.
t'í' deu, *shave*.
tsûe' tú, *very many*.
tsûe' dú', *very great*.
tí' pah, *the eighth*.
tí bah, *to save*.
tú' sí', *young son*.
tú 'sí, *wish to die*.
veh t'óng, *without reason or proof*.
veh 'tóng, *not to understand*.
veh dóng, *not the same*.
veh 'dóng, *not moving*.

Note. For some words of constant occurrence, the following contractions will in future be used. c. or s.c. Shánghái, colloquial form. m. Northern mandarin pronunciation, r. or s.r. Shánghái reading sound.

Section 4. Alphabetical form of the Shánghái sounds.

i. Initials.

60. In grammatical works on other languages, more or less is said on orthography, or orthography according as the alphabetical symbols are controlled by more or fewer laws. The Chinese sounds are few, and regulated by laws which are easily laid down. A section therefore may properly be devoted to the romanized form of the sounds.

From the time that the Buddhist priests introduced the Sanscrit system, and the initials and finals, the Chinese have had an imperfect method of spelling words. The division of each sound into two parts, represented by two characters, the initial 'mú, and the final yün', constitutes the method.

The zz' we', a Dictionary of the Ming dynasty, says , yün' yáh, zz' sun' yah 'sz, rh suh zun kóng, kí 'í 'tung yün', lih wé san seh lóh 'mú', fun wé ping tsuh sz' sung. *"The doctrine of arranging sounds by their rhymes began with Shin-yoh, and the Buddhist priests Shin-k'ong continued it, forming the rhymes into classes, and the initials into thirty six divisions, and placing them all under the four tones."*

61. From the sixth century of our era, the system whose origin is thus recorded, has been preserved in the Dictionaries successively made, with apparently few variations. The thirty six initials referred to are contained in the following table:—

Native table of Initials.

k k' g ng	t t' d n	ch ch' j ni
kien k'í giun ngi	twan t'eú ding' ní	ch ch'eh jing niáng
p p' b m	f f' v w	ts ts' dz s z
páng p'áng bing ming	fí f'ú vóng ví	tsing ts'ing dzóng sin zió
tsh t'sh dj sh zh	y h y h	l rh
tshaú t'shuen jwang shin zhen	ying hiáu yü hiáh	lái jih

62. From the table it will be seen, that the division into an upper and lower series of initial consonants, the one embracing thin and clear sounds, with strong aspirates, the other including the broader consonants with the liquids and nasals, meets us not only in the study of the tones of a dialect as shewn in the former section, but in the accredited Dictionaries of the general language. This may be readily accounted for from the Kíáng provinces having been the chief seat of literature and political power, when the sounds of the language were first represented by double characters. Since the growth of the modern pronunciation there has been no attempt in

any imperial work to form a new system of spelling.^[1] The difference of the old system and the new will be understood if it be mentioned that ü, is spelt ngü, and that , , wái‘, yöh, are also in the column headed NG. More details on this subject will be found in the appendix. In the a small portable Dictionary on the alphabetic plan, and containing about 10,000 characters, the modern mandarin is followed in the initials and finals.

[1] In Káng-hí's Dictionary many words in the lower first tone, formerly in the g, d, b, columns, have been transferred to the aspirate column, to be in conformity with northern pronunciation. Words in the short tone having k, t, p, as finals in the old system, have also been classed as terminating in *vowels*, for the same reason. These changes however are only found in Káng-hí's *second* table, and the older classification, denoted by a circle round the examples placed where they formerly stood, is retained with the new.

63. In eight of the nine divisions above, the second initial is the strong aspirate either alone or following, the letters k, t, ch, p, f, ts and tsh. Of these the palatal ch, and sibilant tsh, are not needed in Shánghái pronunciation. Ts takes their place. In double initials the aspirate is between t and s, or t and sh.

(ch) M. ch táú' s. tsz dau', *to know*.

(tsh) M. ch'uh láí s. ts'eh lé, *come out*.

F' is the same as f. In other instances the aspirate is always preserved.

t'sz tsing' t'sz t'séh, *blow in and out*.

k'ön' h'ih h'í' 'vá, *have you seen the play?*

k'é 'k'eu, *begin speaking*.

In other cases, all these letters with and without aspirates, are the same with mandarin.

64. The third initial of the same eight divisions is wanting for Shánghái, only in the case of those headed ch and tsh. Their place is supplied by z.

yuug zong', *visible form*. Sh and zh in the seventh, are replaced by s and z.

M. ih chih 'sheú s. ih tsáh 'seu, *one hand*.

M. sh wúh s. zz veh, *things in season*.

M. shen' tsz s. sén' tsz, *fan*.

M. sheú ling s. 'zeu 'ling, *receive*.

65. The h of mandarin is never heard before w or y in the lower tones:—

san wung lóh p'áh, *three mental, and six physical principles of human life*.

vú yung vú ziáng', *invisible*.

yön' vun', *what belongs to a district city*.

yiau' fah pih niun, *imitate others*.

In other examples among the lower tones, a slight aspirate is retained for the strong hissing sound of mandarin.

, *hóng kák 'tsz deu, red ruled paper.*
han sū, light reading, há 'tsz, shoes.

This slight aspirate is lost in a word standing last in a combination.

'ná nung sieu *ang? how shall I grow virtuous?*
'kí hau' kweh *ah? how wide?*

The English aspirate is between the two aspirates here distinguished, and is the same as that of Fúh-kien. We have no parallel in our pronunciation, to that hissing guttural sound, which in the mandarin provinces, belongs to all the five tones, and in Kiáng-nán to the upper series. Hence Morrison speaks of it as *sh*. Nor can the weak aspirate of the Kiáng-nán lower series, disappearing as it does so frequently, be regarded an equivalent to the English *h*.

66. With regard to the thick mutes and sibilants (*g, d, b, v, z,*) in the lower tones, it may be remarked generally, that foreigners in learning colloquial phrases, usually acquire the habit of pronouncing these consonants thin, when first in a combination, and broad, when some word precedes. This is so frequently true, that no further proof is needed of the pronunciation being variable.

tí' kú', *this.*
t'sz' dí', *good order.*
tí bah, *rescue.*
pah 'ts'au, *to weed.*
pá' veh tuh, *indispensable.*
veh 'bá 'lá, *more than that.*
tá' dóng 'siau í, *differing but little*
veh dá' 'hau, *not good.*

For *t* and *p*, there is no difficulty in spelling as is here done, but *k, s, f*, are not so easily disposed of. The initial *k* or *g* is enunciated thickly before the vowels *i* and *ü*, though according to the system of the Dictionaries, the initial is the same in all cases. Some foreign students regard it as an aspirated consonant. Others write it *dj* or *d*. This anomaly of pronunciation, so difficult to express, does not occur before *w, a* and *é*. Limited thus to *í* and *ü*, it is thought preferable not to depart from the analogy, by inventing a new symbol for the few words in use that contain this unmanageable consonant.

t'sah gí, *set up a flag.*
'h'ien giau', *mountain chair.*
kwé hwó, *sunflower.*
kieu kau', *pray.*

67. The lower f and s, are often heard v, z, even without a word preceding. Thus the actual pronunciation cannot be fairly represented by the law that answers for the other letters, and the only resource is to follow the natives in each case. This v, as well as that from w (m.) are pronounced w on the eastern side of the Hwáng-p'ú.

foh zz', *to serve.*

lau zeh, *honesty.*

siá' zia', *I thank you.*

sóh zz' ngan, *colloquial expressions.*

zong' sū, *the Historical Classic.*

van' k'iu' man', *have you dined?*

siá p'á', *depraved customs.*

vah tseu', *to swear.*

seh zé', *truly.*

68. The initials z and dz correspond, though somewhat irregularly, to the tabular initials z, zh, and j, dz, dj.

zû' au tsz, *branches of trees.*

zák sz', *if.*

p'au' dzó *make tea.*

dzén 'au lé, *deliver down.*

dzü' 'lóng lé, *collect.*

The d is often dropped, both, in reading and in the conversational form.

veh wé' siá zz', *cannot write* (m. tsz').

'pá dú' zén, ^[1]*ferry-boat* (m. ch'uen).

yáng' zén, *keep silkworms*, (m. t'sán).

The d is in some words retained in reading, when dropped in the colloquial form.

zá (R. dzé) long 'hu pau', *wolves and tigers.*

tau zá (C.) *rice straw.*

dzé (R.) mun, *wooden gate.*

'zau (R. dzau) wén, *finish building.*

[1] The Dictionary pronunciation is zhuen.

69. Words beginning with a vowel, belong to the thirty-first or thirty-third initials (y, y,) according as they are high or low in tone. In giving the romanized form, a more extended subdivision of the vowels must of necessity be adopted. In the present work, the initial vowel is italicized, when its word belongs to the lower series.

'yön lé 'sí, *very far off*.
yön 'wong, *falsely accuse*.

Those words in the dialect that begin with n, m, v, while in northern mandarin they have only a vowel as their initial, are placed in the Dictionary system under those consonants, and they are all in the lower tones.

'niön 'zz, *well then it is—*
t'síen san van' 'ss, *a long distance*
ih páh man', *a million*.

Words in the upper series beginning with a vowel, which in northern mandarin take the sound *ng* before them, never have it in the Shánghái dialect, nor in the Dictionary system. E.g. ^[1] ngái', ngóh, ^[2] are pronounced é' and oh.

é' í yáng' meh zz', *love that thing*.

In the lower tones the initial *ng* is always preserved.

veh gé' sá', *no matter*.
ih 'ngan veh ngáng', *not in the least hard*.
'ngaú ngá t'sih 't'sz, *grind teeth with rage*.
'ngú veh ngú' *I am not hungry*.

[1] m. ngan, s. ön, ngun, s. un, ngái, s. é, ngán', s. én'. The true sound as heard in the provinces where mandarin is spoken, is a guttural to which the English alphabet has no equivalent. NG is employed for want of a better symbol.

[2] In the mandarin Dictionary, the initial NG is placed with U and A under w; I is placed with ü under y.

70. The remaining initials are ng, n, ni, m, v, l, and j. They belong with few exceptions to the lower tones.

NG, I. Many words classed in the Dictionaries under this initial are pronounced differently in this dialect. Thus yau, íen, have no initial consonant, ní, 'nü, ní', belong to the tooth nasal (N), are read ü, ú, but spoken *ng*. Ng precedes a, e, o, ö, u, but not i, ü.

II. Other words as *niöh*, *nieu*, *niön*, belong more properly to the class headed *ni*, or the Spanish circumflexed *n*. The *Sú-cheú* dialect agrees better with the Dictionaries in this class of words, than that of *Shánghái*.

III. All the words in Morrison with the initial *g* belong to this class, except such as are in the upper tones. Such words as he writes *aou*, *ae*, *yae*, follow the same rule.

71. *N*, *NI*. These though distinguished in some alphabets as in Sanscrit and Spanish, may be for our purpose more usefully regarded as identical, the *i* being considered to belong to the final. Accordingly such words as *'nü* *'né*, *nieu*, though placed under the palatal nasal *NI* in the native system, will be regarded as belonging to the tooth nasal *N*, and the remainder of the sound reckoned as the final. Even in the tables, these two consonants are in intentional juxtaposition. The consonants *T*, *CH*, to which they respectively belong are also naturally allied, as may be illustrated from our dialect, where *CH* becomes *TS*.

Many words written by Morrison *yŭh*, *yín*, *yén*, *ying*, *yŏ*, *yu*, *yuen*, *yuě*, take this initial, when they are in the lower tones. *N*, when thus prefixed, precedes no vowel but *i*, *ü*. The following are examples:—

<i>niók</i> ,	<i>níen'</i> ,	<i>niók</i> ,	<i>niön</i> ,
<i>niun</i> ,	<i>níen'</i> ,	<i>'nü</i> ,	<i>niön'</i> ,
<i>níen'</i> ,	<i>niung</i> ,	<i>nü</i> ,	<i>niöh</i> , R. <i>yöh</i> .

72. *M*. *V*. The class headed *M* includes not only the mandarin words in *m*, but some that in mandarin begin with *w*. They are therefore placed together in the Dictionary system. Words thus transformed have *v* in reading as an intermediate sound, and often retain that form in the colloquial. If they are not words in very common use, they do not assume *M* as their initial. The following are examples:—

mí and *ví*, C. *ví*, R.
man' and *van'*, C. *van'*, R.
mah, *mun*, C. and R.
, *vun*, *'vú*, C. and R.

Also are spoken *mun'*, &c., and read *vun'*, etc. In early Chinese these words all began with *b*.

73. L. J. The former of these, as used in our dialect, agrees with the native system, and with the northern mandarin, and calls for no remark except that a very few words as before noted belong to the upper series. See [Art. 56](#).

Under the initial j, are found all the Shánghái words in ni (C), and z (R), which are j, in Mandarin.
E.g. are spoken niáng, &c., and read záng, &c.

Thus,

niun, C. zun, R. jìn, M. *a man*.

nióh, C. zóh, R. júh, M. *flesh*.

Words that are *semi-colloquial*, or only used in combination retain z. E.g. *zax* are read and spoken 'zá, zun, etc.

Thus, zz' zén, C. and R. tsz' jen, M.

✱✱ Words in z from sh, or s in mandarin, never change into ni. Thus, the natural separation between distinct classes of words is maintained, when their reading sounds are identical.

74. This class also includes *R.H.* The native tables make no difference between *J* and *R.H.*, and in some parts of China the initial *J* is in *jih*, *sun*, and some other words pronounced like *R*.

rh 't'siá, *perhaps*.

When thoroughly colloquialized, however, these words pass into ní, and must be placed under n or ng.

ní', C. rh' R. *two*.

ní 'tsz, or *ng* 'tsz, C. rh, R. *son*.

'ní 'tú, C. rh tó, R. *ears*.

ii. *Finals.*

75. The Shánghái finals are about 60 in number. According to the native system, the whole of a word except the initial letter and the aspirate if there be one, is included in the final. In the Dictionaries, the finals, which unlike the initials differ but slightly from modern mandarin pronunciation, are less numerous. The tsz' hwei' has 44. The short tones which should be considered independent rhymes are counted with the corresponding long ones, and thus the number is diminished. The first table in K'áng-hí has sixteen, and the second, twelve. Under each are several subdivisions. Another small and very convenient Dictionary, the 'Wú fáng yuen

yin, taking the five tone mandarin dialect for its guide both in initials and finals, adopts twenty of the one, and twelve of the other, and arranges them under five tones. In reducing them to this small number, some violence is done to the sounds. All words beginning with a vowel, or NG are arranged under w and y. In the finals, expedients are also employed to diminish the number of headings.

76. In the finals, the departures from the mandarin type are numerous, but they are according to system, and the knowledge of one variation is usually a key to the pronunciation of many tens of other words. The variations are usually the same for one long tone as for all.

In the following table which consists of words without a diphthong, the first column contains the final according to Shánghái pronunciation; the second, all the examples of it having different rhymes in mandarin; the third, the mandarin spelling; and the fourth, the Shánghái reading sound.

P. I. S. IV. TABLE OF FINALS.

Finals.	Shánghái colloquial.	Mandarin.	Shánghái reading sound.
á	lá (upper series)	lá	
	pá‘	pái	pé
	ká	kiá	kiá
	‘ká	kiái, kiè	kiá
	k’á	k‘wai	k‘wé
	‘zá	jé	
ah	fah	fáh, fá	
	hah	hiáh, hiá	
	kah	kuh, kó	kuh
ák	pák	puh, ‘pá	puh
	zák	jóh, jó‘	
	mák, mok	múh, mú‘	mok
	zák	shǐh, ^[1] sh	
an	tan‘	tán	
	‘kan	kian	kíen
áng	tsáng	cháng	
	sáng	sung	sung
	táng‘	táng	tong

Finals.	Shánghái colloquial.	Mandarin.	Shánghái reading sound.
au	<i>háng, yung</i>	híng, háng	
	'hau	háú	
	'hau, <i>hó</i>	hiá'	yá
é	kau'	kiáú	kiau
	'hé	hái	
	lé	lei, lui	
eh	sé	shwái	
	<i>pé'</i>	pei	
	dzeh	tsáh, ^[2] tsá	
	zeh	shih, ^[3] sh	
	meh	múh, ^[4] mú	
	seh	shwoh	söh
én	weh	hwóh, ^[5] hwó	
	<i>pén'</i>	pwán	
	<i>zén</i>	ch'uen	
eu	'zén	shen	
	keu	keú	
	'lí	lí	
í	fí	fei	
	k'í'	k'ü	k'ü
	'si	sz	sz
ih	sí	sie	
	lih	lih, lí'	
	ts'ih	ts'ieh, t'sié	
ing	sih	siöh, 'sió	
	sih	siuh, sió	
	dzing	siün	
ó	sing	sin	
	sing'	sing	
	p'ó'	p'á	
	tsó	ché	tsó
	só'	shé	sé

Finals.	Shánghái colloquial.	Mandarin.	Shánghái reading sound.
öh	töh	tóh, ^[6] tó	
ók	tóh	túh, ^[7] tú	
	móh, mok	múh, mú	
	kóh, kweh	kwóh, ^[8] kwó	
ok	pók, pok	póh, ^[9] pó	
	lok	lóh, ló'	
	kok, kók	kióh, chió	kiák
ön	dön (upper series)	twán	
	ngön'	ngán	
óng	sóng, súng	sóng, súng	
ong	song	sáng	
	song	shwáng	
	mong	móng, múng	móng
	'kong	kiáng	kiáng
ú	'sú	só	
	tú'	tá	tá
	'kú	kú	
ü	kü'	kü	
	kü	kwei	kwé
û (ü)	'tsû tsü	chú	
uk	dzuk	chih, ^[10] ch	
ûe (üe)	sûe (ü)	súi	
un (ng)	kun (g)	kun	
	sun (g)	shin (un)	
	tsun (g)	tsün	
ûn	kûn	kán	
	sûn'	swán	
óng (ú)	lóng (ú)	lóng (ú)	
ung	hung	hung	
	mung (n)	mun	
m	vú, m	wú	vú
ng	hng	hung	

Finals.	Shánghái colloquial.	Mandarin.	Shánghái reading sound.
rh	rh	rh	
sz	sz	sz, sh and shí	
	'sz	shú	sû
	'sz	shúi	sûe

76. The intermediate vowel i forms the following finals:—

iá	siá	sié	sié
iah	kah	kiáh, kiá	kiah
iák	liah	lióh, liáu'	
ian	nian'	nien	
iau	kiau'	kiáu	
iáng	'k'iang	k'íang	
ié	't'siá	t'sié	t'sié
ien	sien	siuen	
	tien	t'ien	
	dzen	t'siuen	dzien
ieu	kieu	k'ieú	
	sieu	süh	
iih	nyih	jeh	zeh
ióh	k'óh	k'íuh, 'k'ü	
iöh	niöh	yueh	yöh
iön	kiön	k'iuén	
ióng	kióng	k'iong (ú)	
	kióng	kúng	kóng
iú	hiú	hiö	
iuk	niuk	nih	
iun (ng)	kiun (ng)	k'in	
iung (n)	kiung (n)	kin	
	kiung	king	
iúng	h'íung	h'iuŋ	
iün	h'iün'	h'iün	

[1] [2] [3] [4] [5] [6] [7] [8] [9] [10] When there are two modes of spelling in the column of mandarin pronunciation, the second is taken from the work which contains the Peking pronunciation of words in the short tone, spelled

according to the syllabic system. Those to which an asterisk is prefixed are all in the lower first tone.

77. The other intermediate vowels u, occurring only after k, g, forms the following finals:—

P. I. S. IV. TABLE OF FINALS.

Finals.	Shánghái colloquial.	Mandarin.	Shánghái reading sound.
uá	kwá	kwái	kwé
uah	kwah	kwáh	
nan	kwan	kwán	
wén	kwén	kwán	
wó	kwó	kwá	
wok	kwok	kwóh, 'kwó	
wong	kwong	kwáng	
wun (ng)	kwun (ng)	kwun	

Obs. i. For *óng* and *úng*, Morrison writes *úng*; Prémare *óng*. It will be seen that in our dialect they are both in use. When a word is pronounced alone, or when last in order, *ó* is more common, while *ú* prefers the first place in combination; *Súng-kong*, *Súng-kiáng*; *Ng sóng*, *Wú-súng*; *tsúng kóh niun*, *Chinaman*; *veh 'lá tong tsóng*, *not in the centre*.

Obs. ii. Words in *é* from M. *ái* have two sounds. Some employ the Scotch *ae* in *sae*, *nae*, etc. nearly like *e* before *r* in the English words *there*, *where*. Others pronounce the English *a* in *cake*, *same*, i.e. in our orthography *é*. Ex. *lé*, *'hé*, are constantly heard with both these sounds.

Obs. iii. Words in *én*, beyond *Wong dú'*, and *Tsü ká koh*, 25 and 30 miles to the west of *Shánghái*, change into *ön*.

Obs. iv. On *án*, *wán*. The second of these mandarin finals passes into *én* or *ön*. The former retains *a* for *á*. Ex. *Mén tseu*, *Manchu*; *'ng lóh man*, 50,000 or 60,000.

78. If the old native tables of finals could be reduced to a fixed Roman orthography, our dialect would be found to bear more similarity to that pronunciation as its maternal stem, than to its northern relative the modern mandarin. The final *k* in the short tone was recognized, and many subdivisions of a final into two or more branches agree with our usage; i.e. *kwán* into *kwön* and *kwan*. Some southern dialects preserve some parts and some others parts of this traditional pronunciation. The work before referred to, *Lé' sh' yin kien'* says, in the *Fán lieh*, *Introductory Notes*,
, , , , *Nén yun ü wén wan*, *kwén kwan pén pan*, *fun tsz zun' sí'*. *Poh wóh heh rh wé ih*. "In the south (*Kiáng-nán*. etc.), the pronunciation of the words *pén pan*, etc. is carefully separated, while in the north, they combine in one (*á*) sound."

Another instance there given, of difference between the north and south in the final, is in such words as , , , , , M. yin ying, k'in k'ing, shin shing, lin ling, p'in p'ing, kin king. These the author says, are carefully distinguished in the north, while in the south they are identical in sound.

The rule of Shánghái pronunciation is this. Those words that end in NG in mandarin keep it. Those words that end in UN change N into NG, while such as terminate in UN take N or NG indifferently. Thus the above examples are read niun (g) yung, kiun (g) kiung, zun (g) zung, ling ling, ping ping, kiun (g) kiung.

Both of this writer's observations are exemplified in the table. It is there shewn how far precisely this coalescing and subdividing of rhymes extends. One rhyme in either of the dialects, may branch off in the other into four or even six independent finals.

79. The most curious fact deducible from the table is, the affinity of certain vowels for the terminating consonant k (g before words in the lower tones) found in the short tone; a peculiarity which disappears a little south-west of Shánghái, and is not noticed at Ningpo.

The principal forms of words in the short tone in mandarin, according to different systems of orthography in common use are as follow:—

Morrison & Medhurst	ă	ě	eě	eĩh ih	uě	ĩh	ũh	õ
Prémare	ă	ě	iě	ĩ	uě	ě	ũh	õ
Williams	áh	eh	ieh	ih	ueh	eh	uh	óh
This work	áh	eh	ieh	ih	iöh	uh	úh	óh

Most words in the short tone ending in k, are of the last three of these finals u, ú, ó. Of the others, those in ih if they take k often insert a short u. E.g. is heard lik or liuk. Similarly when words in úh and óh do not take k, they change úh and óh into eh. Thus, móh becomes meh, Many words in conformity with this law, change their places among the finals, and the collocation of a and e, with k is carefully avoided, while u, ú, ó, retain it with equal consistency.^[1]—It should be observed however, that the á of mandarin becomes a in the short tone, and the longer a is only used as the colloquialized form of u. E.g. C. pák, R. puk. Thus in Shánghái usage, á, u, ó, o take k in the short tone, a, e, ö, admit m terminating consonant, while i remains common.

This law is much simpler than that of the Fúh-kien and other dialects of the south of China. But while in those dialects, there are found as in the dictionaries three terminating consonants, k, t, p, similar affinities to vowels are traceable. In Fúh-kien with the exception of á, which, all three share between them, k usually prefers one set of vowels, and t and p another.

The native rule in the southern dialects, that k, t, p, are merely the form assumed by the final letters ng, n, m, in the short tone, is inapplicable to dialects, so far north as this. In the native system of finals, this limitation is found indeed, but is not rigidly adhered to. Some words in t are placed under ng as well as n. Others in k occur under vowel finals. The cases of conformity however, are so much more numerous than the exceptions, that the rule is indubitable. Since here only k is in use, the modern seat of the old pronunciation of the dictionaries must lie in part farther south. It embraces indeed the seaboard provinces, from Shánghái to Canton with parts of Kiang-si and Hu-nan.

[1] Words in k frequently interchange. Uk and ák do so throughout, while ók, ok are often both in use for the same words.

Ex. moh hong or móh hong, *a timber yard*.

80. The letter n is also affected by the preceding vowel. After a, e, ö, û, it is almost unheard when no word follows, and though a well-defined consonant in the next word brings it into notice, it is still only audible as a slight nasal sound. The vowels i, o, refuse to be associated with it, and when u precedes, it only holds its position in common with ng. After ü it is as in mandarin.

81. Out of 63 finals, there are twenty that vary their sound in reading. In all these, there is an approach to the mandarin pronunciation, and they are therefore employed, by those born within the limits of the dialect, when they wish to make themselves intelligible to strangers. In such cases, they are usually under the delusive impression that it is mandarin they speak. Such is the advantage of the alphabetic system, with its all-versatile and exhaustive applicability, that a foreigner can pass from one dialect to another so far as sound is concerned, with much greater quickness than a native. The latter has no ready method of writing new sounds down, nor is he practised in the art of separating them into their alphabetical elements. No thing but a long residence in the region of another pronunciation, and some natural flexibility of organs, can give him a different set of tones, and a new arrangement of vowels and consonants. The sight of a character

suggests to him the sound, that he learnt in his childhood, and having always regarded each, sound as a unity not separable into alphabetic parts, any variation is too confusing and difficult of appreciation to be readily adopted.

The total number of sounds in our dialect independent of tones, is about 570. Morrison counts those of mandarin at 411, The difference is due to the broad initials B, G, D, V, Z.

82. *Irregularities of Pronunciation.* Words that do not conform in sound to the rules given in this section are few.

só' 'ng, (for seh ng), *fifteen*.

dzíen, R. is pronounced díen', C.

dióh, R. They should be dzóh.

'tá, to *strike*, in reading and colloquial is 'táng.^[1]

R. ná, C. á in á lí, *where*.

R. 'sú 'dzé, C. 'sû zé, *a house*.

^[1] The sound tang is the older. The phonetic ting points to a final ng as having formerly existed,

To these may be added the tendency of the initial κ to be pronounced, when standing before i, like τ in the upper series, and like D or DJ in the lower.

PART II. ON THE PARTS OF SPEECH.

Section 1. Native divisions.

83. Common teachers of the language in distinguishing words, only use two pairs of terms, viz. , zeh, h'ü, and , 'sz, weh. The former signifies words that have a meaning (full) and such as have not (empty). All substantives are seh zz' 'ngan. Auxiliary words or particles receive the name of h'ü zz' 'ngan. Verbs and adjectives are placed by some writers in the first of these classes, and by others in the second. Remusat, says that verbs are zeh zz'; a native author Pih wó tsun treats, all words except substantives, as in the second class.

84. The other pair of terms views words as nouns, which are spoken of as 'si zz' 'ngan, or verbs which are weh zz' 'ngan. The usual sense of is *living*, but by an extension of meaning, it is applied to anything not fixed to its place, or liable to change in its appearance or form. Hence, verbs as dependent on circumstances of time, will, etc. are termed *moving* or *transferable* words, while substantive are said to be *fixed* or *dead*.

85. The native writer just referred to, in a recent work, 'íen 'zü 't'sau dong pih kí', on the parts of speech and construction of sentences, has extended these divisions, by forming the h'ü zz', or words not substantives, into four classes:—

1. Adjectives ngé h'ü zz':—

Ex. kau, *high*. tú, *many*. tá', *great*.
 tí, *low*. 'sau, *few*. 'siau, *small*.

2. Verbs weh h'ü zz':—

Ex. tsok, *to do*. dzén, *to deliver down*.

3. 'k'eu k'i' 'nü 'dzú h'ü zz'. Under this head he gives as examples:—

íen,?	ú,?	}	Interrogative and other finals.
tsé,?	'yé,.		
't'sz, <i>this</i> .	'sú, <i>which</i> .	}	Pronouns and the sign of the possessive.
gí, <i>he</i> .	tsz, <i>of</i> .		
zun', <i>very</i> .	, 'k'ó, <i>can</i> .	}	Adverbs & auxiliary verbs.
tsûe', ,,	wé, <i>be</i> .		

4. k'óng weh h'ü zz'.

Obs. The word weh is apparently employed, because conjunctions like verbs connect what goes before with what follows. Similarly, in English grammar the verb is the *copula*, while a large class of conjunctions consists of such as are termed *copulative*. The word is prefixed to distinguish these particles from verbs. The examples he gives are—

sûe, <i>although</i> .	zû, <i>like</i> .	}	Conjunctions.
tan', <i>but</i> .	zák, <i>as</i> .		
rh, <i>further</i> .	né, <i>then</i> .		
fí <i>it is not</i> .	ú, <i>what?</i>	}	Negative and interrogative adverbs.
peh, <i>not</i> .	'k'í, <i>how?</i>		

These examples are from the language of books. The corresponding words in the dialect will be found in their places.

86. The frequent interchange of the parts of speech, and the rhythmical construction of sentences, have almost kept in concealment among the natives, the classification of which words naturally admit. Much attention has been given to the successive forms of the characters; the changes that have occurred in them, and the principles of their original formation have been carefully chronicled; but etymological studies have been comparatively neglected.

The rules of the Wun-cháng, or exercises in fine writing, law indeed been laid down, but they do not constitute the grammar of the language. While grammar is a science still unknown to the Chinese, it is a mark of the intelligence of our author that he has approached so nearly, as the preceding article shews to a western classification, and that he has defined with precision, all the principal parts of speech.

The division into parts of speech, and simple and compound words, gains in distinctness as we leave the books and restrict our illustrations to the language of conversation, and much more when instead of embracing the universal mandarin medium, we aim to exhibit the dialect of a single district.

For example the words kú', nung, sá'ng, are in the books verbs or nouns according to their position, their tones remaining unchanged. In the Shánghái dialect they are all verbs, viz. to pass, can, to produce, If they stand alone; but the combinations of which they form part are often substantives. Ex. kú' seh, *a fault*; nung lih, *strength*; sá'ng wéh work. Ming, which in the books is an adjective or verb, must if used as a verb in the colloquial have páh appended to it, otherwise it is an adjective. Thus instead of terminations invented to carry a root through two or more parts of speech, we have two roots in opposition for the same purpose. In the following pages accordingly, the terms noun; adjective, etc. will be predicated of the combined forms each as a whole, and not of its constituent words except when viewed independently.

Section 2. Relation of the dialect to the written language, and to other dialects.

87. In comparing the dialect with the language of books, it will be best to go at once to the oldest. The earliest portions of the Shú-king, *Book of History*, date from a period that must have been at least 3000 years ago if not previous to that of Moses. The occurrence of many of the commonest words now found in the colloquial *media* of China in records so ancient, is a sufficient illustration of the remarkable persistence of the language. It thus appears that many of the nouns and pronouns, adjectives and verbs, that formed the staple of conversation in the days of Yáu and Shun, are found not merely in the pages of an old world literature, but are still "familiar household words," among the whole Chinese race. The selected examples which follow are all of constant use in the Shánghái dialect.

88. Examples of single words used in combination or singly.

Names of natural objects, animals, &c.

t'ien, <i>heaven</i> .	niöh, <i>moon</i> .	'mó, <i>horse</i> .
ti', <i>earth</i> .	sing, <i>stars</i> .	nieu, <i>ox</i> .
niun, <i>man</i> .	san, <i>mountain</i> .	yáng, <i>sheep</i> .
'sz, <i>water</i> .	'hé, <i>sea</i> .	
'hú, <i>fire</i> .	't'sau, <i>grass</i> .	

Divisions of time.

t'sun, <i>spring</i> .	nyih, <i>day</i> .
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'hau, *summer*. niöh, *month*.
t'sieu, *autumn*. sêu', *solar year*.
tóng, *winter*. yá' *night*.

Meteorological terms.

fóng, *wind*. lé, *thunder*. 'ü, *rain*.

Numbers.

ih, *one*. lóh, *six*.
ní', *two*. t'sih, *seven*.
san, *three*. pah, *eight*.
sz', *four*. 'kieu, *nine*.
'ng, *five*. zeh, *ten*.

Cardinal points.

tóng, *east*. nén, *south*.
si, *west*. póh, *north*.

Verbs.

ting', *to fix*. nung, *can*.
kwé, *return home*. 'yeu, *have*.

Adjectives.

tá', *great*. hí, *few*.
'yön, *distant*. dzuk, *straight*.

Nouns.

zêu, *sin*. 'lí, *ceremony*.
mun; *door*. sz, *poetry*.

Pronoun.

'ngú, *I*.

89. Examples of nouns composed of two characters, or as they may be termed, dissyllabic forms.

pák-sing', *the people*.
t'ien-'au, *the world*.
tsung'-niöh, *1st month*.
ts'óng-ming, *intelligent*.
záng'-tí', *God*.

vóng wong‘ *phænix*.
fah-dú‘, *mode of government*.

90. Examples of words used in combinations in the dialect, but not singly.

as in ’tiau-niau, *birds*.
as in wong-tí‘, *emperor*.
as in zun-ming, *the inferior divinities*.
as in tí‘-wé‘, *station*.
as in zz‘-’t’í, *matter*.
as in ’k’ó-’í, *may, can*.
as in nyih-deu, *the sun*.
as in sing-vun, *intelligence*.
as in söh-sû, *relate stories*.

91. These examples, which might if it were necessary, be extended to a much greater length, will be sufficient to exhibit how the most ancient forms of speech, the primitive words of the Chinese race, have maintained their position to the present time. In a similar way, the later classics contemporary with Hebrew literature, and the most flourishing part of the Greek, might be shewn to possess in a still greater abundance, the materials from which this and other dialects have grown into their existing form. But there are also many new words; the passage of time must witness changes, even in the language of a people so devoted to antiquity as that of China. It has been shewn that there has been variation in tones, by referring to the pronouncing Dictionaries made long since. The natives recognize great differences in modern and ancient sounds, as seen in the rhymes of the Book of Odes. Words also have changed; many expressions once common have become antiquated, and new ones have appeared. A reference to colloquial mandarin will illustrate this statement, and bring before us another large portion of the materials of the dialect.

Relation to colloquial Mandarin. 92. The earliest examples of this form of Chinese, are found in works of the Sung dynasty and in the historical novels. Mencius so remarkable among the classic authors, for his picturesque imagery and the animation of his style, sometimes uses combinations, such as páng yeu‘, *friend*; zz‘ ’kí, *self*; seldom found in ancient books, and which may be considered as conversational.

93. The following are examples selected from the San kwoh chi , and Lieh kwoh chi , works now five hundred years old, of new words not found in the classics, and all in common use in our dialect.

zû', <i>tree.</i>	wé', <i>am able to.</i>
kiáh, <i>roof.</i>	k'iu, <i>eat.</i>
zén <i>boat.</i>	kiau', <i>call a person.</i>
p'ih, <i>stroke to the left.</i>	'lóng, <i>bring together.</i>
á, <i>take in order.</i>	'zá, <i>provoke.</i>
k'au, <i>knock.</i>	t'sieu, <i>restrain by holding.</i>
t'sáng, <i>pole a boat.</i>	dziau, <i>to look.</i>
t'sau, <i>to copy.</i>	'teu, <i>shiver.</i>
höh, <i>call to.</i>	t'ú, <i>to pull.</i>
pó, <i>to scratch.</i>	tsiau', <i>destroy</i>

94. Of the following new pronouns, and interrogative adverbs first found in the historical novels, there is scarcely any use made in the Shánghái dialect.

m. shen' 'mó? <i>what?</i>	m. 'ná 'li? <i>where?</i>
shih 'mó? <i>what?</i>	ché' kó', <i>this.</i>
'tsun 'mó? <i>how?</i>	t'á, <i>he.</i>

Obs. The Shánghái pronouns are all different from those, except the mutilated form 'a 'lí? *where?* So for the most part those of Fúh-kien; which again differ entirely from those of the Canton dialect as contained in Bridgman's Chrestomathy. Some pronouns are widely spread. Thus, ngó I, exists in all these dialects. As a class however, they are among the words most liable to variation in colloquial Chinese.

95. The following examples of double words taken from the same works, will further illustrate the extent to which mandarin phraseology agrees with that of our dialect. They are all such combinations as are not found in the classics, and might be increased indefinitely.

- niun ká, *a man.*
- tí deu, *lower the head.*
- k'é zén, *unmoor a boat.*
- zz zun, *an hour, i.e. twelfth of a day.*
- tsau ká', *shield one's-self.*
- (c) pong dzú', *to assist.*
- yúng í', *easy.*

- (c) zen tsáh, *boats; or a boat.*
 'p'ing ming', *throw away life.*
 k'ön' kien', *to see.*
 zeh 'seu, *maimed hand.*
 lí é', *dangerous, severe.*
 (c) 'tsz sí', *minutely.*
 'ká seh, *explanation.*
 dzong' 'tau, *push down.*
 kiung' dzóng, *revere.*
 tsûe' 'hau, *very good.*
 niun' tuh, *know a person.*
 (c) t'song' 'zó, *join one's hands in respect.*
 'tau 'zû, *set up on end.*

The characters marked (c) are those that were invented, to represent colloquial words written for the first time. The rest are old classical characters, but they are not found in these combinations.

97. On comparing the old historical novels, with mandarin colloquial tales of the present dynasty, such as the well-known *Dream of the Red Chamber*, no closer analogy with our dialect appears. The style indeed is much more diffuse, being a faithful copy of what real conversation is, and so far it is more like provincial dialects. But as to words, the auxiliary particles (in which the chief changes occur), are peculiar to mandarin, and the verbs and nouns are the same as those of earlier works.

Thus, occurs constantly instead of ch, which is the most common sign of the possessive in the *Three Kingdoms*. As the third personal pronoun, 'ná takes the place of gí The word for *said*, yöh, a term not used in conversation, is replaced by shwóh táú, either together or apart.

98. Having thus briefly considered the historical division that the dialect admits of, into primitive and modern words, something should be added on local terms, constituting the remainder. On examination it will be found that the words, single and compound, not in mandarin, are few. They can scarcely be many more than a hundred. In a list drawn up for the purpose by a native, of about 100, a third part consisted of verbs, another third part of particles, the rest comprised substantives, adjectives, and words imitative of sounds.

Many of these belong also to the dialects of the neighbouring cities. In the histories of Sú-cheú and Súng-kiáng, the short chapter devoted to the

subject of colloquialisms, enumerates several that belong equally to Shánghái. They appear to have been copied in great part from one work into another, and the whole number recorded in each does not reach fifty. Those contained in the history of Shánghái, will be found in the following pages under the parts of speech to which they belong. In Medhurst's Dictionary of the Fúh-kien dialect, there are classified lists of about 250 phrases peculiar to that province. Some of these however are corrupted forms of expressions used in the other parts of China.

99. The neighbouring dialect of Sú-cheú may be expected to have much in common with that of Shánghái, The system of pronunciation is in general the same, the initial consonants forming a hard and soft series, corresponding to the upper and lower tones in the southern provinces. The following are examples of phrases, the same as those of Shánghái.

'ná háng? <i>how?</i>	veh zz', <i>it is not</i>
zz' ká, <i>self.</i>	tú hau', <i>very many.</i>
veh kú', <i>not so.</i>	man' 'tíen, <i>little slower.</i>
tsú' sá'? <i>what do you?</i>	kú' deu, <i>there.</i>
kú' h'ih, <i>at preset.</i>	kú' kú', <i>that.</i>

tsé (M.), sign of completion.
'tsz (M.), sign of past participle.
kú' (M.), sign of possessive.
veh (M.), simple negative.
dsíen (M.), *all.*
sá' (M.)? *what?*
'hau 'hau nung, *well, in a good manner.*
'siáng záh 'tsz, *having thought of.*
'la óh 'lí, *at home.*
zz' ké' (s. seh ké nung), *thus.*

In some words very commonly occurring, that dialect differs from Shánghái and agrees with mandarin.

This, M. ché' kú'. s. tí' kú'.
He, M. t'á. s. í.
How? M. 'tsun 'mó yáng'?

Section 3. On the Substantive.

100. The native grammarian already introduced to the reader defines substantives, or rather substances, thus , T'ien dí' ming veh' ziáng' sú' zz' 'li, "Heaven, earth, names and things, images, numbers, facts and principles;" , van 'yeu yiung 'yeu tseh 'yeu k'i 'yeu sung, "all things that have form, material substances, breath and sound;" ih t'sih 'yeu tön 'k'ó 'tsz 'tsé, "all things having any property that can be pointed out;" kia wé' tsz seh zz', "are called substantives."

"The names of substances," he adds, "may consist of one or several characters, which must be arranged in classes, brought under the dominion of the rhythmus, and stored in the memory for use when required." Such nouns as express the properties of substances he calls 'tsz zz', "son characters," while the names of the substances themselves are termed 'mú zz', "mother characters." Attributes he further subdivides into "universal," kóng góng' 'tsz zz', and "special," seh zé 'tsz zz'.

Combined and uncombined substantives. 101. One of the most striking peculiarities of Chinese words, whether nouns, verbs or particles, is the strictness with which the laws of combination and order are observed. Each dialect has many words that can be used with or without an adjunct, and may be regarded as purely monosyllabic; another large class embraces such as are never used by the natives, except in apposition with some other word, and constituting for that dialect, what may be considered dissyllables. Of the former or monosyllabic kind are the following examples (s. c).

van', <i>cooked rice.</i>	mau', <i>cat.</i>	'keu, <i>dog.</i>
yün, <i>clouds.</i>	muh, <i>ink.</i>	yáh, <i>medicine.</i>
'lí, <i>moral law.</i>	mé, <i>coal.</i>	sih, <i>snow.</i>

102. In construction, these and similar words may be observed to remain in an uncombined state. The first word in each, of the following sentences exemplifies this remark.

'mi tih 'hau 'vá? *have you brought rice?*
niun 'zz ih yáng' kú, *I am a man as you.*
dzien' yau' dú', *let the sleeve be large.*

These words may all of them be used in combination, according to some of the laws described in the succeeding paragraphs. Thus they appear in dissyllabic forms such as—

'mí ká', *price of rice*. tú' niun, *father*.

103. The other class consists of those words that are never used without an adjunct. For example í *dress*, not used alone, is found among other combinations in the following.

í zong, *clothes*. pú' í, *cotton clothes*.

So also tsz, zeh, vong, 'lí, are found in combination only.

tsz lú, *a pig*.

ku' vong, *adopted child*.

kong tsz, *the river pig* (a fish).

'lí veh, *presents*.

nyih zuh, *eclipse of the sun*.

104. In construction, the adjuncts unless the rhythm requires it, cannot be omitted.

tsáh í zong, *put on clothes*.

sah tsz lú kú', *pork butcher*.

nyih deu lok san, *sun is setting*.

tsú vong 'tsz, *let a house*.

sóng' 'lí veh, *offer presents*.

Combination. 105. Substantives are formed of two or more substantives combined in various ways. If the collocation consists of species and genus, the former precedes.

páh zû', *cypress*.

dzó ú, *teapot*.

sóng zû', *pine*.

t'ih dan', *iron bullet*.

tsieu ú, *wine chalice*.

kí dan', *hen's egg*.

mau'-tan' hwó, *moutan pæny*.

peh-siáng' zén *pleasure boat*.

ká-ien záh, *first door-step*.

mú tau záh, *grind-stone*.

hóng wé' mau'-'tsz, *red tasselled hat*.

Obs. In the last five examples, the first two words constitute the species. The word záh requires as its appendage, if there is no specific term prefixed. When compounds are formed, the auxiliary word is omitted. In the last case tsz, the auxiliary is retained, or dropped at pleasure.

106. When the compound substantive formed by juxtaposition, consists of whole and part, or substance and accident or attribute, the former precedes.

'seu sing, *palm of the hand*.

'seu t'au', *gloves*.

zû' kun, *root of a tree*.

zû' ih, *leaves of a tree*.

teu fah, *hair*.

'seu seh, *head ornaments*.

107. When two or more substantives, cognate in meaning, or in some logical relation, are in apposition, their order depends on native usage.

t'sing kiön', *relations*. sing' sih, *letters and news*.

ká lu' *the road*. hú' suh, *goods*.

yóng kwong, *glory*. dzé báh, *money and silk*.

fóh loh zeu', *happiness, affluence and age*.

'tsieu suh dzé k'í' *wine, lust, riches and anger*.

Obs. i. The primary reason of the order in which these words are used, may have been a real or fanciful sequence of ideas, convenience of pronunciation, rhythm or caprice; but whatever it was, it is strictly preserved. Should another order be adopted, the meaning would not be conveyed. To these and other fixed combinations, found in all parts of speech, must in great part be attributed, the facility with which a language of monosyllables and tones such as the Chinese, is employed as a conversational medium.

Obs. ii. Many words found in compounds of this sort are inseparable. Thus kiön' has no other use in the dialect, than to form these combinations. As a verb *to compassionate* its use is limited to the books.

Obs. iii. Under this head may be included antithetical substantives (Literæ oppositæ, Premare), of which there are several in common use without a particle between them. tsí (*elder sister*) mé' (*younger do.*) *sisters*; kiun (*birds*), seu' (*beasts*), *animals*; t'ien dí', *heaven and earth*; fú vú', *husband and wife*; san 'sz niun veh, *mountains, water, men and things*; tóng dién niung 'tsz, *copper and silver money*.

Obs. iv. Phrases of this sort are not coined *ad libitum*. They are old forms, and the modern Chinese do not allow themselves to make new ones. Each dialect has its own traditional arrangement of words, as well as its particular mode of enunciating the tones, and its alphabetical variations. But there is in all the dialects, so large a majority of phrases as well as words, common to the rest of China, even in that of Fúh-kien, that the identity of the language is in no district brought into question by these differences.

108. Some of these combined forms consist of a substantive and an enclitic. Of the auxiliary words thus used 'tsz, teu, are the most common.

keh 'tsz, *a pigeon*. sih 'tsz, *matting*.
kwah fah 'tsz, *machinery*.
kwén' deu, *saucepan*. lieu deu, *pulley*.
tsén deu, *bricks*. wó' deu, *words*.
kweh- 'rh deu, *an axle*.

These enclitics are never used in the classics; they form a leading characteristic of colloquial Chinese. 'Tsz and teu give individuality and definiteness to the term they qualify. Their proper meaning, *son*, *head*, is in these cases lost; they help also to fill the rhythm of the sentence, and to distinguish the words to which they are appended from other terms like them in sound. The enclitic rh, so common in the mandarin provinces, and also in the dialect of Háng-cheú, has its place supplied by 'tsz. Nyih 'tsz *day* is distinguished from nyih deu *the sun* by the enclitic.

109. To express a place where persons come and go, the words deu and dzáng are appended to substantives.

lih sih, or sih alone, expresses *small fragments of*.
kióh deu, *place of carrying on trade*.
kiau deu, *landing place of a bridge*.
'mó deu, 舢舨, *of a ferry*.
'tu dzáng, *place of gaming*.
h'í dzáng, *place of seeing plays*.
nieu dzáng, *place of tethering cattle*.
zá lih sih, *small fragments of firewood*.

110. Verbs and adjectives form compound substantives, by taking after them such auxiliaries as teu, fah and t'sû'.

'yeu pan' deu, *there is a way of doing it*.
m 'zú t'sû', *no place to sit down*.
'yeu sá' t'sû' fah? *is there a way of doing it?*
m sá' 'hau t'sû', *no benefit in it*.
'ná nung 'hau fah? *how is it good?*
dzáng deu, *overplus*.
, dzung' deu, û deu, *remainder*.
lau zeh deu, *a simple, honest person*.
'k'u 'nau 'tsz, *one very poor and wretched*.

111. Many of the auxiliary substantives treated of in the next section, whose office it is to stand between numerals and their nouns, often follow their substantives without a numeral. A compound is thus formed, in which the sense of the classifying particle is often preserved, *A piece of* is expressed by k'wé. *A bar of* by tiau.

ping k'wé, <i>piece of ice.</i>	kong diau, <i>steel spring.</i>
zén tsáh, <i>boats.</i>	niun deu, <i>a man.</i>
sû 'pun, <i>books.</i>	'tsz tsáng, <i>sheet of paper.</i>

112. The words fú, 'seu, tsoh, ziáng', sz' vú', ká, niun, are appended to substantives to denote agents, trades and professions.

kiák fú, *a porter.*
h'íung 'seu, *murderer.*
, mok tsoh, or móh ziáng', *carpenter.*
, 'sz tsoh, or ní 'sz ziáng', *bricklayer.*
há ziáng' sz' vú', *shoemaker.*
dzé vóng sz' vú', *tailor.*
tién ká, *shop-keeper.*
zén ká, *boatman.*
tsoh ng niun. *fisherman.*
sih zá niun, *wood gatherer.*
tóng (east) ká, *master (who places his guests on the right.)*
'lí sáng, *director of rites.*
sien sáng, *teacher.*

Obs. In the longer examples, some verbs will be found which enter into composition, as those in [Art. 113](#).

113. Verbs and adjectives are frequently compounded in the same way as substantives.

ping (to screen) fóng (the wind), *a screen.*
vú (to support) 'seu (the hand), *hand-rail.*
k'íuh (eat) giòh (food), *food.*
'siau tsiá, *young lady.*
'kú (old) 'tóng, *curiosities.*
'hú (combine) kí' (plans), *partner in business.*
pién' (to plait) 'tsz, *the queue.*
wong (yellow) long (wolf), *weasel.*

t'seu (to draw out) t'í' (drawer), a drawer.

sáng (raw) lí (pears), pears.

hwó (flower) óng (red), small apples.

kíun boh, (thin) gold-leaf.

siáng (mutual) hau (good) intimate friends.

114. The word 老, merely euphonic, is joined to the names of persons, both relative and proper. Thus instead of 伯伯 kó kó, *elder brother*, we have in Shánghái 伯伯 ah (R. á.) kú also 伯伯 or 伯伯 tiá tiá, *father*. When applied to the names of children and others in humble life, either word in the proper name may annexed.

115. Some examples of foreign words used in the dialect, and of colloquial substantives, extracted from the history of Shánghái are here appended.

á p'ien', *opium*.

ká só, *Buddhist priest's robe*. Sanscrit Kashaya.

(c) 翅膀 (c) kí' lih, *wings*. M. 'ch pang rh.

(c) 尾巴 ní' pó, *tail*. () R. 'vi) M. i pa.

(c) 小兒 'siau nön, *little boy*.

(c) 蟹 heu', *the king-crab, rainbow*. M. kang', R. 虹 hung.

(c) 冰 yien doh, *icicles*. M. ping chiu' 'tsz.

(c) 羊奶 yáng 'ná, *goat's milk*.

(c) 筷子 k'wan, *chopsticks*. M. k'wai tsz.

(c) 煙 t'sóng, *chimney*. M. yen 't'ung.

爺娘 yá niáng, *father and mother*. M. tie niang.

Obs. Characters followed by (c) are such as are borrowed, to represent purely colloquial words.

New and colloquial words are usually written on the phonetic principle, as may be noticed in the first three examples. Natives differ much in their way of writing purely colloquial words, and being never made use of in books, it matters little what character is adopted.

116. The last way of forming compound substantives to be exemplified, is by the particle 仔 kú', which coming after a verb and noun expresses an agent.

k'íuh liáng kú, (*living on imperial rice*), *soldiers*.

t'sáng zén kú', *those who work boats*.

'kwén tsáng'-kú', *account-keeper*.

má' hwó kú', *flower-seller*.

'pá dú' kú', *ferryman*.

Obs. The common word tih and in books 'tsé is not used in this dialect its place being supplied by kú' as in these examples.

Repetition. 117. Substantives are in some cases repeated. Forms indicative of diminutiveness are such as occur in the following examples.

'nau ih sing sing, *look! there is a star*.

yau' ih 'tíen 'tíen, *I want a very little*.

118. A few repeated forms occur, with an adjective preceding in opposition.

én' dóng dóng, *a dark place*.

liáng 'kwong 'kwong, *a glimmer of light*.

Obs. Such forms of repetition are rare, except when they express plurality (v. [Art. 129](#)). In the adjective and verb, they are much more common. See also [Part III. Repetition](#).

119. The formation of compound substantives, by the simple apposition of two or more roots, is also found in other languages. English and German contain many examples. Substantives, adjectives, and verbs all enter into these forms. E.g. hearsay (v. v.), sunset (s. v.), windfall (s. v.), footstool (s. s.), farewell (v. adv.), lebewohl (do. German), adieu (prep. s. Fr. Eng.), addio (do. Ital.), safeguard (a. s.), white-bait (a. s.), Rath-haus (s. s.), council-house (s. s.). Though many of these words are written without a break, the accent on the penultimate indicates, for those that are English, that they are compounds. In languages that have an extensive system of terminations such as Latin, Greek, and Sanscrit, when composition occurs, the constituent roots become one word, and the affix of declension, &c. in the word that precedes is usually omitted. Thus, in ἀντάδελφος and αὐτόχειρ the simple root *aut* precedes the word to which it is joined, in one case with no adjunct, and in the other with the connecting vowel *o*. In the Latin word *respublica*, *reipublicæ* we have two roots in apposition, without the process of declension being interrupted. Cases of simple juxtaposition such as this, are much rarer in the ancient languages than in the modern, where the root admits of few variations in its form.

120. In the development of a language consisting of monosyllabic roots, where nothing can be added or altered, some equivalent for terminations and compounds must be expected. This want is met in the Indian languages

of America, by combining several independent roots into one word. If for these agglutinated syllables, separate characters were reserved, it would be a system resembling the Chinese. We have in the latter (1), simple apposition of roots, as exemplified in articles 105, 106, 107. Second, there is a change of certain substantives into mere particles which are appended, deprived of their primitive meaning, to large classes of words, as seen in articles 108, 109, 110. Forms of this second kind are usually expressive of simple ideas only; the others may be simple or compound. The terminations of tense and case in the classical languages came from the simple apposition of separate words. Those of the first, second, and third persons of a verb are derived for example, from the three corresponding personal pronouns. Obsolete forms preserved in the oldest writers countenance this theory. Whether the primitive speech of mankind was of this sort, may be matter of controversy, but there can be no doubt that the Chinese language has this peculiarity.

121. Variation in tone might be enumerated as a third mode of supplying the want of inflexions. Examples in the spoken language are however extremely few. In tsóng', *to sow*, and 'tsóng 'tsz, *seed*, the tone differs. But even here the enclitic is an inseparable appendage to the noun. Some other examples here follow:—

ih wé', <i>one time</i> .	wé lé, <i>come back</i> .
mú' 'tsz, <i>a mill</i> .	mú máh, <i>grind wheat</i> .
k'ien' zung, <i>towing-rope</i> ,	k'ien zén, <i>tow a boat</i> .
t'ih ting, <i>iron nail</i> .	ting' lau, <i>nail fast</i> .
yung ké, <i>ought</i> .	yung' 'hü, <i>a promise</i> .
siáng pong, <i>to assist</i> .	tsé' siáng', <i>chief mandn</i> .

Obs. The superior comma on the right shows where the words whose tone varies should receive the quick rising tone, or Shánghái *k'u shing*.

Gender. 122. Gender is expressed by auxiliary words set apart for the purpose. It being thus merely an instance of adjectives and substantives in apposition, the arrangement requires the words descriptive of sex (nén, 'nü), or gender (t'sz, yióng) to precede.

yióng-kí t'sz-kí, <i>a cock and hen</i> .
ih tsáh yióng sz-tsz, <i>a male lion</i> . ^[1]
nén niun, <i>husband</i> .

'nü nön, *a girl*.

[1] In the books yóng, t'sz, are restricted to birds, and ping' and meu' to animals. In the colloquial of this part of China, the pair of words above are used in all cases.

123. Among the words used in the Shánghái dialect to express family relationship are the following:—

tiá tiá, *father*.

ah 'má, *mother*.

ah 'ná, *grandmother*.

páh páh, *eldest uncle*.

yá sóh, *younger do*.

niáng gieu', *mother's brother*.

dzáng' niun, *father-in-law*.

dzáng' m, *mother-in-law*.

sing vú, *daughter-in-law*.

ah tsí, *elder sister*.

mé' mé', *younger do*.

tsí fú, *brother-in-law*.

sun 'nü, *grand daughter*.

ngá' sáng, *sister's son*.

'nü sih, *son-in-law*.

kú mó, *husband's sister*.

kú niáng, *father's sister*.

ah í, *wife's sister*.

ah sau, *brother's wife*.

ah dzeh, *brother's son*.

ngá' kóng, *mother's father*.

ngá bú, *mother's mother*.

Number. 124. The form of the substantives in the singular and plural is the same. The auxiliary adjectives and adverbs used to express plurality are placed some before and some after their words. Tsóng', tú hau' 'hau 'kí, and tá precede their noun. Dzen, t'óh, invariably follow their words.

125. tsóng' precedes its noun and expresses universality.

tsóng' pák sing', *all the people*.

tsóng' wé' á, *all you persons*.

126. tú hau' and 'hau 'ki describe *a great number or several*. Being double inseparable particles, they form a complete member of a sentence alone, and therefore can be separated from their words, and placed afterwards with a copula and a terminating particle.

tú hau' meh zz', *a great many things*.

meh zz' 'yeu tú hau' lá, *there are very many things*.

'hau 'kí kú' niun, *a good many men*.

niun 'yeu 'hau 'kí ku', *there are several men*.

127. tú, several, like tsóng' cannot form a complete member of a sentence alone, and therefore precedes its word. It is used extensively with, the specific substantive particles already alluded to. The word tu, *many*, retains its old sound ta for this use.

'má tsz tá kiun 'tsé, *have bought several catties.*
tá wé', *several times.*
tá kú' kóh dú', or tá kóh, *several kingdoms.*
tá kü' seh wó', *many sentences.*

128. The words , dzén, t'óh foil following their substantives, usually from the first word in the concluding member of the proposition.

'mí lau niók t'óh yeu, *there are both rice and meat.*
niun dzén 'lá k'ön' hí', *they are all looking at the play.*

Obs. Pronunciation places these auxiliary particles in closer union with the following word, than with their own noun. Yet the rhythmus often attracts the two members into one sentence. E.g.

nén 'nü t'oh 'yeu, *the men and women are all there.*
kwén 'fú dzén 'hau, *the mandarins are all good.*

129. The plural is also formed by repetition.

niun niun lé 'tsé, *the men are all come.*
kók kók t'á' bing, *nations all at peace.*
sz' sz' dé' dé', *age after age.*

Case. 130. The genitive or possessive case is expressed by kú'. It corresponds to tih, M. gé, é, Fúhkien, kó', Canton.

í kú' sáng k'í', *his voice.*
hwó kú' 'nü deu, *the buds of flowers.*
niun kú' mien' 'k'óng, *the human voice.*

Obs. When the possessive particle is omitted, a compound substantive is formed, as hwó 'nü deu, *flower buds*. Here no transposition is necessary, the predicated part standing last in both cases. English idiom placing the subject after the possessive particle, also requires the definite article to begin the sentence, "the buds of flowers." When the constituent words are not adapted to form a compound substantive, as in the first of the examples above, the particle is always retained.

131. The objective case has no particle to mark it. It is known by position, coming after the verb. The nominative always precedes the verb.

'ngú kau' sú' ná', *I tell you.*
sóng 'ngú ih 'pun, *give me a book.*
veh yau' mó' niun, *do not rail at people.*
kau' sú' í 'lá 'tsé, *I have told him.*

132. Only the verb wó', *to say*, requires a particle to precede the objective noun. The words , , t'í', té', t'eh, may either of them be employed.

'ngú t'í' ná' wó', *I tell you.*
t'eh í wó' meh 'tsé, *tell him.*
té' í wó' 'lá 'tse, *have told him.*

Obs. This verb being intransitive, and standing last, leaves the substantive ungoverned, and renders a preposition necessary. So in English *say* requires *to* after it. In Latin, the noun is put in the dative without a preposition, as *dico vobis*.

133. The sign of the dative in *da mihi*, and *give it to me* is omitted. The euphonic particle 'lá is used to fill up the rhythmus.

peh 'ngú ih kú', *give me one.*
peh van 'lá 'ngú, *give me rice.*
peh van' 'ngú k'íuh, *ditto.*
peh tsz 'ngú meh 'tsé, *give it to me.*
peh 'lá í 'lá 'tsé, *have given it him.*

Obs. i. In English *to* is omitted or not at pleasure. Such datives as occur in *Gloria Patri*, *dedicated to the interests of truth*, *my love to you* cannot be expressed.

Obs. ii. In the example *peh 'ngú ih kú'*, the dative comes next to the verb, while in the following sentence, the object precedes it. These differences of position are occasioned by the rhythmus.

134. *To a place* is expressed by tau', usually with a verb of motion following the substantive.

tau' Sú-tseu k'í' 'tsé, *gone to Sú-cheú.*
'kí zz tau' Zóng' 'hé, *when did you come to Shánghái?*
tau' 't'sz dí' lé tsú' sá? *what do you come to do?*

135. *Motion from or by* (ablative) is expressed by zz', zóng, yeu or , 'táng. The last of these is most frequently employed.

'táng sá' ú dong lé? *whence do you come?*
'táng kú' píen 'tseu, *go that way.*

dzóng dí‘ dah tau‘ óh ‘lí, *from hence home*.

136. The sense of *for, instead of* is given by several particles, , , , , t’í, dé, dé t’í, t’uh and wé‘, are all in use.

t’uh ‘ngú k’í‘ ‘má, *go and buy for me*.

wé‘ tsz ‘ngú lau— *on my account—*.

t’í‘ nóng tsú‘ sáng weh, *do work instead of you*.

137. *In* and *at* (locative case) are expressed by leh ‘lá and ‘lá before, and ‘lí or ‘lí h’iáng‘, after the substantives, (M. tsai‘ prefixed, , , , ‘lí, núí‘, chóng suffixes).

veh ‘lá óh ‘lí, *not at home*.

veh ‘lá Zóng‘ ‘hé, *not at Shánghái*.

leh ‘lá veh leh ‘lá, *at home or not?*

veh leh ‘lí, *not at home*.

tsz‘ lí kúng fú, *mere words*.

sing ‘lí h’iáng, *in the mind*.

138. *With, of* (instrumental case) are expressed by the verb, tan (also nan west of Shánghái), or nó, *to bring*, preceding the noun and a verb following it. (M. tsiáng, pa; in books, ‘í and by the suffix kú‘, which usually takes a verb between it and the noun.

tan tau lé kweh (köh), *cut it with a knife*.

sih tsú‘ kú‘, *made of tin*.

139. In expressing *by* (instrumental case), the auxiliary verb peh precedes the instrumental noun, and the principal verb with or without its regimen follows (M. pei):—

peh lá yá niáng tsah bé‘, *he was reproved by his parents*

140. *Along with* is expressed by t’eh , t’í and tóng. The governed noun is followed by ih dau together. This appendage is sometimes omitted, when is used.

t’eh í ih dau k’í‘, *go with him*.

tóng ‘ngú ‘ní pau‘, *go with us*.

t’í‘ ‘ngú ih dau k’í‘, *go with me*.

'ngú t'eh nong tsú' páng 'yeu, *I will be your friend.*

141. As a sign of the vocative, the suffix á is sometimes used.
lau h'iung á, *brother* (addressed to strangers as friendly salutation).

142. *Case particles in other languages.* Prepositions standing before the noun, and terminations making up one word with the root, are used together in the classical languages to express case; and very frequently the suffixes alone. In the modern European languages, suffixes are much less used, prepositions performing the office of case particles. In the Tartar languages, the particles called in other languages prepositions, come after their words, and are therefore called postpositions. In Manchu, the oblique cases, four in number, are formed by suffixes selected from this class of particles. When written they are joined to the noun or not at pleasure, and may all be used independently as particles. Thus it appears that the Chinese in using separate case particles, some before and some after, the nouns to which they belong, do not depart from the practice common to other races.

143. Premare's method of illustrating one by one, the words most important in a grammatical view, by numerous examples, is here followed in regard to some commonly used nouns.

'k'eu, *mouth, an opening.* It is only used in combination.

'k'eu yun, *speech.*

'k'eu dzé, *fluency.*

'k'eu 'zz sing fí, *plausible but not sincere.*

san t'só lú' 'k'eu, *where three roads meet.*

'k'eu deu íen 'nü, *colloquial particles.*

ih 'k'eu 't'ú báh, *all he says is in the dialect.*

mun 'k'eu, *opening.*

'hé 'k'eu, *sea-port.*

Dzó' p'ú' 'k'eu tsz', *Háng-cheú bay.*

'k'eu söh m bing, *words without foundation.*

'yeu k'eu m sing, *speaking without thinking, mere words.*

ih 'k'eu ngau ding', *spoke decisively.*

144. k'í'.

1. *Breath, vapour.*

t'eu k'í', *to breathe.* tí k'í', *climate.*

sák k'í', *moisture.*

dön' k'í', *to die.*

2. Anger.

'zá k'í' nong', *provoke you.*

veh yau' dón' k'í' *do not be angry.*

k'í' sah 'ngú, *provoke me greatly.*

3. Manner, expression, meaning.

yáng k'í' lé lau, *beautifully ornamented.*

zun k'í' wén zén, *likeness to perfect.*

veh yau' k'ák k'í', *do not stand on ceremony.*

tú' 'yeu foh k'í', *has great happiness.*

145. sing, heart, mind.

sing 'lá sū long', *attend to your book.*

sing 'lí ming bák kú', *has an intelligent mind.*

k'eu sing wah 'tan, *mind set on schemes.*

, , tong sing, lieu sing, 'siau sing, *pay attention.*

dzing' sing gih lih, *do your utmost.*

'liáng diau sing sz, *double-minded.*

pak fí' sing sz, *planning in vain.*

ih sing ih nian', *all intent upon.*

dzuh sing dzuh tú dzáng, *honest, sincere.*

sing sing 'tsū nian, *resolutely intent on.*

t'suk 'tan tsóng sing, *faithful.*

146. 'seu, hand, an artisan.

zong' 'seu 'au 'seu, *superior and inferior workmen.*

'tóng 'seu veh tuh, *may not put hand to it.*

, 'seu mong kiáh lön, *confused and wrong.*

t'sing 'seu, *with his own hand.*

ih 'seu nan tsó t'ien 'au móh, *one hand cannot cover the eyes of all the world.*

pák 'seu gieu dzé, *want money without earning it*

pong 'seu, *assistant.*

dzén 'seu, *from hand to hand.*

147. vun', *duty, divisions.*
seh vun' 'lí ih vun', *one tenth.*
, ming vun', 'pun vun', *duties.*
tsuh vun', *an office.*
ih sáng òn vun', *do my duty a whole lifetime.*
vun' 'sú tong zén, *as in duty bound.*

148. teu, *head.*
m deu m 'nau, *without order.*
teu ní páh 'lí, *about 200 Chinese miles.*
'kí hau' niun deu? *how many men?*
'k'í deu, *at the beginning.*
teu deu 'zz dau', *it is all reasonable.*

149. ngan *eye, a point, a small hole.*
ih ngan veh t'só, *quite right.*
'ngan tsing veh 'hau, *his eyes are bad.*
— tseh tuh ih 'ngan, *only a very little.*
'ngan tí m niun, *thinks none so good as he.*

150. moh, *eye.*
teu móh, *chief.* t'sáng' móh, *accounts.*
'ngan moh, *eyes.* sú' moh, *numbers.*
tá' kwan tsih móh, *important doctrine.*

151. 'tí, *bottom.*
niöh 'tí, *end of the month.*
nien 'tí, *end of the year.*
sz 'tí 'au, *secretly.*
'tí 'li, *at the bottom.*
'tí 'au 'wan t'óng, *to inform secretly.*
'tí mien' peh ú, *heart and looks not agreeing.*
dzuk tau' 'tí, *to the end.*
kiák 'tí 'au, *under the feet.*

152. The following substantives combine with the cardinal points to form nouns of place. They are arranged in the order of their frequency. 東, 南, 西, 北, han', pén' ban, mien', pien, 'seu, teu, fong. One or two examples will suffice to explain this usage.

東, 南, tóng pén' ban, tóng mien', *on the eastern side*.

The combinations with 內 'lí, *within*, include two other words which here appended, 內, 內, 內, h'iáng', sz', mien', pien, teu.

Thus, 內, 內, 'lí h'iáng', 'lí mien', *inside*.

Obs. Other words, such as the demonstrative pronouns, and some of the prepositions form similar combinations, as will be afterwards seen.

Section 4. On numeral particles and auxiliary substantives.

153. Under his head, are included the classifying particles, called by some writers numerals, with weights and measures, and any parts not being themselves full appellative nouns, into which substantives admit of being divided.

Obs. i The distinctive numeral particles applied to different substantives, belonging as they do themselves to that class of words, could not be placed with propriety among or after the adjectives; yet their Syntax is sufficiently unlike that of the substantive to require them to be placed apart.

Obs. ii. A comprehensive classification of substantives has been presented to philologists, by Dr. Legge in his "Letters on the rendering of the name God in Chinese," Hongkong, 1850. Several useful terms are there introduced, partly from Nordheimer, but a place for the nouns now under discussion is not provided for except under class (4). The classes into which common or nouns not proper are there divided, are—

1. "Appellative or generic nouns, or names of species of individual existence, e.g. man, mountain, tree, house, garment." Here shape and substance are both included, and the indefinite article can be prefixed in all cases.
2. "Material nouns, e.g. corn, gold, water." Here matter only is embraced, while the limitation of form must be supplied by other words, as "a bushel of corn," "a handful of gold," "a cup of water," "a sceptre of iron." Nordheimer, Hebrew Grammar, vol. II. 796, invents no name for the former words in these cases, merely saying that the second limits the first in meaning. He considers them all concrete nouns.
3. "Collective nouns, or nouns which though singular in form, yet express a multitude."
4. "Abstract nouns or names of qualities or modes of existence, abstracted from the object with which they are in combination." Numeral particles and nouns of measure and shape must be placed here, although they are thereby associated with a multitude of mental and moral terms, with which they have little in common. Abstract nouns might form two classes distinguished as material and moral.

5. "Relative nouns, e.g. father, king." Since the second class material nouns furnishes the matter of which the words 'bushel,' 'handful', 'cup,' etc. supply the form, perhaps these auxiliary words should be called formal nouns, and form a sixth class.

154. The classes (1), (2), (5) and part of (4), are embraced in the preceding section; The remainder form the subject of the present. With regard to their use, combined with the numeral, they cover the ground of the article *a, an* in the class, and of the auxiliary words in the second.

Thus, a mountain, ih zú' san.
Call a man, kau' ih kú' niun lé.
Two measures of rice, ní' 'teu 'mí.
A cup of cold water, ih 'wén 'láng 'sz.

Obs. In Hebrew no word like *of* is necessary, e.g. shébet (constr.) barzel, *a sceptre of iron*. Lat. *virga ferrea*.

155. The number and the auxiliary word are both necessary to the idiom, but the latter is sometimes used alone after the substantive, as noticed in [Art. 111](#). Yet in this case, the same construction is admissible. Thus we have,

'liáng kan vong kan, *two rooms*.
'liáng diau kong diau, *two steel springs*.
san tsáh zén tsáh, *three boats*.

156. The distinctive numeral particles, or those employed with the appellative or generic nouns, here follow.

kú' (keu'), of men, fish, cash, dials, collars, and all relative terms.
'k'ú, of pearls.
kun (root), of candles, hairs, trees, masts, bamboos.
kwén (pipe), of flutes, pencils.
'k'eu (mouth), of coffins, men (as consumers).
k'ú, of plants, trees, roots, san k'ú zû', *3 trees*.
k'wé', of stones, bricks, dollars.
kíen', of garments, affairs, news, things.
teu, of men, of cattle (when reckoned by heads).
'ting, of sedan chairs, hats, umbrellas, curtains.
'tú, of single flowers.
tung, of candles, lights, ih tung 'hú, *a light*.
'tú, of walls, ih 'tú dziáng, *a wall*.

tiaú, of snakes, dragons, bridges, ropes, roads.
 'pó (hold in hand); of chairs, knives, fans, wine bowls.
 'pun (root), of books, account books, plays.
 p'ih, of horses (is more common.)
 mien, of mirrors, brass and skin gongs.
 foh, of pictures, maps.
 fong, of letters, ih fong sing', *a letter*.
 vun, of cash, (is more common).
 tsáh, of birds, quadrupeds, tables, temples, hands, feet, watches, shoes,
 clocks, eyes, ears, vessels.
 'tsan, of lamps.
 tsong, of matters.
 'tsong, of matters.
 tsz, of pencils, branches, stalks.
 zú', of houses, mountains, pagodas.
 zung, of carriages.
 yön, of dollars.
 yáng', of affairs, matters.
 háng', of things, matters. Also sing, of things.

Obs. i. The office of these substantive particles is simply indicative. The reason of their application to particular words is custom only, but etymological connection is sometimes traceable as in to close up, is applied to men only as a suffix.

Obs. ii. All generic and relative nouns are here included. They are distinguished in English from material nouns by taking the plural, and admitting *a, an*, before them.

Obs. iii. These words differ frequently, in their application to particular nouns, from the usage of other parts of the country. A native of Fúh-kien would laugh to hear tsáh, instead of tsz, applied to hands and feet. In mandarin vi', is the distinctive particle for fish instead of kú', which is employed in this dialect.

Obs. iv. Most of these particles are employed in mandarin. They are used sparingly in the historical novels, because the semi-colloquial, semi-literary style of those works only occasionally expands into full conversational idiom. When it does so, they are always found.

157. The next class of the auxiliary substantives are such as are significant, or retain their meaning when translated into English, giving to their substantives, which are either material nouns or are construed as such, limitations of form and quantity.

Obs. Weights and measures, names of vessels, divisions of books, etc., though belonging to the significant auxiliary particles, will be placed separately (see [Art. 158–160](#)).

kan, *a room of a house*, ih kan vong deu, *a room*.

'k'eu, *mouthful of breath, words, rice.*
kū', *a sentence of speech, ih kū seh wó'.*
kûn, *rod of bamboo for fishing, ih kûn diau' kûn.*
k'ú, *pluck up a heap of grass, pah ih k'ú 't'sau.*
k'wé', *a piece of land, meat, silver.*
'k'wun (to roll), *a faggot of wood.*
kióh, *play a game at chess, tsoh ih gióh gí.*
'ngan (eye) *holes in nets, of nails, cash, a little of any thing.*
tan' (to carry), *a load of anything, ih tan' meh zz'.*
'tíen *drop of ink, little of anything.*
t'ong, *how many kinds of food, 'kí t'ong van'.*
tun, *heap of earth, rubbish.*
té, *a stage of plays, table of wine, food.*
teu, *bring an end of rope, tan ih deu zung.*
tiau, *long piece of iron, wood, string of cash.*
tön, *piece cut off, of wood, string, etc.*
'pan, *half sheet of paper.*
pau (to wrap) *a parcel, bundle of cotton, sugar.*
'pó, *handful of rice, ih 'pó 'mí.*
p'á', *division of things, kind of men, customs.*
p'ien', *a piece of elegant composition, ih p'ien vun tsáng.*
p'ien, *piece of gold, ih p'ien kiun 'tsz.*
p'ih, *piece of cloth.*
p'ú (to spread), *covering of carpets, coverlids.*
mun (touch-hole), *piece of artillery.*
'nieu, *san 'nieu zung, three skeins of string.*
fong (square), *a piece of cloth, land, ih fong tí bí.*
fóng, *a packet of silver, ih fóng niung 'tsz.*
'seu, *ih 'seu ni, handful of earth.*
tsáng (to extend), *sheet of paper.*
tsih, *knot of bamboo, joint of finger.*
t'sén, *string of flowers, cash, beads.*
t'sön, *meal of rice.*
dzóh (rollers), *map on rollers, ih gióh wó', a picture.*
dzih (mat), *party at dinner.*
sén', *open one leaf of the door, ih sén' mun, k'é k'é.*
zóng, *layers of books, dress.*

zung, *story of pagodas, steps of ladders.*
dzun', *gust of wind, shower of rain.*
ih, *leaf of grass, flowers, ih ih 't'sau, a blade of grass.*
yön, *small cake of meat, medicine.*
lih, *seed of corn.*

Obs. i. Words expressing *kind of, sort of* such as tsóng yang' sing, have been placed with those particles that are simply indicative, because they are applied to nouns complete in their form and organization, e.g. í 'tsóng niun, *that sort of man*; tí' sing zz' 't'i, *this sort of thing*. Having a significance of their own, they should also be mentioned here.

Obs. ii. Material nouns often in English become generic, assuming the plural termination, and when singular the indefinite article, e.g. earth, stone, etc. In Chinese, if we wish to speak of *a* stone, the affix must be used, and prefixed. Some words need only the auxiliary prefix, e.g. ih k'wé' mé, *a piece of coal*.

Obs. iii. Some auxiliaries as are found both in the significant and simply indicative class; a circumstance which suggests that all the particles in the former table had a meaning of their own originally, though now in some instances not to be traced.

Obs. iv. A few verbs are found among these words, viz. , , , , ; they are here to be construed as substantives. In English, verbs construed as nouns are very numerous, e.g. *hold, handle, touch, walk, roll*.

Obs. v. The examples given in the table, are sufficient to shew that for this class of nouns English usage is similar, except that the particle *of* must be inserted. It is different with the words of the former table, for which there is no equivalent idiom in English. These two kinds of auxiliaries should therefore be kept distinct.

158. The definite subdivisions of material nouns will now be noticed. It is not only the numeral particles and the other auxiliaries, as registered in the two preceding articles, that intervene between numbers and their substantives. Many nouns are divisible into several parts, which have appropriate names and may be used as the words of the preceding table. The most useful names of divisions are here given, and first those of books and characters.

Divisions of books.

kü', *sentence.*

tsih, *verse.*

tá', *column.*

hong, *column.*

tsáng, *leaf.*

yih, *a leaf.*

tsáng, *section.*

'seu, *ode.*

p'ien, *chapter.*

'pun, *volume*.
pú', *a whole work*.

Strokes of characters.

'tíen
wáh
'zû
t'íuh
p'ih
nah
t'iau
fah
k'ïön, *small circle*.

Obs. These words do not take any numeral particle. Thus in giving directions to a scholar to write the character 'zeu, a teacher would say , , ih p'ih, *san tíen*, mau', 'au 'tí yeu', zz'. The eight strokes given above are all contained in the character . Information on this subject is given in Dr. Bridgman's Chinese Chrestomathy and other works.

159. The most common names of vessels of capacity are the following.

wén, <i>bowl</i> .	pén, <i>tray</i> .
tsan, <i>ib</i> .	'tóng, <i>bucket</i> .
pun, <i>a plate</i> .	hah, <i>casket</i> .
kong, <i>large jar</i> .	siáng, <i>chest</i> .
páng', <i>pitcher</i> .	lan, <i>basket</i> .
ping, <i>bottle, jar</i> .	'lieu, <i>small hamper</i> .

Obs. These words are used as the auxiliary particles of that which is contained in them. But if they are construed as independent substantives they all take as their distinctive particle. Thus we find, , , ih tsáh wén, *a cup*; ih wén dzó', *a cup of tea*.

160. Of definite measures, the following are in common use.

Land and Long Measure.	Dry Measure.
meu, 240 <i>square pú'</i> .	sáh, 10 <i>teu</i> .
dzan', 90 'lí.	'teu, 10 <i>sung</i> .
'lí, 360 <i>pú'</i> .	sung, <i>a pint</i> .
pú', <i>five feet</i> .	keh, <i>tenth of a pint</i> .
záng', <i>ten feet</i> .	t'sau, 100 th of <i>keh</i> .
t'sáh, <i>foot</i> (14 Eng. in. taylor's ft., 10 ⁷ / ₈ in. carpenter's ft.)	

t'sun', *tenth of a foot.*
fun, *tenth of a t'sun'.*

Weights.

tan', <i>pecul.</i>	koh, <i>10 cents.</i>
kiun, <i>catty.</i>	fun, <i>1 cent.</i>
'liáng, <i>tael.</i>	háu, <i>tenth of fun.</i>
dzien, <i>mace.</i>	lí, <i>tenth of hau.</i>

Measures of time.

dé', <i>generation.</i>	'tien, <i>hour (with).</i>
sz', <i>ib.</i>	k'uh, <i>¼ hour.</i>
nien, <i>year.</i>	fun, <i>minute.</i>
sûe', <i>ib.</i>	miau, <i>second.</i>
nyih, <i>day.</i>	h'ih, <i>instant.</i>

Obs. zz, hour, and niöh, month, are here omitted, because they usually take before them. This must be to distinguish them from words similar in sound, or from their own other senses.

161. Collective auxiliary nouns varying through all the forms of plurality, from *a pair* to *a multitude*, here follow:—

kü', *sentence of words.*
lien, *pair of corresponding sentences of poetry.*
song, *pair of shoes.*
té', *opposite pair of candles, geese, ih dé' kí, pair of fowls.*
'kú, *2 or 3 in trade; san 'ku k'é, divide between three.*
pá, *a pile or raft of timber, row of trees.*
té', *a rank of soldiers, ih dé ping.*
t'ih, *parcel of ten pencils, ih t'ih pih.*
tau, *100 sheets of paper, ih tau 'tsz.*
tsû, *bundle of incense, ih tsû h'íáng.*
t'au', *coverful of books, ih t'au', sũ.*
t'sén *chain of 1,000 cash.*
kiün, *flock of birds, beasts, ih giün 'tiau.*
fú', *suit of clothes, ih fú' í zong.*
hong, *rows of birds flying, trees.*

162. From the list here given, it appears that there are at least 130 of these imperfect substantives, almost all in common use. They admit of a fourfold division.

I. Of the first kind, whose office is simply indicative of appellative nouns, or distinctive to some extent of classes, there are upwards of 30. A few examples are appended.

ih 'k'eu kwén zé, *a coffin*.
'zau ih diau giau, *build a bridge*.
sah ih tsáh kí, *kill a fowl*.
ih tsz dú' pih, *a large pencil*.

Obs. i. At first sight, these words look like a capricious superfluity of articles, arising merely from a fondness for multiplying words. They appear appropriate in a language, where there is so much arbitrary classification, and so little exhibition of the power of generalizing by means of deep and comprehensive principles. Here are thirty words made use of, where one would be sufficient. It should however be remembered, that when used as adverbs there is great clearness given to the conception they express, and that they diminish the confusion that arises from similarities of sound.

Obs. ii. When an adjective is used, it comes between the particle and the noun, as in the last example. This is also true of the other particles that are the subject of this chapter.

II. Of the significant particles, or those that are applied to material nouns, and define quantity and form, apart from number, there are about 40. E.g.

ih tsáng 'tsz deu, *a sheet of paper*.
ní' seh tan' ní, *twenty loads of earth*.
'kieu zung t'áh, *pagoda of nine stories*.

Obs. i. When they become parts of compound appellative nouns, one of the distinctive particles precedes.

ih ku' mien' 'k'óng, *one face*.
ih tsáh tsih deu, *one finger*.

Obs. ii. , , tien, ngan, are applied to any material noun in the sense of *a little of*. Ih precedes them.

III. The subdivisions or definite parts of material nouns, form the most numerous class of the auxiliary substantives. Upwards of 50 are here collected. They take no particle after the number preceding, and must therefore be classed as imperfect substantives. Thus the construction in the following examples is similar.

(III.) ih kiun hwó, *pound of cotton*.
(II.) ih pau hwó, *bundle of cotton*.
(II.) ih lih 'mí, *a grain of rice*.
(III.) ih 'teu 'mí, *a peck of rice*.

IV. Collectives compose the remaining, and smallest class of qualifying particles applied to substantives. The use of words in the four classes of particles may be seen in the following examples.

ih tsáh yáng, *a sheep*.

ih k'wé yáng nióh, *a piece of mutton*.

ih kiun yáng nióh, *catty of mutton*.

ih giün yáng, *flock of sheep*.

163. Another small class of auxiliary substantives, consists of those that are used with verbs, expressing like our word *times*, the number of times the action has been performed. They are , , , ; their use will be understood by examples.

lé kú' 'liáng t'sz', *I have come twice*.

k'í' tsz ih t'ong, *having gone once*.

yau' dóh 'liáng wé', *you must read it twice*.

'tseu 'liáng 'tsén dzieu' ding', *after going round twice he stops*.

'táng san seh kí', *received 30 blows*.

Section 5. On the Adjective. .

164. The native writer before alluded to says, the office of adjectives is “to describe the attributes and appearance of things.” “In apposition with nouns, they express their qualities,” (, .) “Some adjectives consist of two words which are inseparable. Thus, repetition of the initial, the rhyme, and the whole character, frequently occurs.” (, , , .) “There are not more than a few tens of characters that are adjectives.”

Antithesis. 165. In substantives, the principle of combination came prominently to view, and it will be found to belong though not so extensively, to the other parts of speech. That of antithesis belongs especially to adjectives. Most of the single-worded adjectives in daily use will illustrate this.

k'iung, 'dzóng, *light, heavy*.

tú', 'siau, *great, little*.

tú 'sau, *many, few*.

dzáng, 'tön, *long, short*.
 'heu, póh, *thick, thin*.
 k'weh, hah, *broad, narrow*.
 kau, tí, *high, low*.
 sun, 't'síen, *deep, shallow*.
 'láng, 'nön, *cold, warm*.
 t'sing, dzóh, *clear, muddy*.
 k'wá', man', *quick, slow*.
 (c) 'hau, k'ieu, *good, bad* (k'ieu = 'té).
 tan', nióng, *pale, deep*.
 'tsau, an', *early, late*.
 ngáng', 'niön, *hard, soft*.
 k'ióh, dzuh, *crooked, straight*.
 tsung', siá, *right, bent*.
 tsong', seu', *fat, lean*.
 sáang, zóh, *ripe, unripe*.
 sóng, kiun, *loose, tight*.
 t'sú, sí', *coarse, fine*.
 sing, 'kieu, *new, old*.
 (c) h'í, 'máng, *few, crowded* (máng = mih).
 (c) kü', giáng, *dear, cheap* (giáng = dzíen).
 tsun, 'ká, *true, false*.
 liáng', en', *light, dark*.

Obs. i. Those words only that are marked (c) are not used in literary compositions. There is no class of words more extensively spread through all Chinese, spoken and written, than the majority of these adjectives.

Obs. ii. Antithetical substantives of one character each, are rare in the colloquial. See [107. Obs. iii.](#)

Obs. iii. In Premare's list of antithetical characters, more than fifty of 117 are adjectives. Many also of those that belong to other parts of speech, have the antithesis less strongly marked.

Obs. iv. Many abstract substantives are formed by the union of these antithetical adjectives, in the order in which they stand above; e.g. *how long?* 'kí hau' dzáng 'dön? *to say nothing about speed*, veh 'kong k'wá man' v. Syntax. Part III. §2.

166. Sometimes in the antithesis, one member is a single, and the other a double form.

kiá, <i>capable</i> .	m yúng', <i>useless</i> .
lön', <i>disturbed</i> .	t'a' bing, <i>peaceful</i> .

167. Other words having no obvious antithesis form it by assuming the sign of the negative.

veh ziáng' 'ngú nung, *not like me*.
veh 'k'ung tsú', *not willing to do it*.
veh bién' tong', *not convenient*.

Obs. The negative here just corresponds to our English prefix *un*, e.g. *unlike, unwilling*.

Combination. 168. Many adjectives are formed by the apposition in a fixed order, of two adjectives, and in these compounds many book words occur.

t'sing 'song, <i>clear</i> .	tsóng 'eu, <i>faithful</i> .
lan dú', <i>lazy</i> .	k'ien h'ü, <i>humble</i> .
kûn zing', <i>clean</i> .	van nan, <i>difficult</i> .
t'sóng ming, <i>clever</i> .	sü 'sau, <i>few</i> .
mau 't'sau, <i>rough</i> .	'hü tú, <i>many</i> .
'láng 'zing, <i>solitary</i> .	sing sían, <i>new</i> .
t'sú sú, <i>coarse</i> .	ngé bun', <i>stupid</i> .
kióng 'kú, <i>poor</i> .	h'iúng 'hun, <i>fierce</i> .

Obs. The antithesis that occurs in examples of this sort is sufficiently indicated by the sense.

169. In addition to compounds such as those already given, formed by two adjectives, substantives and verbs make part of many.

'siau (*small*) k'í', (*vessel*), *parsimonious*.
sih báh, *snow-white*.
'heu (*thick*) dau' (*doctrine*), *liberal*.
tû' (*great*) liáng', (*capacity*), *generous*.
k'uh (*to cut*) bóh (*thin*), *exacting*.
niung' tsun, *diligent*.
au' (*to bend*) giáng, *unyielding*.
wén (*finish*) zién, *complete* (R. dzíen.)
k'í' (*anger*) mun' (*sad*), *secretly sad*.
kau (*wish*) h'iung' (*ready for*), *willing*.
nan (*hard*) ku' (*to pass*), *painful, sad*.
'tan (*liver*) dú' (*great*), *bold*.
t'seh (*outside*) k'áh, (*visitor*), *handsome*.
'hau (*good*) siau' (*laugh*), *ridiculous*.

Obs. There are also triple forms, in which other parts of speech enter, e.g. , pih lih dzuh, *straight as a wall*; tih lieu' yǒn, *very round*. In these examples, the adjective which stands last is qualified by the preceding words.

170. Some adjectives of two words are exclusively local in their use, and present no etymology in their characters, being written phonetically. They are always inseparable.

sá dú, <i>tired</i> .	au sau', <i>active, sharp</i> .
ok t'soh, <i>dirty</i> .	keh dah, <i>blind to reason</i> .
weh lun, <i>entire</i> .	h'íá tsá, <i>skillful</i> .
köh lih, <i>clean</i> .	ling lóng, <i>intelligent</i> . M.

171. Combinations of three are also numerous, in which the first word contains the principal meaning. The second is repeated, and as will be seen in the examples, sometimes conveys only sound. The phonetic formation of the characters will usually serve to indicate this.

p. hah tah tah, *irregular*.
p. ngáng' báng báng, *hard and stiff*.
'niön tsz tsz, *soft*.
p. wah t'ah t'ah, *slippery*.
'nau záng záng, *noisy, humming*.
mau ts'í ts'í, *rough*.
p. 'nön dóng dóng, *warm*.
dzuh diau diau, *straight*.
'á t'sú t'sú, *dwarfish*.
'tön yeu yeu, „
pak sih sih, *snow-white*.
p. huk t'ah t'ah, *black*.

Obs. i. In examples not marked p. the repeated word has an independent sense, in agreement with that of the leading word, and is so used in the books.

Obs. ii. These phonetic appendages, destitute of any significance of their own, are interesting to the comparative etymologist as corresponding to adjectival terminations in other languages.

172. Combined forms of four words, often consisting of adjectives and either substantives or verbs, and still more frequently of double adjectives repeated are, such as follow.

tsung' dá' kwong ming, *upright and wise*.
k'wén óng dú' liáng', *generous*.
'tsing 'tsing 'yeu diau, *very regular*.

h'i gi 'kú kwá', *extraordinary*.
dzáng dzáng 'yön 'yön *long in time*.
kau kau tí tí, *irregular in height*.
mong mong lóh lóh, *busy*.
'tan 'tan dú' dú', *boldy*.

Obs. The monosyllabic adjectives are not repeated. These double forms when repeated, are also correctly translated as adverbs in almost all cases. It will be seen in subsequent sections, that repetition is used most extensively among verbs and adverbs.

173. The place of the adjective is before its noun if they go into combination, but with the substantive verb as copula or an equivalent, it may become a supplementary member of the sentence.

'hau niun, *good man*.
niun 'zz 'hau kú', *the man is good*.
páh dong, *white sugar*.
t'sing 'sz, *clear water*.
k'wá' 'mó, *swift horse*.
'láng van', *cold rice*.
kieu' sũ, *old books*.
'mó 'tau veh k'wa', *yet the horse goes slowly*.
'sz t'sing 'zz t'sing ku', *the water is clear*.

174. Substantives become adjectives to other substantives, if placed before them in combination.

yáng tau, *foreign knife*. zah lú', *stone road*.
nieu 'ná, *buffalo milk*. 'hé zén, *sea junk*.

Obs. Compounds of this kind have come under notice before, [Art. 106](#). Thus it appears that cases occur which prevent the accurate defining of the parts of speech. For the words standing first in these examples, while they may well be claimed as adjectives, according to the grammar of the classical languages, are unquestionably substantives when alone. As roots they are substantives. It is by position that they are changed into adjectives. For corresponding examples in English, see [Art. 119](#).

175. Verbs with the particle or , become adjectives to the following noun.

tsóng' 'lá kú' 'dau, *the sown rice*.
'sí kú' niun tú, *those that die are many*.
é' 'lá kú' 'siau nön, *a dear child*.
weh kú' meh zz' *living thing*.

Obs. i. In examples like the second of these, the sense is also complete without the noun as 'sí kú' tú. We have in English *a darkened room*, *a beloved child*. Participles are here construed as adjectives, a usage similar to the Chinese.

Obs. ii. Some verbs enter into combination as adjectives, without the intervention of any particle.
'sí niun, *dead man*; h'iau' 'tsz, *filial son*; h'iau' 'nü, *filial daughter*.

176. A few adjectives are also employed as transitive verbs. The second and fourth of the following sentences are examples. In the 1st and 3rd, the same words are adjectives.

'h'í hwén tuh giuh, *exceedingly glad*.
nieu 'h'í hwén 'sz, *buffaloes are fond of water*.
k'a' k'a' weh weh, *very glad*.
í tsóng k'a' weh nong', *he will certainly be pleased with you*.

Comparison of adjectives. 177. The comparative is expressed in several ways, as by—

a. tsé', *again*, which precedes the adjective it qualifies.

veh nung tsé' 'sau, *I cannot say less*.
tsé' dú' m méh, *there are none larger*.
tsé' giáng 'yeu 'vá? *have you any cheaper?*

b. 'tíen, *a little*, follows the word that it qualifies.

tí' 'pun sū 'hau 'tíen, *this book is better*.
k'wá' 'tíen 'tseu, *walk a little faster*.
tú 'tíen meh 'tsé, *say a little more*.

c. ih 'ngan, *a little*, is similar in use to the last.

'tau 'hau ih 'ngan, *this is however something better*.
kau dú' ih 'ngan, *let it be better and more*.

d. wan *still, further*; this word combined with yau', *to want*, makes the adjective that follows comparative.

wan yau' 'hau, *I want better yet*.
kúng fú wan yau' sí', *I want the work finer*.

e. 'pí, *compare*; this word makes the adjective that follows comparative. When is in the negative form, the adjective may be omitted.

Zong' 'hé veh 'pí Sú tseu, *Shanghai cannot be compared to Sú-cheú.*

'pí 'ngú wan 'hau, *he is better than I.*

'pí 'ngú 'hau, *do.*

veh sùn 'pí 'ngú 'hau, *he is not to be thought better than I.*

f. kung', better. Sometimes ká, *to add*, follows it.

veh k'í' kung' hau, *not to go would be better.*

kung' ká veh té', *still more wrong.*

kung' ká m yúng', *much more useless.*

g. yöh repeated. The use of this particle repeated is to place the two members of a sentence in strong antithesis; sometimes fah, *to express* follows it.

yöh tú yöh 'hau, *the more the better.*

yöh fah gióng yöh fah yau' sáng bing', *the poorer men are, the more liable they are to sickness.*

yöh fah ming báh meh, yöh fah yau' 'h'í hwén, *the more you understand it, the better you will be pleased with it.*

h. í', *again*, is a very common form. 'pí, often commences the sentence.

tí' kú' niun í' 'hau, *this man is better.*

loh 'ü í' tú, *it rains still more.*

i. í' ká, *still more* is often preceded by 'pí.

'pí 'ngú í' ká ming báh, *he is still more intelligent than I.*

k. , , ká or tien *add* or fong' dú', *increase.*

ká í kú' 'tan liáng', *grew more courageous.*

kiun tsau fóng ká dú', *the wind is higher to-day.*

há 'tsz yau' fong' dú', *make the shoes larger.*

tóng dién yau' t'ien 'tien, *you must give more money.*

l. The comparison is intensified by adding tuh tú after the adjective.

zoh nyih 'hau tuh tú 'tsé, *yesterday he was much better.*

tí' kun tsóh-deu 'pí í kun dzang tuh tú, *this bamboo is much larger than that.*

tí' ní' tsáh kí dzóng' tuh tú, *the second fowl is much heavier.*

m. Beside the formation of the comparative by particles, it is expressed by the positive standing first, when the difference of the compared objects is mentioned.

kau lók t'sun', *taller by six inches.*

Obs. i. The verb is however in examples of this last kind, understood as going before, and is often expressed, as in

tí' tsáh zén 'pí í tsáh k'weh ní' ts'ah, *this boat is two feet wider than that.*

'ngú niáng kú' bing' 'pí zien nyih 'tsz 'hau tuh tú 'tsé, *my mother is much better than the day before yesterday.*

Obs. ii. Three kinds of auxiliary words appear in the examples given.

1. Substantive particles which follow the adjective they qualify, and imply a slight variation only. This variation may be increase or diminution, according to the sense of the adjective compared.
2. Verbs. Of these, the verb *compare* is in constant use. It is found with other particles, or without any particle, and retains its syntax as a verb, unaffected by its use as an auxiliary in the comparison of adjectives. The other verbs employed express addition. Their opposites are used in a similar manner; e.g. 'kan 'sau, 'kan t'eh, *subtract*.
3. Conjunctions and adverbs form the remainder of the particles employed in comparison. They imply a *difference* without specifying whether it be greater or less, so that they correspond more nearly to the English suffix *er* than to the particle *more*. The repeated form , just answers to the particle *the*, in "the sooner the better." Such English forms as this are usually regarded as elliptical, and in explaining them, words supposed to be omitted are supplied. In the corresponding Chinese phrases, there is no ground for the hypothesis of an ellipsis.

178. The subjoined auxiliary particles supply the place of a superlative. The first three are placed before the adjective they qualify. The rest follow their word.

a. 'ting, *highest, top*.

t'ien long sing 'ting liáng', *Sirius is a very bright star*.

'ting giáng 'tsé, *at the lowest price*.

í kú' niun 'ting ming báh, *that man is very intelligent*.

, 'ting dú', 'ting tú, *very great, very many*.

b. tsûe', *exceedingly, the most*.

'lau 'hú 'tsûe' lí' é', *the tiger is very fierce*.

'tiau 'niau tong tsóng, wóng wong' tsûe' 'hau k'ön',
among birds, the phoenix is the most beautiful.

t'ien dí' tong tsóng, niun tsûe' ling lóng, *of all things in
heaven and earth, man is the most intelligent*.

c. , *kiuh, extremely*; this particle is used before or after the adjective which it qualifies.

t'sóng ming tuh giuh, *extremely intelligent*.

kiuh sun au', *extremely profound*.

'yeu vun 'lí tuh giuh, *very beautifully written*.

sz vun tuh giuh, *extremely polite and elegant*.

d. 'yá, *wild, great*; this word requires one of the auxiliary verbs or verbs before it.

Wong-p'ú' 'lí 'hien tuh 'ya, the Hwang-p'u is very dangerous.

t'ien kau le 'yá 'lá, *heaven is very high*.

e. 'sí, *to die*; this word takes the auxiliary verb between it and its adjective.

'mí hong zing kü' lé 'sí, *the price of rice is very high*.

nien sz' 'hau lé 'sí, *it is a very good year*.

kiun tsau fóng dú' lé 'sí, *to-day the wind is very high*.

f. m tsú', *there is nothing that can be done*; this form of expression also requires lé.

fóng dú' lé m tsú', *the wind is very high*.

nyih deu yong' lé m tsú', *the sun is very bright*.

hoh vun' sun lé m tsú', *his learning is very profound*.

g. sah, *very*. lit. *a twinkling*. (Premare has this particle, though it is certainly rare in mandarin. Many prefer [\[1\]](#)-sah, *kill*).

kiáng dau' tú sah, *the robbers are very many*.

veh k'iung sah, *not very light*.

h. teu ih, *the first in importance*.

teu ih yau' 'kiun, *the most important*.

kiung' 'vú 'mú deu ih, *filial piety is most important*.

i. 'liau veh tuh, *remarkably, exceedingly*.

'hau lé 'liau veh tuh, *exceedingly good*.

j. 'liau fan veh tuh, *ib.*

'dzóng lé 'liau fan veh tuh, *extremely heavy*.

k. wó' veh tuh, or wó' veh lé, *very, unspeakable*. veh 'liau zz', *endlessly*.

tú' lé wó' veh tuh. *unspeakably great.*
wó' veh lé kú' k'ú 'nau, *unspeakably wretched.*

- l. tuh lí' é', *severe, dangerous.*
'dzóng tuh lí' é', *exceedingly heavy.*

Obs. i. Among the words admitted here are many forms of expression equivalent to our qualifying adverbs *very, extremely*, etc. In actual usage no distinct line is kept between the adjectival and adverbial sense; e.g. tsûe' 'hau, may mean *best*, or *very good*. It seemed therefore preferable to give in one view, the more common forms for framing an absolute or modified superlative. Most of these particles are also used to qualify verbs, as will be shown. They are therefore true adverbs.

Obs. ii. Here may be distinguished four modes of forming the superlative. 1. By particles appropriated to this use , , , tsûe', 'ting, kiuh. The two former stand before the adjective, the third is found both before and after its word. 2. The ordinal teu ih, in mandarin tí ih, *the first*, also places the adjective it precedes in the superlative. 3. Auxiliary verbal particles , , tuh, lé, with the appendages , , , 'yá, kiuh and lí' é', to the former, and , , , 'yá, 'sí, and m tsú', to the latter, form a third class. 4. The forms , 'liau veh tuh or 'liau fan veh tuh, *wonderful, very*, wó' veh tuh (lé), *unspeakable*, and veh 'liau zz', *endlessly*, when appended to an adjective with intervening, also convey a superlative sense.

Obs. iii. The verb wén, *finish* is also applied to adjectives with the same force as the preceding intensitive particles. wó' lé ziang' wén 'tsé, *painted extremely like*; yóng mau' wong wén, *countenance very fallow*.

Obs. iv. Extreme excellence is also predicated of an adjective by the phrases seh fun, *ten parts* and seh ní' fun, *twelve parts*; meh zz' zeh fun 'hau, *the thing is thoroughly good*.

[1] That sah is the word seems probable because 'si, *die*, a word like it in meaning is much used in a similar manner.

179. Ordinal numbers are often expressed by the cardinal numbers, when on rhythmical grounds, there is no empty place in the sentence for a particle.

kiun tsau nian' ih, *to-day is the 21st of the month.*
yan fóng ní' nien, *the 2nd year of Hien-fúng.*

Obs. In regard to the cardinal numbers (for which see page 61), a few examples only need to be added 'ng zeh san, *fifty three*; 'kieu zeh ní', *ninety two*. From a hundred to a hundred and ten, ling is inserted, ih páh ling sz', *a hundred and four*. Instead of saying ih páh san seh, it is more frequent to omit seh. Thus, ih páh san, *a hundred and thirty*, and so for other numbers. The omission of ih, *one*, sometimes occurs pák pah, *a hundred and eighty*; one thousand four hundred is t'sien sz'; fourteen thousand is man' sz'.

180. Days of the month take t'sú before them as a numeral particle, but it is omitted when the number consists of two characters. Ordinal numbers are regularly formed by prefixing tí' to the cardinal numbers.

tsung' niöh t'sú ih, *the 1st day of the 1st month.*

ming tsau t'sú 'kí, *what day of the month is to-morrow.*
 'heu nyih t'sú ih 'tsé, *the day after to-morrow is the first.*
 'k'au h'ih tí' ih páh ming, *he has passed the examination as*
the one hundredth.
 tí' san seh 'pun, *the thirtieth volume.*
 'zz nóng' tí' 'kí kú' ní 'tsz? *which son are you?*
 pá hong dí' 'kí? *which are you in order.*

Obs. First is translated teu ih.

181. The numeral of multiplication is expressed by means of pé',
times; yau' ká bé', *make it twice as large;* ká dzáng sz' bé',
make it four times as long.

182. Distributive numbers are formed by the addition of kú', or any
 other auxiliary substantive particles.

ih ku' ih ku', *one by me or one after another.*
 'liáng kú' 'liáng kú', *two and two.*
 ih hong ih hong, *row by row.*
 ih diau ih diau, *in successive lengths.*

183. Indefinite numbers are expressed páh, 100; t'sien, 1,000;
 man', 10,000, with or without lun.

lun t'sien lun man', *thousands and myriads.*
 van' pah yáng' meh zz', *all things.*
 lun t'sien lé 'tsé, *many thousands are come.*
 vun 'vú pák kwén, *all officers civil and military.*
 wé í páh bing', *can cure all diseases.*
 pák hwó sáng nyih, *the flowers' birth-day.*
 van' kóh 'kieu tseu, *all countries.*

184. Numbers enter into many common phrases.

san sing 'liáng í', *vacillating in opinion.*
 san 'tsen 'kieu wé deu, *constantly turning back.*
 t'sih wáng pah 'zû, *lying in all directions.*
 san sun sz' soh, *timidly advancing and retreating.*
 hah t'sih hah pah, *all in confusion.*

Obs. Though not commonly occurring in English and other languages, examples similar to these are not wanting; e.g. *at sixes and sevens*.

185. Examples of some adjectives, extensive in their use and varied in their meaning, are here appended.

ih, *one, whole, immediately upon.*

tóh ih vú rh', *there is only one.*

ih t'sih seh wó', *all he said.*

ih 't'óng t'ien 'au, *the whole empire.*

ih íen kí' t'seh, *the words have been said.*

ih ding' peh yuh, *certainly unchangeable.*

ih nian' wé deu, *sincerely repent.*

ih kü ih 'dóng, *all he does.*

ih 'dóng dzieu' 'táng, *at the least thing, he fights.*

ih 'tseu dzieu' tih, *the moment he begins to walk, he falls.*

186. dzien, *complete, all.*

veh wén dzien, *not complete.*

niun zén 'lá long', *they are all there.*

zén kwan zah, —*they are all connected with—*

187. tá', *great, very.*

kóh dú' 'zz dú' kú', *it is a large kingdom.*

yau' dú' ní 'siau, *will you have it large or small?*

veh dú' sah kú', *it is not very large.*

tú' niun 'siau nön, *parents and children.*

tú' veh 'h'í hwén, *much displeased.*

veh dá' 'lí 'hau, *not very good.*

veh dá' 'lí k'ih kú', *seldom eat it.*

188. 'hau, *good, well, that I may, it may.*

t'óh 'zz veh 'hau, *all are bad.*

'ting veh 'hau, *worst of all.*

hah 'hau, *fortunately, just at the time.*

veh 'hau í' sz', *ashamed.*

'hau 'lá 'vá, *are you well?*

í veh 'hau, *he cannot be cured.*

veh nung 'hau, *I cannot recover.*

'hau k'í' wé deu, *that I may go and inform him.*

'hau tsú' kú', *it may be done.*

189. ling, *efficacious, intelligent.*

veh ling kú', *powerless, inefficacious.*

m meh ling t'sú', *having no efficacy.*

ling sing' veh 'lá sing 'lí, *always forgetting.*

wung ling veh 'lá sun long', *ib.*

190. k'wá', *fast, (adv.) near, soon, lively.*

k'wá' k'wá' yau, *row quickly.*

yá' k'wá' 'tsé, *it will soon be night.*

'sí k'wá' 'tsé, *he is dying.*

, k'wá' weh, or k'wá' loh, *glad.*

'song 'song k'wá' k'wá', *well in health.*

Section 6. On the Pronoun.

191. The pronouns are regarded by the Chinese as part of the auxiliary particles that with nouns and verbs make up sentences, and they have not proceeded to separate them from the rest of that numerous family by a peculiar denomination.

They are chiefly single words, but frequently admit of the dissyllabic form. Other pronouns, or particles having no meaning of their own (e.g. ,), are prefixed or affixed to give them this form. The details will be found below.

Among the many simple and compound forms used as pronouns, the following may be distinguished as properly and originally such for this dialect.

1. Personal, , , , , , 'ngú, nóng', gí, í, ná', 'ní, *I, thou, he, you.*

2. Reflexive, zz', *in combination.*

3. Demonstrative, , , , tí', í, kú', *this, that; also* pé 't'sz, *occasionally used.*

4. Interrogative, , , sá', 'kí, *what? how many? inseparable, and* hú, *what? 'ná (pron. 'á), which? inseparable.*

5. Relative. There is no separable relative pronoun, its place being supplied by kú', 'sú is inseparable, and very limited in its use.
6. Possessives. None. Their place is supplied by kú', following the personal pronoun.
7. Distributives. , , , koh, 'mé, dzóh, *each, every*.
8. Reciprocal. None. The borrowed form is the substitute.
9. Indefinite. , , , 'meu, sá', 'kí, tá, *some, several*.
10. Correlatives or adjective pronouns. , , , t'oh, dzén, bih, *all, other*, separable and van, inseparable.

Personal pronouns. 192. The first personal pronoun in the singular is 'ngú, *I*; the second, nóng' or ná', *thou*; the third, í or kí, *he*.

'ngú k'í' 'tsé, *I am now going*.

kau' nóng' dzieu' lé, *I told you to come at once*.

peh 'lá í 'tsé, *I have given it him*.

kí peh 'lá 'ngú, *he gave me*.

In the plural 'ní or 'ngú 'ní, *express we*; ná or nóng' ná', *you*; and í, *they*.

'ngú 'ní 'liáng kú', *we two*.

ná' tú hau' niun, *all you men*.

When the pronoun consists of one word only, the vacant place is often filled up by 'zz.

'zz 'ngú, *I*.

'zz í 'zz gí, *he*.

'zz ná' tsóng' niun, *all you men*.

Obs. i. The personal pronoun is often omitted, as seh ké k'ön' 'k'í lé, *thus you see*; veh lé meh tsóng veh hau, *if you do not come it will be unfortunate*.

Obs. ii. The impersonal pronoun in English *it*, is not expressed, as loh 'ú 'tsé, *it is raining*.

Obs. iii. In mandarin , , , 'ngó, 'ní, t'á, *I, thou, he*, all form their plural by taking mun, as a suffix.

Obs. iv. Sometimes 'ngú, may stand for the third person *he*, This occurs, when two persons in relation to each other are the subject of conversation. The nominative is then considered as *I*, and the third person, *he*. Thus, h'íung dí' 'hiau tuh á kú veh 'h'í hwén 'ngú, *the younger brother knows that the elder is displeased with him*. This is not the case when no confusion of persons is likely to happen; e.g. 'ngan tsing sú tsz í kú' nén niun, *she looked on her husband*.

193. The idea of self is expressed by *zz' ká*, for all persons, generally preceded by the appropriate pronoun.

í zz' ká wo', he himself said.

nóng' zz' ká yau' k'í' kú', you must go yourself.

Obs. i. In mandarin *tsz' 'ki*; Fúh-kien, *ká 'kí*.

Obs. ii. The pronoun *zz'*, *self*, though not used out of combination, occurs in several fixed phrases. *zz' sah zz'*, *to kill one's-self*; *zz' hé' zz'*, *to injure one's-self*, These concise forms are more agreeable and impressive to the native ear, than the equivalent long forms

zz' ká sah t'eh zz' ká; *zz' ká hé' t'eh zz' ká*.

Demonstratives, 194. The demonstrative pronouns are *tí' kú'*, *this*, and *kú' kú'* or *í kú'*, *that*.

tí' ku' zz' 't'í, this matter.

kú' kú' meh zz' that thing.

í kú' 'siau nön, that boy.

í h'ih zun kwong, at that time.

Obs. i. When these words combine with any of the auxiliary substantives to form demonstrative adverbs, the particle *kú'* is omitted.

tí' deu 'hau pau', here it is good walking.

kú' tah k'í' dzû', go and live there.

í k'wé' niun 'sau, the people there are few.

Obs. ii. Some of the mandarin demonstratives *'ná*, *t'sz*, *pé*, *that*, *this*, *that*, though not belonging to our dialect in their monosyllabic form are found in some combinations. *'á 'lí*, *where?* *'t'sz dí'*, *here*; *pé 't'sz*, *that and this*. Facts of this sort illustrate the necessity for distinguishing between words of one or more syllables, and between roots in apposition, as separable and inseparable.

Interrogatives. 195. The interrogative forms are *sá'*, *what?* *'á 'lí*, *where? and which?* and *'kí*, *what? which?* also *'kí hó' (hau')*, *how many*.

sá' niun k'au mun, who knocks at the door?

sá' meh zz', what is the matter.

nóng' yau' sá' zz' 't'í, what do you want?

sa' sü k'í', where are you going?

we' sá' seh ké' nung, why do you do so?

tau' 'á 'lí k'í', where are you going.

'á 'lí dong, where?

'á 'lí kú' ú dong, which place?

'á 'lí kú' niun, which man?

'á 'lí diau lú', *which road?*
 'kí zz, *what time?*
 sa' zz zun, *what time?*
 'ki 'tíen tsóng, *what it is o'clock?*
 'kí hó' (hau') dóng díen, *how many cash?*
 kiau' fú 'kí ká deu, *how many chair-bearers?*

Obs. i. In the compound forms here exhibited, may be taken to indicate *place*; hó' is a meaningless particle used to complete the rhythm.

Obs. ii. The interrogative of the books hú, *what?* is found in combinations, such as meh né' hú, *there is nothing I can do*. But it is not used alone.

Relative pronouns. 196. The regular relative pronoun 'só, is only used in combination with 'í in the sense *therefore*, and with 'dzé, as a noun substantive, *house*.

sin sū 'dzé, *a new house*.
 'só 'í yau' ü' bé', *therefore you must prepare*.

The place of the relative particle , used in books and in some dialects, is supplied by the particles 'lá kú', or alone, coming after the verb.

'má 'la ku' mí dzieu' tan lé peh 'lá gióng niun,
bring the rice you have bought at once, and give it to the poor. M. 'só
 'mái tih 'mí.

 'mong lau kí 'k'an lau k'áng 'k'én lau, t'óh
 'zz tsoh giun seu' kú', *nets, traps and covered pits, are all for catching animals*. M. chúh k'in sheu' tih.

 nóng 'zau 'lá kú' vong 'tsz, *the house which you have built*.
 M. 'ní 'só kæ' tih fáng 'tsz.

 wong tí' 'song kú' fóng lóh, *the emoluments which are conferred by the emperor*.

Possessive pronouns. 197. The possessive pronouns are expressed by the personal pronouns, with the auxiliary particle kú'.

'ngú kú' ní 'tsz, *my son*.
 nóng' kú' 'tsú tsóng, *your ancestors*.
 tí k'wé dí' bí 'zz ná' kú', *this piece of land is yours*.

Obs. i. In mandarin, tih. The southern Fúh-kien dialect, besides having two distinct plural forms for the personal pronouns 'lin, *you*, 'lán, *we* has also separate possessive forms for all the three

persons 'lin, *your*; 'gwan, *mine*, 'lán, *ours*; in, *their, his*. The intervening particle is thus rendered unnecessary for that dialect. It is however often inserted. When these forms 'gwán, 'lin, in, are compared with the personal pronouns 'gwá, 'li or 'leu, í, the termination N looks extremely like an appendage to the root in each case.

Obs. ii. After the personal pronouns, when a preposition of motion precedes, a substantive of place is required; e.g. tau' 'ngú han' deu lé, *come to me*. This is generally true in all instances, where place is left to be understood in English. ná' dzáng hau' kú' 'keu, *one of your dogs*. It will be seen that the pronouns in these examples are possessive, though in the former, the corresponding English word is a personal pronoun.

Distributive pronouns. 198. The words corresponding to our distributive pronouns, each, every, etc. are the following 'mé, dzóh, k'oh.

'mé, *each*.

'mé niun peh ih k'wé', *give one piece to each*.

'mé ká 'liáng kú' niun, *in each family there are two*.

dzóh, *each in succession*.

dzóh ih kú' sah ih kûn, *let each person kill one*.

dzóh nyih t'seh mun ih wé', *go out once day*.

dzóh yáng t'sé' bah t'eh ih k'ú, *of each kind of vegetable, pull up one plant*.

dzóh k'ú hwó 't'sé ih 'tú, *of each plant pluck one flower*.

koh, *each, every*.

koh yáng' sū 'má ih bú', *buy a book of every sort*.

koh yáng' 'ngán suh yau', *I want every kind of colour*.

koh niun liáng sing veh t'só, *men's consciences tell them what is right*.

koh 'kwén koh, *each attends to his own affairs*.

koh t'sū' fóng zóh peh dóng, *different places have different customs*.

Obs. i. Like the Greek *pas*, *all* or *each*, koh is also an adjective *all*; e.g. koh t'sū', *all places*.

Obs. ii. 'mé, means *always*, in such phrases as 'mé yau' mong' mong' nóng', *I wish constantly to come and see you*; 'mé 'mé, *always*.

Reciprocal pronouns. 199. Phrases such as *one another* are expressed by tá' ká and ká ká, *mutually*; or by siáng, *together*, in combination.

'tsóng yau' ká ká siáng pong, *you ought to help one another*.

'ngú t'eh nong' siáng nü', *you and I meet.*
tá' ká k'íuh dzó, *take tea together.*

Indefinite pronouns. 200. The word *some* in *some one, something*, is expressed either by 'meu, or by the verb 'yeu, *have*. *Anything* is expressed by sá', usually with 'yeu preceding; in the negative, m takes the place of 'yeu.

'meu t'sû 'meu niun, *a certain man of certain place.*
'meu sù 'meu niun tsú' kú', *such a book written by such a person.*

'yeu niun lé wó', *some one came and said.*

'yeu 'zz 'yeu kú', *there is some.*

m sá' zz' 't'í, *it is nothing.*

'yeu sá' sing' sih 'vá, *is there any news.*

201. *Several* is expressed by 'kí kú', hau' 'kí kú', tá, and the borrowed form tú hau'; 'kí hó'^[1] is also used.

lé tsz 'kí kú' niun, *several men have some.*

hau' 'kí wé' sù', *several times.*

tá nyih veh lé, *it is long since you come.*

m sá 'kí hô', *not many.*

Obs. The Greek *tis* is either interrogative *who?* (Lat. *quis?*) or indefinite *some one*, (Lat. *aliquis*.) In the same way, 'kí is sometimes *how many?* and at other times *several*. In the latter sense however, is usually prefixed. So also sá' means either *what?* or *any thing*.

[1] Compare use of in the following verses "Flowers grow in the Kien-chang palace" "The sound of pipes issues from the palace of Chau-yang," "I beg to ask in regard to those who receive favour"

"How long are their eyebrows?" These words are put in the mouth of a secondary wife of the emperor Han wú-ti when jealous of imperial favour extended to some inferior court women. The last line means "are their eyebrows so much longer than mine?"

Correlatives or adjective pronouns. 202. The pronouns used as signs of the plural, as already illustrated in the section on substantives are t'óh, dzén, *all* or *both*, and 'tsóng, *all*. *None* and *neither* are also expressed by t'óh, and dzén with a negative.

'liáng kú' niun t'óh k'í' 'tsé, *the two men are both gone.*
dzén veh 'zz, *it is neither of them.*

dzén 'zz bun' kú', *they are all stupid.*
té' 'vá, t'óh té' kú', *are they right? they are all right.*

Any one you please, whoever, whatever, are expressed by several borrowed phrases.

a. tá' van, *generally speaking, whoever.*

tá' van niun tsú' 'hau kú', dzieu' 'yeu 'hau pau',
whoever does well, will be at once rewarded.

Obs. van and sá' are the only true pronouns among these forms.

b. veh kü, *does not matter what.*

veh kü tú 'sau, *however many.*

veh kü 'tsau an', *however early or late.*

háng zz' veh kü 'ná nung 'tsóng veh giòh, *whatever he does it is never right.*

c. dzûe bién, *as you please, whatever.*

dzûe bién' sá' zun kwong, *at whatever time.*

dzûe bién' sá' niun 'k'ung kú', *any one would be willing to do it.*

d. veh lun', *whatever.*

veh lun' sá' nyih kiáh, *on whatever day.*

veh lun' 'kí zz, nóng' yau' dzieu' 'yeu, *at whatever time, when you want it, you have it at once.*

e. sá' *whatever.*

, 'siáng sá' wó' sá', *whatever he thinks, he says.*

Obs. i. Buttman, Greek Grammar, section 78, says "Correlatives are words in connection with each other, of which one contains a certain question, and the corresponding one expresses the simplest relation which answers that question." Thus, the question sá' niun, *who?* may be answered by tí' kú' niun, *this man*; , dzûe bién' sa' niun, *any one whatever*; m sá' niun, *no one*; tú hau' niun, *many men*. So also, 'á lí tsáh zén, *which boat?* may be answered by tí' tsáh, *this one*; veh lun' 'á lí tsáh, *any one whatever*; t'óh veh 'zz, *it is neither*; peh kú' tí' dah 'kí tsáh zén 'lí, *it must be one of those that are here*; 'zz bih tsáh zén, *it is another*; t'eh zien deu ih yáng' kú' zén, *the same boat as before*. Several of these questions are answered by particles already presented under other denominations. The

remainder not finding a place readily under any one class, are collected under the name of correlatives.

Obs. ii. The corresponding forms in Latin. *Omnis, neuter, nullus, alter, alius*, are classed with adjectives; Zempt calls them *pronominalia*. Buttman says, that the line between the corresponding words in Greek, as adjectives and as pronouns, cannot be clearly drawn. Marshman says, the Sanscrit grammarians call all these words pronouns. If they can stand without a substantive, they should be called pronouns, otherwise they are adjectives.

Obs. iii. 'tsóng, *all*, is found only in the compounded forms, kóng' 'tsóng, 'lóng 'tsóng in *all*; 'lóng 'tsóng kú' pák sing', *all the people*. The substantive must accompany 'tsóng', as in tsóng' 'ti h'íung, *all the brothers*, and therefore, it must be considered an adjective. is not found compounded.

Obs. iv. *All* is also expressed by repetition of the substantive, t'sû' t'sû' 'yeu ku', *everywhere they are to be had*. v. Art, 129. Another mode is by phrases, such as ih góng', ih t'sih, *the whole*.

Obs. v. Another translation of *all* is by ta' van. Van is used in the sense of *all* in books, but in the dialect of Shánghái is only met with in this form.

203. *Other different*, are expressed by pih or by veh dóng, or by 'liáng yáng', *not the same*, or by the particle proceeding the substantive verb or by ling'. *The same* is ih yáng', or siáng dóng.

yau' kau' bih niun, *call another man*.

'tsóng 'zz bih yáng', *is certainly different*.

tau' bih dzáng hau' k'í, *go elsewhere*.

bih kú' kóh dú, *another nation*.

'tau 'lí veh dóng kú', *different in principle*.

wó' deu 'liáng yáng' kú, *what he says is different*.

veh ih yáng' kú', *not the same*.

í' 'zz ih kú', *that is another*.

ling' kiau' ih kú', *call another*.

ih yáng' kú' 'vá, *is it the same?*

siáng dóng kú', *the same*.

Words used as pronouns. 204. The use of some other words in combinations, where they occur instead of the pronouns will now be illustrated.

a. 'pun; *belonging to this place*, as demonstrative pronoun.

'pun dí' niun, *people of this place*.

'pun dí' wó', *dialect of this place*.

'pun miau' 'zz ú zong' kwén kú', *this temple to which I belong, is superintended by Buddhist priests*.

'pun kóh kú' kwé 'kü, *custom of this country*.

b. kiun, *now, the present*. As demonstrative pronoun, *this* in reference to time.

kiun tsau, kiun nyih, *to-day*.

kiun niöh, kiun nien, *this month, this year*.

c. t'sing, *one's own*, as reflexive pronoun *self*; t'sing sun, *himself*;
t'sing 'k'eu, *his own mouth*.

d. tú 'sau, *how many?* as an interrogative pronoun.

tú 'sau nien 'kí, *how many years old*.

205. The adjectives that follow, are used to avoid the personal pronouns. Those that describe the speaker are depreciatory in their meaning, while if others are addressed, the adjectives employed are respectful.

tsun, *honoured*, kwé', *ib.* kau, *high*, combine with sing, *family name*, kóh, *kingdom, etc.*

tsun sing', kwé' sing', kau sing', *your name?*

tsun káng, kwé' káng, kau zeu', *your age?*

tsun t'sû', kwé' t'su', *where do you live?*

tsun 'fu, kwé' 'fu, *where is your residence?*

Obs. i. 'fú, also forms part of the combination 'fú long', *residence*; e.g. 'fú long' 'a 'lí, *where do you reside?*

Obs. ii. kwé' kóh ask of *what honoured country* are you? kwé' dí', *what is your place of residence?* kau dú is translated *your scholar*; tsun ká' and siáng' kóng, are used in place of *you*, among those who are not in an inferior social position.

206. ling, *honoured, good*, applied to persons, enters into many combinations, where it represents the possessive *your*.

ling tsun, *your father*. ling dong, *your mother*.

ling h'iung, *yr. eld. bro.* ling dzeh, *your nephew*.

ling dí' *yr. younger bro.* ling long, *your son*.

ling fú zun, *your wife*.

ling kau dú, *your scholars*.

207. 'lau and tá' are found in similar combinations.

- ('lau (tú') yá, *sir*.
 tá' zun, *ib*.
 ('lau (tá') h'iúng, *elder brother*.
 ('lau (tá') kú, *ib*.

Obs. i. 'lau is also prefixed to sían sán and fú 'tsz, addressed to teachers, and to siáng' kong, addressed by servants to masters. The form of address to priests, is 'lau sz t'á', and to instructors 'lau sz.

Obs. ii. Some other terms are employed in a similar way, instead of the pronouns of the second person; t'é, *honoured* with 'fú or dzén', *what is your honoured name?* In the plural are found tsóng' wé' or lih wé', *all you gentlemen!*

208. Self depreciatory phrases employed instead of pronouns of the first person are equally numerous. hön, *cold*; pí, *spoilt, inferior*; dzien, *poor, cheap*, form such groups, as—

- () hön mun (ka), *my house*.
 hön kiung, *my wife*, (kiung is *thorn*.)
 () () pí t'sû' (dí') (h'íáng), *my abode*.
 () pí (dzien) sing', *my family name*.
 dzien ming, *my proper name*.
 dzien né' *my wife*.

Obs. One's wife is also denominated tseh kiung, *stupid thorn*.

209. The antithesis of ling, is usually só', *a cottage*. Among the groups into which it enters, are—

- só' dí', *my brother*. só' dzeh, *my nephew*.
 só' 'au, *my house*. só' t'sing, *my relations*.

210. Many groups take 'siau, *small*, ká, *family*, both being regarded as sufficiently depreciatory to represent the pronoun *my*.

- 'siau rh, *my boy or my son*. 'siau k'ion, *small dog*.
 'siau dú, *your mother*. 'siau sun, *grandchild*.
 'siau dí', *I*. 'siau 'nü, *my daughter*.
 ká h'iúng, *my brother*. ká 'mú, *my mother*.
 ká 'vú, *my father*. ká sóh, *my uncle*.

Obs. i. These words form a principal part of the complimentary style of speech, or k'áh k'í' kú' seh wó'. In the every day colloquial of the lower class, i.e. the majority of the people, they are little used. *Thou* and *I*, *thine* and *mine* are prefixed.

Obs. ii. While these words are given as substitutes for the pronouns, it should be remembered that the tendencies of the language are against the introduction of the pronouns, whether there be a substitute or not. Thus instead of asking, "Is your eye better?" The Chinese say 'ngan tsing 'hau 'tíen 'vá, *eye better, eh?* So, for "what is your name?" sing' sá', *name, what?* While the pronoun is thus entirely omitted, room is left for the speaker to introduce whatever terms of adulation or humility he may think fit. Those of the former kind are for convenience taken to mean *you* and *your*, while their opposites are *I* and *mine*.

Obs. iii. Many other phrases of the same kind are used in letters, but as they do not occur in conversation they are here omitted. Many of them are collected in Gutzlaff's "Notices of Chinese Grammar."

Section 7. On the verb, .

211. Pih Hwa-tsun says, "One use of verbs is to connect the parts of proposition" , , "Thus if it be said, books instruct mankind," (lit. writings delivered down to mankind); "the word books is the subject, mankind the predicate, and instruct the copula."

, , . "Another use is to express actions." . "Thus if it be said, write a book, or correct an essay," . "write and correct are both actions;" , , . "for both these uses, verbs are indispensable." "Verbs are very numerous; of those in constant use, there are about two thousand." "There are also verbs of two inseparable characters; e.g. pú sú, *move confusedly*, and pén wén, *to linger*."

Where our author speaks of 2,000 verbs, he means from among the single characters commonly used in writing. Many of these are, in colloquial dialects, expressed only in a dissyllabic form; thus, mú', *to desire*, is only used in common conversation in such compounded forms, as é' mú', *to love*. The number of inseparable compounds is thus rendered greater in the colloquial than in the written style. With regard to monosyllabic verbs, there are many in the books which are not in the colloquial, and vice versâ. For examples of verbs found in written colloquial mandarin, v. [page 63](#).

Verbs will be treated (1.) according to their modes of grouping; (2.) according to their most general nature, as transitive, intransitive, or substantive (voice); (3.) according to the particular modes in which their sense may be conveyed (moods); (4.) according to time (tenses).

(1.) Grouping of verbs.

Simple and compound verbs. 212. Examples of verbs of one word have been already given. A few more will be sufficient here.

fong', *let go*. tsûn, *to bore*.

t'sih, <i>cut in pieces.</i>	sieu, <i>to prune.</i>
t'sien, <i>cut away.</i>	pau', <i>to plane.</i>
tsan, <i>chop small.</i>	tah, <i>pitch tents.</i>
tsoh, <i>to reap.</i>	t'sáh, <i>pull down.</i>
wah, <i>scoop out.</i>	dzong', <i>meet.</i>

213. Many combinations of two words consist of verbs similar in meaning, but with no reason except custom for the order in which they are employed.

má tsong', <i>to bury.</i>	é lien, <i>to pity.</i>
tsó mén, <i>conceal.</i>	'tau kau', <i>to pray.</i>
tseu' mó', <i>revile.</i>	'pau pí', <i>protect.</i>
tiau wén, <i>exchange.</i>	'tsz tíen, <i>point to.</i>
ká t'ien, <i>add.</i>	van lau, <i>importune.</i>
wó' wá', <i>calumniate.</i>	t'sung tsan', <i>to praise.</i>

Obs. i. The tautology existing in examples of this sort is no objection whatever to their use. Thus, má and tsong', may be used separately or together, as the speaker pleases. There is an advantage to the foreigner in using the compounded forms, because a mispronunciation of the tone of a single word is nearly compensated by the repetition of the idea. So also for natives speaking different dialects.

Obs. ii. The principle of antithesis may be noticed in some of these dissyllabic combinations; e.g. 'wong lé, *go and come*; 'má má', *buy and sell*.

214. In many instances the first verb governs the second, as a verb does a substantive.

'zá siau', <i>cause to laugh.</i>
p'ó 'táng, <i>fear being beaten.</i>
p'ó 'sí, <i>fear dying.</i>
k'é 'kong, <i>begin speaking.</i>

Obs. In these examples, were the language one that admitted grammatical forms, the second verb in each case would become either a substantive, or an infinitive, (i.e. they would be always substantives, infinitives as destitute of time, person and number, being not true verbs). In reality , siau', 'táng, etc. are according to the principles of classical grammar, neither verbs nor substantives, not being able to take the necessary changes of form. They are bare roots, and their grammatical sense is determined by position. Verb however, is the most convenient denomination for them, because when taken alone, they are necessarily translated as verbs.

215. In some of these dissyllabic forms, the first verb qualifies the second; as in other languages, participles and adverbs qualify verbs.

kü k'í', *return home* (lit. *return go*).
pau lé, *come running*, (lit. *run come*).
sah lé, *come fighting*.
t'sau 'siá, *to copy in writing* (lit. *copy write*).

Obs. i. The verb of more general meaning k'í', *go*, is limited by that which precedes, kü, to the sense of returning home. If the idiom be compared with the English phrase *go back*, kü is the adverb placed before instead of after its verb. In 'tsén lé, *come back*; the verb 'tsén is also best translated in English, as an adverb *back*.

Obs. ii. Substantives sometimes by ellipsis stand for verbs, as qualifying the following verb.
'mó (horse) lé ní, giau' 'tsz (sedan) lé, *did you ride or come in a chair?*

216. The order of the words in many of these phrases, may also properly be referred to priority and sequence in time. That is, two actions are successively expressed.

t'áng bá', *fight and be defeated*.
k'au (to beat) k'é (to open), *to knock open*.
'ngau p'u', *break by biting*.
't'sing 'zú, *please sit down*.
'siá wén *finish writing*.
tsú' ding, *finish making*.
tiau' 'sí, *die by strangling*.

Obs. The English verb *open*, which is an adjective, verb, or adverb, like the Chinese, has evidently nothing to indicate to which part of speech it belongs, but position. It is on the principle of position, that in such phrases as *an open door*, *knock open a door*, and *to open a door*, the word is referred to its proper place in the parts of speech. There is this difference; (1) that in k'au k'é, the latter word is still a verb, while in the corresponding English example, it becomes a true adverb; (2) the Chinese word cannot be used as an adjective. The qualifying notion contained in the adjective, is expressed as a separate proposition; e.g. *for an open door*, mun k'é 'lá, *the door is open*.

217. In verbs of two syllables, many auxiliary words occur, which have nearly or quite lost their primary meaning as independent verbs. In the following examples, it will be observed, that these enclitics or proclitics, as they may be termed, often add nothing to the meaning of the principal verb. They are tuh, t'eh, 'táng, k'ien', záh, dzû'.

a. tuh, *get, may*.

t'ing tuh, *hear*.

'hiau tuh, *know*.

kí' tuh, *remember*.

niung' tuh, *be acquainted*.

Obs. This term, though here it has no meaning, will be seen to be a very important word among the mood particles, as giving a permissive sense to the principal verb. Such is its most common

signification is such phrases as tsú' tuh, *it may be done*.

b. t'eh, *let go, escape, remove out of the way*.

k'í' t'eh, *remove*.

dzû t'eh, *to remove*.

mih t'eh, *destroy*.

fong' t'eh, *let go*.

leu t'eh, *to leak*.

'tseu t'eh, *escape*.

t'ih (or tiuh) t'eh, *kick away*.

siá t'eh, *flow away*.

dön' t'eh, *sweep away*.

töh t'eh, *rob of*.

Obs. This word may be regarded as forming a derivative verb. Its primary meaning is seen in t'öh í zong, *take off one's clothes*, where the book sound t'öh is employed.

c. 'táng, *to beat, apply one's-self to*.

'táng 'sau, *to sweep*.

'táng t'ing, *to inquire*.

'táng fah, *to send*.

'táng sén', *to fan*.

'táng sön', *consider*.

'táng kih, *tie a knot*.

Obs. The primary meaning of 'táng, is seen in such phrases as 'táng tsong, *drive piles*; 'táng 'hú, *strike a light*.

d. kien', indicates a single act of perception.

k'ön' kien', *see*.

mong' kien', *see*.

t'ing kien', *to hear*.

e. dzáh. This word expresses that the object implied in the verb is effected.

páng' záh, *to meet*.

nü záh, *ib*.

tsoh záh, *catch, or succeed in catching*.

kiun záh, *ib*.

móh záh, *rub, or can be rubbed*.

döh záh, *succeed in robbing*.

tuh záh, *succeed in getting*.

'má záh, *succeed in buying*.

Obs. i. In these examples, this meaning of the auxiliary is preserved, and must be regarded as additional to the sense of the principal verb, except in the first two instances.

Obs. ii. In 'siáng záh, *think of*, the word záh limits think to the sense of *think of some particular thing*. In koh záh, *become aware of*, the verb koh, cannot in our dialect be used separately. It is however found in veh tsz veh koh, *not be aware of*.

f. sah, *to kill*.

veh wó‘ sah, *he did not say decisively*.

g. dzû‘, *resist, take firm hold*. This word always preserves its meaning, but it occurs so frequently in union with verbs of resistance and interruption, that it deserves a place with the preceding enclitics.

‘tsú dzû‘, *resist*.

‘sú dzû‘, *prevent motion by locking up*.

vóh dzû‘ *ib. by tying up*.

‘ngau dzû‘, *hold with the teeth*.

niah dzû‘, *hold in the hand*.

t’sieu dzû‘, *hold with the hand*.

h. tau‘, *arrived*.

yúng‘ tau‘, *employ to the utmost*.

tsú‘ tau‘, *do to perfection*.

‘tseu tau‘, *complete a journey on foot*.

dzoh nyih pau‘ tau‘, *he arrived yesterday*.

218. In many cases a substantive follows the verb, when it is unnecessary in English.

‘tseu lú‘, *to walk*.

tsuh pú‘, *to weave*.

zok tsien‘, *to shoot*.

‘fong só, *to spin*.

yau zén, *to scull*.

weh ming‘, *to live*.

Obs. i. So also wó‘ seh wó‘, *to speak*. The words seh wó‘, *words*, are as to sense superfluous. Yet many of these examples may be closely translated; e.g. ‘ling lú‘, *lead the way*; sau van‘, *to boil rice, to cook*.

Obs. ii. When the substantive comes under the government of another verb its usual companion is frequently appended; e.g. dzing van‘ k’iuh, *seek for food*, where is superfluous.

Obs. iii. When the sense does not require a substantive, the reason of its introduction must be sought in the rhythmical construction of sentences, peculiar and essential to the Chinese language.

219. Compound verbs are formed by the apposition of a transitive verb and adjective.

ká, (*add*) dzáng (*long*), *to lengthen*.

t’sing (*to make near*) ‘giun, (*near*), *become near, to approach closely*.

kiöh, (*dig*) sun (*deep*), *to deepen*.
 'kan (*subtract*) k'iung (*light*), *subtract from*.
 tien (*place layers*) kau (*high*), *raise by layers*.
 wó' (*speak*) dú' (*great*), *speak highly of*.
 'pú (*to cover*) 'mén (*full*), *fill up*.
 kau' (*instruct*) t'só (*wrong*), *teach wrong*.
 'ké (*change*) tsung' (*correct*), *to correct*.
 tsoh (*catch*) lau (*firm*), *catch and retain*.

Obs. i. The word 'hau, *good*, is found appended to many verbs, giving to them the sense of completeness, tsú' 'hau, *complete the making of*.

Obs. ii. These examples shew how in Chinese, compensation is made for that class of words called derivatives in languages possessing a system of terminations. Instead of a formation like *prolongare*, *to lengthen*, from *longus* or *long* in Latin, or *lengthen* from *length* in English, we have a separate word prefixed to the adjective dzáng, *long*. Many English phrases are compounded in the same manner; e.g. *rub smooth*, *rub dry*, which are equivalent in sense and grammatical construction to the Chinese forms, mú kwong, k'á kûn.

Obs. iii. t'só, *wrong*, is found after many other verbs; e.g. 'tóng, *understand*; t'ing, *to hear*; té' *treat any one*. In every case, it is predicated of the action, that it is wrong.

220. In some dissyllabic verbs used transitively, one of the constituent words is a substantive.

wé (*turn*) deu (*head*), *to answer, to tell*.
 lóng' (*trick*) zun (*spirits*), *to deceive*.
 tau' (*reach to*) 'seu (*hand*), *have in possession*.
 sön' (*calculate*) kí' (*a plan*), *to plan*.

Obs. These may be seen to be transitive, in such sentences as veh 'hau lóng' zun báng 'yeu, *you should not deceive friends*; dzieu lé wé deu 'ngú, *come at once and tell me*.

221. Some colloquial verbs, with examples of the manner in which they combine with other words, are here inserted.

lóh 'zong k'í, *go up* (M. shíng, p'a).
 pau' t'seh lé, *walk out* (M. 'tseu).
 geh dzû' 'lá, *held by the arm* (M. hieh).
 páng' záh, *meet* (M. ü' and p'eng choh).
 peh 'tsén, *turn around* (M. hwei).
 tan tau' 't'sz dí', *bring here* (M. ná twan).
 hwah t'eh, *throw away* (M. jeng' hia').
 peh siáng', *to ramble* (M. yeu kwang').
 t'an t'sóng, *to be ashamed*.

peh 'lá 'ngú, *give it me* (M. ki', 'kei).
tsu' sú', *to deceive*.

Obs. At Súng-kiáng 'pun, is used for peh, in the sense of *give*. has two pronunciations, 'pau *run*, and pau' *walk*.

222. Some adverbs enter into combination with verbs.

ü' (*before*) bé' (*prepare*), *to prepare*.
siáng (*mutually*) 'táng (*beat*), *to fight*.
siáng (*mutually*) mó' (*rail*) *rail at one another*.

Groups of three. 223. Propositions and words equivalent to them combine with lé, *come*, and k'í', *go*, to express the direction of the action of verbs.

k'au tsing' k'í', *knock in*.
tan 'zong lé, *bring forward*.
'tseu 'au lé, *walk down*.
sah zien k'í', *fight on before*.
lók 'k'í lé, *stand up*.
'zú 'au lé, *sit down*.
'zú tsing' k'í', *sit farther up*.
fí t'seh lé, *fly out*.
'tseu kú' lé, *come through*.
'lá kú' k'í', *drag past*.
töh 'k'í lé, *lift up*.
só'k 'tsén lé, *turn back*.
kwan' 'au lé, *throw down*.
'tseu k'é lé, *walk away*.

Obs. i. Thus we have an idiom similar to the English, except that the verbs of motion are added. The common prepositions annexed to verbs (and therefore sometimes called adverbs), follow the verbs in both instances. Of the Chinese five are verbs, which are all used as prepositions, t'seh, *to go out, outward*; tsing', *to go in, inward*; 'k'í', *to raise up, upward*; kú', *to pass, through, across*; 'tsén, *to return, back*; k'é, *to open, away*. Of the prepositions 'zong, *forward*, 'au *backward, downward*, zien, *before*, the two former are also frequently employed as verbs in the dialect as well as in books; e.g. 'zong Sú-tseu, *go to Sú-cheú*; 'au zén, *to enter a boat*.

Obs. ii. In the classical languages, the prepositions were put before the verbs instead of after them, as in the derived words *ascend, descend*; and another numerous class of terms belonging to our western tongues, is thus seen to have its equivalent compound form in the Chinese language.

224. The *beginning* and *completion* of an action are expressed by appending, 'k'í lé, *begin* and zung kóng, *complete* to the verb 'k'í is also used alone, and the words , , wén, ding, *finish*, and 'hau, *well*, stand for *completion*.

'siá 'k'í lé, *begin writing*.
 tsú' zung kóng, *to finish making*.
 wó zung kóng, *finish painting*.
 kiun tsau tsú 'k'í, *begin to-day*.
 'kí zz tsú' wén, *when will you finish?*
 veh zung wó ding, *has not done speaking*.
 'zau 'hau 'tsé, *finished building*.

Obs. i. In examples with , 'k'í, we have an equivalent to that class of Lat. derivative verbs called Inchoative or Inceptive; e.g. calesco, *I grow warm*, from calco.

Obs. ii. 'k'í is sometimes omitted e.g. tsú' lé veh 'hau, *do a thing badly*. But then the sense of *beginning* is lost also.

Obs. iii. This form is also assumed by adjectives, as nyih 'k'í lé, *becomes hot*; nyih lé wó veh tuh, *it is excessively hot*. In the dialects west of Shánghái nyih tuh lé, is used for *it is hot*.

Obs. iv. The substantive governed is placed between 'k'í and lé; e.g. 'tóng 'k'í 'seu lé, *to move one's hand*. The same thing occurs with some of the other groups. peh 'tsén sun 't'í lé, *turn one's body round*: tan t'seh yáng dién lé, *bring out dollars*.

225. Collective and separating verbs are formed by 'lóng, *collect*, and k'é, *open*.

dzü 'lóng lé, *collect together*.
 'ping 'lóng lé, *add together*.
 san k'é lé, *scatter*.
 t'sáh k'é lé, *undo*.
 fun k'é lé, *divide*.
 'ká k'é lé, *untie*.

226. Reflexive action is expressed by placing zz' before and after the verb.

zz' háh zz', *frighten one's-self*.
 zz' p'ien' zz', *deceive one's-self*.

Obs. In examples of this sort, the constituent words are pronounced closely together and might be written with hyphens. They correspond in their sense, to the Hithpahel conjugation of Hebrew verbs, and the middle voice of Greek and Sanscrit. In a monosyllabic agglutinating language, no nearer

approach, could well be made to an equivalent of those forms, than is exhibited in such groups as these.

Groups. Affirmative and negative. 227. The groups formed by help of the affirmative and negative particles are very numerous, so much so, that they constitute of themselves a feature of the language. The Chinese colloquial idiom is very much indebted to them, for the force and precision which it is acknowledged to possess.

In these groups *tuh* and *veh* (*púh* M.), take the centre, and certain auxiliary words, with some adjectives and verbs stand last. The sense of the principal verb is thus limited and modified in various ways. *tuh* and *veh* being opposite in sense, the modifications they produce in the sense of the verb must be opposed also. They may be reduced to the following pairs of terms.

1st. It is predicted of the *agent*, that he is *able* or knows how to effect the action of the verb and the contrary; e.g. *tsú' tuh lé, able to do or make;* *tsú' veh lé, unable to do or make.*

2nd. It is predicated of the agent, that circumstances allow him to effect the action and the contrary. Thus, *tong tuh 'k'í, in circumstances to bear;* *tóh veh 'k'í, cannot afford to learn to read;* *t'ú veh 'k'í, not strength to drag.*

3rd. It is predicated of the action, that it can, or does *succeed*, and the opposite; e.g. *zing tuh záh, can find (zing seek);* *'táng veh záh, it did not, or cannot hit.*

4th. It is predicated of the action, that it can, or cannot be performed in a particular *direction*; e.g. *'tseu veh tsing', cannot go inside.*

5th. Of verbs of *motion*, *resistance* and *destruction*, it is predicated, with the help of auxiliary verbs cognate in meaning, that the act they represent, can or cannot take place. *'tseu tuh 'dóng can walk;* *'tsú veh dzû', unable to resist;* *'ká veh t'eh, cannot get rid of.*

6th. It is predicated of a verb followed by an adjective, that the act is or can be performed, to the extent indicated the adjective or the contrary; e.g. *í (cure) tuh 'hau (good) can be cured;* *íen veh 'mén cannot be filled by layers.*

228. Of the auxiliary words, used in affirmative and negative groups, verbs are the most numerous.

- a. lé, *come*, t'seh, *go out*, express *able to*.
 'siá veh lé, *do not know how to write*.
 t'ing veh lé, *have not the power to hear*.
 kiau' veh t'seh, *know not what to call it*.
 'kong tuk t'seh, *can discourse on it*.

Obs. A group of four is sometimes made by introducing an adverb.
not hear very well.

t'ing dá' veh t'seh, *I do*

- b. 'k'í, *rise*, expresses *in circumstances to*.
 'pan veh 'k'í, *it is not for me to look angry*.
 k'wun' veh 'k'í, *afraid to sleep*.
 'nien veh 'k'í, *will not bear to be dyed*.
 yun' veh 'k'í, *will not bear impressions*.
 k'ien' veh 'k'í, *do not dare meet him*.

c. , , , záh, t'seh, k'ien', express *success* in any single action; verbs of striking and seeking take záh; while verbs of thinking and perception take t'seh and k'ien'.

kiau' tuh záh, *succeed in calling him*.
 sah veh záh, *not succeed in killing*.
 'tóng veh t'seh, *cannot understand*.
 k'ön' veh t'seh, *I do not (or cannot) see it*.
 k'ön' veh k'ien', *ib.*

- d. , , , , , , express *direction* as in the examples.

tsing' tuh tsing', *able to enter*.
 háng veh t'seh, *cannot pass out*.
 k'íuh veh loh, *cannot swallow or eat*.
 pau' veh kú', *cannot pass by*.
 sóh veh 'tsén, *cannot return*.
 'táng tuh k'é, *can beat open*.
 k'wun' veh loh, *cannot lie down (either through pain or want of room)*.

e. , , , t'eh, 'tóng, dzû', express *destruction*, *motion*, and *resistance*.
 e.g.

mih veh t'eh, *cannot destroy*.
tsú' veh 'dóng, *disabled from work*.
pau veh 'dóng, *unable to walk*.
'mien veh t'eh, *unable to avoid*.
lih veh dzû', *not able to stand*.
tong tuh dzû', *able to resist*.

f. tuh, expresses *permission* and *prohibition*.

tóng veh tuh, *may not do it*.
k'i' tuh, *may go*.
tau 'tseu veh tuh, *may not flee*.

g. , , express the *cessation* of an act.

kiau' veh ding, *not cease to call*.
k'óh veh ding, *not cease to weep*.
yúng' veh wén, *cannot exhaust by using*.
t'ong' veh ding, *not cease to pain*.

h. , , express *perfection* of an act.

tsú' veh dzung kóng, *cannot complete*.
'tseu tuk tau', *can walk to*.
'siáng veh tau', *cannot reach in thought*.
kih veh tau', *cannot come up to or equal*.
pau' tah veh dzing', *unable to shew sufficient gratitude*.

i. kih or kí, expresses *there is time for*.

t'sau veh gí, *not time to copy*.
tsûe tuh gí, *time to overtake*.
lé veh gí, *not time for it*.

j. loh, expresses *room for*.

koh tuh loh, *room to pack*.
ön veh loh, *not room to place*.
'zú veh loh, *not room to sit*.

k. kú', indicates that the verb it qualifies will give superiority.

, 'táng 'á 'táng í veh kú', wó' 'á wó' í veh kú',
cannot conquer him by beating, nor by using the tongue.
 tih tuh kú', *can oppose him successfully.*

l. 'lí, *to control*, 'long, *bring together*, sah, *kill* and yung', *answer*,
 add their own sense to the verb.

wo' veh 'lí, *not attend to what is said.*

han' tuh 'lí, *will come when called.*

heh veh 'lóng, *cannot agree together.*

kiau' veh yung', *not answer a call.*

Obs. i. In some instances, the sense of the auxiliaries varies from that assigned to them here; e.g.
 kön' veh 'k'i, *to despise*; 'má veh 'dóng, *not succeed in buying*; siáng sing' veh
 kú', *incredible*; í' veh kú', *cannot but pity*; pá' veh tuh, *indispensable*.

Obs. ii. 'yeu, *have* and m, *not to have*, form with tuh a few groups; e.g. 'yeu tuh k'íuh,
have something to eat; m tuh tsáh, *have nothing to wear*.

Obs. iii. Examples are rare in the case of , , , and , The rest are all extensively used.

229. Prepositions similarly employed in these negative and affirmative groups are rare. Those that are used may also be construed as verbs.

a. zien *before*.

sah veh zien, *does not go forward fighting.*

b. 'zong, *forward*.

lólh veh 'zong, *cannot be climbed.*

'sú veh 'zong, (key) *cannot be turned (cannot lock.)*

mun kwan veh 'zong, *door will not shut.*

c. 'au, *down*.

lólh veh 'au, *cannot climb down.*

k'íuh veh 'au, *cannot swallow.*

230. Several adjectives are found in these combinations; e.g. , , , ,
 , , , , , etc.

tóh veh dzien, *cannot be read through.*

sun veh dzuh, *cannot stretch out straight.*

t'só veh tú, *differs little.*

wó' tuh 'hau, *well spoken.*

'pú tuh 'mén, *can be filled up.*

'tseu veh t'óng, *no thoroughfare.*

wó' veh ming báh, *cannot be made to understand.*

Obs. In the third and fourth examples, and others like them such as pau' tuk k'wá', the proposition is not one of possibility, *he can walk fast*, but of fact, *he walks fast*.

Repetition and Antithesis. 231. These occur extensively among the verbs. The meaning of the word repeated remains unaffected.

a. Many single intransitive verbs, or verbs used intransitively are repeated.

'zú zú', *sit down.* k'ön' k'ön', *look.*

b. Transitive verbs are repeated before the word they govern.

'siá 'sia zz', *write.*

tsóng' tsóng' dién, *work in the fields.*

heu' heu' nóng', *I come to see you.*

c. k'ön', *see*, occurs after a repeated verb, in a metaphorical sense.

sú sú k'ön', *see what it is.*

t'ing t'ing k'ön', *listen to it and see.*

sz' sz' k'ön', *try it and see.*

tsú' tsú' k'ön', *make it as a trial.*

Obs. K'ön' also follows other groups, as nian' 'k'í lé k'ön', *read and let me hear.*

d. The components of dissyllabic verbs are often repeated.

tan dan söh söh, *conversing.*

tí dí k'óh k'óh, *weeping.*

lé lé k'í' k'í', *coming and going.*

e. Some dissyllabic verbs repeat themselves, not their component parts.

p'an dan p'an dan, *talking.*

kúng 'h'í, kúng 'h'í, *I congratulate you.*

f. When a dissyllabic form consists of a verb and its subject, a group of four is formed by repeating the former, and supplying the place of the latter by a synonymous or contrasted word.

m píen m ngön', not having a shore.
'tóng 'seu 'dóng kiáh, move hands and feet.
'yeu bing yeu kü', there is evidence.

g. Sometimes both the verb and its object are varied by synonymous or contrasted words.

kieu t'ien pá' dí', pray to heaven and worship earth.
ping' sing gih lih (or liuh), employ one's whole mind and strength.

h. Some verbs are repeated with a pair of antithetical verbs in alteration.

'pau lé 'pau k'í', walking about.
yau tsing' yau t'seh, row in and out.

232. The verb is repeated with the intervention of *kú'*, or of *ih* to represent *a little* of the act in question.

'tseu ih 'tseu, walk a little.
'tung ih 'tung, wait a little.
té' kú' dé', wait.
'zú kú' 'zú, sit down.

Obs. Sometimes auxiliary substantives supply the place of the repeated verb; e.g. *ká ih bé', make it as large again*. Other auxiliaries are *tsz', t'ong', we'*, applied to any verb in the sense of *times*. For going round in a circle *'tsén* with the numeral expresses the number of times. For beating *kí'* expresses the number of blows. See [Art. 163](#).

(2.) Different kinds of verbs.

Substantive verb. 233. The verb *to be* used as a copula is often omitted.

'ngú 'ní tók sū kú', we are persons of education.
tí kú' niun dzáng, this man is tall.
kiun tsau tsue' 'láng, to-day it is very cold.

234. The words ^[1] *'zz* and *tsú'* are employed as substantive verbs, and *'dzé, leh 'lá, leh 'lí* when existence in place is spoken of. They are put in the negative by prefixing *yeh*.

'zz nóng' kú' 'vá, is it yours?
'zz ku', veh 'zz ku', it is; it is not.

'ngú tsú' dzé vóng, *I am a tailor.*
 tsú' ní 'tsz yau' h'iau', *he who is a son should be filial.*
 veh leh 'la 't'sz di', *he is not here.*

Obs. i. The verb kiau', *to call* is sometimes so used that it may be translated as a substantive verb; e.g. í yáng' 'tau 'lí veh kiau' 'hau, *that mode of action is not good, or is not what may be called good.*

Obs. ii. The words , , and are used in fixed phrases, from which they cannot be disengaged.
 zz' ká tsok 'tsû, *be your own master*; 'ké oh wé 'zén, *repent and be virtuous*;
 kiáng dau' tsok 'fan, *the robbers are rebelling*; tong ping, *to be a soldier*.

Obs. iii. is also used as a transitive verb *make* or *do*, which is its primary meaning.

Obs. iv. *to have* when no object follows affirms existence and is to be translated by the impersonal substantive verb in English; e.g. ng 'yeu 'vá, *are there any fish?* 'k'í 'yeu 't'sz 'lí, *how can this be? (It snows now, is lok sih 'tsé.)* Its negative is m or m meh.

[1] The substantive verb either simply affirms 'zz or it affirms action tsú' or it affirms existence in place 'zé, leh 'lá, or it affirms existence 'yeu.

235. Transitive verbs take the object after them, while the nominative precedes.

kwén 'fú k'uh bóh pák sing', *the mandarins exact from the people.*
 ping 't'siáng meh zz', *the soldiers commit robberies.*

236. When there are two objects as in verbs of *giving*, the nearer comes next to the verb, and the more remote stands last, usually with 'lá.

sóng' 'lí veh 'lá nóng', *present you with gifts.*
 peh van' 'lá nóng' k'íuh, *give you rice.*

Obs. This is the same as Remusat's rule, "Dans les verbes à double rapport' le complément direct se place après le verbe, et est suivi du complément indirect" t'íen 'tsz nung tsien' zun ü t'íen, *the emperor can propose a person to Heaven*; the order is not however confined to this one form; e.g. s'óng' 'lá nóng' k'í' meh zz', *I bring you a present*, is the same as, s'óng' meh zz' 'lá nóng'; s'óng' nóng' 'liáng k'í' meh zz' *I bring you a few things*, is just as proper as s'óng' 'liáng k'í' meh zz' 'lá nóng.

237. The object is made to precede the transitive verb, by the use of the auxiliary tan, which is also the sign of the instrument.

tan lah tsóh 'hú t'sz 'yun, *blow out the candle.*
 tan tsók pan lé 'táng, *strike with a bamboo.*
 tan mun kwan tsz, *shut the door.*

238. Intransitive verbs when not followed by a preposition or another verb, prefer the last place.

't'sz dí' 'zú, *sit here.*

tí' deu pau', *walk here.*

'kí zz lé, *when did you come.*

'ngú zén long' lé, *I come from the boat.*

Obs. When a preposition is employed to connect an intransitive verb with a substantive, the verb may precede or follow; e.g. tau' 't'sz dí' lé, *come here* is equivalent to lé tau' 't'sz dí'. So also , 'zú 'lá tí' tah, *sit here*, is the same as 'lá tí' tah 'zú.

239. The passive is formed by prefixing the auxiliary verb peh, *give*, with the substantive that represents the agent, to the transitive verb.

peh bih niun 'táng, *was beaten by others.*

peh í tsú sú 'ngú, *I was deceived by him.*

Obs. i. This auxiliary particle peh, *give*, has in all four uses:— Active, peh san 'liang kú' tóng dien 'lá í, *give him two or three cash.* Passive, peh 'lá 'vú 'mú tsah bé', *he was rebuked by his parents.* 'ngú kú' mau' 'tsz peh 'lá niun t'eu tsz k'í' 'tsé, *my hat has been stolen by some one.* Causative, peh 'lá í 'sí, *cause him to die;* í peh 'lá 'ngú k'íuh k'ü (k'wé) 'tsé, *he has caused me to suffer.* (M. shí' kiau', chiau'.) Permissive, sá' niun 'k'ung peh 'lá bih niun c'hi vú' ní? *who is willing to allow others to insult him?* veh yau' peh 'lá bih niun hóng' p'ien' nong', *do not allow others to deceive you.*

Obs. ii. In mandarin it is not the common word to *give*, that is chosen for the passive auxiliary, but a word set apart for this purpose pei'.

Obs. iii. 'Zeu *to receive*, is often used as a passive, e.g. veh 'k'ung 'zeu bih niun mó', *unwilling to be spoken ill of by others.* K'íuh is found in combination as in the next examples. When separated from the groups where it is the sign of the passive, it recovers its transitive sense *to eat*.

240. Verbs are made causative By prefixing kau', *to call*, or peh, *to give*.

kau' 'ngú k'íuh k'ü, *causing me to suffer loss.*

veh yau' kau' ngú báh sòng' t'eh, *do not cause me to give it away (or say it) in vain.*

kiau' 'sz veh yau' 'kwun, *prevent the water from boiling.*

peh 'lá 'ngú k'íuh kwén sz, *causing me to be the subject of a lawsuit.*

Obs. i The English auxiliary verb *must* is expressed by 'tsóng, as in 'tsóng yau' lau zeh, *you must be upright.*

Obs. ii. The derivative verbs which have been already illustrated are the following:— Inchoative, tí 'k'í pih lé, *take up the pen*; Reflexive, zz' yön' zz', *be one's own enemy*; Collective,

heh 'lóng lé, *combine together*; Separative, t'sák k'é lé, *pull open*; Completing, 'zau wén, *finish building*; Resisting, tong dzû', *stand against*; Destroying, tieu t'eh, *throw away*. There are also forms for the various directions indicated by prepositions, v. [Art. 223](#).

(3.) *Modes of verbs.*

241. In very many cases the mood is determined entirely from the sense, and has no particular sign.

'ngú k'í' 'má, *I will go and buy*. (Indicative.)

'zz nong' k'í' wan bién' tong', *if you should go, it would be more convenient*. (Subjunctive.)

nong' k'í' má, *do you go and buy*. (Imperative.)

'má 'zz yung í', *to buy is easy*. (Infinitive).

Obs. Here the four principal moods of Latin grammar are exemplified without any distinctive sign.

242. The particle 'tsé and meh, at the end of the clause often mark *indicative* and *conditional* prepositions respectively.

hien' 'dzé loh 'ü meh, nien sz' 'hau 'tsé, *should it now rain, it will be a good year*.

nien 'kí dú' meh veh yau' 'tsé, *if old, they are not wanted*.

Obs. i. The conditional clause always precedes.

Obs. ii. These particles may in many cases be omitted without affecting the sense. veh loh 'u pák sing' yau' 'k'ú 'nau, *if it does not rain, the people must suffer*.

Obs. iii. In any two connected clauses, whether the former be conditional or not, these particles are frequently used; e.g. k'ön' kien' tsz 't'au van' kú' meh, dzieu' 'táng 'k'í lé 'tsé. *when he saw the beggars, he began beating them*. Both these clauses are in the past time.

Obs. iv. An indicative clause standing alone often takes 'tsé. Thus lé 'tsé, *I am come*, or *I come*; k'í' 'tsé, *I go*.

243. Another particle found in conditional sentences, is tsz, appended to the verb. This marks the past participle of the verb.

ngú k'íuh tsz van' dzieu' lé 'tsé, *having dined I came at once*.

244. A *potential* mood is formed by many of the groups already illustrated. Both kinds of ability, absolute or natural, and limited or moral, are found in them. For examples of the former kind:—

'siá veh lé, *I cannot write*.

'kong kieu' tuh lé, *I can discuss it*.

wan veh 'tsén, *cannot turn round*.

Obs. wé', prefixed to verbs makes them potential nian' veh lé, *I cannot read*, is equivalent to veh wé' nian'.

245. The limited potential mood is formed by 'k'í, e.g.

tong veh 'k'í, *I do not deserve to receive it.*

k'ien veh 'k'í, *not able to pull.*

mú veh 'k'í, *will not bear rubbing.*

k'iu' veh 'k'í, *cannot afford to eat it.*

'táng veh 'k'í, *cannot bear beating.*

'seu ngáng' veh 'k'í, *could not use my hand roughly.*

246. A permissive and prohibitive mood is formed by,—

a. tuh.

k'ön' tuh, *you may look at.*

k'ön' veh tuh, *you may not look.*

b. 'hau, and 'k'ó 'í, also give a permissive sense.

'hau tsing' k'i' 'vá, *may I enter?*

veh 'hau t'seh k'i', *you must not go out.*

'k'ó 'í k'iu' tuh, *you may eat it.*

247. An optative mode of the verb is formed by pó veh tuh, and hng' veh tuh. (hng', west of Shánghái hung').

'ngú pó veh tuh k'wa' 'tíen tau', *would that I could arrive quickly.*

hng' veh tuh tsú' 'hau, *I wish I could do it.*

248. The imperative (1) in its negative form takes yau', *want*, with the common negative particle veh.

veh yau' nau', *do not be noisy.*

(2.) The affirmative form of the imperative is expressed by the verb alone, or by meh 'tsé, or pá' appended sometimes to a few verbs.

'tseu meh 'tsé, *go.* k'í bá', *go.*

Obs. All the verbs single and grouped, except those with the affirmative and negative, may be used as imperatives without a particle. 'tseu kú' lé, means either *I am passing you* or *pass over to me.*

249. the *Infinitive* it may be remarked, (1.) that it stands first in many negative groups not potential. v. [Art. 228. g.](#)

nian' veh ding, *does not cease to recite.*

t'sau nau' veh ding, *does not cease to be noisy.*

(2) That when a verb is made the subject of a proposition, while the predicate follows with a copula, the verb is translated in the infinitive, e.g.

k'í' 'zz yóng í', *it is easy to go.*

250. When a verb takes a case particle, it is construed as a present participle or gerund.

meh zz' leh 'lá lé, *the things are coming.*

k'iuh van' kú' zun kwong, *time for dining.*

'ngú 'lá 'siá zz', *I am writing.*

k'iuh kú' meh zz', *things to eat*

Obs. The supine *in order to* has no sign, , 'má 'tíen sá' k'í' 'tsé, *he is gone (in order) to buy something;* 'ngú lé mong' mong' ná', *I come to see you.* v. [252. f.](#)

251. The forms of interrogation are of two kinds.

1. By the interrogative particles man' and 'vá.

van' 'hau man', *is dinner ready?*

k'í' 'vá, *will you go?*

2. By putting the question in the form of an affirmative and negative, side by side. The particle ní is often placed between.

'k'ung k'í' veh 'k'ung k'í', *will you or not?*

'h'iau tuh veh 'h'iau tuh, *do you know?*

'má ní veh 'má, *will you buy?*

Obs. After ní, the second clause is sometimes supplied by sa'; e.g.

yau 'táng ní sá, *do you want to fight, or what is it you want to do?*

(4) *Particles of time, forming tenses of verbs.*

252. For the expression of present time, no auxiliary word is necessary.

'ngú veh tsú' sá', *I am doing nothing.*

lé ní veh lé, *is he coming or not?*
 'tóng veh 'tóng, *do you understand or not?*
 p'ó' 'láng 'vá, *do you fear cold?*
 veh nung veh p'ó' 'lang, *I cannot but fear cold.*

Obs. Instead of considering the rest of the tenses in their order, it will be better to take the particles in succession, and show what tenses they may be used for.

a. h'ih, *a moment*; this particle gives a past sense to the phrases in which it occurs, and is perhaps most accurately designated an *aorist*.

k'ön' h'ih h'í' 'vá, *have you seen the play?*
 k'í' h'ih 'liáng wé', *I have gone twice.*

b. 'tsé, 'lí; these particles express that the action is completed, or determined on. m. 'liaú. Their English grammatical equivalent is usually the passive participle joined with the auxiliary verb *to be*.

'má 'hau 'lá 'tsé, *they are bought.*
 má' t'eh 'tsé, *it is sold.*
 'ngú k'í' 'tsé, *I am going.*

c. kú', *past*; this particle has the sense of the preterite tense.

tau' kú' 'liáng wé', *I have gone twice.*
 hwó tsóng' kú' tú 'sau, *how many flowers have you planted?*
 lú' pau' kú' 'ki hó' 'li, *how many miles of road have we walked?*

Obs. 'yeu and 'k'ó, employed in some dialects as signs of the past, are never so used in this.

d. h'ih 'tsé or h'ih 'lá 'tsé, express perfect time.

niung' tuh kú' h'ih 'tsé, *have known him.*
 t'eh í wó' h'ih 'tsé, *have told him.*
 tsóng k'au h'ih 'lá 'tsé, *bell has rung.*
 t'ok peh h'ih 'tsé, *have entrusted to him.*

e. kú' h'ih, form a perfect farther in the past than the above.

lé kú' h'ih 'tsé, *I have come formerly.*
 veh zung k'í' kú' h'ih, *I have yet gone.*
 hok kú' h'ih 'lá 'tsé, *I have learnt it before.*

f. yau' expresses future time; sometimes *tsiáng* precedes. may often be translated *in order to* (supine)

yau' loh 'ü 'tsé, *it will rain.*
ming tsau yau' k'í', *I will go to-morrow.*

g. tsiáng, is frequently used for the future.

tsiáng 'yeu nau' zz', *there will be a disturbance.*

Obs. These particles give the affirmative future. The form for the negative is different as is shown below.

h. tsz; this particle appended to a verb, gives it the time of a past participle. English auxiliary participle *having*.

k'ön' tsz sū meh, 'h'iau tuh 'tsé, *when you have read it, you will know.*

'tóng tsz meh 'hau 'kong, *when you understand it, you can explain it.*

tsu' tsz ping lau 'táng tsáng' k'í' 'tsé, *having become a soldier, he has gone to fight.*

Obs. As a relative tense particle, this word may be used in past or future time. In the former case, it is the sign of the narrative participle; e.g.

k'ön' kien' tsz san kau lau, 'tseu 'zong k'í' 'tsé, *seeing the hill was high, he went up.* In the latter case it forms a future perfect, such as is introduced in English with "when,"

'sia 'hau tsz peh 'lá 'ngú k'ön', *when you have written it, let me see it.* The conditional particle meh, is frequently introduced at the end of the first clause.

i. zung; as tsz expresses the past in affirmative sentences, so zung in those that are negative.

veh zung k'ön' h'ih, *I have not seen it.*
veh zung lé, *he has not come.*

Obs. In a negative reply to a question, this particle is introduced, when in English the present tense is employed; veh zung k'í', *he is not gone.*

253. Adverbs of time often render these particles unnecessary.

zoh (g) nyih k'í' kú', *he went yesterday.*
'ngú 'heu nyih k'í', *I shall go on the day after to-morrow.*

254. The particles for future time are not used in the negative form.

, 'ngú veh k'í', *I shall not go.*

Obs. i. If *yau'* is employed in a negative sentence whose time is future, it is in the sense of *wish* or *must*; e.g. *'ngú veh yau' k'í', I do not wish to go.* *tsiáng*, when it occurs, must stand first, so that when *veh* introduces the sentence, it cannot form a part of it.

Obs. ii. *veh kien' tuh, it is not likely*, is very commonly employed as a negative future; e.g. *veh kien' tuh loh 'u, it is not likely to rain, or it will not rain.*

255. Examples of some verbs that require illustration are here appended.

a. *tong* in combination *ought, receive: tong' regard as, to pawn*. N. B. The tone differs in the last two senses.

tong' tsz nieu peh 't'sau í k'íuh, regard him as a buffalo, and feed him on grass.

k'íung kú' tong' tsz 'dzóng kú', what is light regard as heavy.

ké tong kú', ought.

veh 'kén tong, not dare receive it.

tong' í zong k'í', am going to pawn clothes.

b. *'táng, beat, set in operation.*

'táng kwén sz, go to law.

'táng kwén wó', speak mandarin.

'táng t'sieu fóng, make presents in hope of gain.

c. *té', to treat, wait.*

té' man', treat contemptuously.

té' niun tsih veh, treat persons respectfully.

té' 'ngú lé, wait till I come.

d. *siau, consume, melt.*

k'é siau, to expend.

siau yáng, to melt.

e. *té' (d) correspond, opposite.*

'tsóng veh té' 'kiung, nothing pleases him.

kung' ká veh té', still more wrong.

té' mien' k'ön' 'k'í lé, on the other hand you see.

f. *lóng', meddle with, play with.*

lóng' wá', *spoil.*

tsoh lóng', *deceive.*

lóng' 'ká zung tsun, *make-believe becomes truth at last.*

lóng' beh siáng', *amuse one's-self with.*

g. fí', *to expend.*

fí' yúng', *expenses.*

fí' zun, fí' sing, *may I trouble you.*

h. 'zz, *it is, it is right, right.*

'zz fí, *right and wrong.*

'zz tuh giuh, *very right.*

m sá veh 'zz, *not at all untrue.*

i. wó', *say (M. 'kiáng, or shwóh), in combination, words.*

wó' veh 'tsen, *will not listen to words, or he keeps his words.*

wó' ding' tong', *said decisively.*

sá' wó' deu, *why use such words?*

k. 'k'ó, *can, may.*

'k'ó hng', *a thing to be hated, hateful.*

seh zé' 'k'ó é', *truly to be loved, (truly loveable.)*

Obs. These forms with 'k'ó, might also, if construed as dissyllables, be placed among the adjectives, as derivatives from verbs.

l. 'tau, *to overturn.*

t'é 'tau, *to turn over.*

tien 'tau tsén lé, *place upside down.*

'tau veh 'zz, *and yet it is not.*

m. sáng, *produce, be by nature, be born.*

'ní 'tú sáng tuh 'hau, *has handsome ears.*

sáng lé 'hau k'ön', *naturally handsome.*

ví' sung tsz zien, *before birth.*

sáng t'seh 'ku 'tsz lé, *bear fruit.*

Section 8. Prepositions and Postpositions.

256. The words that express the relations (cases) of nouns to one another are placed, some of them before and some after the governed substantive. The case particles that are used for the dative and ablative are prepositions, as also those that express *motion towards* and *substitution*.

'tang, <i>from, by</i> .	té', <i>to, towards</i> .
zóng, <i>from</i> .	tau', <i>to arrive at</i> .
'lá (M.), <i>to</i> .	t'i', <i>to, with, instead of</i> .
tah, <i>with</i> .	t'eh, <i>to, for, with</i> .
tóng, <i>with</i> .	te', <i>instead of</i> .
líen, <i>ib</i> .	yeu, <i>by</i> .

Obs. i. leh lá, a locative particle also precedes its noun. zé', its M. equivalent is in our dialect only used in fixed collocations, as zeh zé', *certain*.

Obs. ii. zz' is an inseparable preposition used in combination with zóng, *from*. a locative preposition, preceding its noun, is also only found in fixed groups; e.g. tong t'sú, *formerly*.

Obs. iii. Several of these words are also used as verbs with a cognate sense, viz. , , , , *to follow, to arrive at, to correspond, to take origin from*.

Obs. iv. wé', *on account of*, is found with the particles tsz, or záh; tah also very frequently takes tsz.

Obs. v. líen, *together with*, is also used as a verb to *connect*. It frequently takes tah, after it; e.g. líen tah ih ká óh 'lí niun, *together with all his family*.

257. The particles that are used for the locative case are postpositions.

'lí, <i>inside</i> .	zíen, <i>before</i> .
ngá', <i>outside</i> .	'heu, <i>behind</i> .
long', <i>above, R. 'zong</i> .	'hau, <i>below</i> .

Obs. i. 'lí, forms the compound 'lí h'íáng, M. chóng; 'í, combines with ngá', zíen and 'heu, in the sense of *beside, before* and *after, or since*; e.g. kiun tsau 'í 'heu', *after to-day*. Numerous compounds of these words, which will be found among the adverbs, are also often used as prepositions. See [Section 9](#).

Obs. ii. The mandarin chóng, *inside*, is found in some compounds; e.g. k'óng tsóng, *in the air*.

258. Forms borrowed from other parts of speech, compensate for the absence of several prepositions.

1. *Of*, the particle of the genitive case is compensated for either by juxtaposition, or by the particle kú'.

Tsúng kóh kwé 'kü, *custom of China*.

pih niun kú' zz' 't'í, what concerns others.

2. *With*, (instrumental) *by*, are expressed by *tan*, and *peh 'la* or *peh*.

tan kau 'tsz t'sáng, pole the boat with the bamboo.

3. *Except* is expressed by the verb *dzû t'eh*, usually with *'í ngá'*, or *ngá' deu*, ending the clause.

dzû t'eh tsz nóng' kú' ngá' deu, dzieu' 'zz 'ngú,
excepting you, there is only myself.

4. *Beside* is expressed by, *veh sön'*, at the end of the clause.

'siau meh veh sön', kóng' 'tsóng 'yeu ih páh, without
counting the small, there are 100 in all.

5. *Beyond* takes *kú' k'í'*, or *ngá deu*.

'Kwong tóng kú' k'í', beyond Canton.

6. *Through* or *pass by* is expressed by *kiung kú'* or *kú'* alone.

lú' long' kiung kú' Hong-tseu, go through Háng-cheú on
the way.

7. *Towards* is expressed by the verbs *zau*, *mong'*, *té'*.

zau sí 'tsén wan zau nén, go to the west, and turn to the
south.

zau dí' píen 'tseu, go this way.

mong' tsz dí' píen 'tseu, ib.

té' kú' k'wé' 'tseu, go that way.

Obs. Some of these prepositions in English, are easily reduced to verbs and substantives. The author of the *Diversion of purley* would readily find an etymology for them all. In common English grammars, such words as *regarding* and *respecting*, are set down among the prepositions, without a word to tell the juvenile student, how it is that prepositions come to be formed by the termination *ing*.

Section 9. On Adverbs.

Quality. 259. Adverbs of manner are formed by affixing *zén*, *hú*, *nung* and *'lí*, to repeated adjectives.

'yung 'yung zén, *not clearly*.
 h'iung h'iung zén, *prosperously*.
 yáh yáh hú, *indistinctly*.
 'kí 'kí hú, *very near*.
 h'í h'í nung, *seldom met with*.
 'h'ien 'h'ien nung, *dangerously*.
 k'wá' k'wá' 'lí, *quickly*.

Obs. i. Zén and hú, are found in book phrases transferred to the dialect. Expressions formed with nung and 'lí, are pure colloquial, and are very numerous.

Obs. ii. Kiau' is used in one instance man' man' kiau', *slowly*.

Obs. iii. Long adjective groups are more frequently used as adverbs than as adjectives. They do not take the formative particles zén, nung etc. 'tseu lú' ih mun sing sz, *he walks eagerly*.

260. The numerals ih, 'liáng, combine with certain words, principally adjectives, to form adverbs.

ih dzuh, <i>straight</i> .	ih líen, <i>joined together</i> .
ih k'í', <i>together</i> .	'liáng k'í', <i>separate</i> .
ih yáng', <i>the same</i> .	'liáng yáng', <i>different</i> .
ih h'íáng', <i>hitherto</i> .	ih dzí, <i>together</i> .
ih t'sih, <i>the whole</i> .	ih dau, <i>ib</i> .
ih pén, <i>the same</i> .	

Obs. These may be shown by examples to be adverbs. fong' 'lá 'liáng k'í' kú', *place them apart*;
 tong' í 'vú 'mú ih pén, *treats him in the same way that he does his parents*.

261. Repeated adjectives standing before verbs, are used as adverbs.

'tsau 'tsau lé, *come early*.
 man' man' 'tseu, *walk slowly*.

Obs. Sometimes the adjective is not repeated, as in man' k'í', *be slow to go, good bye*, In 'tseu 'hau, *walk carefully*, the adverb follows the verb as in English.

262. Repeated forms imitative of natural sounds are in frequent use.

ting tóng ting tóng, *sound of drum* ('kú).
 song long song long, *ib. horse bells* (ling).
 t'ih t'ah t'ih t'ah, *sound of shoes*.
 kih kwá kih kwá, *calling of crows*.
 kwah lah kwah lah, *wind blowing on reeds*.
 ping ping páng páng, *noise of beating ice*.
 'í lih 'í lih, *braying of asses*.

'í á 'í á, *creaking of doors.*
ú lú ú lú, *sound of piping.*
pih póh pih póh, *sound of splitting bamboo as by fire.*

Obs. Words of this sort occur so frequently in conversation, that at the risk of their being thought too amusing for a serious book they are here noticed. The second and third tones scarcely occur in these onomatopœia. The forms used in other dialects differ from these.

263. Adverbs of manner applied to qualify actions, and not reducible to the heads already given are such as,—

páh báh 'lí, *in vain*; or, páh alone, e.g. páh sǒng' t'éh.
tuh duh 'lí, *on purpose.*
tuh í', *intentionally.*
t'eu bén 'tsz, *secretly.*
'ká yáng deu, *falsely.*
yung' 'h'í, *luckily.*
'zau hó', hah 'hau, *fortunately.*

264. There is a large number of primitive adverbs, applied to qualify adjectives.

a. kung', wan, i', tse', signify *more*. They precede their word, and form the comparative degree, v. [Art. 177](#).

b. 'ting, tsûe', kiuh, man, kwá', 'hau, 'hun, *very*. These words precede their word and form the superlative. v. [Art. 178](#).

c. 'sí, sah, kiuh, 'yá, come after their word and form a superlative.

d. t'uh, gives to adjectives the sense of *too*; e.g. t'uh dú', *too large*.

Obs. i. These words which in English qualify only adjectives, sometimes qualify verbs whether construed as participles or not. 'ting é' 'lá kú', *the most beloved*; man wé' tsú', *extremely well able to do it*; wó' sah, *say decisively*; kiuh 'yeu vun 'lí, *has very (great) literary beauty*; or *it has extreme beauty*.

Obs. ii. The mandarin intensitive particle 'hau is found only in the phrase 'hau 'kí, *very many*.

Obs. iii. It has been seen in illustrating the comparison of adjectives, that some verbs, single and grouped with the auxiliaries tuh and lé, (,) are applied to adjectives. In addition to the examples there given, may be noticed nyih veh kú', *unbearably hot*.

Correlative Adverbs. 265. The questions *how? how much? how many? why? when? and where?* are formed by interrogative pronouns with the

most general words for manner, place and time, and a mere particle for the rest.

ná' nung, <i>how?</i>	'kí zz, <i>when?</i>
'kí hó', <i>how much?</i>	'á 'lí, <i>where?</i>
„ <i>how many?</i>	sá' sü, „
sá' lau, <i>why?</i> Also	wé' sá', 'yeu sá'.

Obs. i. *How many parts in ten?* is seh vun' 'lí 'kí vun'. The answer might be seh vun' 'lí 'yeu san vun', *three tenths*. Questions and replies may be framed in the same way with any numerals.

Obs. ii. For other examples, see section on pronouns, to which etymologically these words belong.

Obs. iii. *How much more used as a logical particle*, is expressed by hú hwong' ü.

266. The adverbs corresponding to these, *thus, however, whenever, wherever* are expressed in various ways.

seh ké' nung, *thus*, seh ké', *ib.*
zûe bién' ná' nung, *which ever way you please.*
veh lun' 'kí hó', *however much.*
veh kü á 'lí, *wherever you please.*
yau' ná' nung dzieu' ná' nung, *however you want it, it shall be so.*
'ngú ná' nung tsú' veh jau' mun', *do not ask how I do it.*

Obs. i. Other examples may be seen in the section on pronouns. The answers to *when? where? how many?* will be found among the adverbs of time, place and number. *Why?* is answered by any direct statement, with or without the conjunction yung wé'.

Obs. ii. Dzûe bién', veh lun', veh kü, are properly verb combinations. They mean *following your convenience, without regarding, not constraining*.

Quantity. 267. The forms for *about, enough, much, little, together*, etc. are such as follow:—

a. *About*, is expressed by pó, kwong 'kiung, after their word, and yáh, teu, before.

yáh kwé ih páh, *about a hundred.*
, yáh liáh, yáh máh, both signify *about.*
yáh sú' 'kí 'hau, *about how many?*
'lí pó, *about a le.*
t'sák pó, *about a foot.*
pú pó, *about a step.*
t'sun' pó, *about an inch.*

'tóng pó, *a bucket-ful.*

'pun pó, *about a volume.*

pén' yá pó, *about midnight.*

pén' t'ók pó, *two arms length (t'ók, stretch out both arms).*

teu ní' páh, *about two hundred.*

yák páh dién, *about 100 cash.*

yáh yeu ní' seh, *there are about 20.*

ih t'sien kwong 'kiung, *about 1000.*

Obs. A very common form is t'só veh tú, *not far wrong*, which is used in the same sense as the above words.

b. *Enough* and *not enough* are expressed by *keu'*, *veh tsóh*, *veh kûn zz'*, *k'ïöh 'sau* and some verbs with the negative.

, keu' 'lí, kûn zz' 'tsé, *enough.*

, veh keu', veh kûn zz', *not enough.*

'yeu 'lí, *it is enough.*

veh tsóh, *not enough.*

veh tau' san seh, *not so many as 30.*

veh 'mén san seh, *ib.*

veh k'ïöh 'sau kú', *not insufficient.*

ti' kú' 'lí 'sau ih dién, *this is deficient one cash.*

ti' lan kiöh 'tsz 'lí k'ïöh seh tsáh, *this basket of oranges
in ten short.*

Obs. These words might be divided between adjectives and verbs, and no place reserved for them here, were it not that their equivalents in English and other languages are adverbs.

c. *Much*, *more*, *many* are all expressed by the adjective tú. If tú precedes it is *more* (adv.): if it follows its word, it is *much* or *many* (adj.) Other words for *more* are wan, yöh, and the verbs ká, t'ien, 'tien, etc.

tú peh 'tien, *give more.*

ti' dé' 'mi tú ni' kiun, *this bag of rice is two catties more (or over).*

niun tú kú', *the men are many.*

yöh ká veh 'hau, *much worse.*

, ká 'tien, t'ien 'tien, *give more.*

ih dién veh ká, *I will not give one more cash.*

veh bá' ih páh, *there are more than a hundred.*

'á veh bá', *and more too*.
tóng dién wan yau', *I want more cash*.

Obs. For examples of such forms as 'hau 'kí, tú hau', *many*. See section on pronouns. The only words here adduced that can claim to be adverbs are *still more*, *too*, and *wan*. *Too* is an adverb in English, but its equivalent becomes by its position a conjunction, and *wan* when it is not an adverb of time *still*, may often fairly be considered a conjunction.

d. *Less, few* are represented by 'sau, standing before its word, and by such borrowed phrases as veh siau, *not necessary, less*: 'yeu hien' k'ú', *few, not much*.

'liáng nyih veh siau, *in less than 2 days*.
'sau k'íuh 'tíen, *eat less*.
'kan t'eh 'tíen, *take less, subtract a little*.
veh nung 'kan 'sau, *cannot take less*.
niun 'yeu híen' k'ú', *of men there are few*.

e. *A little, any*, are used sometimes adverbially in English. Their representatives in our dialect are liák sü, 'sau wé, sü 'sau with the auxiliary substantive forms ih 'ngan, 'tíen, etc.

liák sü 'h'iau tuh, *know it a little*.
sü wé ming báh, *understand it a little*.
sü 'sau 'tóng tuh, *ib*.
'sí sü ká 'tíen, *add a little*.
'sau wé yau' k'ú', *I want it a little*.
'sau wé bien' ni 'tíen, *a little cheaper*.
kiáh 'yeu ih 'ngan sün, *my feet are a little tired*.
'yeu 'tíen p'ó' k'ú', *he is a little afraid*.
ih 'tíen 'tíen, *a very little*.
'yeu 'tíen sá dú, *I am a little tired*.
'yeu 'tíen wé' fí', *can fly a little*.

Obs. 'Tíen, ih 'ngan, when they follow an adjective, while placing it in the comparative degree, preserve their own sense *a little*; e.g. 'hau ih 'ngan tú zia', *a little better than you*; k'wá' 'tíen 'tseu, *walk a little faster*.

f. *Not very, very much, too much* are expressed by the derivative adverb, veh dá' 'lí, and the forms seh fun, seh ní' fun, k'ú' vun', t'uh k'ú' vun'.

veh dá' 'lí yau', *he does not much want it*.
veh dá' 'lí tú, *not very many*.

seh fun yau', *wants it very much.*
seh ní' fun 'hau, *very good.*

g. *Not at all, not in the least*, are translated in several ways.

ih vú yúng' deu, *of no use.*
van' vú 'hau t'sû', *of no use at all.*
sz hau veh té', *not in the least agreeing.*
m sá' sá dú, *not at all tired.*
ih 'ngan veh t'só, *just so, not at all wrong.*

h. To *altogether* correspond 'lóng 'tsóng, kóng 'tsóng, tseu sun, 'lóng 't'óng.

kóng' 'tsóng ní' páh, *in all two hundred.*
tseu sun 'kí hau', *in all how many?*
dzing' yung veh 'hau, *altogether wrong.*
ih k'í' má' wén, *altogether sold off.*
'lóng 't'óng san man', *altogether 30,000.*

i. *Mostly, chiefly*, are expressed by pronominal forms, which have been already partially illustrated.

, tú' ih pén', *the greater part.*
tá' van niun veh 'tóng, *men mostly do not understand.*
tá ké pák sing', *most people.*
, ta' van niun seh ké 'sia kú' tú, *most persons write it*
thus.

ti' nung hú' suh 'zz 'hau kú' tú, *articles of this kind are*
mostly good.

k'íuh á p'ien yen kú' niun veh lau zeh kú' tú,
opium smokers are for the most part dishonest.

j. *Half* is sometimes used in English as an adverb; so also it is in Chinese, as in the following phrases.

pén' 'sí pén' weh, *half dead half alive.*
pén' 'ká pén' tsun, *half false half true.*
pén' t'é pén' é', *refuse and yet wish for.*

pén' t'un pén' t'ú', *cease from saying a thing when half through it.*

Obs. The other proportional parts, such as si' vun' 'lí ih vun', *a quarter*; seh vun' 'lí ih vun', *one tenth*, are much too long to enter into such groups.

k. *only, alone* are represented by tseh, tók, tan, tan' and forms into which they enter.

tseh tuh ih 'ngan, *only a little.*
tók ih kûn, *only one.*
tók kûn 'tsz, *alone.*
veh dan' ih kú', *not only one.*
ví' dóh 'liáng kú' niun, *only two men.*
veh dók tsz ih kú', *not only one.*
ih kûn 'tsz, *alone.*
tan tan ih kú', *a single one.*
pih (*should be* peh) kú' ih kú', *only one.*
tók dóh 'lí 'ngú wé' tsú', *only I can do it.*

Obs. i. Tan, is also an adjective, as in the question, hwó tan kú' ní song kú', *is the flower single or double?* Tók and tan' are both conjunctions, when joined to 'zz, as , tan' 'zz, tók 'zz, *but.*

Obs. ii. The numeral adverbs *once, twice*, etc. translated by ih t'sz', etc. may be seen in section 4. on auxiliary substantives, [Art. 163](#).

Negative and Affirmative. 268. One of the most common negative particles is m, to which meh, the same in meaning is frequently appended. m is properly a verb *not to have*.

m sá' zz' t'í, *it is nothing.*
m yung tsóng, *there is no trace of him.*
m meh sá' wó' deu, *there is nothing to say.*
m yeu m lü', *having no grief or care.*

269. The literary word that corresponds to this particle is vú, which is also in common use in colloquial phrases derived from the books or formed on book models.

vú dzé vú sz', *having no riches or influence.*
vú t'sing vú t'sih, *having no relations.*
vú tóng vú 'yá, *having neither winter nor summer.*

270 The negative particle in most general use is *veh*. It is not prohibitive as in the books, but simply denies like *peh* in mandarin.

veh wé' dú' nyih, I cannot live on.

veh san veh sz', neither this nor that.

veh sung veh 'h'íáng, he said nothing.

veh tsien' 'lá nong', I shall not recommend him to you.

, *veh 'zz, veh kú', it is not so (or veh alone).*

271. The particles *ví*, *peh* and *fí*, are used in a few combinations.

ví dóh, only.

ví 'ngú ih zun, only I.

peh 'tsz ih zun, not one man only.

peh tsz 'yá loh, do not know where he is.

'ngan peh nung kien', not to be seen.

fí dók tsz 'ngú, not only I.

272. The simplest affirmative is *'zz*; certain auxiliary particles are often appended or prefixed.

, *'zz kú', 'zz 'lá kú', it is so.*

, *dzieu' 'zz, 'zz 'tsé, ib.*

273. When some quality is affirmed, an adjective of opposite meaning, with the negative particle prefixed, is often employed.

veh k'ieu, that is good.

'tau veh té', but that is wrong.

veh t'só, you are right.

274. The emphasis of positive certainty is conveyed by phrases such as *tsun tsung'*, *seh zé'*, etc., and the double negation *tsun tsung'* prefixed to the proposition affirmed.

tsun tsung' m meh, certainly there is none.

pih kiung' veh zung tau', certainly he has not come.

seh zé 'yeu kú', there certainly is.

tön' tön' ú 'zz kú', it certainly is so.

'kú zen veh t'só, it is certainly right.

Obs. The interrogative final *mó*, is often used to express the same sense with these words, 'siau nön man mó, *the boys are wild indeed*.

275. Some phrases imply a moral certainty or necessity (*must*), and with the negative, the absence of that necessity (*need not*).

zá 'tsóng 'yeu kú', *there must be fire wood.*

niung 'tsz ih ding' 'yeu, *there must be silver.*

'tsóng yau' 'ká seh kú', *you must explain it.*

pih ding' yau' k'i', *you must go.*

'pan ding' yau' lé 'tsé, *he must necessarily come.*

'pan yau' tsu' kú', *you must do it.*

'zén tsóng 'yeu 'zén pau', *virtue will surely have a good reward.*

tsú' sang i' 'tsóng yau' yúng' sing, *in transacting business you must apply the mind.*

276. There are several phrases to express that the thing affirmed is naturally so, and that nothing else ought to be expected.

'pun lé seh ké' nung, *it is originally so.*

'pun 'tsé lé zz' ka yau' lé, *he originally wished to come himself.*

zz' zén 'tsé, *as might be expected.*

zz' zén rh zén, *spontaneously.*

niön lé m sá', *it is really nothing.*

'pun 'tsé ú veh 'k'ung, *by nature unwilling.*

liáng sing 'pun 'tí 'tsz 'yeu ku', *conscience belongs to us by nature.*

277. Different words are usually appropriated to the affirmative and negative forms of assertions. Thus (1) absolute certainty in the negative is expressed by,—

ping' veh 'zz, *certainly it is not.*

kiöh veh 'hau tsu', *it ought surely not to be done.*

t'sih veh 'k'ó 'í, *you certainly may not.*

(2). The denial of necessity (*need not*) is conveyed in such expressions as the following.

veh pih tuh 'k'í, *you need not go.*
veh pih tú, *do not need many.*

Obs. The Imperative also, as in veh yau' k'í, *do not go*; k'í' meh 'tsé, *go* has distinct auxiliary words for the affirmative and negative forms.

278. There are some adverbs appropriated to express affirmative and negative propositions in the interrogative form.

'k'i veh 'zz 'ting 'hau, *how is it not admirable.*
nan dau' nong' veh 'h'iau tuh 'ngú, *it can hardly be that*
you do not know me.
'yeu sá' veh suh zz', *why should I not know how to read.*

Obs. i. The final interrogative mau, or ní, is appended frequently to any sentences of this sort.

Obs. ii. Affirmative questions implying a strong denial are also occasionally asked by these particles; e.g. k'í 'yeu 't'sz 'lí, *how can this be?* nan dau' 'ngú hóng' p'ien' nong' 'vá, *could I deceive you?*

Adverbs of place. 279. Demonstrative adverbs are derived from pronouns, as adverbs of manner from adjectives. Thus *here* and *there*, are translated by compounds formed from the three pronouns tí', kú', í.

, , , tí' k'wé', tí' tah, tí' deu, *here.*
, , , kú' k'wé', kú' tah, kú' deu, *there.*
, , , í k'wé', í tah, í deu, *there.*

Obs. From 't'sz is formed 't'sz dí', *here*; tong, also forms tí' dong, *here*, etc.

280. *On this*, and *on that side* are formed in a similar manner with the auxiliaries mien', *face*, and p'ien, *side*.

, , tí' mien', tí' p'ien, *on this side.*
, , tí' p'én' ban, *ib.*
, , kú' mien', kú' p'ien, *on that side.*
, , kú' p'én' ban, í p'én' ban, *ib.*
, , í mien', í p'ien, *ib.*

281. The postpositions or case particles corresponding to our locative prepositions enter into similar forms.

, 'zong mien', 'zong deu, *above.*
, 'zong p'ien, 'zong p'én' ban, *on the upper side.*
, , 'zong 'seu, 'zong k'ien, 'zong 'tí deu, *on the upper side.*

, , zién mien‘, zién deu, zién ‘tí, *before*.
 , , ‘heu mien‘, ‘heu deu, ‘heu ‘seu, *behind*.
 , , ‘heu ‘tí, ‘heu ‘tí deu, *behind*.
 , , ‘lí deu, ‘lí sz, ‘lí mien‘, *inside*.
 , , ‘lí h‘iáng‘, ‘lí pien, *ib*.
 ‘lí pén‘ ban, *ib*.

Obs. i. ‘au forms the same compounds as ‘zong, with one other ‘au ‘tí, all of them with the sense *below*. ngá‘, forms the same compounds as ‘lí (excepting that with h‘iáng‘), in the sense of *outside*.

Obs. ii. For similar groups of nouns, with the points of the compass, see [Art. 152](#).

282. The adjectives ‘tsú yeu‘, *right and left*, form some groups.

, , yeu‘ pien, yeu‘ pén‘ ban, *on the right-hand*.
 , , tsí‘ (ú) pien, tsí‘ pén‘ ban, *on the left-hand*.

283. The adverbs of place and direction that remain are few.

, , tseu wé, sz‘ tseu wé, *all round*.
 tong tsóng, *in the middle*.
 k‘óng tsóng, *in the air*.
 wáng ‘tú ‘lí, *obliquely*.
 dzák kok, *obliquely*.
 té‘ dzuh, *straight before*.
 ‘á ‘lí, ‘á ‘lí dong, *where?*
 , , kok t’sû‘, t’sû‘ t’sû‘, tau‘ t’sû‘, *everywhere*.
 kok tau‘ lok t’sû‘, *everywhere*.

284. Wáng and ‘zû form with verbs many groups of four characters, in which the action is said to be done in various ways, literally *across and perpendicularly*.

wáng tsú‘ ‘zû tsú‘, *do this and that*.
 wáng veh ‘zz, ‘zû veh ‘zz, *wrong in this and in that*.

Obs. In weaving, the cross thread is ü‘ só, the other kiung só; here ü‘ is used for wei .

285. The adverbs *in and out, up and down, here and there*, etc. are translated in Chinese by repeated verbs.

fí tsing‘ fí t’séh, *fly in and out*.
 t’iau‘ ‘zong t’iau‘ ‘au, *jump up and down*.

yau lé yau k'í', row about.

Adverbs of time. 286. The following are the primitive adverbs of time employed in the dialect.

zung, *already*; veh zung, *not yet*.

h'íáng', ih h'íáng', *hitherto*; (it embraces the whole of the past time), h'íáng' lé, h'íáng' í', *ib.*

'í, *already*; e.g. 'í kiung, *already*.

zoh (zoh, zog), in zoh nyih, *yesterday*.

síen, *first*; tí' kú' síen yau' tsú', *this must be done first*.

pau', *at first*; e.g. pau' zz, *at first*; pau' zz kan, *ib.*

ü', *beforehand*; ü' síen bong bé', *guard against beforehand*.

(*guard against*; M. *fang*; S.R. *vong*).

t'sú, *at first*, is only found as an adverb in the phrase tong t'sú, *formerly*.

kiun, *now*; e.g. mók kiun, k'uk kiun, hien' kiun, *now*;

kiun tsau, *to-day*; kiun nyih, *ib.*; kiun niöh, *this month*;

kiun nien, *this year*.

nan, *now*; nan kú' h'ih, *at the present moment*; nan dzau

'eu, *from this time forward*; nan 'au lé, *ib.*; nan meh, *then*.

tsung', (or 'tsung) *just*; tsung' leh 'lá, *just while*; t'ih (or t'eh) tsung', *just at the moment*.

hien' *now*; hien' dzé', *now*; hien' zz, *ib.*

dzan', *temporarily*; e.g. dzan' zz, *for a short time*; dzan' we', *ib.*

tsiáng, *about to be*; tsiáng lé, *it will happen that*.

tsiuk (tsih) *just*; zûe tsiuk, *just*; tsih k'uh, *ib.* tsih k'an, *ib.*

tsé', *again*; tsé' wé', *we shall meet again*.

k'an *just*; k'an k'an *ib.*; k'an 'k'í 'sz, *at the beginning*.

í', í' lé 'tsé, *come again*.

wan, *still*; wan yau' lé, *come again*.

dzieu', *immediately*; dzieu' 'tsén lé, *return directly* dzieu' 't'sz, *immediately*.

ih followed by dzieu' *the moment that*; ih k'wun' dzieu'

kau', *the moment he went to sleep he awoke*.

Obs. i. Of these words, only , , , , , nan, tsiáng, tsé', í', wan, dzieu', are separable from the groups in which they are found. as in mí' 'lí, *not yet*, is a negative adverb of time.

Obs. ii. All these adverbs are book words, except *pau'*, *nan*, and *k'an*.

287. The demonstrative pronouns , , , *tí'*, *í*, *kú'*, and some other words combine with the substantives , , , *h'ih*, *k'uh*, *zz*, *a short time*, to form adverbs of time.

tí' h'ih, *kú' h'ih*, *at this moment*.

kú' h'ih deu long', *at that time*.

í h'ih deu long', *ib*.

ih zz deu long', *all at once*.

lih k'uh, *immediately*.

lih zz lih k'uh, *ib*.

lih zz san k'uh, *ib*.

h'ih, also helps to form *tá h'ih*, *zong h'ih*, *after a little time*;
'sau h'ih, *ib*.

288. Several adjectives and prepositions are borrowed to form compound adverbs of time.

a. *ming*, *bright*. *ming tsau*, *to-morrow*; *ming nyih*, *ib*.;
ming t'ien, *ib*.; *ming nien*, *next year*.

b. *'tsau*, *early*; *'tsau 'tsau*, *early*; *'lau 'tsau*, *early*.

c. *'kú* *ancient*. *'kú zz kan*, *in ancient times*; *'kú zz tsih*,
ib.; *'kú lé*, *from ancient times*.

d. *sing*, *new*. *sing nien*, *new year*; *dzóng sing*, *afresh*.

e. *'kiun*, *near*. *'kiun nien*, *of late years*; *'kiun zz*, *lately*;
'kiun lé, *ib*. *'kiun kiun*, *ib*. *'kiun sz'*, *in modern times*.

f. *'kieu*, *old*. *'kieu nien*, *last year*; *zung 'gieu*, *as before*;
tsau' 'gieu, *ib*. *í' 'gieu*, *ib*.

g. *dzáng*, *constant*. *dzáng tsong*, *'táng dzáng*, *dzáng*
dzáng *peh dzáng*, *always*; *dzáng zz*, *sometimes*; *nyih dzáng*,
daily.

h. *zén*, *former*. *zén nyih 'tsz*, *day before yesterday*; *móh*
zén, *now*. *zén nien*, *year before last*. *dzóng zén*, *formerly*. *'í*
zén, *before*; *zén dé'*, *the former dynasty*. *zén zau*, *ib*.; *zén*
sz', *in a former life*.

i. *'heu*, *after*. *'heu lé*, *'í heu'*, *after*; *'heu niöh*, *next*
month; *'heu nien*, *year after next*; *'heu nyih*, *day after to-morrow*.

j. 'hau, móh 'hau, *at present*.

k. tú, nyih tú, *daily*.

Obs. Zien deu, 'heu deu, *before, after*, and the cognate adverbs of place are used also for time.

289. Sometimes verbs take the place of what in English are adverbs. They are , , , lé, kú', h'ih, káh.

zz' 'kú 'í lé, *from ancient times till now*.

Tseu dzau 'í lé, *from the Cheú dynasty till now*.

h'ih tsz 'liáng nyih, *after two days*.

kák tsz 'kí zeh nien, *after several tens of years*.

tsé' kú' ih niöh, *after another month*.

290. There are some provincial adverbs of time, whose etymology is uncertain, or at least not referable to words of time.

tsok (kwan') kün', *constantly (in the habit of)*.

tseh 'kwén, *ib. or my only concern is, etc. (M.)*

'láng mák säng deu, *suddenly*.

nan 'pan, *seldom (difficult to fix)*.

291. The adjective pronouns combine with substantives of time to form common phrases, which are often used as adverbs.

tá, *several*; tá h'ih, *after a little time*; tá nyih, *after some days*;

tá nien, *after some years*; tá zz, *a considerable time* (tú in this sense is generally pronounced tá.)

'kí, *several*; lien 'kí nyih, *during several days*.

tú, *many*; ká' tú, *mutually*.

dzóh, *each*; nyih dzóh, *daily*; dzók 'tíen dzók 'tíen kau, *gradually growing higher*.

292. Substantives of time, when repeated, are adverbs.

nyih nyih, *daily*.

nien nien, *yearly*.

zz zz k'uh k'uh, *constantly*.

h'ih h'ih, *ib.*

, t'seh t'seh pien', wé wé pien', *constantly changing*.

Obs. Succession in time is frequently represented in English by repetition of a noun with an adverb inserted. Thus, *day by day* corresponds to nyih nyih. Such phrases as *year after year*, *one after another* are other examples, and have their Chinese equivalents in the next article.

Order and Succession. 293. Succession of periods of time is represented by repetition, and the intervention of the verb kú', *pass* (English adverb *after*).

ih sz' kú' ih sz', *age after age*.

294. The particles *and*, *after*, *by*, in *one by one*, *two and two*, *in rows*, etc. are not represented, succession being expressed by mere repetition of the numeral and its particle.

ih kú' ih kú' t'seh k'i' 'tsé, *one after another they went out*.
yau' tsóng' kú' ih hong ih hong kú', *plant them in rows*.

Obs. For the repetition of verbs, in phrases such as dzan' ih dzan', *stand waiting a little*; nien ih nien, *rub a little ink*; 'láng kú' 'láng, *cool it a little*; diau kú' diau, *stir it a little*; dau kú' dau, *wash it (of rice)*; zing' kú' zing', *wash it (of clothes)*; 'ngú' yau' bien' kú' bien' t'sing 'song, *I wish to distinguish clearly*; see also [Art. 232](#).

295. Gradual increase by little and little, is expressed by repeating the auxiliary phrases ih 'ngan, ih 'tien, with the adjective in the centre. When the gradual change is in time, words of time form similar phrases.

ih 'ngan kau ih 'ngan, *to become gradually higher*.
ih 'tien dú' ih 'tien, *grow gradually greater*.
ih h'ih dú' ih h'ih, *greater every moment*.
ih nyih 'siau ih nyih, *grow less every day*.

296. Many adverbial phrases are formed by verbs and other words. Thus, the adverb *when* is often supplied by a noun of time following the verb with the connecting particle kú'.

kau' kú' zun kwong, *when you awake*.
t'seh mun kú' zz heu', *when on a journey*.

297. *Never*, is expressed by ih h'íáng', with a negative phrase following it.

ih h'íáng' veh zung tók sū, *I have never gone to school*.

298. The questions why? and how? are often asked by verbs with the pronoun *what?* thus rendering an adverb unnecessary.

zóh nyih 'siáng sá' lau veh lé, *why (thinking of what) did you not come yesterday?*

t'ing tsz sá' lau 'h'iau tuh kú', *how (having heard what) do you know?*

Adverbs of Similarity and Reciprocity. 299. The adverb hah, and adjective siáng', *like*, assist in forming several compound phrases in the sense *like*.

hah ziáng', hah t'í', *like*.

hau ziáng', *very like*.

hah tuh 'siau nön nung kú', *like a child*.

'tau ziáng', *or rather it is like*.

Obs. nung, is usually appended to the noun that follows these words, in the sense of *like*; ih yáng', ih pén, are also employed in the sense *in the same manner*.

300. The adverbs of reciprocity are tá' ká', ká' ká', ká' tú, *mutually, one to another*, and in combination with verbs and adjectives; e.g. siáng ziáng', *like one another*.

Obs. *Together with*, is expressed by means of certain adverbs, ih dau, ih k'í', following the preposition and its noun. t'eh 'ngú ih k'í' tsing' zung, *go with me into the city*. v. [Art. 140](#).

301. The primitive adverbs are not repeated, except in one or two instances. It is different with those that are derived. Some examples in addition to these already given are here appended.

zz' zz' 'zé 'zé, *at ease*.

weh tih weh tih, *constantly moving*.

seh ké' seh ké', *thus*.

suh suh í' í', *comfortably*.

Obs. It has been shown that adjectives, and also substantives of time, become adverbs by repetition.

302. Some verbs combine intimately with adverbs, so as to form compound adverbs.

ká, *add*, forms yöh ká, ; í' ká, ; kung' ká, *still more*.

fah, *produce*, forms yöh fah; *still more*.

zûe, *follow*, zûe zz, *always*; zûe t'sû', *everywhere*.

303. It will be seen in the next section, that some words marked as adverbs are also conjunctions. The converse is also true. For some words, such as , , yöh, 't'síe, zû regarded in this work as primitive conjunctions, form adverbial phrases.

ping' 't'síe veh 'zz, *it certainly is not so*.
zû dóng wong tí' nung, *like the emperor*.

304. The foregoing analysis shows that adverbs qualifying verbs, and expressive of place and quantity are for the most part derived. On the other hand, those adverbs that qualify adjectives, and express time are usually primitive. In our own language, the adverbs that qualify affirmations, e.g. assuredly, certainly, etc. are derived, while here they are primitive. The old division of this part of speech by western grammarians into two parts, viz. primitive and derivative, thus appears to be properly applicable to a language, that has been often supposed to present no resemblance in etymological development to the speech of the rest of mankind. The Romans made their adverbs of place out of demonstrative pronouns, and prepositions, in a manner very similar to the Chinese, (e.g. hic *here*, supra *above*, etc.) Adjectives with particular terminations supplied them with adverbs of manner, (cito, bene, omnino.) Nunc, jam, are examples of primitive adverbs of time, while the root stá *stand*, in statim, exactly corresponds to lih, *stand*, in lih k'uh, *immediately*. It may be added that zén, hú, etc. in [Art. 259](#) form appendages to the root, of the same value as the terminations -ly, -like, to which we are accustomed. What is new, is the extensive use of repetitions, the great number of fixed phrases, and the peculiarities in the laws of grouping.

Section 10. Conjunctions.

305. The primitive conjunctions may be thus classed:—

- a. Connectives, lau, 'á, *and*; , 't'siá, rh. *and*, *further*.
- b. Adversatives dan'. Forms like dan' 'zz tóh 'zz, *but*, etc. are compounded of adverbs, verbs, etc.
- c. Illative kú', ké' (keh), *therefore*.
- d. Causal. yung, wé', *because*.

e. Conditional. meh, záh, 't'ong.

f. Antithetical, sêu, zén, wóh, yöh, 'á, í'.

Obs. The compounds formed by these words, and words and phrases used as conjunctions derived from other parts of speech, will most of them be found in the following articles.

Connectives. 306. The particle that connects words like the English *and*, is lau.

tsing' lau t'seh, *going in and out.*

tsóng sáng lau 'tiau lau ng, *beasts, bird, and fishes.*

Obs. The preposition tah, t'eh, *with*, often serve the same purpose, e.g. nóng' t'eh 'ngú, *you and I*; nyih deu tah tsz niöh, *the sun and moon.*

307. Clauses are connected by 'á and wan. They are also frequently used merely as introductory particles.

, Nén kiung k'í' kú' tsz meh, 'ngú 'á yau'
'zong Poh kiung k'í', *after going to Nanking, I also wish to go to Peking.*

ming tsau 'ngú 'á yau' kü k'í', *to-morrow, I wish to go home.* (introductory).

'á yau' 'má 'vá, *do you wish to buy?*

Obs. i. If the 'á or wan is emphasized it means *also*. If pronounced without emphasis, it is simply introductory.

Obs. ii. The adverbs dzieu', niön, are used as introductory particles to affirmative prepositions:
dzieu' 'zz 'ngú, niön 'zz 'ngú, *it is I.*

308. Another circumstance to be considered, in addition to what has preceded, is introduced rh 't'siá, *and further* zong' 't'siá, *and what is still more.*

kiun tsau lú' veh 'hau pau' kú', rh 't'siá 'ngú
kiáh pau' veh 'dóng, *it is bad walking to-day, and besides I am lame.*

, 'yeu kú' báng 'yeu wó' zóh nyih lé, zong'
't'siá veh zung lé, *a friend told me he would come yesterday, and still he has not yet come.* (adverbial).

, , zien deu tsiá' kú' h'ih dóng dién,
rh 't'siá veh zung wan 'lí, nan í' yau' tsiá' 'vá, *you borrowed money before, and further you have not returned it, and do you wish to borrow again?* (adverbial).

'sz sun rh 't'siá wun, *the water is deep and also muddy.*

309. A new subject of remark is introduced by *tsé' 'tsé, again, to proceed;* *wan 'yeu, there is another thing;* *'á 'lí 'h'iau tuh, meantime; who could have thought it? strange to say!*

, *t'oh nóng' 'má zz kú, tsé' 'tsé kiau' zén ih tsáh, I commission you to buy fruit, and also to call a boat.*
wan 'yeu ih yáng' zz' 't'i, there is another thing I have to say.

Adversatives. 310. *But* is represented by *tan' tan' 'zz, tóh (g) 'zz; however* is *tau' 'tí, or kieu' kiung'.*

, *seh wó 'hau t'ing, tan' 'zz 'tau 'lí m sá' 'hau, his words are plausible but his doctrine bad.*
híen' zé wan veh 'k'í tau' 'tí yau' wan nóng' kú', I cannot pay you now, but I intend to do so in the end. (adverbial).

Obs. Of these words, *tau' 'tí* is the most common. It sometimes preserves its etymological meaning *in the end*, as in the example given.

311. *Lest* is expressed *dzáng p'ó'.* The compounded phrase *tseh p'ó', I am only afraid that,* has come to mean *I suppose that.*

yau' 'táng í tsáh 'keu dzáng p'ó' yau' 'ngau, beat that dog lest he should bite.
í kú' 'wó' deu tseh p'ó' h'ü kú', that account is I suppose false. (or 'k'úng p'ó').

Obs. , *'k'úng p'ó'* is *I fear that;* *tseh p'ó'* has sometimes a similar meaning.
tung yong' lé 'sí tseh p'ó' t'ong' wá' tsz 'seu, the lamp is very hot (bright) I fear it will burn your hand.

312. The conjunctive phrases *and yet, on the other hand,* are expressed by *'tau* and *p'ien, perversely.*

, *tí kú' zz 't'í kau' nóng' tsú', nóng' 'tau peh 'la bih niun tsú', I called you to do this, and yet you have given it to some one else to do.*
'táng í 'tau veh t'óng', he is beaten and yet feels no pain.
k'ïön' nóng' 'hau p'ien veh 'k'ung 'hau, when exhorted to be good, you on the other hand will not.

313. Such conjunctive phrases as *it would be better to*, are represented by veh zû, *not so good as*, or niung 'k'ó, *I would rather*, veh 'pí, *it cannot be compared with*.

veh zû 'tsén k'í' kung' 'hau, *it would be better to go back*.
tòh veh zóh veh 'pí tsé' dóh, *not having learned it perfectly, it would be better to study it again*.
oh zz' niung 'k'ó 'sí veh tsú', *I would rather die than do what is wrong*.

Illative or Transitional Conjunctions. 314. *Therefore* is represented by 'sú 'í, kú' 't'sz, kú' 'sú 'í, keh lau.

sing 'lí veh mong' kí' nong', kú' 't'sz í' lé, *I have not forgotten you, and therefore have come again*.

315. *Then* is expressed by ké' (keh) meh, when it denotes a logical consequence, and by nan meh, when the transition is one of time.

, peh 'lá nong' veh yau', ké' meh yau' sá', *I give it and you do not want it, then what do you want?*
'tóng tsz 'dau 'lí nan meh 'hau 'tsé, *the doctrine being understood, then all is well*.

Obs. Nan meh, has also been placed among the adverbs as a particle of time. Its book equivalent ü 'zz, *consequently*.

Causal Conjunctions. 316. yung wé', wé' and wé' tsz correspond to our word *because*.

Conditional particles. 317. meh, *if*, is placed at the end of the clause.

, kiáng (zíen') meh yau' 'má, kü' meh veh yau' 'má, *if it is cheap buy it, but not if it is dear*.

318. zák sz', zog 'sz, zog zén, 't'ong wóh, 't'ong sz', 't'ong zén, are used in the sense of *if*: kí' zén is *if it was already so*.

, zák sz' veh k'ön' kien' meh, dzieu' kü lé, *if you do not see him, return at once*.

Obs. The verbs , , and adverb lose their primary sense, and form in colloquial usage merely a terminating syllable to the conjunction with which they combine.

319. *Even if* is expressed by dzieu' 'zz, 'á p'ó' 'á 'lí p'ó'.

, dzieu' 'zz gí k'óh, 'á veh yau' bing gí, *even if he cries, do not yield to him.*

, 'á p'ó' m meh dóng dién, 'tsóng veh yau' k'í' t'eu niun ká, *even if you have no money, you must not steal from others.*

320. *If*, with the negative is represented veh zén, or tsé' veh zén, *should it not be so.*

, k'wá 'tíen peh 'lá 'ngú, veh zén 'ngú yau' k'í' 'tsé, *If you do not give it me quickly, I shall go.*

tsé' veh zen 'ngú zz' ká k'í', *if is so, I shall go myself.*

Obs. This amounts to an entire omission of the *if*, for zén is an adverb *so*. In fact, the *if* is often not used in affirmative sentences as well as negative.

321. The conjunctive phrases *suppose that, for instance, for example*, are expressed by 'pí fong, p'í zû, yeu zû, etc.

'pí fong 'sí tsz meh ná' nung, *if you should die, what then?*
yeu tsz hú, *just as if.*
yeu zû, *ib.*

Obs. The adverbs of likeness (see [Art. 299](#)) are also similarly employed.
, 'hau ziang' nyih deu t'uh yong', 'ngan tsing veh 'hau té' tsz í lau k'ön, *just as the sun is too bright for our eyes to gaze on him.*

Antithetical Conjunctions. 322. Clauses with the particles *although, yet*, are formed by sùe zén and zén rh, etc.

, sùe zén 'k'iau kú', zén rh veh lau zeh kú', *although clever, he is not trustworthy.*

, 'hau 'zz 'hau kú' tau' 'tí 'pun zz' bing dzáng, *he is well disposed, but his abilities are not great.*

, sùe zén lú' 'yön, kieu' kiung' 'tseu tuh tau', *although it is a long way, yet I can walk it.*

Obs. *Although* is very frequently omitted, as in the second example.

323. *Either,—or* are expressed by wóh 'tsé, wóh 'tsé, or by ,
veh 'zz — dzieu' 'zz.

, veh 'zz 'táng yung, dzieu' 'zz 'táng bá', *you must either conquer, or be vanquished.*

, wóh 'dzé tóng, wóh 'dzé sí, *it is either east or west.*

, veh 'zz nóng', dzieu' 'zz nóng' kú' h'iung dí', *it is either you or your brother.*

, wóh 'zz sing' tsáng, wóh 'zz sing' lí, *it must be some one named Cháng or Lí.*

324. *Neither,—nor* are represented both by — 'á—'á, and by — í'—í', with a negative.

, 'á veh wé' fí, 'á veh wé' 'tseu. *he can neither fly nor walk.*

, 'k'eu 'á veh k'é, 'seu 'á veh 'dóng, *he neither opens his mouth, nor moves his hands.*

, í' veh giáng, í' veh kü', *it is neither cheap nor dear.*

325. When the first clause is interrogative, and the second commences with *or*, the equivalent form is ní, the interrogative particle at the end of the first clause, and wan 'zz beginning the second. Sometimes 'á alone is used.

, ming tsau yau' k'í' ní, wan 'zz yau' dé' 'liáng nyih, *will you go to-morrow, or wait for a few days?* (See also [Art. 251](#)).

326. *Because,—therefore* are expressed by yung wé', or wé' tsz, in the first clause, and any of the illative particles in the second.

, yung wé' veh zung zóh 'lí, 'sú 'í wan yau' sau, *since it is not yet well done, you must boil it longer.*

, wé' tsz nóng' veh k'á' weh lau, kú' 't'sz 'ngú veh lé, *because you were displeased, I did not come again.*

327. *Why—? because—*are expressed by any of the adverb forms for *why?* and the casual conjunctions in the answering clause.

 wé' sá' yau' mien dziáng? yung wé' yau' kú' giau 'lá, *why do you take down the mast? because there is a bridge to pass.*

328. *On the one hand, on the other hand*, are expressed by *ih mien'* or *ih deu* repeated.

, *ih mien' 'giun hú lau yau zung sah, ih mien' ping kú' lé lau yau' háh hwun, on the one side it is near the river, and they will be drowned, on the other side soldiers are coming who fill them with fear.*

ih pén' k'oh, ih pén' siau', partly crying and partly laughing.
ih deu 'tseu, ih deu 'siáng, while he walks he thinks.

329. *Not only—but even,—* are expressed by *veh dók tsz,* *ví tók, not only,* or *veh dan' peh kú' in the first clause,* *dzieu' 'zz,* or *lien* or *lien tah,* in the second.

, *veh dók tsz páng 'yeu seh ké', dzieu' 'zz mák sáng niun 'á zeh ké', it is not only friends that are so, but even strangers too.*

, *veh dók zz' ká, lien tah 'tsz sun, not only himself, but even his children also.*

, *fí dók niuk fóng, lien 'sz 'á niuk kú', not only is the wind contrary, but the tide is also against us.*

330. *The—the—* are expressed by *yöh* repeated, *yöh 'tsau yöh 'hau, the earlier the better.*

Obs. Similar phrases are formed with *yöh fah, the more*, in each clause, also with *yöh ká.*

331. When the supplementary clause is, *how much more,* *hú hwong' ü,* *hwong' ú,* *rh hwong' or hwong' 't'siá,* are employed.

, *t'ien 'hau veh k'ön' kien', hú hwong' 'ü loh, when the weather is fine you cannot see it, how much more when it rains.*

, *'siau kú' tsú' veh lé, hwong' 't'siá dú' kú', if you cannot do a little thing, how much more impossible for you to do a greater.*

, *zz ká zang' 't'siá veh wé tsú', hú hwong' ü bih niun, since you cannot do it yourself, much more cannot others do it.*

Section 11. Expletives and Interjections.

332. There are some words which though they have important grammatical uses cannot be conveniently set down among the preceding parts of speech and they are therefore placed here. Such are , , , , kú', tsz, 'tsé, 'lí.

a. kú', besides its use as a numeral particle ([Art. 156](#)), as the sign of the possessive ([130](#)) and in relative pronoun sentences, also takes its place as a final after a verb, or adjective in any indicative proposition.

'hau kú', 'hau 'lá kú', *it is good, well.*
veh nung tsú' kú', or veh nung kú' tsú', *I cannot do it.*

b. tsz is the sign of the past or past participle, but as will be seen in the first three examples, it is often indicative.

z'ien n'ien tsú' tsz tsé' siáng' 'tsé, *the year before last, he was prime minister.*

'pun dí' pah 'á wé' wó' tsz, *he can speak in the dialect of this place.*

ming tsau yau' 'siá 'hau tsz meh 'tsé, *finish writing it tomorrow.*

tsú' tsz zeh n'ien kwén lau kau' 'lau 'tsé, *after having been in office for ten years, he retired on the plea of old age.*

c. 'tsé is the sign of an action completed, or in course of being done, whether expressed by a verb or adjective; also of the imperative.

, tsú' 'lá 'tsé, 'hau 'tsé, *it is done, it is right.*

k'í' 'lá kú' 'tsé, *he is gone.*

ngú 'lá tsú' 'tsé, *I am doing it.*

d. 'lí and 'lá, are used like 'tsé and kú', as finals to any indicative proposition. 'lá is also a preposition ([Art. 256](#)).

, , 'hau 'lí, veh 'hau 'lá 'lí, 'hau kú' 'lí, *good, it is not well, it is well.*

e. lau, the particle that connects a string of substantives, occurs at the end of sentences that require something to complete their sense.

, 'í kiung wó' 'lá 'tsé lau, 'yeu sá' tsé' wó', *I have said it, and why should I say it again.*

Obs. ná is a final expletive used with 'tsé.

tók 'tsé ná, I am reading.

333. The final interrogatives are , , , , ní, 'vá, man', mó. Characters are borrowed for 'vá and man'.

a. ní is used either at the end of the first clause in an interrogative antithesis, or at the end of a single clause. It is sometimes pronounced 'nian.

tsú' ní veh tsú', *will you do it or not?*

'hau veh 'hau ní, *is it right or not?*

veh 'tóng ní sa', *do you not understand?*

meh zz' tuh kü' kú' ní, *are the things too dear?*

b. 'vá and man' are appropriated to direct interrogations, where not antithetical. They are colloquialisms.

van' yúng' man', *have you dined?*

wan yau' tsé' lé' vá, *shall you come again?*

'h'iau tuh 'vá, *do you understand?*

c. mó (mau), besides expressing direct and indirect interrogation, also implies a strong affirmative. ([Art. 278](#)).

tí' kú' h'í gí kú' meh zz' 'yeu mó, *is there this remarkable thing?*

'tau veh 'zz seh vun wá' liáng sing mó? *is it not most wilfully unconscionable!*

, 'zz 'vá, 'zz mó, *is it so? indeed it is?*

tí' kú' ká' díen dú' mó, *the price of this is great indeed (*
).

334. The initial interrogatives 'k'í, *how?* 'kí, *how many?* with 'ná, forming 'á 'lí, *where? which?* and 'ná nung, *how?* have already been illustrated among the pronouns and adverbs.

335. The interjections properly so called are such as—

é, *ah!* é 'tóng veh tuh kú', *ah! you must not do such a thing.*

t'é, *ho!* 'p'é, *it is bad.*

ah yóh, *alas! oh!*

au', indicates assent, *yes*, or *I understand*. In the first tone, it calls attention or conveys a warning, tong sing au, *be careful and mind what I say*.

á, yá, as in 'zz á, 'zz yáh, *it is so*.
vá, *is it not so?* hé, *ah!*

PART III. ON SYNTAX.

Section 1. On Government.

336. The rules for the relative position of the parts of speech are few and simple. They will be first considered without reference to grouping, repetition, etc.; the syntax of words used under those forms will be presented in subsequent sections.

A substantive that governs another as an attributive genitive always precedes it, and the particle *kú'* is inserted.

nieu *kú'* koh 'pí tsz lók *kú'* koh 'tön, *the horns of oxen are short compared with those of deer.*

yáng lau nieu *kú'* bí 'yeu tú hau' yúng' deu 'lá, *the skin of sheep and oxen has many uses.*

kí *kú'* sáng k'í' tsûe' 'h'íáng, *the cock crows very loud.*

Obs. i. Thus substance precedes accident or attribute, and the whole its part.

Obs. ii In English this order is reversed, when the particle *of* is employed; e.g. *affairs of the nation* is in our dialect, kók kiá *kú'* zz' 't'í. When a possessive case is formed with 's, the order agrees with that of the Chinese; e.g. *the emperor's palace*, wong tí' *kú'* kóng dién'.

Obs. iii. *kú'* is omitted in some instances where it would incommode the rhythm; e.g. ngá' koh niun 'tsóng yau' lé póng 'zú 't'sz dí' Yan fóng wong tí', *foreigners must come and assist Hien Fung, the emperor of this country;* ih h'iang' m meh h'iung wong' zun kwong, *it has never had a time of prosperity.*

337. Adjectives precede their substantives with or without *kú'*.

tú' tí' fong, *a large place.*

sí kóh, *western nations.*

huk tien, *black sky.*

só 'lá yong' nyih deu 'lí, *dry it in the hot sun.*

lí' hé *kú'* meh zz', *a dangerous thing.*

Obs. Numbers take the auxiliary word (Part II. section 4.) appropriated to the substantive they precede, between them and the substantive. An adjective if needed, is inserted after the auxiliary, e.g.

ih zû' dú' vong 'tsz, *a large house*; sz' p'ih báh 'mó, *four white horses*.

338. Transitive verbs precede their objects.

sáng 'hú, *light a fire*.

'nien pú', *dye cloth*.

, 'má hóng 'tsz deu tsú' t'ih 'tsz, *buy red paper to make cards*.

Obs. i. If there is a dative and accusative, the latter comes next to the verb. For examples, see Art. [236](#) and [133](#).

Obs. ii. Impersonal verbs take a substantive after them as transitive verbs; e.g. nan k'é hwó
'tsé, *now the flowers open* (lit. *open the flowers*); loh 'ü, *it rains* (lit. *falls rain*).

339. Adverbs are placed for the most part before the adjectives and verbs that they qualify.

t'uh niung' tsun, *unnecessarily industrious*.

miau' 'lí tsûe' h'iung', *in the temple, it is most crowded*.

't'sz dí' 'siá, *write it here*.

h'ih 'liáng nyih tsé' wé'. *after a few days, we shall meet again*.

í 'zz ih k'í', *that is a different set*.

Obs. The adverbs that follow their adjectives, such as 'kiun sah, *very near*, 'hau giuh, *very good*, will be found in their places, where the comparison of adjectives and adverbs of quality are treated of.

340. Of the prepositions, some forming the locative case follow their words; the rest inclusive of 'dzé, leh 'lá, leh 'lí, all meaning *being at or in*, precede their substantives. veh 'dzé h'íáng 'au, *not down in the country*.

Obs. Prepositions of motion and direction preceding the personal pronouns require a substantive of place to follow. tau' 'ngú dong lé, *come to me*; 'lá ná' dong veh 'yeu, *where you come from, there are none*. See also [Art. 197](#).

Section 2. Interchange of the Parts of Speech.

341. Under this heading, will be exhibited examples of the manner in which words by a change in position, must be construed as included in parts of speech, different from those to which when alone, they obviously belong. First, there are three principal changes of position, by which *adjectives* become *substantives*.

, sing 'lí h'íáng' kú' veh 'hau, 'tsóng yau' 'ké tsung',
the evil of the heart must be rectified.
 t'é' san kú' kau liáng veh t'seh, *the height of T'ai-shan*
cannot be measured.
 vong kan kú' k'weh hah veh t'sing 'song, *the width of the*
room, I do not know.
 ngú kú' siáng 'hau 'sí 'tsé, *my friend is dead.*

Obs. ii. Sometimes t'sū' is added to the adjective, as also deu and fah , compound substantives are thus formed; cf. [Art. 110](#). The same words also form substantives from verbs.

hoh 'hau, to grow good (to learn good).
'kong hú, treat for peace.
hoh wá', to grow bad.

, veh lun' dú' lau 'siau, dzén 'zz ih yáng' kú', *without taking account of the great and the small, all are the same.*
veh yau' wó' bih niun kú' dzáng 'tön, *do not speak of the faults of others.*

tí' diau hú k'é tú 'sau k'weh, how wide is this river?

c. When one adjective is qualified by another, it becomes a substantive; with this, English usage agrees, as in the following names of colours.

nióng huh, <i>deep black.</i>	'tan hóng, <i>light red.</i>
'láu wong, <i>faded yellow.</i>	nung' wong, <i>fresh yellow.</i>
'dzóng lan, <i>deep blue.</i>	't'sien lan, <i>light blue.</i>

Verb as Substantive. 342. Construing verbs as substantives is common to many languages. The infinitive and gerund forms are used for this purpose, as also the present participle. In Chinese these are all identical, being the root itself.

a. The verb as *subject* of a proposition with a predicate following (inf. and pres, part.).

weh ming' nan, *it is hard* (predic.) *to live.* (subj.

wé' tuk sung' 'tsóng 'hau kú', *to be able to conquer must be a good thing.*

háng bóng, zén 'tseu tuk k'wá' kú', *by using a sail, the boat will go quickly.*

kóh dú' lön' tsú' sáng í' veh bién' tong' kú', *the country is disturbed and in consequence, it is hard* (pred.) *to carry on trade.* (subj.)

, ping veh 'hau lau, 't'áng tsáng' veh kien' tuh zung kóng', *the soldiers are bad, and consequently fighting* (subj.) *is not likely to be successful.* (pred.)

b. The verb as *subject*, with a noun as *attribute* (in Latin grammar, the genitive of the gerund).

tsóng' dién kú' ká sáng 'yeu zz deu, t'ih tah lau, wan 'yeu tú hó', *the implements of husbandry are the spade, the spiked hoe, and such like* (arma colendi).

m meh 'fan kú' í' sz', *he has not the intention of rebelling* (consilium deficiendi).

kau' sū kú' 'pun zz' veh 'yeu, *the ability to instruct, he does not possess.*

c. The verb preceded by or followed by case particles.

'ngú híen' dzé' 'lá tsú', *I am now doing it.*

leh 'lá k'ih dzó, *drinking tea* (inter bibendum).

leh 'lí 'táng sön', *he is considering* (inter putandum).

tsú' kwén 'lí h'íáng' 'á 'yeu sing 'k'ú, *in the office of mandarin, there is much care and anxiety* (in magistrato gerendo).

'siá zz' 'lí hiáng' 'á 'yeu fah tsuh, *in writing, there is a method.*

d. The verb as regimen of another verb.

'tön dzih 'wong lé, *cease to have communications.*

m sá' tsú', *I have nothing to do.*

veh zung 'yeu sá' tsáng lun', *there has not been any quarreling.*

'ngú veh 'siáng k'í', *I do not think of going.*

veh yau' 't'au 'ngú yíen', *do not make me displeased.*

e. The verb as the *instrument* of effecting an action.

mun' tsz lau 'h'iau tuh, *you would know by asking.*

k'é tsz p'au' lau kóng p'ú' zung deu, *he made a breach in the wall by firing cannon.*

veh lieu sing lau mong' ki' t'eh 'tsé, *though not attending to it, I have forgotten it.*

Obs. Some verbs are found among substantives and adjectives too. h'iau' is a substantive in puh 'zén h'iau' wé' sían, *of all the virtues, filial piety is the chief*; an adjective in h'iau' 'tsz, *a filial son*, and a verb in h'iau' zun' 'vú 'mú, *to reverence parents*. In the books such variations of grammatical character in the same words are very numerous. In the verse sú ming 'tsz lé, *all the people came as if they were his sons*, 'tsz is used adverbially.

Verb as Adjective. 343. The passive gerund of Latin is related to adjectives as the active gerund is to substantives. The corresponding forms in our dialect are compounds which may be translated either as adjectives or passive gerunds.

'k'ó ú', *to be hated, or hateful.*

'k'ó sah, *ought to be killed.*

'hau siau', *laughable, fit to be laughed at.*

'hau tsóng' kú', *capable of cultivation.*

Obs. The examples given in [Art. 246](#), as in the *permissive* mood, might also be explained as verbs construed as adjectives.

344. Many of the longer verb groups are translated most conveniently as verbal adjectives.

né' veh kú', *unbearable.*

wó' veh lé, *unutterable.*

sú' veh ming báh, *incalculable.*

Obs. i. For a classification of these phrases v. [Art. 227](#).

Obs. ii. Adjectives coming after verbs, with *tuh* and *lé* are best translated as adverbs;
tsú' lé veh 'hau, it is done badly *'siá lé t'ong giuh, it is written exactly to the purpose;*
'ien 'tsz fí 'k'í lé 'ting k'wá', the swallow flies very swiftly; *mau' 'tsz tá' tuh zí*
tsung', he wears his hat properly.

345. Many verbs are used as prepositions. They are *zóng*, *yeu*, *tau'*, *lien*, *zau*, *mong'*, *té'*, *'zong*, *'hau*. Examples of both uses are given.

yeu nóng' meh tsé', it will be as you decide.
yeu 'á 'lí ih diau lú', by which way?
zz' 'ngan yau' lien 'au lé, words and expressions should be
connected.
'tsz deu lien pih dzén veh 'yeu, paper and pencil are both
wanting.

Adverb as Substantive. 346. Adverbs of time and place precede substantives with *kú'*, just as one substantive precedes another.

't'sz dí' kú' pák sing', people of this place.
seh ké' nung kú' niun, people of that sort.
ming tsau kú' zz' 't'i t'suh doh veh t'seh, the things of
to-morrow cannot be known by thinking.

Obs. *sien*, is an adverb in *sien yau' 'tsung 'tung 'hau,* , *you must first make preparations,*
and an adjective in *t'seh sz' tsûe' sien, he was born very early.*

347. When the adverbs take case particles, they must be regarded as substantives.

kiau' 'tsz 'lá zien deu, the chair is before.

Adverb as Adjective. 348. The derivative adverbs like the pure adjectives, form the predicate of a proposition.

niun 'zz 'hau 'hau nung kú', the man is good.

Or they qualify substantives.

tsú' sz 'tí 'áu kú' zz' 't'í, to do underhand things.

Adjective as Adverb. 349. Some adjectives precede verbs, and must in such cases be regarded as adverbs.

tú wó' 'liáng kü', say a few sentences more.

'hau t'ing lé, *very pleasant to hear.*

'tsieu yau' 'sau k'iuk, *drink sparingly of wine.*

'hau 'tseu tsing' k'í', *you are quite at liberty to enter.*

Obs. zién is an adjective in zién mun, *the front door*; a post-position in mun zién, *before the door*; and an adverb in zién 'liáng nyih, *a few days ago*: is usually an adjective, but in tú' 'liáng yáng' kú', *very different* and in veh dá' 'lí h'iung', *not very crowded*, it is an adverb.

Postposition as Adjective. 350. When the locative case particles ngá', 'zong, 'hau, zién, 'heu, precede their words, they are adjectives. When they follow them, they are postpositions.

ngá' kóh, *foreign nations.*

zung ngá', *outside the city.*

'hau 'seu, *an under workman.*

'seu 'au, 'seu 'tí 'au, *another's authority.*

'heu mun, *back door.*

van' 'heu, *after breakfast.*

Obs. The words for north, south, east and west, are employed in the same manner, and may be regarded as postpositions. p'oh 'teu sing, *north star*; kong p'oh, *north of the river*; p'u' t'ong, *east of the Hwáng-p'ú river*. In the last two examples, and may be considered locative case particles.

Substantive as Adjective. 351. When one substantive qualifies another, it may be regarded as an adjective.

'tiau lóng, *bird-cage.*

nieu bán, *cow shed.*

hwó y'ön, *flower garden.*

pú lí t'song, *glass window.* (See [Art. 174](#)).

Section 3. Government of words in groups or combinations.

Inseparable groups. 352. In the closest kind of combinations, when words of different parts of speech form a dissyllabic word, one of them loses its proper grammatical validity by becoming a syllabic appendage to the other.

a. Thus, kiau, *to join*, in the noun kiau ká', *a boundary*, has not the property of governing a substantive, that belongs to it in

siáng kiau bán 'yeu 'tsong yau' zeh tsí', *in treating friends you must be true*. So also other verbs, as—

yung', *to correspond*, in yung' nien', *agreement with prediction*.
(Sometimes also *to agree*, etc.)

yúng, *to allow*, in yúng í', *easy*.

kú', *to pass*, in kú' seh, *a fault* (cf. *transgression*).

b. In the same manner kóng, *work*, yung, *form*, and k'í', *anger*, in the following examples are not nouns, since they are neither in the nominative or accusative, or any other case. They simply add their primitive sense to the verbs they assist to form.

veh wé' zung kóng t'á' bing, *he cannot establish peace*.

yung yóng t'seh lé, *bring into visible form*.

'yeu sá' yau' 'dóng k'í' 'ngú, *why are you angry with me?*

c. Similarly, adjectives in composition, while retaining their etymological sense, lose their individuality, and cease to qualify substantives, or to form a predicate to a subject.

't'au ih kú' dú' niáng 'tsz, *to take a wife*.

sau 'siau t'sé', *to cook vegetables*.

ting' lau kú' 'tsû í', *to fix one's determination*.

'pau dzien van' veh, *to preserve all things*.

Obs. In the first example *great* is prefixed to the word for *wife*, independently of any second wife, and is usually equivalent to niáng 'tsz. In the third *firm* is joined with ting', and the two words together govern the following substantive.

353. So in larger groups, when words of different parts of speech combine, the predominant character of the group is communicated to words, which alone have quite another kind of force; e.g. if tsun, *needle*; sien', *thread*; zing, *feeling*, represent *actions* not *things* in the sentences—

'nü niun niung'-tsun tsun-sien'-'fong-tsuh, *women diligently sew, spin and weave*.

kén sing zing niön', *ready for and wishing*.

354. When words combine to form a new compound term, different in sense from both of them, their grammatical validity is lost, and the new

phrase is recognized in its entirety as a noun, verb, etc. according to its meaning. Thus, 'yung, to *lead*, and s'ien', *thread*, form the compound 'yung s'ien', a *needle*; fong, *square*, and p'ien', *convenient*, form fong b'ien', *alms*; dzé, to *cut with scissors* and v'óng', a *seam*, form dzé v'óng, *tailor*; tsau, to *call*, and kiün, an *army*, form tsau kiün, a *trumpet*.

k'é lú' s'ien f'óng, a *herald*.

lau deu kiun' 'tsz, *jailor*.

tí' 'pau, *village bailiff*.

té s'ü, *notary*.

355. Coordinate words having the same grammatical power, arranged in groups of from two to five or even more characters, form a numerous class. In regard to the laws of position, the whole group is treated as a single noun or verb, or adjective as the case may be. In the examples, a hyphen connects the coordinate words.

, í' kú' háng-zz', dzén 'zz zun-ní'-'dau-tuh, *his actions are all based on benevolence, rectitude, reason and virtue*.

, tsú' t'sing kú' zz-k'í', fú-t'sí' liáng kú' 'pan yau' pá' t'ien-dí'-zun-ming, *at the time of marriage, the husband and wife must worship heaven, earth and the inferior deities*.

, tú' sí' 'yeu sá' zz' 't'í, yá-niáng yau' mun' í-póh-sing-siáng' yau' 'hau veh yau' 'hau, *if there be anything that concerns their children, the parents will ask the doctor, the diviner, the astrologer, and the physiognomist, if all will be well*.

, veh nung yung' tsz k'í'-'ming-ká-sáng, t'seh liáng, í' kú' dzang-k'weh-kau-sun, *you cannot by taking instruments measure its length, breadth, height and depth*. (four adj. here form one substantive, viz. *dimensions*.)

, , niun veh 'hau tan h'íung lé, de' tsz 'mó-nieu-yáng san yáng' tsóng s'áng, yung bé' niun yung', *men ought not to be cruel in treating the three animals, horse, cow and sheep, because they are useful to man*.

, , niun m sá' zz' 'tí kú' zun kwong, tan' giun-gí-s'ü-wó' lé' s'iau mun' kó' nyih, *when men have nothing to do, they take to the harp, chess, writing and painting, to dissipate care and pass away the time*.

pí'-niók-p'ú-ké', coverlid and mattress, for bedding.
há-mah-í-mau', shoes, stockings, clothes and hat.
zun'-zóng, to yield to and follow.
'tung-dé', wait for.
kweh-deu-tsz tsih, bones, limbs and joints.
'kwong dú', wide and great.
lau ngáng', firm and hard.
pú'-yáng au'-miau' kú' 'tau-'lí, to propagate mysterious
and wonderful doctrines.

356. Another numerous class of compounds consist of words, which, while helping to form a larger group, retain a grammatical relation to each other.

'yeu ih 'tsóng wé-fí-tsok-'té kú' niun, there is a sort of vicious mischief-making men.

ih 'ngan m-dzing-m-ní' kú', quite destitute of feeling and principle.

tsung' 'kwén t'eu han 'lan dú', they do nothing but waste time and be lazy.

niung' t'só tsz 'ká yá deu fah wé 'wong sing, he was misled by his pretend change of mind.

'ling tsz dzén pé lóng' 'tsan kú' páng 'yeu t'seh k'í', he led out his friends who were his drinking companions.

m meh t'seh 'tíen, has on classical authority.

Obs. i. governs *ancient books*, and the two words together form a substantive in the objective case, after the verb *m meh*. The whole is equivalent *veh 'zong sū 'pun, it is not used in books.*

Obs. ii. In phrases of this sort, we have government within government. A transitive verb with its regimen, may form part of a group, which is an elongated adjective, qualifying the following noun. Compare in English, such phrases as "a luxurious, *do-nothing* life."

Obs. iii. Verbs with their regimen are freely used as adjectives, and connected by means of , with the following noun; e.g. , *yáng' zén lau tsóng' dzó yih kú' pká síng', kiun nien 'k'ú 'nau 'tsé, the silk-worm breeders and tea cultivators will this year suffer greatly.* So also other combinations, , *'lá 'kwong tóng tsú' kú' meh zz', dzén 'zz 'k'iau kú', things made at Canton are all ingeniously worked.*

357. In many cases, while there is a common grammatical character belonging to the whole group, only part of the constituent words give the sense. Thus in *'k'ú 't'sú, miserable;* *fók k'í', happiness;* *un*

'tíen' *favour*; the second word in each has no influence on the sense. So also in *siáng sing*, *to believe in*, does not in colloquial usage retain the sense of reciprocity. To give that idea, an adverb such as *tá' ká*, must be prefixed.

358. Some terms originally consist of two syllables, which are written separately, only because the Chinese mode of writing requires each character to be the sign of a monosyllable.

fun fú, *to command*.

sü tsáng, ^[1]*to nurse* (c).

ting tsóh, *give directions*.

Obs. Such words as these are construed as verbs, just as if they were monosyllabic words.

[1] Or tsáng lú, *to nurse* (also c.)

Separable groups. 359. Those combinations that admit of the insertion of other words, so as to lengthen the group will now be illustrated.

a. Those that consist of two coordinate words, admit of a qualifying or governing term being applied to each word.

fí giun 'tseu seu', *birds and beasts*.

hwén t'íen 'h'í dí', *exceedingly pleased*.

t'óng vun ta 'lí, *thoroughly understand literary composition*.

sing 'mén í' tsóh, *satisfied*.

'ngau ngá t'sih 't'sz, *grinding the teeth in pain*.

wé sing 'tsén í', *to change one's mind*.

sz zíen 'siáng heu', *thinks of the past and future*.

dzing kwé' dau' 'kü, *follow the rule of propriety*.

kieu zun pá' veh, *pray to spirits and worship Buddha*.

'tsau sz mú' 'siáng, *meditate early and late*.

b. The groups formed by the numeral particles admit the insertion of adjectives and adjective phrases, between those particles and their substantives. Material nouns sometimes take their auxiliary after them.

ih kun dzáng dóng sz, *a long piece of brass wire*.

ih p'íen' dú' t'ih p'íen', *a large piece of iron*.

ih tsáh wé' báh wó' kú' áng kú, *a talking parrot*.

ih kun dzáng tsóh deu, *a long stick of bamboo*.

ih tsáh hwó' keu, *a spotted dog*.

ih tsáng 'heu 'tsz, *a thick sheet of paper.*

ih tsáng bóh 'tsz tsáng, *a thin piece of paper.*

ih tsz 'yeu fóng mong kú' pih, *a pencil that has a point.*

c. When a group consists of a transitive verb and its regimen (which sometimes answer to a single verb in English), auxiliary words come between the verb, and its object.

'zong tsz tong' 'tsé, *he has been entrapped.*

tsén tsz giön lau sah t'eh tsz wong tí' 'tsé, *relying on his influence, he killed the emperor.*

'zá 'yeu kien' suh kú' siau', *causing the laughter of those who are intelligent.*

t'au nong' kwong au, *I beg your favour (light).*

Obs. When a verb and adjective are combined, the tense particle follows the adjective; e.g.
zung fong' sòng tsz meh 'hau, *it would be better to slacken the rope.*

d. In the verb groups of direction and motion, the substantive governed is sometimes inserted after the principal verb, sometimes between the second and third auxiliaries when there are two, and sometimes it is placed at the end.

tóng ú tih 'sz 'au lé, *brazen urn dropping water.*

fong' giau' 'tsz 'au lé, *let the chair down.*

fong' 'ngú k'é lé, *let me go.*

kün ping t'seh k'í', *drive out soldiers.*

t'iau tan t'seh lé, *carry out a load.*

'táng 'mó zien k'í', *drive a horse forward.*

'ping ká säng 'lóng lé, *collect domestic articles.*

tsé' weh bih niun 'tsén lé, *call a man to life again.*

'tsén 'sz tsing' k'í', *pour in water.*

sah tsing' zung lé, *enter the city fighting.*

kün t'seh 'keu lé, *drive out dogs.*

tan t'seh í zong lé, *bring clothes out.*

'fan 'tsén 'seu lé, *turn one's hand over.*

zien' 'tsén bén lé, *turn the tray round.*

t'säng ké' zén lé, *pole the boat away.*

t'é k'é t'song lé, *push the window open.*

háng 'k'í fóng le, *take the wind to work the boat.*

kiung 'k'í tau lé, *lift up a knife.*
fong' 'k'í p'au' lé, *commence firing cannon.*

Obs. Rarely the nominative is placed after the verb it governs, 'tseu niun 'au lé, *men are coming down;* t'sz fóng tsing' k'í', *wind blows in.*

e. Negative verb groups sometimes admit of an adverb qualifying the principal verb, and coming immediately after it.

niun' dá' veh t'seh, *I scarcely recognize him.*
wó' dá' veh lé, *I cannot well talk.*
k'ön' dá' veh kien', *I can scarcely see it.*
k'iu' dá' veh loh, *I cannot well eat.*

f. Verb groups with the affirmative and negative particles, also admit the objective case after the principal verb.

kiau' í veh t'seh, *I do not know its name.*
hwah í veh k'é, *I cannot throw him off.*
pah í veh 'k'í, *I cannot pull it up.*

Obs. In many cases, the object comes after the whole group; e.g. tong veh dzü' dá' ping, *he cannot resist the great army;* tsú' veh 'dóng säng weh, *I cannot do any work.*

g. Repeated verbs with the tentative k'ön', take their accusative case before k'ön'.

mun' mun' í k'ön', *ask him and see.*
tsú' tsú' vun tsäng k'ön', *write an essay as a specimen.*

Section 4. On Repetition.

360. The repetition of words frequently affects the grammatical sense of the words repeated. At other times it is mere tautology adopted for rhythmical reasons, or for the purpose of emphasis as in English. Cases in which the repeating of a word has a grammatical value, will be first considered.

Appellative and relative substantives, when repeated, are translated by *all* or *every*.

, niun niun sön' nyih deu, vú ká' tsz 'pau, *all men feel that the sun is inestimably precious.*
t'sü' t'sü' 'fan lön', *rebellion and disturbance everywhere.*

kiun kiun zun zun, *all princes and magistrates.*
, zû' zû' 'yeu bí, niun niun 'yeu mien', *trees all have bark, and men all have faces.*

361. The numeral particles are all repeated, thereby giving the sense of *all* and *every* to their substantives. Subdivisions of time, and space, measures of material nouns, etc. are also repeated in the same sense.

tien' ká ká kwan 'tsé, *the shops are all shut.*
mun sén' sén' 'sú 'hau 'lá, *the doors are all locked.*
yáng tsáh tsáh yau' sieu, *the sheep all need to be shorn.*
zung 'lí h'íáng' p'ú' p'ú' 'yeu 'siau kah, *in the city every ward has a bailiff.*
t'ien t'ien 'hau nyih deu, *the sun shines every day.*
meh zz' kiun kiun k'íöh 'sau, *each catty of articles is short.*
pó pó tau mú k'wá' meh 'tsé, *grind all the knives.*
kan kan vong 'tsz t'an t'eh 'tsé, *every house is fallen.*
kiun nien 'kú 'tsz 'tsóng 'tsóng veh 'hau, *this year all kinds of fruits have failed.*
tsí mé' song song t'seh lé, *the elder and younger sisters are come out in pairs.*
'siá zz' kú' fah tsuh pih pih tsóng fóng, *the method of writing is for each stroke to be made with the point of the pencil.*
tiau diau dá' lú', *they are all great roads.*
kü' kü' tsun wó', *every sentence is truth.*

Obs. i. The difference between full appellative or other nouns, and the auxiliary nouns that define time, space, quantity, and form, is here again prominently brought to view. Duplication serves to show where the two classes of terms border on each other. Thus, ká, *a street* is not repeated; the form being, such as ká lú' diau diau meh 'mén tsz ih t'sun' kau h'íöh, *the streets were all covered with blood an inch high.* long', *a lane*, on the other hand is treated as a subdivision in space, and takes no numeral particle; e.g. lóng' lóng' yeu seh ngá ká niun ká, *in every lane there are ten families or more.*

Obs. ii. It has been shown in the section on adverbs, that substantives of time when doubled are used in the sense *always*. This is an instance in agreement with the broader principle, that all names of subdivisions and auxiliary numeral particles are repeated, and that the repetition implies universality.

362. Adjectives are sometimes repeated before a substantive, but much more frequently when placed as predicate after it. No addition is thereby made to the sense.

tsú' sáng weh kú' niun lau lau lóh lóh, *the workmen are tired.*

'hau 'hau meh zz', *a good article.*

'siau 'siau kú' ih yōn t'ih dan', *a small iron shot.*

tú tú pák sing', *very many people.*

hwó 'hwé yau yau zau zau, *the flowers are very beautiful.*

zû' ling mih mih zung zung, *the wood is crowded with trees.*

san deu ling ling lóng lóng, *the hill is picturesque.*

'k'ú tseu tseu, *unhappy.*

t'ing kien' tsz sū sung long' long', *we heard the sound of reading pleasant and clear.*

'ngan lí' wong wong, *tears flowing abundantly.*

'hú sing yan' yan', *the sparks are very bright.*

seh 'tsz tsien tsien, *ten sharp-pointed fingers.*

363. When doubled, adjectives follow verbs they are translated as adverbs.

meh zz' ōn bá sū sū zí zí kú', *the things were placed in admirable order.*

tsú' lé lau lau t'sau' t'sau', *it is done in a coarse way.*

Obs. It has been shown that repeated adjectives placed before verbs qualify them like adverbs. We have also 'lóng 'lóng tsóng' tsóng' 'yeu ih páh, *altogether there are a hundred.* The primitive adverbs are not repeated.

364. Several relative substantives are repeated without any alteration in the sense.

sóh sóh, *uncle.*

'sau 'sau, *sister-in-law.*

tiá tiá, *father.*

'tí 'dí, *younger brother.*

'tsí 'tsí, *sister (ah tsí, idem).*

mí' mí', *younger sister (mé' mé').*

má má, *mother (or ah má).*

kú kú, *elder brother (ah kú, ib.).*

tí' dí', *younger brother (hiúng dí').*

365. When verbs are repeated, it is for rhythmical reasons, and for the sake of alliteration. In addition to the examples given in [Art. 231](#), the following will serve to exhibit the use of these seeming tautologies.

- a. Single verbs are repeated with or without a regimen.

yau' 'má 'tíen van' k'íuh k'íuh, *I wish to buy a little rice to eat.*

, 'ngú peh kú' kiau kiau hwó lau, sieu sieu au tsz, *I am just watering the flowers, and pruning the branches of the trees.*

- b. In a verb group of two, the second word is often repeated.

peh siáng' siáng', *rambling for amusement.*

siau' h'í h'í, *laughing.*

ng 'lá 'sz 'lí weh 'dóng 'dóng, *the fish are swimming actively in the water.*

, yeu h'í h'í lau, veh 'k'ung yúng' sing, *he rambles about amusing himself, and will not attend to anything.*

k'óh lí lí, *he is weeping.*

- c. Many groups of four contain a single repeated verb.

'táng bá' tsz lau fun fun koh san', *being conquered, they divided and were all scattered.*

'tang yung tsz lau kü lé tuh í' yáng yáng, *having conquered, he came back satisfied and elated.*

í mé' p'iau p'iau, *the shirts of clothes blowing about.*

sing kwong sén' sén', *the star-light twinkles.*

tsz ih yah yah, *the branches and leaves are waving.*

- d. Many verb groups of two are extended by the repetition of each word.

zz' t'í ting' ding' tong' tong', *the thing is brought to a settlement.*

veh pih ní ní óh óh, *you need not suspect.*

ngá 't'sz weh weh loh loh, *his teeth are shaking and falling out.*

'tseu sá dú tsz lau h'iung h'iung hong hong, *he has walked himself tired and is panting for breath.*

'wén 'tsan siáng báng' 'h'íáng lau líh líh lóh lóh, *the cups and saucers are falling together and making a noise.*

- e. Frequently in repeated groups of four, the constituent words alternate.

'táng sön' 'táng sön' 'á veh té' 'kiung, *with all his meditating, he cannot satisfy himself.*

lieu bú' lieu bú' veh yau' sòng' 'tsé, *stay, stay, do not escort me out.*

meh zz' 'hau k'íuh 'yeu mí' 'yeu mí', *this thing is very nice, it has a fine taste.*

- f. The verb is repeated alternately with two accusatives.

'tsóng yau' lau sing lau lih, *you must use your mind and all your efforts.*

nien zung 'hau 'tsé ziá' t'ien ziá' dí', *it is a good year, and we must thank heaven and earth for it.*

wé wong wé tí', *to be an emperor.*

tsú' kwén tsú' 'fú, *to be a mandarin.*

366. With regard to their syntax, groups consisting of repetitions frequently form separate clauses of a sentence, but not exclusively so. They also like other groups, obey the laws of position of [section 1](#) in relation to neighbouring words, and in their internal structure, and are construed as adjectives, verbs, or adverbs according to their particular character and use as a whole.

- a. As adjective, whether forming a predicate or in apposition.

tsu' ih kú' niun 'tsóng yau' tsung' tsung' p'á' p'á',
as a man, you must be correct in conduct.

, niun dzû' leh 'lá hwó hwó sz' kú', dú' 'yeu
fok kí' 'lá, man living in a beautiful world, has great happiness.

- b. As verb.

k'ön' k'ön' tú hau' niun kun 'lá, *see there is a great number of persons following.*

- c. As verb.

tau 'tseu t'eh 'tsé dzieu' k'á' k'á' weh weh tsih
tau' zén long', *when he had escaped, they gladly received him to the
boat.*

ming ming liáng' liáng' seu 'zeu dú dí', *they openly
received disciples.*

ziáng ziáng sí' sí' 'k'au kieu' zeh kweh 'tsz ná'
nung kú', *carefully examine how it truly is.*

Obs. Groups of four, whether formed by repeated words or not, very commonly fall into separate clauses; e.g. vun 'lí m sá' 'hau, 't'sau 't'sau peh kóng, *it is not at all well written, but coarse and unpolished.*

Section 5. Order in groups.

367. There are various principles of arrangement in the words of a group. A group of four (1) may contain in itself an entire sentence; e.g. 'tóng ní veh 'tóng, *do you understand?* (2) or it may consist of verbs and their regimen, nouns and their adjectives, or other combinations of the parts of speech; e.g. sun yön 'lí 'wong, *to redress injuries.* (3) Repetition direct and alternate, forms many short phrases into longer groups, (4.) The principle of arrangement in many groups is, the order of nature, species being placed before genus, and the whole before its parts. (5.) The constituent words may be coordinate in meaning, and alike in grammatical character.

In addition to these varieties of structure, there are also mixed groups in which repetition for instance forms one part, and words combined grammatically, another; e.g. nian' nian' peh vong, *think of constantly.*

368. Complete sentences are here placed with the other groups, because they fall into regular forms, and obey the laws of rhythm in a manner similar the fixed phrases of two, three, four or more words here referred to. Hence the predominance of short pithy sentences in common conversation.

'yeu sá' veh 'tong, *why should I not understand?*

veh zung 'h'iau tuh, *I do not know.*

yáng ká' dú' 'tsé, *the price of the dollar is high.*

ná' nung' pan' fah, *how should we proceed?*

yau' 'hau dzieu' 'hau, *if you want it good, it is at once good.*

Obs. The order of the words in these phrases is regulated by the rules of [Part III, section 1](#), and the sections on propositions.

369. Many groups have an internal syntactical arrangement, and they are so numerous, that although some examples have already been given, more will here appended. They may be divided into (a), those in which there is a repetition of the idea, and (b) where there is none.

'tsz tsien zeh k'wá', *sharp lips and tongue.*
t'sing t'ien bah nyih, *clear sky and bright sun.*
vong un veu' ní', *forget kindness.*
k'í t'ien mén dí', *deceive heaven and earth.*
tóng 'tau sí hwá, *all is in disorder.*
wó' dzáng wó' 'tön, *very loquacious.*
pén 'tsz lóng' zeh, *fond of using the tongue.*
t'un kí 'niun ngú', *to endure hunger.*
niun mien' seu' sing, *in face a man, but in heart a wild beast.*
'k'ú 'k'eu líang íen, *advice bitter but salutary.*
san tsun 'hé mí', *delicacies from the mountain and the sea.*
'tsz tóng wó' sí, *advising this and then that.*
dzong deu lú' 'ví, *act contrary to propriety.*
'h'í fú' p'ó' gióng, *pleased with riches but fearing poverty.*
'sun niun lí' 'kí, *rob others to enrich one's-self.*
hú h'iúng han' dí', *to call brothers.*
woh san wóh sz', *sometimes this and sometimes that.*
'yung kiung kü' 'tíen, *to cite books and appeal to the classics.*
t'sz kú t'song' k'íóh, *to play airs and sing songs.*

370. Passing over repetition groups, as already sufficiently illustrated, some examples will be given of those in which several words coordinate in sense are placed in proximity. In many instances such words as express relative superiority stand first.

fóng yün lé 'ü, *wind, clouds, thunder and rain.*
'ü sih song lú', *rain, snow, hail and dew.*
híen liáng fong tsung', *the wise, good, noble and upright.*
zá 'mí yeu íen, *fuel, rice, oil and salt.*
teu' kóh 'mí máh, *beans, rice and wheat.*
'sz tsóng 'pun meh, *beginning and end, origin and conclusion.*
nieu, yáng, 'k'íön, 'mó, *cattle, sleep, dogs and horses.*

kiün t'sing sz 'yeu, *king, parents, teacher and friends.*
 tsén 'ngó záh hwé, *bricks, tiles and lime.*
 kiun seu' k'wun dzóng, *birds, beasts and insects.*
 ping báng kwén deu, *pitchers, pots and pans.*
 'rh móh 'k'eu bih, *ear eyes, mouth and nose.*
 ng ling hön 'há, *fish, crabs and shrimps.*
 kiun niun dóng t'ih sih, *gold, copper, copper, iron and tin.*
 'ká seh, *explain.*
 'sun tön', *to judge.*
 lí san', *to be scattered.*
 t'eu t'sih, *to steal.*
 yön 'mén, *round & full.*
 tön fong, *upright.*
 'fong tsuh, *spinning and weaving.*

Obs. On presenting these examples to a Fuh-kien literary man, it was found that half of the groups were in use in his dialect; of the remainder, more than half were partially the same with collocations familiar to him, while the rest were entirely different.

371. Species invariably precedes genus, and matter form, in groups formed of words thus related.

pih dóng 'hau t'sah kú', *you can stick it in the pencil holder.*
 m meh pih mau 'tsz, *there is no top-case to the pencil.*
 mun tsáng, p'ú' kú', *the mosquito curtain is torn.*
 sén' kweh lók t'sih kú', *the frame of the fan is painted green.*
 t'ih tien' lí 'táng 'lá kú', *it was made in the blacksmith's*
shop.
 sáh 'mó, *stone horse.*
 pú sén', *broad-leaf fans.*
 só bí, *sand paper.*
 'ngó lih sih, *earthenware fragments.*

Obs. i. Substance precedes accident or attribute, and the whole its part. This is sometimes the same with the proposition immediately above, *genus* being only such part of *species* as happens to belong commonly to several objects. We may fix our attention on either word in the compound indifferently, considering it as the *essence*, while the other is the *accident*. Thus, óh kí, *foundation of a house*;

hó 'ting, *house roof*, are parts of the appellative substantive *house*. So, if speaking of the articles into which bamboo is manufactured, the second word in tsóh bá, *piece of flattened bamboo*; tsóh líen, *bamboo window-blinds*; tsóh 'tsz, *bamboo paper*, is in each case that which expresses *form*, while the first describes the *material*.

The latter may be viewed as accidental to the former, or if preferred, the second word may be called *genus*, while the first is considered as limiting it to a particular *species*.

Obs. ii. In conformity with the principle, that the word in which the substance of the noun inheres should stand first, the auxiliary appendages deu, 'tsz, t'sû', fah follow their words; e.g.

van' m zing t'sû', *there is no way of getting a living*; 'siá fah 'tsóng 'yeu kú', *there must be some mode of writing it*.

Obs. iii. The auxiliary substantives and numeral particles appropriated to particular nouns, when they follow their words without a numeral, exemplify the same law; e.g. páh wó' 'lí h'íáng' veh yau' ká t'seh tú hau' sū kū', *do not mingle so many book sentences in what you say*.

Obs. iv. In double substantives formed partly with a verb, the verb as giving the species stands first; e.g. sön' bén, *counting board*; yun' 'pan, *printing blocks*; wó ping', *a bon mot* (See [Art. 113](#)).

Obs. v. Many inseparable dissyllabic substantives, in which the distinction of matter and form is not obvious in their daily use, if viewed etymologically may be noticed to have the same order; e.g.

vun tsáng, *literary compositions*; tí' fong, *a place*. The word giving the matter stands in each case first.

372. If the action be gradual in a compound verb, the word first in time is first in order. The word that concludes the action comes last.

tan lé siau hwó', *to take and burn*.

tung 'tíen wén 'tsé, *the lamp is burnt out*.

peh 'lá zuh fí' 'táng sū, *he was defeated by the rebels*.

Obs. i. Most of the auxiliary particles occurring in compound verbs follow the principal word; v. [Art. 217](#), [222](#), but 'táng, and such adverbs as help to form compound verbs precede the principal words; e.g. 'táng t'sih 'táng t'sih k'ön', *make inquiries*.

Obs. ii. The auxiliary verbs of *power*, forming a potential mode, precede their verbs. veh wé' báh wó', *he cannot talk*; veh nung k'í', *he cannot go*. In English, there are also auxiliaries of this kind preceding other verbs in apposition, without the sign of the infinitive intervening; e.g. *may, can*.

Variation in Order. 373. The components of some groups admit of more than one mode of arrangement. The following may be used in a direct or inverted order.

lé 'wong, *communication*.

k'í' lih, *strength*.

siau' dan, *laughing and talking*.

tsung tsén' *to fight*.

tseu sun 'zong 'au, *the whole body (or)*.

hwen 'h'í, *pleased*.

veh lun' 'sun yuh, *without regarding whether it be injurious or beneficial*.

'siao dú', *small, great.*
huh, báh, *black, white.*
 nén pòh tóng sí, *south, north, east and west.*
ling wung, *the soul.*
wan 'tsén, *to turn around.*
dzáng 'tön, *long and short.*

Obs. The number of groups variable in order, is comparatively extremely small. The number of cases in English, where one particular order of coordinate words is maintained, is by no means small; e.g. *long and happy reign; far and near; kings and queens.*

374. The following principles of arrangement may be distinguished in the apposition of verbs.

a. The auxiliaries of the future tense, and the imperative and potential moods precede their verb. yau', wé', nung.

'tsóng yau' k'í', *you must go.*
'ngú wé' 'siá, *I can write.*
veh nung lé, *he cannot come.*
veh yau' lé, *I do not wish to come; or do not come.*
 veh zung wó' yau' lé, *I did not say, I should come.*
 nóng' 'á yau' lé, *you must come.*

b. When the object of a verb is an action, it is expressed by a verb in Chinese, instead of a verbal derivative, or infinitive, or gerund form, such as would be used in languages having grammatical forms.

veh 'mien 'sí, *cannot avoid dying.*
veh 'siáng k'íuh, *I do not think of eating.*
 veh sön' dau 'tseu, *not to be regarded as flight.*
veh 'kén tsú', *he does not dare do it.*
 'kí zz 'siáng sieu, *when do you think of reforming.*
 'táng sön' meu 'fan, *to meditate a revolt.*
 é' k'íuk 'tsieu, *to be fond of drinking wine.*

c. The auxiliary verbs expressive of direction and motion, beginning and completion, etc. follow the principal verb.

'má tsing' lé, *to buy in.*
'pau tsing' 'pau t'seh, *to carry in and out in one's arms.*

d. Priority in time often determines the order of verbs.

'ngú k'í' sǒng', *I will go and present it.*

yau' lé siǎng pong, *you must come and assist.*

k'ïön' hwó' sz' ká' long' niung, *to exhort and convert mankind.*

'táng sah bih niun, *to beat persons to death.*

e. Coordinate verbs.

'pau ú' kwan kwó kú dóh, *to protect and save widows, orphans, and those who have no relatives.*

Section 6. Simple Propositions.

375. The simplest sentence is that in which there is a single word, forming the subject ('tsû), and another the predicate (ping). The subject always precedes.

'mó lé, *a horse comes.*

t'ien nyih, *the weather is hot.*

Obs. i. Occasionally the predicate precedes, t'seh wé', *the procession is out;* lok 'sz, *the tide is falling.* These forms may also be explained as impersonal verbs with an accusative.

Obs. ii. An adjective forms of itself a complete predicate, and usually has no copula to connect it with the preceding nominative. tau 'tsz zók 'tsé, *the peaches are ripe.*

376. The simple proposition in its full form has also a copula.

'zz ngú tsok 'tsû, *I act for myself.*

'hé 'lí kú' 'sz 'zz sun kú', *the water of the sea is deep.*

t'ien lé tuh nyih, *the weather is hot.*

Obs. When the predicate is a verb, the copula may be always considered as included in it. It is when the predicate is an adjective that a vacuum becomes obvious to a foreign ear.

377. The subject may consist of a substantive, or a substantive group, a pronoun, a verb or a verb group, or adverbs of place and time, construed as nouns.

nyih deu veh t'seh lé, *the sun does not come out.*

én dong zz' yön' t'oh 'yeu 'sau h'íáng, *in all convents and monasteries there is incense burning.*

tí' kú' 'zz 'hau 'tien kú', *this is better.*

'má 'zz veh nung, *to buy is impossible.*
 t'iau lau kong veh wé' kú', *to act as porter alone or with others, is what I cannot do.*
 't'sz dí' 'yeu sih, *it snows here.*
 ming tsau t'sú lóh, *to-morrow is the sixth.*

Obs. i. Sometimes the subject is understood; e.g. 'tsóng yau' lih ding' 'tsû í', (you) *must be resolute.*

Obs. ii. Adjectives also sometimes form a predicate. 'hau 'yeu 'hau pau', *goodness has a good reward;*
 'zén lau oh 'tsóng yau' bién' t'seh lé, *virtue and vice must be distinguished.*

Obs. iii. Any word that qualifies a noun may be removed from its place in apposition, and become a predicate. Thus, tí' zú' vong 'tsz 'zz 'lá kú', *this house is the right one*, may become,
 'zz dí' zú' vong 'tsz, *it is this one;* 'liáng diau giao 'yeu, *there are two bridges*, or
 kiau 'yeu 'liáng diau, *of bridge there are two.*

378. When the copula is used, it takes the forms of 'zz, tuh, lé tuh, and lé before adjective predicates, while tsu', and in some groups wé' and tsoh precede substantives.

'tau 'lí 'zz veh t'só kú', *the doctrine, is right.*
 sing 'lí lé tuh pun', *in mind he is stupid.*
 'ngú veh tsú' ping, *I am not a soldier.*
 'ngú veh wé kwén 'fú, *I am not a mandarin.*
 'siá lé 'hau k'ön', *it is well written.*
 'siá tuh veh 'hau, *it is written badly.*

Obs. Educated men appear to avoid the use of lé, as a substitute for , but it is extremely common among the lower classes.

379. In the predicate are found, a substantive, adjective, verb, or adverb, or a group of either.

'pí 'ngú dú' kú' 'zz á kú, *he who is older than I is called elder brother.*

só' 'míen 'siau kú' seh 'hau kú', *to forgive little faults readily is good.*

h'í' lau h'í' fah lau sá' veh k'ön', *plays, jugglery and such things, I do not go to see.*

ká' díen tsúe' dú' kú' 'zz tsun tsû pah 'pau, *things of the highest price are pearls and the eight precious stones.*

Obs. The final expletives are usually appended to the predicate.
words are good.

seh wó' 'hau kú', *your*

380. In very many sentences, the predicate is a transitive verb with an object, which in its simplest form is a substantive, monosyllabic or consisting of a group.

tsú' 'hau zz' dzieu' 'zz tseu tsí' gióng niun, *charity consists in giving to the poor.*

í veh nung pan' zz' 't'í, *he cannot transact business.*

, 'yeu dóng dién kú' niun yau' k'íuh íen' ú lau ng t'sz', *those who are rich eat birds' nests and sharks' fins.*

381. Great variety is introduced into sentences, without the addition of separate clauses, by applying qualifying words and groups to the parts just enumerated. Extension by the apposition of words, alike or contrasted in meaning, and in the same parts of speech, is also very common. The subject is extended:—

a. By prefixing an adjective.

sung' niun t'seh sz', *a wise man was born.*

kióng 'k'ú kú' niun tú, *poor men are very many.*

'hau 'lau kú' tók sū niun 'sau, *really good scholars are rare.*

b. By apposition of substantives with or without kú', whether in the relation of species and genus, or subject and attribute.

h'íáng 'au niun kau' hwong k'í' 'tsé, *the country people are gone to announce that there is a famine (or).*

'záng pé' kú' 'hau t'sū' yau' 'kong 'lá 'tsz sun t'ing, *the goodness of their forefathers, you should tell to their descendants.*

c. By a transitive infinitive with its objective case.

k'íuh niu nióh tsun tsung' 'zé kú', *to eat beef is an unquestionable sin.*

d. By the addition of nouns or verbs governed by case particles.

óh 'lí h'íáng' m meh niun, *there is no one at home.*

leh 'lá k'wun' kú' zun kwong 'yeu zuh t'eu tsz
k'í' 'tsé, *at the time of sleeping, thieves came and stole it.*

Obs. The so-called genitive with kú', included under (b) as an instance of apposition. It is the attributive genitive, or possessive case of western grammars. The genitive sense is given by the relative position of the words, and not by the connecting particle kú' often omitted.

e. By prefixing numbers and numeral particles to substantives.

'liáng kú' 'nü niun deu 'tsing 'tsé, *two women have thrown themselves into wells.*

san tsáh miao' sau 'hwé wén 'tsé, *three temples have been burnt to ashes.*

f. By prefixing demonstrative, possessive and other adjective pronouns to substantives.

'zz ná' kú' vong óh veh 'wun tsóh kú', *your house is not safe.*

tí' 'bú' nieu t'só 'liau t'eh 'tsé, *this chain pump is broken.*

koh niun kú' bí' k'í' koh yáng' kú', *each man has his own disposition.*

g. By prefixing adverbs of place or time with the sign of the possessive, or with no intervening particle. It might also be said, that these adverbs are here all treated as substantives.

't'sz dí' kú' 'sz t'sing kú', *the water of this place is clear.*

tong tah kú' niun tiau' bí' kú', *the men of this place are not honest.*

kah pih vong 'tsz 'hú dzáh, *the house next door is on fire.*

seh ké' nung kú' yau íen 'lá zung 'lí, *there is a report of that sort in the city.*

íen 'zé kú' pák sing' veh 'pí 'kú zz kan, *people of the present time are not to be compared to those of antiquity.*

382. Several of these adjuncts may concur in forming a subject.

ngá' kóh sz deu kú' kwé 'kü í' 'zz ih yáng' 'tsé,
the foreign method of dressing the hair is different.

h'iau' zun' 'vú 'mú, kúng kiung' 'tsú
tsóng, niön 'zz ih yáng' kú' 'tau 'lí, *filial regard to parents and*

reverencing ancestors are the same thing.

383. The predicate is extended in a similar manner. It may assume the following forms.

a. Substantive with its adjective.

'zz gí veh 'zz tsung' p'á' niun, *he is not a man of good morals.*

ih nyih tau' yá' tsú' tsung' kiung zz' 't'í, *all day long he does what is lawful and right.*

b. Substantives in apposition, in the relation of species and genus, or subject and attribute, with or without kú'.

í wó' kú' veh 'zz 'zong 'hé wó', *what he speaks is not the dialect of Shánghái.*

pah niöh 'lí k'é kú' 'yeu kwé' hwó, *among the flowers that blossom in the eighth month is the olea fragrans.*

c. Verbs in apposition. Any verbs in English connected by *and*, *to* and *of* are translated by two corresponding verbs in apposition.

'ngú yau' 'tseu zien k'í' tsú', *I wish to go forward and do it.*

'ngú veh 'siáng 'k'au, *I do not think of being examined.*

'ngú veh lé 'táng nóng', *I do not come to beat you.*

d. Verb with an object.

pih niun hung' í 'lá, *men hated him.*

kiáh veh tah ziá lú', *his foot does not tread the path of evil.*

'tsau yá' yúng' kóng, *morning and night, he applies himself to study.*

yün 'lí h'iáng' k'ön' siáng sah, *to take a bird's-eye view of a battle* (is construed as a noun).

e. Verbs, nouns or adverbs of place and time in construction with or .

túng ká veh 'lá óh 'lí, *the master is not at home.*

pák sing' leh 'lá kwó' m', *the people are hanging (paper) on the tombs.*

f. Adjective pronouns, and numbers with the particles appropriated to the substantives contained in the subject.

niung 'tsz 'yeu ih páh 'liáng, *of silver, there are a hundred taels.*

tí' pó 'ü san' 'zz ngú kú', *this umbrella is mine.*

g. The verb is qualified by the various kinds of adverbs, either preceding it in apposition, or following it with tuh, or lé, as subordinate copula.

kien gien zz' 't'í t'óh 'zz tsú' tuh tsung' kiung kú',
everything is done as propriety requires.

pú sah ih ding' 'h'iau tuh, *the gods will certainly know it.*

h. The cause, manner, instrument, place or time of the action are expressed by nouns preceding the verb.

wong í zong 'zz wong tí' sòng' kú', *yellow dresses are given by the emperor.*

tön sen' 'zz Sú-tseu tsú' kú', *round (silk) fans are made at Sú-cheú.*

niun kú' kú' van dzén 'zz zun dau' dzó t'sah kú',
men's sins are all watched and noted by the spiritual powers.

niun dzén 'zz ih kú' 'tsú tsóng zén 'au lé, *men are all descended from one ancestor.*

'ngú 'au pén' tseu' 'tsen lé kú', *I will return in the afternoon.*

tí' bí 'zz nieu lí kú', *the ground is ploughed by oxen.*

dzóng 'siau tau' dú' 'zz yá niáng tsau' yung', *from childhood till they are grown they are watched over by their parents.*

Obs. The number of prepositions omitted in examples similar to these is very great. Few of them are so essential that they may not be rejected. The remarkable conciseness of written and spoken Chinese is due very much to the omission of prepositions in the manner here illustrated. For that conciseness, there is however in many cases full compensation, in the wordiness or richness, whichever term be preferred, of the groups.

j. The same circumstances of cause manner, etc. are also expressed with case particles attached to the noun.

Tsáng 'kü niun tau' Sú-tseu k'í' 'tsé, *the Master of Arts named Cháng, is gone to Sú-cheú.*

tí' kú' p'au' ká' 'tsz t'í' Wú 'dau dé tsú' kú', *this cannon-carriage is made for Wú the Taú-tái.*

k. Adjective with a qualifying adverb.

'zz ná' p'iau lieu kú' niun t'uk tú, *you wandering people are too many.*

'táng kwén sz yau' sók sin' ding' tong', *lawsuits should be quickly decided.*

384. The predicate is further enlarged by a combination of the above forms of arrangement, by simple apposition as coordinates, or according to the laws of position already detailed.

sáng weh yau' tsú' tau' yá', *work must be done till evening.*
'ngú pák fí' t'eh tsz 'h'ü tú 'seu kiáh, *I do have gone through a great deal of labour to no purpose.*

'tú dóng dién veh 'h'iau tuh bá' t'eh tsz
'kí t'sien 'kí man' kú' niun ká, *gaming has ruined I do not know how many thousands and myriads of men.*

'ngú (subj.) k'ön' kien' í t'seh lé, *I saw him come out.*

385. The copula by a little extension of the meaning of the terms, may be considered as embracing the emphatic adverbs, and the verb forms for affirmation and negation. In conformity with this, the substantive verb is constantly used in the sense of *yes*, and with the negative particle (), *no*. The adverbs of emphasis precede the copula.

sing tsun tsung' lé tuh ngáng', *his heart is certainly hard.*
ih ding' 'zz lau zeh, *he is certainly trustworthy.*
'tsóng 'zz hwó deu hwó 'nau, *it is surely false.*
zóh nyih lé kú' dzieu' 'zz 'ngú, *he who came yesterday was I myself.*

Obs. The verb *to have* 'yeu (with its opposite m meh) describes existence, as in French the verb *avoir*. The adverbs of emphasis precede it, as they do the other substantive verb; e.g.
ih 'tíen m meh sá, or m sá', *there is nothing the matter;* tí' kú' 'tau 'lí zeh zé' 'yeu,
there certainly is this doctrine.

386. When there is a negative particle, the adverb of emphasis precedes it.

ih 'ngan veh ní sing, *not at all incredulous*.
 í ping' veh 'zz yau' p'ien' 'táng ná', *he surely does not attempt to deceive you*.
 zû' móh 'tau veh zung fah t'sing, *the trees have still not yet opened their buds*.

Obs. When the necessity is denied, the negative precedes the adverb expressivity; e.g. veh pih yau' k'i', *you are not obliged to go*.

387. There are several verbs, not having a full transitive power, that are often to be taken as little more than an extension of the copula. They are such as, kiau', tsú', wé, tsoh.

tí' kú' veh kiau' kúng 'dau, *that is not (or cannot be called) just* (or veh kúng 'dau), (or veh sön' kúng 'dau, *cannot be considered as just*).

'ngú tsú' yúng' niun, *I am a servant*.

meu 'fan wé dú' zz' 't'í, *rebellion is a great matter*.

'nü niun veh 'hau tsok 'tsû tsáng, *women should not be rulers*.

Obs. The equivalents of these words, in languages having forms of declension, usually take the nominative case after them.

388. The correlative pronouns and sometimes adjectives, are placed like the emphatic adverbs before the copula, the substantives they represent being the subject.

niun t'óh 'zz wáh ih kú', *the men are all honest*.
 og zz' 't'í ih t'sih dzén yau' hwah t'eh kú', *bad actions are all to be abandoned*.
 zz' móh tú' 'yeu yúng' deu, *great is the use of the written character*.

389. The most remarkable use of the copula is in the potential verb groups, where tuh and veh stand between two verbs; e.g. 'táng veh yung, *fighting he does not conquer*; wó' tuh t'seh, *speaking can express it*; 'tseu tuk 'tsén, *walking you can turn back*.

Obs. i. In colloquial use, these words mean *he cannot conquer, it can be described in words, he can turn back*. If viewed alone as separate sentences, the first verb is the subject, and the second the predicate. So when the last word in these groups is an adjective, it may be regarded as predicate to the verb which stands first. This is particularly obvious where the potential force of tuh and veh

are wanting, t'é pan veh tú, *there is no great difference*; 'siá tuh k'wá', *he writes fast*. Where the potential force exists in these phrases; e.g. t'sz veh 'h'íáng, *it cannot be sounded* (of a flute); 'zû veh dzuh, *it cannot be set upright*; 'ke veh tsung', *it cannot be corrected*; though the relation of subject and predicate is less manifest, it is perhaps the best explanation.

Obs. ii. When adjectives occupy both the first and last places, there is no potential force, and the second adjective becomes comparative kau tuh tú, *it is much higher*.

Obs. iii. Wherever the potential force is wanting, lé is used convertibly with tuh; i.e. 'siá lé k'wá', *he writes fast*. Of the two is most used by the educated.

390. The subject and predicate are still further lengthened by expletives. meh belongs to the former, and , , , kú', 'lá, 'lí, 'tsé to the latter.

Obs. Educated natives used these words much less frequently than the common people, except when they modify the verb in time, or as in the case of , give a conditional sense. The predicate if an adjective has time given to it by these particles, just as if it were a verb.

Section 7. Subordinate Sentences.

391. Sentences illustrative of verbs of knowing, saying and wishing, etc. taking the initiatory particle *that* in English, usually follow the proposition or verb they explain.

pih kú' t'ing kien' nong' k'wén dé' tók sū niun, *I have merely heard that you treat with generosity literary men.*

í wó' veh nung lé, *he said he could not come.*

'ngú' 'h'iau tuh í nan ku' nyih kiáh, *I know that he lived on with difficulty.*

'ngú veh siáng sing' tí' tsáh zén tsiáng yau' 'fan t'eh, *I do not believe this boat is going to overturn.*

Obs. i. The clause introduced with *that* is often placed first. kwén 'fú m meh niung 'tsz 'zz niun niun 'h'iau tuh kú', *that the mandarins have no money is known by every one*; yau' tsing' zung wó' 'lá, *he said that he wished to go into the city*. The educated usually place the verb wó' first.

Obs. ii. In Latin the construction of the explanatory clause, is that of the accusative and infinitive.

392. Clauses expressing the object of an act, usually follow the sentence that contain the act.

'ling í tau' hoh dong tók sū, *take him to school, that he may learn to read.*

't'sing ú zong' pá' tsan, *invite Buddhist priests to perform a service.*

kiau' wó' kong lé wó' 'siau tsau', *call a painter to draw a likeness.*

'kong h'íáng yah k'ïön' 'zz nóng' kóng song tsú'
 'pun vun', *read the sacred edict (country regulations), to induce the
 reading, agricultural, artisan, mid mercantile classes to perform their
 duties.*

Obs. In English, the subordinate clause is introduced often by the final *that*, as the previous examples are by the explanatory *that*.

393. The final *that* or *to* is often expressed by the auxiliary verbs yau', and kau'.

wáng k'ïön' 'zû k'ïön' kau' í hoh 'hau, *use all kinds of
 exhortations to make him improve.*

kwan 'tiau 'lá 'lóng 'lí yau' í kiau kú', *shut birds in
 cages that they may sing.*

Obs. In examples such as those of the present, and the previous article, the clauses may be inverted.
 yau' tsoh ng lau t'seh k'í' tung 'lá káng só' lí, *in order to catch fish,
 he goes out to stay in the watch-hut.* lau must be appended to the clause expressing the object of the action.

394. The final *that* being often omitted, or expressed by verbs, the way is open to form one sentence out of the two component clauses, so as to improve the general rhythmical effect. This is done in such common sentences as the following.

sóng' 'lá nóng k'ön', *I present it to you to look at.*

'kóng 'lá ná' t'ing, *I speak that you may hear.*

wó' peh ná' t'ing, *ib.*

peh van' í k'íuh, *give him rice to eat.*

tsun tsáh 'k'í lé k'ön', *deliberate upon it and see.*

Obs. These examples differ from those of those of the next article, only in being obviously pronounced as one sentence.

395. The clause expressing the object of the verb is often a single verb repeated or not. (In Latin, often the supine).

só' 'tíen meh zz' 'lá 'ngú k'íuh k'íuh, *give me something
 to eat.*

yau' tau' tíen' 'lí k'í' 'má, *go to the shop and buy it.*

396. The clause containing the action frequently consists of a substantive, or substantive group, with any of the auxiliary verbs of causing, or

instrumentality, and the verb of motion , or concluding the clause.

kau' hah 'tsz lé pá' 'teu, *call a blind man to worship the north star.*

tan í zong lé long', *take the clothes and hang them out to dry.*
nó záh hwé tsiáng lé seh pih, *bring lime to white-wash the wall.*

tan 'mó lé gí tau' 'hé t'an k'í', *bring a horse and ride to the sea shore.*

tan tsóng lé kau zung, *bring tsóng wood bark to make ropes.*
tan ká biau yau 'sz, *bring a cocoa-nut shell to lade water.*

Obs. The object of any transitive verb may be made to precede its verb by prefixing some one of these auxiliary verbs and appending lé k'í'.

397. Substantive groups of many words are inserted between the instrumental verb, and the verb of motion.

tan heh t'ien 'tí 'au kú' zz' 't'í lé 'kong kieu'
ming báh, *he takes the affairs of the whole world and explains them clearly.*

tan kok ká niun ká kú' sing' lau ming deu
'siá 'lá niun ting t'sáh long', *take the names and surnames of every householder and write them in the register.*

398. A relative clause precedes its word as an adjective, and is connected with it by the particle kú'.

tsú' kwan' 'lá kú' sáng weh veh k'iu' lih kú', *work to which one is accustomed does not fatigue.*

háng fong bien' kú' niun ká 'tsz sun yau' tú 'tsé, *he who gives alms will have many descendants.*

wé k'wun' 'lá kú' dzung deu 'yeu sz' 'ng lók kú',
of besieged cities there are five or six.

Obs. The relative or adjective clause standing thus in apposition with a noun, may be considered as forming with it the subject of the sentence, i.e. the *logical* subject as distinguished from the *grammatical*, which consists of the substantive only.

399. Circumstances of cause, manner, instrumentality, etc. precede in the same way, the words to which they belong.

wong tí' sǒng' kú, ling mau lau 'mong bau
'tsóng yau' k'ön' 'dzóng kú', *peacock's feathers and embroidered
tunics presented by the emperor are sure to be highly valued.*

'tsú tsóng dzén 'au lé kú' p'á' deu, veh 'hau 'ké
wén', *customs delivered down by ancestors should not be changed.*

sung' niun hien niun 'kong kú' 'dau 'lí mǒh
fí san kong 'ú dzáng, *the doctrine taught by sages and learned men is
all on the three relations and five constant virtues.*

san long' dzien 'ngan t'seh kú' 'sz, t'sing kú', *water
that comes from mountain springs is clear.*

záh deu 'zau 'lá kú' vong 'tsz kien lau kú', *houses
built of stone are strong.*

Obs. Many such sentences admit of the clauses being inverted. Thus, may also
be read, niun veh 'h'iau tuh t'ien ding' 'lá kú' sú' mǎh, *man does not know the times decreed by
heaven.*

400. There are some auxiliary verbs, and preposition forms employed to
introduce the subject, which then appears in the form of a subordinate
sentence.

wó' tau' 'sí kú' 'í heu' kú' zz' 't'í nan 'kong, *in
reference to what happens after death, it is difficult discussion.*

'zau tau' fah dú' 'dzé 'zz veh nung kú', *as to getting
rich, I cannot.*

'kong tau' tung kí 'zû kong san veh kien'
tuh zeh ké' nung 'zau hwó', *but as to ascending the throne, and taking
his seat on the rivers and mountains, it is not likely he will be so
fortunate.*

Obs. These words are not indispensable to the introduction of a subject as a subordinate clause;
e.g. tú' 'zz dú' kú', *as to size it is large.*

401. Similar to these is the construction of the verb forms prefixed to
interrogative pronouns which thereby become relatives.

zûe bien' 'á 'lí ih yáng' zz' 't'í, yau' tsú t'só kú',
whatever thing it be, he will do it wrong.

veh lun' sá kwén 'tsóng yau' tuh 'hwé kú', *mandarins
of all offices whatsoever will take bribes.*

veh kü 'kí hó' ping tseh, 'tsóng wé' tsén' bá',
however many soldiers there be, we are sure to conquer.

402. Subordinate clauses expressive of time and place, are placed before the principal clauses.

dzû' 'lá sá' tí' fong, veh 'k'ung wó, *he is unwilling to say where he lives.*

t'sing ming tsih k'í' 'kí zz, wong lih long' 'yeu, *the time at which the Tsing-ming solar period occurs, is recorded in the calendar.*

tau' ming tsau 'ngú í' tau' í han' deu k'í', *on the next day I went to him again.*

403. The subject consisting of a verb and substantive, often takes the form of a subordinate introductory clause.

té' bih niun yau' yung' 'lí mau', *in treating others, a man should be polite.*

dzun sing yau' dzun tuh 'hau, *in keeping the heart, a man should keep it well.*

404. Many subordinate circumstantial clauses are introduced by verbs and precede the principal proposition.

loh dú' 'ü kú' zun kwong k'í' 'tsé, *while it was raining heavily he went.*

tsau' tsz 'ngú kú' 'siáng deu, yau' wén' dzau dé' 'tsé, *according to my idea, the dynasty needs to be changed. (or, will be, &c.,).*

tsau' tsz 'kú sung' wong kú' wó' deu ih sing ih tuh, *according to the words of the ancient king, "one in heart and one in virtue."*

tók tsz t'sih nien sū lau 'kau tsz sieu' zé, *having studied seven years, he took his degree of Bachelor.*

h'iau tsz sū k'é lé lau tók tsz 'liáng tsáng 'tsé, *having opened the book, he read two sections.*

tuh sung' tsz tá wé lau meh kiáh 'sí 'lá tsén' dzáng long', *after gaining many victories, he died at last on the field of battle.*

Obs. i. Sometimes the verb of the subordinate clause is when preceded by the negative particle, put at the end; e.g.

ping ting veh sön', 'vú kwén 'sí 'yeu ng seh kün, *without*

counting the common soldiers, fifty military mandarins died.

Obs. ii. Circumstantial subordinate propositions often come between the subject and predicate,
t'én kwén 'í kiung 'zeu tsz sing' Tsáng kú' niung 'tsz dzieu' nó
sing' 'Lí kú' fong' 'lá kan lau 'lí, *the avaricious mandarin having received money from Mr. Cháng,*
will take Mr. Li and put him in prison; 'hau niun tsú' tsz tsiáng' kwén
'tsóng veh hah sah ih kú' niun, *the good man on becoming a general, will not kill a single man*
without reason.

405. Many subordinate clauses are causal, and are connected with the principal sentence by the particle *lau*, or they are inserted in the principal clause with *yung wé'* to introduce them.

tsú' zz' 't'í veh giun 'kiun lau veh zung kóng 'tsé,
not being diligent in performing his duty, he did not succeed.

ká tong' bá' wén tsz lau tsú' tsz giong niun 'tsé, *he*
wasted all his property and became poor.

'táng song tsz niun lau tá' tsz ká 'tsé, *for beating and*
wounding a man, he was condemned to wear the cangue.

í zong gwán' 'lá záh deu long sé' wén 'tsé, *the*
clothes from being beaten on stones are torn to pieces.

tsóng' tóh m 'né ú lau vóg dók 'tsé, *the viceroy having*
no alternative, poisoned himself.

, 'zong sz t'sén tsz í lau kák t'eh tsz kwén 'tsé, *his*
superior having reported him as culpable, he was discharged.

veh yau' yung wé' zz' 't'í tú lau' veh zing' sing, *do*
not on the ground of having so much to do, pay no attention.

Obs. Conjunctions may be prefixed to the introductory clause.
yung wé' san dé' zién deu tí kú' tí' kú' ming zz' veh 'k'ó tsé' dí, *because three generations ago this*
name was used, it could not be employed again.

406. Conditional introductory clauses are formed by means of particles, or they are understood to be conditional from their position, or from the nature of the sentence.

a. Examples of conditional clauses without particles.

veh kiau' h'iün' kú' ní 'tsz í 'tsóng yau' zeh 'au
lieu, if you do not teach your son, he will certainly fall to the lowest
grade of character.

veh tung kiun niön yau' 'zeu wong tí' kú' má
yön' lau sah t'eh, *if he does not take gold and commit suicide, he must*
suffer the emperor's displeasure and be put to death.

b. Examples with *meh*, at the end of the conditional clause.

ká 'lí gióng meh veh yau' yön' hung' yá niáng
veh fah dzé, *if you belong to a poor family, you should not be
discontented that your parents are not rich.*

fah dzé fah fáh meh veh yau' té' man' t'eh
 zz loh yün' kú' niun, *if you grow rich, do not treat superciliously those
 who are unfortunate.*

ní 'tsz wó' veh lé meh, pó veh tuh yau' í wé' wó', *if their son cannot speak, they wish much that he should be able.*

yau' tsú' 'hau kwén

meh, tseh yau' nían deu 'tóng, zeh deu 'tóng, pih deu 'tóng, 'zau t'seh
tú hau' 'zén zz' 't'í, *if you want to be a good magistrate, you have only
to move your thoughts, tongue and pen, and you can do much good.*

c. Examples of the conditional clause as a case supposed, introduced by conditional conjunctions.

zák sz' 'k'au kú' sieu' zé yau' í k'í' h'íáng sz', *if he has taken his Bachelor's degree, they wish him to go to the examination for that of Master.*

zák sz' veh kau hiung' dók sũ, t'sien
fong pák kí' p'ien' í tau' hoh dong k'í', *if he is unwilling to learn to
read, they use a thousand arts to trick him into going to school.*

záh zén veh t'ing 'hau seh wó' pih ding' bá' ká
dong' 't'san, *if you are unwilling to listen to good advice, you will
certainly ruin your family and lose your property.*

't'ong 'yeu hwun song 'h'í k'iung', yung ké
't'sing í k'iuk 'tsieu, *if there be marriages, funerals and rejoicing days,*
you ought to invite them to a feast.

d. Examples of the conditional clause as a fact introduced by *kí' zén*,
or *meh*.

kí' zén mong' 'ü loh, veh yau' 'zá íen' nyih deu, *if you long for rain, still you should not murmur at sun-shine.*

kí' zén m meh veh yau' zóh nyih wó' 'yeu, *there being none, you need not have said yesterday that there was any.*

kí' zén yau' meh tsé' kí' 'má meh 'tsé, *since you want it, go again and buy it.*

e. Examples of conditional clauses introduced into the midst of the principal clause.

tan' 'zz niáng 'tsz sê zén t'sóng
ming veh 'hau peh í pan' ngá' deu kú' zz' vú', *but your wife, although she be clever, you should not allow to act in matters beyond her sphere.*

Obs. Several illustrations have occurred in the preceding pages of the fact that the laws of position often render particles superfluous. Thus, in adverbial phrases of succession, *and*, *by*, etc. are omitted in ih kú' ih kú' *one by one*; ih nyih dú' ih nyih, *greater and greater every day*. So, prepositions are usually omitted in subordinate clauses of cause, manner, agent, etc. because they precede their subject and are readily understood. The omission of the conjunction, for the same reason does not affect conditional clauses (a).

407. If the verb and adjective groups with , , are rightly considered as originally forming independent propositions, including in themselves a subject and its predicate, they must be regarded in many instances as subordinate clauses.

a. One of these groups may form an adjective clause, or a predicate to a subject.

tsú' veh lé kú' zz' 't'í tú, *things that cannot be done are many.*

'lí 't'í 'hau tuh giuh, *the system of observances is excellent.*

b. A group may form the explanatory clause to the verb of a preceding sentence.

veh 'hau wó' lóng' veh lé, *you must not say that you cannot do it.*

408. There are some fragmentary clauses placed at the end of a proposition that need especial notice.

a. pá' *to end, or then there is no more to be said.*

'siau dóng dién wén' tsz meh dzieu' bá' 'tsé, *as to the small cash, you have but to change them, that is all.*

sun p'ien veh tá' dzieu' bá', *if you have none, that is enough.*

hien' 'dzé wó' ming báh dzieu' 'zz 'tsé, you have now made it all clear, and that is enough.

veh 'k'ung meh bá' 'tsé, if you will not, there is an end of it.

b. Several adverbial clauses used with adverbs of similarity.

wong tí' zû dóng 'vú 'mú ih pén, the emperor is just like one's parents.

*h'iúng dí' t'eh 'ngú ih yáng', my brother is just as I am.
hah ziang' 'ngú nung, like me.*

c. Some words with the negative.

, 'k'ú 'nau veh k'én, intolerably wretched.

lú' long' lan' lé veh k'én, the road is exceedingly dirty.

d. After substantives needing to be spoken of in the dual number 'liáng kú', or liáng kú' zz' are appended; the former is applied to living agents, and the latter to *characters* as representatives of abstract nouns.

ngú 'ní dí' h'iung 'liáng kú' veh 'hau tsáng lun', we are brothers and ought not to quarrel.

*'zén lau oh 'liáng kú' zz' 'pun lé té' mien' kú',
virtue and vice are originally opposite terms.*

e. Prepositions of motion take after the nouns they govern, the fragments 'liáng, ih dau, separately or together.

'ngú t'eh nóng' t'seh ngá' 'liáng nyih lau tsé' lé, you and I will go out for two days and return.

*í t'eh 'ngú ih dau k'ien 'liáng tsáh nieu k'wun'
'lá 'sz 'lí, he and I together led two oxen to lie down in the water (or
)*

Obs. These are perhaps fragments of propositions, of which only the predicate remains.

Section 8. Coordinate Sentences.

409. In further illustration of the connection of groups and propositions, it may be observed, that coordinate sentences often occur in juxtaposition

without any particle.

- a. There may be several subjects to one predicate.

vun 'vú puh kwén, h'íáng sun 'zz sū' t'ók t'seh lé
gieu 'ü, *the civil and military mandarins, the gentry and common
people are all come out to pray for rain.*

ön' t'sah sz', pú' tsung' sz', 'fú dé, kok 'sáng
'yeu kú', *a judge, treasurer and lieutenant-governor belong to each
province.*

- b. There may be several predicates to one subject, or several explanatory clauses to one proposition.

tú 't'sing páng 'yeu veh 'mien long' yúng'
zíen zé fí' zz' seh nyih, *if you invite friends much, you will not avoid
wasting money and expending property.*

fóng 'sz 'liáng kú' zz', dzz ú meh 'sz, lóng k'í'
meh fóng, *in the phrase wind and water, the pond represents the water,
and the winding path (dragon vapour) the wind.*

Súng kong dí toh 'seu 'au
'yeu dzien yung 'heu yung tsú' yung yeu' yung tsóng yung ih 'fú 'lí 'ng
yung, *the general at Súng-kiáng has under him, the front, hind, left,
right and central divisions, in all five for the whole prefecture.*

410. The connective *lau* is very frequently introduced between groups; and the constituents of any group of coordinate words may be broken up into separate subjects, or predicates or objects by the insertion of this particle.

vun mú' tseu wé tsóng' kú' zú' móh lau tsók
kú' lí pó, *round the grave are planted trees, and a hurdle hedge is
erected.*

ih ká 'lí h'íáng 'yeu yá lau niáng lau
'siau nön lau t'sá nön lau au deu, *in one family there are the father and
mother, children, men and women servants.*

tsz yön' yau' 'kwén kú' ih
yön' 'lí kú' zau báh 'van fah lau lau zz zóng' lau nien' sz kú' zz' t'í',
*the city magistrate presides over the revenue, crimes, lawsuits and
inquests of his district.*

kwan súe' lau ping ting lau sá' 'zz 'tau dé
'kwén 'lá kú', *the customs and army matters are superintended by the
Intendent of Circuit.*

Obs. It has been shewn in section 7, that lau also frequently terminates causal subordinate sentences.

411. When there are two coordinate ideas to be expressed connectedly, as with *both—and—*, and are employed.

í' 'zz dzáng, í' 'zz k'weh, *it is both long and broad.*
'á yau' ká dzáng, 'á yau' ká k'weh, *you must make it
both longer and broader.*

Obs. i. Even as an initiatory particle is expressed by . dzieu' 'zz sáng í' tsing 'á veh yau' hwah t'eh kúng fú, *even if trade is slack, you must not waste time.*

Obs. ii. is also used when no sentence precedes, as in ngá' kóh 'mí 'á 'yeu 'vá, *is there rice in foreign countries?*

Obs. iii. When the clauses are negative, the negative particle is inserted after the conjunction, 'á veh wé' k'é 'k'eu, 'á veh wé' 'dóng sun, *he can neither speak nor move.*

412. When two objects are compared, they stand as coordinate clauses with the verb 'pí between them, and the attribute of comparison at the end.

sáng 'kú 'tsz veh 'pí zóh 'kú 'tsz díen kú', *unripe
fruit cannot be compared to ripe fruit in sweetness.*
tsú' sáng í' veh 'pí nian' sū kú' 'hau, *to engage in
trade is not so good as studying books.*
nóng' 'pí tsz 'ngú nien 'kí dú', *you are older than I.*

Obs. i. í' is sometimes prefixed to the attribute; e.g. í 'pi ngú' í' hau, *he is still better than I.*

Obs. ii. í' with the negative is thus seen to have the force of a separative particle, while in the examples of the preceding article it is clearly connective (*both—and—*) in one case, and separative in the other (*neither—nor—*).

413. Propositions introduced by the adversative particles *only, but, yet*, etc. (v. [Art. 310](#)), form another class of coordinate sentences.

'siau 'dau 'lí sung' niun híen niun
veh sih wé tan' 'zz bing dzáng niun zén yau' 'h'iau tuh kú', *small
matters are not attended to by the wise and learned, but ordinary
people must know them.*

'hau niun ké tong t'sing 'giun kú' 'tau yau' yön
k'é í, *you ought to attach yourself to good men, but on the contrary
you avoid them.*

yá niáng kú' kwén zé' veh 'k'ó 'í dzáng
ön 'lá ká 'lí 'k'óng bong 'hú sau, *your parents coffins must not be long
retained in the house, lest a fire should break out.*

414. Illative and causal sentences form another class of coordinate sentences.

kú' 't'sz m meh t'seh deu kú' nyih 'tsz, *therefore there
is no day of escape.*

pén' kú' sun 't'í san kú' zz
zun tsing 'lá 'sz 'lí 'sú 'í kwá' veh tuh 'yeu 'tíen veh zz' 'zé, *his body
was up to the waist in water for 6 hours, and therefore it is not to be
wondered at that he feels a little uncomfortable.*

415. In causal sentences, the causal conjunctions are used, or the word for “cause” at the end of the sentence; sometimes both are employed.

veh nung tuk sung', ping ting veh 'hau ku' yön kú',
he cannot conquer, because the soldiers are bad.

vun 'lí wé' sá' veh 'hau yung wé' dók sū 'sau, *why
is his style of writing bad? because he has read but little.*

Obs. The answer to a question requiring “because,” is very often ended with lau, which then takes that sense. But this is an irregular colloquialism, since lau as connective conjunction ought to be followed by another clause.
zén t'sz wá' t'eh 'tsé fóng dú' lau, *the boat was broken to pieces, the wind being high.*

416. Conjunctions forming pairs of sentences, have already been partially illustrated in Arts, 322–330. It may in addition be observed, that short phrases sometimes take the place of conjunctions.

a. Thus for, *not only—even—*, we have veh yau' wó' and
dzieu' zz in the supplemental sentence.

veh yau'
,
,
wó' yá niáng kiau' h'iün' í veh 'tsén, veh yau' wó' t'sing 'yeu k'ion'
ká' í veh 'tsén, dzieu' 'zz pú sah 'á 'tíen hwó' í veh 'tsén, *do not say
that his parents were unable to influence him by instruction, and his*

friends by exhortations; supernatural beings even could not reclaim him by their warnings.

b. English initiatory phrases, such as *I suppose that*, *probably*, are represented by , tseh p'ó', 'k'ung p'ó', or by 'ngú 'siáng, *it appears to me that*.

'táng sah tsz yióng 'tiau t'sz 'tiau tók
kûn 'tsz 'tú 'lá 'k'úng p'ó' yau' k'í' sah, *if the male bird were killed,*
the female from being solitary, would probably die of grief.

Obs. i. *On the one side—on the other side*—are represented by the common substantive for *side* with—ih *one* in both clauses. The preposition and article are rejected as unnecessary, cf. [Art. 328](#).

Obs. ii. Although is sometimes expressed by a verb, in the sense *let it be that*,
 bing nong' tí' niók 'lá zien mien', í 'á veh 'k'ung wé sing 'ké nían', *granting you that hell*
were in sights, he would still be unwilling to repent. sũe nong', 'tan bing nong', are also
 used in the same sense.

417. Comparisons are introduced by several compounds of zû, and some fragmentary sentences, as , 'pí fong, *for example*.

ping' 'hau 'yá niáng zeh fun k'á' weh
yeu zû zing zák tsz 'pau pé' ih pén, *when they recover from sickness,*
the parents are delighted just as if they had found a treasure.

zū dōng zū' mōh kú kun, *it is like the root of a tree.*

'kiá zû kien' tsz 'tsáng pé' veh yau' hweh liáh í,
*suppose that you see your elders, you must not treat them
 disrespectfully.*

tsóng, niun tsú' zz' ká kú' 'tsú tsóng, 'yeu tí' kú' 'tau 'lí 'vá, *if for example you take the ancestors of others, and recognize them as your own, could this be right?*

Section 9. On Antithesis.

418. Of antithesis there are three kinds; (a) that of words in the formation of groups; (b) that which gives an interrogative force by the juxtaposition of positive and negative clauses, (c) That of sentences contrasted in sound or sense.

Obs. The first of these should be placed with the sections on groups, but the other kinds (b) and (c) are naturally discussed after propositions, and therefore they are all placed together here.

419. Substantives that are opposite in sense, when they combine into groups are treated just as other coordinate words.

tseu' ya', *day and night*.
san 'hé, *land (hills) and sea*.

420. Adjectives and verbs when they form antithetic groups often lose their proper character as attributives, and become substantives.

'tsan kau lieu dú, *beheading, strangling and banishment*.
sûn dién 'k'ú han, *sour, sweet, bitter, salt*.
tí' diau lú' tú 'sau 'yön 'giun, *how far is it by this road?*

421. Antithesis in the formation of interrogatives has an important grammatical use. Thus, a verb with or without its object expressed successively in the affirmative and negative form, asks a question.

k'í kú' veh zung k'í' kú', *have you gone or not?*

Obs. The subject is prefixed and is not repeated; e.g. tsau t'ah zz' 'tsz ná'
'siáng zé' kú' veh zé' kú', *do you think the misuse of written-paper is a sin or not?*

422. Among instances of the antithesis of propositions, many consist simply of a tautology of ideas by introducing opposite qualities or actions with the negative particle.

, 'yeu dóng dién dzieu' tsú', *m meh dóng dién*
veh yau' tsú', *if you have money do it, if not you need not do it*.
koh niun yau' sing bing veh yau' tsú' yön' hung',
every one ought to be contented, and not dissatisfied.

Obs. This figure of speech would in many of its examples be intolerable in English, but the brevity and rhythmical structure of Chinese sentences make it agreeable. It gives an air of simplicity to conversation, and allows the speaker time to prepare his next idea, without forcing his thinking faculties to a too rapid productiveness. The same advantage is obtained by the use of a long group, where in English, one or two of its constituent words would be sufficient.

423. Of antithetical propositions some of the most ornamental are those that consist of the words of a common group lengthened into clauses.

'záng 'yeu t'íen 'lí, 'hau heh niun zing, *it coincides with*
the law of heaven on one hand, and the natural sentiments of mankind
on the other.

síen 'yeu fóng 'heu 'yeu 'ü, *wind comes first and rain after*.

, míng í ká wé' kieu' niun, pun' í ká wé' sah niun,
*a good physician can cure men, while an incompetent one can kill
them.*

'yön 'sz kieu' veh tuh 'giun 'hú, *distant water cannot save
from a fire that is near.*

zíen sz' vú zeu kiun sz' vú yön, *if in a former life you
were the enemy of no one, you will have no enemy in this.*

tóng 'ní 'tú tsing' sí 'ní 'tú t'seh, *enter by the left ear and
disappear by the right.*

t'é veh 'tsén deu peh veh 'tsén 'nau, *he cannot be
brought to change for the better.*

Obs. This is a principal means of decorating the vun tsáng, the literary compositions on which the educated class expend so much time and effort. With the classics before them, and ten or twenty thousand words at command, there is a wide field for variety. In addition to the care required in the general structure of the essay, that all its parts may be conformed to rule, the separate sentences must be framed in obedience to the laws of grouping and antithesis, so that there may be no infringement of the order of the words, as they stand in the ancient books.

424. Another class of antithetical propositions consists of such as correspond word for word with each other in structure and relative meaning. Many proverbs are of this kind.

tsá' 'yeu 'tsû yön 'yeu deu, *to every debt there is a creditor,
and to every enemy a foe.*

Obs. Prémare has a large collection of such proverbs, to which the reader is referred.

Section 10. On Rhythmus.

425. Chinese sentences spoken or written are symmetrically arranged. The same rhythmus that pleases and aids the reader, in such works as the Historical Novels exists in a less elaborated form in the colloquial medium of daily life. In the style of a fluent Chinese speaker, clauses of four words each, will be found to occur more frequently than of any other length. This measure may be called for the Shánghái dialect the Double Iambus, the accent being on the last syllable of a group of two words; e.g.

ze-tsú-niun-ká 'yeu song zz' yau' 't'sing hú-
zong'-'tau-'zz tsú'-tsú' kúng-tuh, *rich men at a funeral will invite Buddhist
and Taúist priests, to perform a religious service.* Here there are 3 groups of
four.

Obs. i. Chinese colloquial syntax might be divided into two heads, treating of grammatical (or syntactical), and prosodial (or rhythmical) relations respectively. Under the former might be placed, government, propositions, and a part of the system of groups. Under the latter would be properly found repetition, antithesis, and the remainder of the system of grouping. The latter might be called prosody, but that word is more properly applied to the laws of poetry. In the present work it has been thought more convenient to mix these divisions under a common heading.

Obs. ii. Words in the fourth tone are just as important in the groups as other words, unless they happen to be enclitics; e.g. *tá' kwan tsih móh*, *the general object*. The last two words have no less emphasis of voice than the former, and *móh* is distinctly accented.

Obs. iii. In dialects where the accent is on the penultimate syllable, the four-word measure might be called a Double Trochee. These classical names of feet are not strictly applicable, descriptive as they are of the long and short syllables of poetry. They are here used for want of better terms, just as is done by writers on English versification, to express the pronunciation of words as accented or not accented. At Súng-kiáng the fú city to which Shánghái belongs, the accent changes to the penultimate.

Obs. iv. In *read*, and *tók 'k'í lé k'ön'*, *read it and try*, the accent is on the first and last words of both these sentences, the middle words being enclitic.

426. The three-word foot may be called, if it consists of two unaccented, and one accented syllable, an *anapaest*; e.g. *pih lih dzuh*, *exactly straight*; *k'au k'au 'kú*, *to beat a drum*; *liáng wé' wong*, *a king in Mencius*. If the accent is on the first word of three, the foot might be called a *dactyl*; e.g. *tsú' meh 'tsé*, *do it*. Instances of such dactyls are rare and are chiefly confined to sentences containing enclitics, which reject the accent. In some cases, the accent is on the middle word as in *fong' yau' 'tsz*, *to fly a kite*; 'tsz as an enclitic throws back the accent on the preceding word.

427. The number two occurs in innumerable combination, which may be called iambs; i.e. *'zong san*, *ascend a hill*.

428. Common recognized groups numbering more than four coordinate words are not very numerous. They may be readily resolved into smaller feet of two, three, or four words, by attending to the *cæsura*, which will be always found in them; e.g. *'h'í nú' é gü' é' ú' yóh*, *joy, anger, grief, fear, love, hatred, desire*. That mark of division occurs after the fourth word for groups of seven, and after the second for groups of five; others may be divided into groups of two or three words each.

Obs. i. The *cæsura* of seven word and five word versification in good poetry, and in street ballads, is generally after the fourth and second words, but variations occur according to the taste of the writer, and the exigencies of composition.

Obs. ii. By marking the *cæsura*, groups of four words may be divided into smaller divisions of two, and those of three words into parts of one and two words. Thus the secondary accent heard in the first part of the group, and referred to in the sections on tones may be accounted for, as properly belonging to the smaller groups, or single word, to which it is affixed.

Obs. iii. The accent here spoken of is, that which is understood by the word in English and French, viz. that emphasis which is predominantly on the penultimate or antepenultimate in the former, and on the last syllable in the latter language. It is one simply of position, and is so far independent of tones on the one hand, and of the quantity of vowels as long or short, on the other. English versification is entirely regulated by the accent of position, and not by the consideration of vowels and syllables being long and short. Thus in the line “our voices keep tune, and our oars keep time,” the quantity of “keep,” and “our” is long, yet they stand as short syllables. Chinese poetry is like that of England in possessing rhymes, and instead of a rhythmus of long and short vowel quantities, such as formed the framework of Greek and Latin versification, it has one of even and uneven tones.

Obs. iv. In some groups of four, the accent is on the first and fourth words; e.g. h'íáng 'au pák sing', *country people*. But it is most frequently on the 2nd and 4th, e.g. fú' kwé' bing dzien', *rich and poor*; k'í' zía kwé tsung', *to abandon vice and reform*. When it passes to the first or third, it is because the word on which it should be is an enclitic or has a weak tone. Cf. [Part 1. section 3.](#) for remarks on the accent of three-word groups.

429. From this analysis it may be concluded, that much of Chinese prose falls spontaneously into groups of two, three and four words, with an accent of position to mark them; enclitics do not usually take the accent and are very often not to be counted as independent members of the groups to which they are attached.

Obs. i. It has been already shown that the tones of a dialect are affected by the rhythmus. This happens for example, in the Amoy dialect particularly in the penultimate, where the second and seventh tones change into the high quick rising, and high quick falling respectively. In Chinese prose compositions, it is usual to end sentences with a word in the first tone, and one of the three other tones alternately. In their versification, words that rhyme have their alphabetical sound, and their tones in harmony. For an account of the use of tones in poetry, see Remusat's grammar.

Obs. ii. The tendency of words as thus illustrated, to agglutinate into groups numerically conditioned, is made the basis of all new sentences, and insensibly regulates the composition of the native speaker. He would be quite as likely to transgress the laws of intergovernment among the parts of speech, as to overlook the rhythmus of his words.

APPENDIX I.

ON THE HIGHER COLLOQUIAL, CALLED VUN 'LI 'T'U BAH,

.

Occasionally in the preceding pages, examples have been introduced, from the style of conversation prevailing among literary men. A common knowledge of the books, and the existence of a universal mandarin

colloquial, have given rise to an enlarged vocabulary of phrases bearing this name. The consideration of their etymological and syntactical peculiarities belong to the grammar of the books and of mandarin, the two sources from whence they are derived.

An example or two will be given. Among the verbs, the auxiliary of destruction t'eh, is replaced by tiau'. sah diau', *to kill*; mih diau' *destroy*. Many new groups are also employed, whose meaning would not be understood by the common people. tung tsóh hwé wong, *the brightness of the candle in its lanthorn*; í kwé 't'sú 't'sú, *his dress and hat look neat*.

In carrying on conversation with the educated, it is necessary to know these phrases when they occur, and it is a great advantage to be able to use them, but in an elementary work like the present, it is enough to say that the path to that knowledge lies in the study of the books, and of the general language. This part of the colloquial medium is common ground to all dialects, where no distinction remains, but that of pronunciation. In many cases, however, phrases not used in the every-day dialect of this district, and which therefore, are considered vun 'lí, are found in the colloquial of other parts of China, much farther removed from mandarin.

APPENDIX II.

ON THE NATIVE TABLES OF INITIALS AND FINALS.

Marshman long ago made a study of these tables, for which he was peculiarly fitted from his knowledge of Sanscrit. On comparing the alphabetic system of that language with the Chinese tables, now to be considered, he at once pronounced them identical in principle. This conclusion is fully confirmed by what Chinese authors say. The explanation in K'áng-hí's Dictionary of "the method of separating a word into its component sounds," (says, "now tabulated rhymes are in the Sanscrit called . "Here we speak of mother characters, the sounds from which all words originate," . "That

which in Sanscrit is called p'í-k'á-lah is here called the division of sounds, which constitutes the foundation of the science of words,”

Remusat long since pointed out that the language meant by the word Fan, is Sanscrit. He says in his *Life of the Grand Lama, Pa-sz-pa*, translated from the Chinese History of the Mongols in Remusat's *Melanges Asiatiques*, Vol. II. 145, “Ce sont les religieux Indiens qui l'ont (the 36 initials) fait connaître á notre empire.” “Nos prêtres chinois ont retenu cet usage qu'ils avaient pris des Indiens.”^[1]

The accompanying table is taken from Bopp's Sanscrit grammar, the characters of the Chinese tables being placed instead of the Sanscrit characters.

Gutturals,	ká,	khá,	gá, ghá,	ngá.
Palatals,	chá,	ch'á,	djá, d'zá,	niá.
Linguals,	ta,	t'á,	dá, dh'á,	ná.
Dental,	tá,	thá,	dá, dhá,	ná.
Labials,	pá,	phá,	bá, bhá,	má.
Semivocals,	já (y)	rá,	lá,	wá (v.)
Sibilants,	sá(s'),	shá(s'),	sá(s),	há.

Marshman possessed a genuine philological spirit, which often appears in the midst of the somewhat extravagant theories in which he frequently indulged. He saw in the present instance, that in the Chinese spoken language, the consonants g, d, b, etc. should each commence a series of words, and this led him to the remark “that a further investigation of the Chinese pronunciation, would probably discover some vestige of this existing at the present day.” Diss, p. 37.

The passage cited in page 43, also ascribes the arrangement of these tables to a Buddhist priest; he improved upon the system of finals invented By Shin-yoh, who wrote one of the *twenty one histories*, viz. that of the northern Sóng dynasty.

It will now be shown that in a great part of central China such a system prevails. Before attempting to sketch the boundaries of that tract of country, a brief statement will be given of what conditions must be fulfilled, in order to identify an existing pronunciation with these relics of the Buddhist industry of former days.

By referring to the table in [page 44](#), it will be seen that there are in all 36 initials including, beside those whose Sanscrit equivalents are now given, f, f', v, w, z, zh, a lower h and y, and the compounds of t and d, with s, z, sh and zh.

The required dialect should have therefore an extensive system of initials, and as the modern tonic Dictionaries of Canton and Cháng-cheú, very accurately represent the dialects of those places, it may be assumed of the Dictionary tables, that they are no less careful in exhibiting the pronunciation of their time.

Among the finals, ng, n and m, terminate words in the three long tones, and the corresponding mutes k, t, p, are recognized as the terminations of words in the short tone, few of them having a vowel ending.

This is very clearly perceptible in the tables of the a Dictionary, which was published many years before that of K'áng-hí, and in those of the Dictionary called *hóng 'wú chung' yün'*. In the latter for example words in the short tone ending in k, are classed under , , . Those in t are found under , , . Those in p are under pron. tsip, etc.

The same careful separation of the finals ng, n and m is also found in these Dictionaries. The modern mandarin sound kien, is found subdivided into the four words kien, kiem, kan, kam; e.g. the classes words in ién under the headings, , , . Mandarin words in óng are found under two heads, kóng and kióng respectively. While the first medial i is thus affected, the other medial u is found as it is in modern mandarin spelling, except that is spelt kwo, and heads a class distinct from another which is ranged under .^[2]

The number of classes into which the finals are divided varies in different Dictionaries. That of the , perhaps the most convenient arrangement, consists of 44, This includes the finals k, t, p, as the same in sound with ng, n, m. The difference between these two sets of letters, is supposed to be due only to rapid pronunciation occasioned by the tone. In that work, the finals are as follow:—

1. Kóng , kí , kung , kin , kiün , kwáng , kwei , kwái , kwá , kié , kó , kán , kwán kiem , keú .

2. Káng , kü , kun , kim , king , kwung , kú , kái , kiá ,
k'ïö , kwön , kien , kán , kaú , kieú .

3. Kiaú , kióng , king , tshim , kwun , kiáng , tsz , kiái , ná
, kwó , kiuen , kiem , kam , kiaú .

The remaining principal element of these tables is their arrangement according to tones; which are neither five, seven, nor eight, but always four. Thus, , , are all in the first tone , under the initials t, t', d. So also are all in the first tone , under the initials p, p', b, m.

Among the words registered in the second tone, are many that are in modern Chinese in the third tone. Such are—

being in the second tone, we see the probable reason why it was not chosen for the name of the third tone. The character was preferred, because it exemplified the tone of which it was the name.

The tables thus described are employed, to spell words throughout the Chinese dictionaries from K'áng-hí and the , upwards to the T'áng dynasty and even earlier. There is but one system and one set of tones, the tone is included in the final, or second word in the , Fan t'sih while the first gives the initial, and both are in constant accordance with the tables. The characters and for example are always given in the second tone, but the latter is as a verb also given in the third tone. Different dictionaries choose different words to spell with, but the system is one; e.g. is spelt with dú and 'tsóng, making 'dóng. It is added , it is the same as dóng read in the second tone.

In considering to which system of pronunciation now existing these characteristics best apply, there occur several objections to the modern mandarin.

The mandarin of Nán-king and Yáng-cheú in Kiáng-nan, of Ngán-k'ing in Ngán-hwei, and of Ch'áng-shá in Hú-nan has five tones, viz. , , , , . In the northern parts of Kiáng-nan another system begins. Words in the júh shing become distributed among the other four tones, and this peculiarity extends over the northern provinces including the metropolitan city. The and differ as much from each other, as they both do from the other tones, so that the nomenclature of tones, when first

invented, could not have referred to the Nanking or Peking mandarin, as they are at present. Evidently the literati speaking those dialects have taken their names of tones from the dictionary system, and not vice versâ. Nor have these two modes of pronunciation since the Yuen dynasty any such finals as *m* among the long tones, or *k*, *t*, *p* in the júh shing. Not to insist on the differences in the medial vowel *i*, the want of the initials *g*, *d*, *b*, is another reason for our seeking elsewhere for the prototype of the dictionary system. The western provinces of China are the same in principle as to their pronunciation. Like the mandarin of northern China, they always admit the aspirate after *k*, *t*, *p*, in the , and reject it, except in irregular instances, in all words that are in the southern and eastern provinces in the , , and .

Further, the irregularities of the initial consonants found in the mandarin provinces, are not taken into account in the native tables. Such are the changes of *ki* into *chi* at Peking; *l* into *n*, and *n* into *l* in many dialects; the coalescing of *ki* and *tsi* in others. The aspirates, and some other changes are included in the second table formed to accompany K'áng-hí's dictionary; yet that table is but a modern and incomplete revision of the older system.

If any one desires native tables of the mandarin pronunciation, he must look for them in the and such works, which give them with great accuracy; though of course their authority is not equal to that of the celebrated dictionaries already cited.

For investigating the sounds of Canton and Fúh-kien, every facility is afforded by the careful dictionaries of those systems of pronunciation that have been prepared by native authors. The Cháng-cheú dialect with its fifteen initials, and its want of a lower is definitely marked. Although like the Canton pronunciation it contains the finals *m*, *p*, *t*, *k*, admits a medial *i* in words such as , and rejects it in , thus agreeing with the tables in some of their peculiarities, it can only be regarded so far as the tables are concerned, as an isolated, out-lying member of the general system of dialects. The finals, *m*, *t*, *p*, *k*, disappear on the Fúh-kien coast at Hing-hwá.

The Canton dialect possesses very regular tones, none of them being inverted in pitch as in Fúh-kien and Kiáng-sí, and it has among them the lower , or as it is usually called, the sixth tone. In this tone are found

perhaps half of the words, having the dictionary initials, g, d, b, zh, z, some of which are given in page 218. But they are pronounced k, t, p, etc. E.g. 地, 地, 地, 地, 地. These words with many others are in the Canton 地. marked lower 地. In mandarin they are 地.

Nowhere do we find such an accurate general correspondence with the tables, as in the pronunciation of the central parts of China. The tones are such, that the dictionary system is seen at once on examination to apply to them with accuracy. The alphabetical peculiarities of the native tables are found with one or two doubtful exceptions, to be embraced in a tract of country, which will now be roughly indicated.

In the north, the thick series of consonants, g, z, etc. marking the lower series, i.e. in southern China words in tones 5–8, makes its appearance in

Nán T'óng-cheú, a prefecture lying along the northern bank of the Yáng-tsz-kiáng, where it enters the ocean. The transition from d, etc. where the region of the northern mandarin is approached, is marked by the introduction of the aspirate.

Thus, 地' becomes t'í', before it becomes tí'. The two pronunciations are mixed in Chun-kiáng fú 地, There the mandarin system of five tones crosses the river to the south and extends to Nanking. All round Háng-cheú bay, the two correlate series of consonants, and the four-tone system mark the colloquial dialect. Chu-san and Ningpo, Shaú-hing and Hang-cheú, on the south, are at one with Sú-cheú, Ch'áng-cheú and Súng-kiáng, on the north. Perhaps the whole of Cheh-kiáng province has substantially the same spoken medium. Passing the point where the three provinces Cheh-kiáng, Fúh-kien and Kiáng-sí meet, the thick consonants are still found partially prevailing in the two prefectures of the latter province Kwáng-sin and Kien-cháng, lying to the west of the Wú-í hills. But at Fú-cheú, a little farther westward they have entirely disappeared, and are replaced by aspirates. Instead of 地' *earth*, they there say t'í, for 地 *sickness*, p'ing, and so through all words beginning with k, t, p, in the lower series. The same peculiarity marks the Hakka dialect and that of Kiá-ying cheú 地, in the eastern part of Canton province. Nothing can be said in the present notice of the southern parts of Kiáng-sí, but Nán-ch'áng the provincial capital has the aspirates only in the fifth tone where they should properly be, and in the other lower tones has k, t, etc. distinguished from words in the upper series, simply by difference in tone. Immediately north of this city, on both sides of

the Pó-yáng lake, the broad consonants occur again. It might be expected that through Ngan-hwei, a connecting chain of dialects should link the broad pronunciation of this region, including the Potteries , and on the other side of the lake, with the similar system extending over Cheh-kiáng, and a great part of Kiáng-sú. This line exists and extends through Ning-kwóh fú, but it is so narrow that it does not reach the great river on the north, nor the city of Hwei-cheú on the south. The last mentioned place has two dialects within its walls, in one of which two sets of tones exist, the tones of conversation being quite distinct from those of reading. This is independent of the alphabetical differences of the reading and the spoken sounds, which also here appear to reach their maximum. Near this city, the pronunciation varies so fast that three dialects are found in one *hien*. The belt of country across Ngan-hwei, where the lower series of consonants is in use, is bordered on the north by dialects containing the aspirates, that so frequently form the medium of transition to the thin consonants and fewer tones of mandarin.

Beyond the Pô-yáng lake westward, are also found the *g*, *d*, *lb*, initials on the banks of the Tóng t'ing hú, in Hú-nán. Boatmen from the district of , on the south of that celebrated lake, may be readily conversed with by using the thick consonants in all words in the lower series of tones. Round these two lakes, the favourite resort of the Chinese muse, and from the natural beauty of which Lí Tái-puh drew the inspiration of his poetry, the same system of pronunciation with that of Háng-cheú and Sú-cheú, the most polished cities in China, is found to exist. This consideration with the extent of the territory thus delineated, may help to remove any strangeness in the assertion, that the native tables of sounds made in the Liáng dynasty, and copied into K'áng-Hí's dictionary are not at all founded on the modern mandarin pronunciation, but on what is now a provincial system.

In the territory thus delineated, there is not the same uniformity in final that exists in initials. Of the three terminating consonants is the *k* only is developed at Shánghái, and even this is wanting in all the large cities near, including those in the northern part of Cheh-kiáng. *N* is not as a final in the long tones, clearly separated from *NG*, and there is no representation of *m*.

On the other hand *t* and *p*, with their correlates *n* and *m* are found at Fú-cheú fú, in Kiáng-sí but *k* does not appear. At Nán-káng fú, at

the western extremity of the same province, *p* and *m* are distinctly represented, but there is no *k* or *t*, and *ng* is confounded with *n*. *Kien* and *kan* are distinguished at Shánghái, and in these more southerly cities. *Kóng* is separated from *kióng* at Fú-cheú fú.

In dialects farther south, while the initials differ from those of the dictionaries, the consonantal terminations of the short tone are all clearly marked, and are in harmony with the ancient system. Thus we are led to the conclusion, that in regard to initials, the Kiáng-nan and Cheh-kiáng pronunciation agrees best with the written pronunciations as given in the native tables. But in reference to finals, Kiáng-sí and the southern provinces best represent them. Kiáng-sí appears to be the province that contains within its limits, the greatest number of the peculiarities in question.

In K'áng-hí's second table, the distinction between the finals, *m* and *n* is neglected; e.g. is spelt not *sam* but *san*. Further all words in the short tone are spelt with vowel finals; *k*, *t*, *p*, not being recognized, except as secondary forms retained out of respect to the old system. They are cut in small circles. No change is made in the tones or initials, except that words in are many of them placed in the aspirate column.

The spelling of many words in *w* with an initial *v*, and of others in *y* with *NG* or *N*, will be found explained in Part I. section IV. With respect to the two columns headed *CH* and *TSH*, which are the same to our ears, it may be observed, that at Sú-cheú words under the former heading are pronounced *CH*, and under the latter *TS*, indicating a natural separation between the two columns.

The resumé of this appendix, and of what was said on the Dictionary tables in the sections on the sounds at the commencement of the present work may be stated thus:—

1. The peculiarities of the tabulated initials, finals and tones are all explained, by bringing the different dialects of the three Kiáng provinces together; the aspirated *f* column being the only prominent anomaly that has not been illustrated.

2. The peculiarities of mandarin pronunciation, such as the interchange of some initial consonants, the prefixing of *NG* to many words in the upper tones (v. [page 51](#)), the coalescing of the upper and lower tones in all cases except that of the *p'ing shung*, the uniform occurrence of the aspirate after *k*, *t*, *p*, in the *hiá' p'ing*, and the loss of the short tone in the northern

provinces, are all unnoticed in the old tables, while they are all recognized in modern works on sounds.

It may be remarked generally on the two systems that the tendency of words in mandarin is to coalesce in sound, while in the other system, the tendency is to more minute subdivision. The mandarin is the most widely spread, embracing two thirds of the 18 provinces.

It appears plain from the Korean and Japanese transcriptions of Chinese sounds made contemporaneous with the dictionaries, that the north of China must then have had the same dialect as that now prevailing in the kiang provinces.

A. The circumflex tones in [page 9](#), may be further divided. The bend of the voice may be upward or downward. Perhaps the Sháng-hái fifth tone may be best described, as sometimes a low slow falling circumflex, (l.s.f.c.) and at other times as a low even tone (l.s.e.). There would with this extension of the natural tones mentioned in section 2. be seven starting from the same key, viz. The even, rising, falling, rising circumflex, falling circumflex, rising short, and falling short tones. If subdivided into an upper and lower key, they become fourteen, and if considered according to their time as quick or slow, we have in all (the short tones not admitting of this subdivision) 24 natural tones.

B. If Roman numerals i to viii be used for the eight tones, the changes of tone occurring in combination in our dialect may be represented as follows:—In the groups v—i, and viii—i, i become v. In ii—ii; ii—vi, vi—vi and vi—ii, the last tone often becomes i, or else former becomes iii or vii. In iii—iii, iii—vii, the former becomes ii. In v—v, iv—v, v does not change, but in other cases v becomes i.

[1] In Julien's "Methode pour transcrire les noms Sanscrits dans les livres Chinois," p. 2; he states that Remusat first published this discovery in 1811.

[2] For a general view of the changes undergone in vowels since the tables of sounds were made, for example changes from u to ú, o to ia, chi to ch, sí to sz, ui to ei, ü to ú, é to í, á to ó, ó to á, etc. v. Grammar of Mandarin Dialect, ch. 8, § 5.

Transcriber's Notes.

- Footnotes have been numbered and placed at the end of the associated grammar article.
- Obvious typographical errors have been corrected in this text.
- Hyphenation variations are unchanged.
- The cover/title page image has been retouched to remove flaws.
- This book contains some rarely used forms of Chinese characters. Any eReader should contain as full a set of fonts as possible.
- The original book is available at the HathiTrust Digital Library.

Page [5](#): The "Fifteen vowels" and "Thirty three consonants" were one table. They are split here for ease of layout.

*** END OF THE PROJECT GUTENBERG EBOOK A GRAMMAR OF
COLLOQUIAL CHINESE, AS EXHIBITED IN THE SHANGHAI
DIALECT ***

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